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# Everything You Need To Know About MAT309

— *EYNTKA* Series —

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**0.0.1 Reading the numbering** A star marks *bonus material*: a chapter, section or subsection that belongs in the book but that nothing later depends on. Skipping it costs nothing downstream. The star sits on the number, as in §2.7★; in divisions written before this convention it sits at the front of the title instead, as in \**Uniform Spaces*. The two mean the same thing.

## Abstract

In these notes, we will cover the language of first-order and predicate logic, define a new mathematical object known as a *model* and use it to define notions of truth, satisfiability, implication, and so forth. Then, we shall take a moment to detour from looking at “truth” and instead look at “deducibility” or “provability”. This will culminate in linking “truth” and “provable” via the soundness and completeness theorems. After having covered the notion of provability, we shall start looking into computability (which, if you think about it, is the natural way in which we think), and show that something being “computable” is equivalent to it being “recursive”, thus giving us a model for

working with computable processes. Finally, we build up towards showing our two main theorems: Gödel's Incompleteness Theorem I and II. Essentially, if we have a system of axioms strong enough to be used to prove and work with the natural numbers, then there is no way of finding and proving all possible theorems, and there is no way of showing the system of axioms has a contradiction; these both are the foundation of the crisis in mathematics spearheaded by Gödel.

## Some Philosophical Musings

Fundamentally, in any reality you might imagine (social, mental, physical), there is always an ontology and an epistemology, and no matter what we give symbols and sounds meaning through language to represent these, arguably even embody these. In math, the objects are usually called the *structures* or the *models*. We want to study as close as possible what is the “first principle” of objects. This naturally leads to many classical philosophical problems: what's the relation between epistemology and ontology, is there a first principle, what's the relation between logos and language, where do we derive meaning, is it possible to make analytic a-priori claims, and so forth.

Very often the same underlying object has many different interpretations depending on its purpose, and it is suited for some purposes over other purposes. For example, let's take  $\mathbb{R}^n$ . Then

1. It is a vector-space: given an understanding of what a function is, we have that  $+$  and  $\mathbb{R} \cdot \mathbb{R}^n$  is well-defined. In the right number of dimensions, it is even an algebra (usually in  $n = 1, 2, 4, 8$  we can impose an interesting multiplication structure)
2. It is a topological space: Given an understanding of subsets and closure, we have topology on it. There are many topologies that can even be put on it (from the obvious three, to many other possible one using weak topologies, order topologies, and so forth)
3. It is a metric space. There is a notion of distance. We can go further and say it's a normed and an inner product space, telling us that there is a notion of size and “orientation”
4. It is a complete space: we may freely use sequences without the worry of their limits not existing. Though it's not important, the space also complete through in terms of nets.
5. It is a smooth manifold: It is (trivially) locally Euclidean. The notion of differentiability is well-defined.
6. It is a flat space: The gaussian curvature is always 0, which also shows that  $\mathbb{R}^n$  does not exhibit the geometric properties of hyperbolic space or positively curved space.
7. It is classical Euclidean space (by eliminating the notion of an origin)
8. it is *not* a discrete space: results requiring the lack of continuity might not work on it
9. it is *not* a complex manifold if  $n$  is odd.
10. it is an ordered space (in the classical ordering) if  $n = 1$

Thus, it is important to understand what epistemological structure we are considering on the object. As in the examples above, that often involves literally upgrading the object to have that extra information (ex. a vector-space, a topological space), however this is in my mind because we are trying

to make all objects part of the universal epistemology of set theory, and so we would distinguish objects by adding structures to them. In a more “early mathematics” or pre-set theory of looking at it, we can think of  $\mathbb{R}^n$  having all these properties (or not having for the false cases), and using the right epistemology to distinguish them.

Overall, we see how important it is to look at the epistemology. Importantly, we need a clear way of communicating and expressing this epistemology, i.e. a *language*. We usually will say *formal language*, to mean an invented set of symbols to which we prescribe some meaning. We will take some time in the first chapter to describe the formal language we will use in these notes

(symbolic logic is when you block up concepts and look at the relations between them; Aristotle did this and tried to get rid of some Ethos and Pathos from reasoning)

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# *Languages*

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Throughout history, the study of reason (and epistemology more generally, so source of meaning, mode of reasoning, nature of truth etc.) took on many forms. We will say that what we are studying when studying reason and all that surrounds reason is that we are studying *logos*. Though all of the following were happening at the same time, we can roughly say that there is a chronology in what philosophers believed to be the focus for the study of logos is:

1. Ontological focus: This started with the works of Thales (if not in a yet-to-be-found work in South Asia) who believed that “natural phenomena have natural causes”, moving away from mythos based arguments and onto logos based arguments. These philosophers of the western tradition (essentially up to Descartes) focused on finding the meaning, the truth, the nature of valid reasoning (i.e. the logos) in the “real” world (what I would call the physical world, or physical cosmology). The word *ontology* comes from *ontos* meaning “that which is”, “that has happened”, or “that is true”, and *logos* meaning “account of”, or “understanding of”. Key here is that language was used to express *opinions* of the world.
2. epistemological focus: We can say that this period starting with Descartes and continuing on to Frege was the start of the questioning of the validity of knowledge-claims. We may ask questions like “how do we know” or “how are we sure this is knowledge”. This leads to philosophical movements like *rationalism*, and more interestingly and sophisticatedly *idealism*. Some examples of the consequence of this way of thinking is to have *methods* (ex. the scientific method) be used as the authority of knowledge, or to believe that the source of knowledge. While this project was a good project, the problem was that it is actually quite difficult to find a model for which to analyze such a system of knowledge. It turned out that the emphasis had to be on language, that is language naturally inherits.
3. Linguistic Focus: Starting with Frege’s PhD thesis in the 1870s, it has become evident that language is deeply tied to any metaphysic – one simply does not have a non-metaphysical language. Hence, much more care must be taken in the words we use and pin down: their exact

meaning, the exact way to put them together, the exact scope of them, the exact rule to on how to use them, and so forth. The professor of this course also points out how logos no longer has any grounding in an authority, be it divine or other. There is also now a correlation with the loss of authority in Europe in general at this time, with the *crisis of meaning* and *nihilism* movements spreading.

## 1.1 First Order Formal Languages

The language we shall create will be made to ask about the validity or “truth” of structures that we may put on sets. For example, for groups we will want that  $a * (b * c) = (a * b) * c$  for all elements, or for an ordered field we will want one of  $x > 0$  or  $x < 0$  or  $x = 0$ , but not any two at once, or that there is a special constant symbol 1 such that  $1 * c = c$ . First order language is designed to talk about such statements. The key features of the first order language will be:

1. constant: symbols that represent some value
2. relation: something that relates two symbols (the verbs if you will)
3. functions: something that can combine symbols together (the nouns or compound nouns if you will)
4. variables: symbols that can be substituted with some elements of your “set”

We have yet to bring sets in our discussion: this will happen once we will find *models* on that will let us use our language.

**Definition 1.1.1: First-Order Language**

The set  $\mathcal{L}$  is an infinite collection of distinct symbols, no one of which is properly contained in another, separated into the following categories:

1. Parenthesis: which are the symbols  $(, )$
2. Connectives: which are the symbols  $\vee, \neg$  (possibly also  $\wedge$ ). In some textbooks, the connectives are  $\neg$  and  $\rightarrow$ .
3. Quantifier: which is the symbol  $\forall$  (possibly also  $\exists$ )
4. Equality symbol:  $=^a$
5. **Variables**, one for each natural number  $n$ :  $v_0, v_1, v_2, \dots, v_n, \dots$ . The set of variable symbols will be denoted  $Vars$
6. **Constant symbols**: Some set of zero or more symbols
7. **Function symbols**: For each positive integer  $n$ , some set of zero or more  $n$ -ary *function symbols*
8. **Relation symbols**: For each positive integer  $n$ , some set of zero or more  $n$ -ary *relation symbols*

where the word *function* and *relation* are currently simply formal add-ons to the word symbol. Symbols of the form 1-5 are called *logical symbols* while 6-8 are called *non-logical symbols*, and are dependent on the particular language.

<sup>a</sup>Some authors do not include this symbol as a mandatory symbol and leave it as an optional 2-ary function.

Note that we should treat this set as simply a collection of symbols: they do not yet have any *semantic* meaning, they are simply *syntax*. The arity of a function or relation is the number of variables it “takes in”. So,  $+$  has 2-arity,  $(\_)^{-1}$  has 1-arity,  $0$  as 0-arity, and so forth. In terms of relation, an  $n$ -ary relation can be thought of as a  $n$ -tuple. Note too the importance of “no one of which is properly contained in another”. Thinking of symbols as something that is written down, let’s say for example we had a constant symbol  $\triangle$  and a constant symbol  $\triangle\triangle$ , i.e. the second symbol contains the first. Then when we later construct sentences, the sentence  $\triangle\triangle$  has the vagueness of being interpretable as either two  $\triangle$  or one  $\triangle\triangle$ .

We will often collect the constant, functions, and relations (the constant, nouns, and verbs if you will), like so:

$$\{c_1, c_2, \dots, c_n, f_1^{a_1}, f_2^{a_2}, \dots, f_m^{a_m}, R_1^{b_1}, R_2^{b_2}, \dots, R_l^{b_l}\}$$

where the superscript of the functions and relations represent the arity of them. Note that any collection of constants, functions, or relations, can also be infinite, and we may still denote them like in the above equation, however it is less common. The above set can be thought of as a generating set for the language, as we will shortly see. Overall, to specify a language, we will need to specify the constant, function, and relation symbols that are used.

**Example 1.1.2: Formal Languages**

When defining a language, we will take the symbols that are always part of any first-order language as implicitly part of the set so as to not clutter.

1. The language  $\mathcal{L}$  with no extra non-logical symbols is a language. Sometimes, this language is called the language of equality since  $=$  is the only relationship.
2. Let's say we want to work with groups and are trying to come up with the language to work with. We know a group is a set along with a binary operation  $+$  and a special symbol  $0$  that interacts with  $+$  in a consistent way for all groups. Thus, one language for groups can be

$$\mathcal{L}_G \quad \text{is} \quad \{0, +\}$$

Another possible one would be to write it in terms of multiplication:

$$\mathcal{L}_G \quad \text{is} \quad \{1, \cdot\}$$

It is also reasonable to think of inverting an element to be a 1-ary operation

$$\mathcal{L}_G \quad \text{is} \quad \{1, (\_)^{-1}, \cdot\}$$

Thus, we can have much flexibility when choosing a language.

3. As an example of a language with a constant, functions, and a relation: an ordered field can have the language of:

$$\mathcal{L}_F \quad \text{is} \quad \{0, 1, (\_)^{-1}, +, \cdot, <\}$$

4. We might think that the language of set theory has many possible symbols (ex.  $\subseteq, \in, \notin, \subsetneq$ , etc.). Though this is a choice, we can also define the language of set theory as simply being:

$$\mathcal{L}_{\text{Set}} \quad \text{is} \quad \{\in\}$$

In other words, the fundamental idea in the language of set theory is that we have containment, which is a binary relation. The use of this simplification of language will be in many proofs being easier if we only have this one [extra] symbol (similar to how computer-architecture is simpler with a reduced instruction set computer, RISC).

5. The language of field  $\mathcal{L}_F$  consists of constant symbols  $0, 1$  and 2 binary functions symbols, usually denoted  $+$  and  $\cdot$ .
6. The language of linear order  $\mathcal{L}_O$  consists of a binary relation symbol  $<$

Now that for a collection of symbols of a language, we will want to make meaningful combinations of the symbols. For example, if our language is  $\{0, +, <\}$  (remember to think of this set as the generating set) and we use it to describe the order theory of the naturals (i.e. giving in that meaning), then we can reasonably say that:

$$(v_1 + 0) < v_1$$

is a sentence with meaning<sup>1</sup>, while

$$= \exists((+++ + 0)(\forall = v_{42}$$

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<sup>1</sup>and is has the truth value of false, more on how to gain meaning from a sentence in ref:HERE

is a meaningless combination of symbols. Thus, we will work towards finding subsets of  $P(\mathcal{L})$  that have “meaning”. Like with language, we will split the most common types of subsets with meanings in categories (similarly to how in english we have nouns, verbs, adjectives, and so forth). For math, the two most common categories that have meanings are *terms* and *formulas*. We define each and give examples:

**Definition 1.1.3: Term**

Let  $\mathcal{L}$  be a language. Then a *term* of  $\mathcal{L}$  is a nonempty finite string  $t$  of symbols from  $\mathcal{L}$  such that that either:

1.  $t$  is a variable
2.  $t$  is a constant symbol
3.  $t \equiv ft_1t_2\dots t_n$  where  $f$  is any  $n$ -ary function symbol of  $\mathcal{L}$  and each of the  $t_i$  is a term of  $\mathcal{L}$ .

The symbol  $\equiv$  is a meta-linguistic symbol that means that the symbol on the left hand side represents the same thing as on the right hand side. It is *not* part of the language  $\mathcal{L}$ . Note too that the 3rd point in the above definition is recursive, that is we can recursively define terms by inputting them into functions. Given countably many variable, constant symbols, and function symbols, there are only countably many terms in a language.

**Example 1.1.4: Terms In Language**

1. Let  $\mathcal{L} = \{\bar{0}, \bar{1}, \dots, \bar{n}, \dots, +, \cdot\}$  where we have one constant symbol for each natural number, and two binary function symbols. In the following set of examples, anything with a bar over it is a term, and we are using the polish notation (which will make it easier to consistently identify a unique reading of a sentence, especially once the symbols are not familiar to us):

- (a)  $\bar{714}$
- (b)  $+\bar{32}$
- (c)  $\cdot + \bar{123}$

Note that  $\bar{123}$  would not be a term of  $\mathcal{L}$ , but a sequence of three terms.

Note that any term with no function symbols will be of length 1.

Overall, terms in a language  $\mathcal{L}$  play the role of nouns. We will now show how to combine nouns with the “statements”:

**Definition 1.1.5: Formulas**

Let  $\mathcal{L}$  be a first-order language. Then a *formula* of  $\mathcal{L}$  is a nonempty finite string  $\varphi$  of symbols from  $\mathcal{L}$  such that either *atomic formulas*:

1.  $\varphi ::= t_1 t_2$  where  $t_1$  and  $t_2$  are terms of  $\mathcal{L}$
2.  $\varphi ::= R t_1 t_2 \dots t_n$  where  $R$  is an  $n$ -ary relation symbol of  $\mathcal{L}$  and  $t_1, t_2, \dots, t_n$  are all terms of  $\mathcal{L}$

and *recursive formulas*, or just simply *formulas*:

1.  $\varphi ::= (\neg \alpha)$  where  $\alpha$  is a formula of  $\mathcal{L}$
2.  $\varphi ::= (\alpha \vee \beta)$  where  $\alpha$  and  $\beta$  are formulas of  $\mathcal{L}$
3.  $\varphi ::= (\forall v)(\alpha)$  where  $v$  is a variable and  $\alpha$  is a formula of  $\mathcal{L}$

If our language contains different default connectives (like  $\wedge$  or  $\rightarrow$ ), then we would have these as valid formulas, written with parentheses as for  $\vee$  (i.e.  $\varphi ::= (\alpha \wedge \beta)$  or  $\varphi ::= (\alpha \rightarrow \beta)$ ).

Be sure to realise that in the formula  $(\forall v)(\alpha)$ , the symbol  $v$  is a *variable*, not a term or another formula. If we have if for a formula  $\varphi$ , we have the string  $(\forall v)(\alpha)$  as a substring, then we will say that the *scope* of the quantifier  $\forall$  is  $\alpha$ . Any symbol within  $\alpha$  will then be said to lie within the scope of the quantifier  $\forall$ . Note that a formula  $\varphi$  may have many quantifiers, some lying within each other's scope. Note that terms are *not* formulas. Going by the linguistic analogy, terms are the nouns and the formulas are the statements. Nouns' do not have truth values, but formulas will have truth values once we get to it.

**Example 1.1.6: Formula's In A Language**

1. In the language of set theory, we may state  $\exists x \forall y \neg y \in x$  (If interpreted semantically, this can be thought of stating the existence of the empty set). Can you think of what the following formula's semantic meaning is:
  - (a)  $\forall x \exists y \forall z z \in y \leftrightarrow \exists w \in x \in (z \in w)$
  - (b)  $\forall x \exists y \forall z z \in \forall w \in x (z \in w)$
  - (c)  $\neg x x \notin x$
  - (d)  $\forall x \forall y \exists z \forall w (w \in z \leftrightarrow w \in x \wedge w \in y)$
2. Let  $\mathcal{L}_G = \{\in, *, e\}$  be the language of group. This language is an extension of the language of set. Then we may state the axioms of sets as the following terms:
  - (a)  $\forall a \forall b a * b \in G$
  - (b)  $\forall a \forall b \forall c a * (b * c) = (a * b) * c$
  - (c)  $\exists a \forall b a * b = b$
  - (d)  $\forall a \exists b a * b = e$

These are the basic terms we will use. I will stress a final time to not yet interpret any symbol:  $\forall$

does not yet mean “for all”,  $\vee$  does not yet mean “or”. Assigning meaning to symbols will come in due time. Now that we have defined formula, we can see that we may choose different connectives which will imply the usual connectives we know. For example, if your connectives were  $\neg$  and  $\rightarrow$  (which we morally can think of as “not” and “if... then”), then we would get that

$$\begin{aligned}(\alpha \wedge \beta) &::= (\neg(\alpha \rightarrow (\neg\beta))) \\(\alpha \vee \beta) &::= ((\neg\alpha) \rightarrow \beta) \\(\alpha \leftrightarrow \beta) &::= ((\alpha \rightarrow \beta) \wedge (\beta \rightarrow \alpha))\end{aligned}$$

In our case, our connectives are  $\neg$  and  $\vee$ , thus we have:

$$\begin{aligned}(\alpha \wedge \beta) &::= (\neg((\neg\alpha) \vee (\neg\beta))) \\(\alpha \rightarrow \beta) &::= ((\neg\alpha) \vee \beta) \\(\alpha \leftrightarrow \beta) &::= ((\alpha \rightarrow \beta) \wedge (\beta \rightarrow \alpha)) \\(\exists x)(\alpha) &::= (\neg(\forall x)(\neg\alpha))\end{aligned}$$

Later, we will see that the semantic meaning will correspond what is currently only a syntactic shortcut. To make life easier there are a couple of conventions we will adopt:

1. we will usually use infix notation instead of polish notation
2. we will occasionally change the size of parenthesis, or the symbol for the parenthesis, to make strings more legible
3. we will sometimes add or drop parenthesis to make strings more legible
4. If we write  $\neg\alpha \rightarrow \beta$ , we mean  $((\neg\alpha) \rightarrow \beta)$ , that is  $\neg$  takes precedence
5. If we have  $\alpha \rightarrow \beta \rightarrow \gamma$ , we will group towards the right, meaning that could be read as  $(\alpha \rightarrow (\beta \rightarrow \gamma))$

For future purposes we define the following concept

**Definition 1.1.7: Subformulas**

Let  $\mathcal{L}$  be a language and  $\varphi$  a formula. Then the set of *subformulas* of  $\varphi$ , denoted  $S(\varphi)$  is defined as follows:

1. If  $\varphi$  is an atomic formula, then  $S(\varphi) = \{\varphi\}$
2. if  $\varphi$  is  $(\neg\alpha)$ , then  $S(\varphi) = S(\alpha) \cup \{(\neg\alpha)\}$
3. If  $\varphi$  is  $(\alpha \rightarrow \beta)$  then  $S(\varphi) = S(\alpha) \cup S(\beta) \cup \{(\alpha \rightarrow \beta)\}$

It should be mentioned that any formula can only have one way of being read: there cannot be confusion with whether a symbol is a symbol or not:

**Theorem 1.1.8: Unique Readability**

Let  $\mathcal{L}$  be a language and let  $\alpha$  be a formula of  $\mathcal{L}$ . Then  $\alpha$  can only satisfy one of the conditions of the definition of a formula, and it satisfies that condition in only one way: the terms, formulas and variable that the condition names are uniquely determined by  $\alpha$ . A string that satisfies none of the conditions is not a formula.

**Proof:**

Terms and formulas are finite strings of symbols. A string  $\sigma$  is an *initial segment* of a string  $\tau$  if  $\tau$  is  $\sigma$  followed by a possibly empty string. Of two initial segments of the same string, the shorter is an initial segment of the longer.

*Step 1: terms.* Give a variable or a constant symbol the weight 1, and an  $n$ -ary function symbol the weight  $1 - n$ . The weight  $w(\sigma)$  of a string  $\sigma$  is the sum of the weights of its symbols. We show by induction on terms (definition 1.1.3) that every term  $t$  has  $w(t) = 1$ , and that every nonempty initial segment of  $t$  other than  $t$  has weight at most 0. If  $t$  is a variable or a constant symbol, then  $w(t) = 1$  and  $t$  has no nonempty initial segment other than itself. Let  $t \equiv ft_1 \cdots t_n$  with  $f$  an  $n$ -ary function symbol,  $n \geq 1$ , and terms  $t_1, \dots, t_n$  for which the claim holds. Then  $w(t) = (1 - n) + n = 1$ . A nonempty initial segment  $\sigma \neq t$  of  $t$  is either the one-symbol string  $f$ , of weight  $1 - n \leq 0$ , or  $ft_1 \cdots t_{i-1}\rho$  with  $1 \leq i \leq n$  and  $\rho$  a nonempty initial segment of  $t_i$ , where  $\rho \neq t_n$  if  $i = n$ . In the second case  $w(\sigma) = i - n + w(\rho)$ . If  $\rho$  is  $t_i$ , then  $i < n$  and  $w(\sigma) = i - n + 1 \leq 0$ . Otherwise  $w(\rho) \leq 0$  by the induction hypothesis, and  $w(\sigma) \leq i - n \leq 0$ .

Since a term is nonempty and has weight 1, no initial segment of a term  $t$  other than  $t$  is a term. It follows by induction on  $n$  that if the strings  $t_1 \cdots t_n \sigma$  and  $u_1 \cdots u_n \tau$  coincide, where the  $t_i$  and  $u_i$  are terms, then  $t_i$  is  $u_i$  for every  $i$  and  $\sigma$  is  $\tau$ . For  $n \geq 1$ ,  $t_1$  and  $u_1$  are initial segments of the same string, so one is an initial segment of the other, and therefore they coincide. Deleting them leaves two coinciding strings with  $n - 1$  leading terms each.

*Step 2: no initial segment of a formula other than the formula itself is a formula.* We write  $\star$  for  $\vee$  or for any further binary connective taken as primitive in the remark closing definition 1.1.5. By definition 1.1.5, a formula begins with  $=$ , with a relation symbol, or with  $($ , and these are distinct symbols. The second symbol of  $(\neg\beta)$  is  $\neg$ , that of  $(\forall v)(\beta)$  is  $\forall$ , and that of  $(\beta \star \gamma)$  is the first symbol of  $\beta$ , which is  $=$ , a relation symbol or  $($ . These are again distinct symbols, so the first two symbols of a formula decide whether it is an equation, a relation formula, a negation, a quantified formula, or a binary formula  $(\beta \star \gamma)$ .

Let  $\varphi$  and  $\psi$  be formulas with  $\psi$  an initial segment of  $\varphi$ . We show  $\psi$  is  $\varphi$  by strong induction on the length of  $\varphi$ . The formula  $\psi$  shares the first symbol of  $\varphi$ , and if that symbol is  $($  then  $\psi$  has length at least 2 and shares the second symbol as well, so  $\varphi$  and  $\psi$  are of the same kind.

- If  $\varphi \equiv t_1 t_2$ , then  $\psi \equiv u_1 u_2$  for terms  $u_1, u_2$ , and the string  $t_1 t_2$  is  $u_1 u_2 \sigma$  for some string  $\sigma$ . By Step 1,  $u_1$  is  $t_1$ ,  $u_2$  is  $t_2$  and  $\sigma$  is empty, so  $\psi$  is  $\varphi$ . If  $\varphi \equiv R t_1 \cdots t_n$  with  $R$  an  $n$ -ary relation symbol, then  $\psi \equiv R u_1 \cdots u_n$  and the string  $t_1 \cdots t_n$  is  $u_1 \cdots u_n \sigma$ , so Step 1 again gives  $u_i = t_i$  for every  $i$  and  $\sigma$  empty.

- If  $\varphi \equiv (\neg\alpha)$ , then  $\psi \equiv (\neg\beta)$  for a formula  $\beta$ , and  $\beta$  is an initial segment of  $\alpha$ . An initial segment is no longer than the string it begins, so  $\beta$  is no longer than  $\alpha$ , and therefore  $\beta$  is an initial segment of  $\alpha$ . As  $\alpha$  is shorter than  $\varphi$ , the induction hypothesis gives that  $\beta$  is  $\alpha$ , and  $\psi$  is  $\varphi$ .
- If  $\varphi \equiv (\alpha \star \beta)$ , then  $\psi \equiv (\gamma \star' \delta)$  for formulas  $\gamma, \delta$  and a binary connective  $\star'$ . After the leading  $($ , both  $\alpha$  and  $\gamma$  are initial segments of the string  $\alpha \star \beta$ , so one of them is an initial segment of the other, and both are shorter than  $\varphi$ . The induction hypothesis applied to the longer of the two gives that  $\gamma$  is  $\alpha$ . The symbols that follow them then coincide, so  $\star'$  is  $\star$ , and  $\delta$  is an initial segment of  $\beta$ , so  $\delta$  is  $\beta$  as in the previous case.
- If  $\varphi \equiv (\forall v)(\alpha)$ , then  $\psi \equiv (\forall u)(\beta)$  for a variable  $u$  and a formula  $\beta$ . The third symbols give  $u = v$ , so after the common string  $(\forall v)($  the string  $\beta$  is an initial segment of  $\alpha$ ), and  $\beta$  is  $\alpha$  as before.

*Step 3: unique readability.* By definition 1.1.5 a formula is a string satisfying one of its conditions, so a string satisfying none of them is not a formula, and the formula  $\alpha$  satisfies at least one. By the first paragraph of Step 2, the first two symbols of  $\alpha$  decide which kind of condition it satisfies. Within that kind the named parts are determined by  $\alpha$ . If  $\alpha$  is both  $= t_1 t_2$  and  $= u_1 u_2$ , or both  $Rt_1 \cdots t_n$  and  $Ru_1 \cdots u_n$ , then Step 1 gives  $t_i = u_i$  for every  $i$ . If  $\alpha \equiv (\neg\beta)$ , then  $\beta$  is  $\alpha$  with its first two symbols and its last symbol deleted. If  $\alpha$  is both  $(\beta \star \gamma)$  and  $(\beta' \star' \gamma')$ , then  $\beta$  and  $\beta'$  are initial segments of the same string, so one is an initial segment of the other, and Step 2 gives that  $\beta$  is  $\beta'$ . The symbol after  $\beta$  then gives  $\star' = \star$ , so  $\alpha$  satisfies the condition of a single connective, and  $\gamma$  is  $\gamma'$ , both being the rest of  $\alpha$  before its last symbol. If  $\alpha \equiv (\forall v)(\beta)$ , then  $v$  is the third symbol of  $\alpha$  and  $\beta$  is  $\alpha$  with its first five symbols and its last symbol deleted. Hence  $\alpha$  satisfies exactly one condition of definition 1.1.5, in exactly one way, as we sought to show.

For future reference, it is important to think of extensions of language:

**Definition 1.1.9: Language Extension**

Let  $\mathcal{L}$  and  $\mathcal{L}'$  be first order languages. Then  $\mathcal{L}'$  is an *extension* of  $\mathcal{L}$  if  $\mathcal{L} \subseteq \mathcal{L}'$ , that is if every non-logical symbol of  $\mathcal{L}$  is a non-logical symbol of the same kind in  $\mathcal{L}'$ .

As an example, when we defined group with  $\in$ , that language was an extension of  $\mathcal{L}_{\text{Set}}$ .

## 1.2 Sentences

Given a language  $\mathcal{L}$ , we can create formulas. The formulas we are most interested in are those which require no choice, or assignment of value. For example, if I write  $\forall x \, x = y$ , once we define how to give semantic meaning to this formula, we will see that the “value” of the formula depends on the choice of  $y$ . However, if we write  $\forall x \forall y \, x = y$  or  $\forall x \exists y \, x = y$  then  $y$  is no bound to the given logic. A formula with no “free” variables will be called a sentence.

Before continuing to define these concepts more rigorously, we will make a special definition for the language of number theory as it is extremely valuable for future discussions:

**Definition 1.2.1: Number Theory Language**

Let  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  be the language generated by  $\{0, S, +, \cdot, E, <\}$ , where 0 is a constant,  $S$  is a unary function (the “successor function”),  $+$ ,  $\cdot$ , and  $E$  are binary function ( $E$  for exponential) and  $<$  is a binary relation. Then we usually call  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  the language of *number theory*

This language will become important for us later, but for now let’s just use it to demonstrate the idea of a sentence. Take the following two formulas<sup>2</sup>:

$$\neg(\forall x)[(y < x) \vee (y = x)] \quad (1.1)$$

$$(\forall x)(\forall y)[(x < y) \vee (x = y) \vee (x > y)] \quad (1.2)$$

The first sentence reads “not for all  $x$  is  $y$  less than or equal to  $x$ ”, while the second sentence is the trichotomy law of  $<$ . The second formula is true about the collection of natural numbers as we already understand them. The first formula has the problem of  $y$  not being quantities: are we picking particular value of  $y$ , any value of  $y$ , all possible values of  $y$ ? In other words,  $y$  is a *free variable*. We may choose what  $y$  to put into that formula. Think of integration:

$$F(x) = \int_0^x f(t)dt$$

In this case, the value of  $x$  is the free variable because we are free to choose what it is. This makes a formula dependent upon a choice, and hence not holding an inherent truth value. We will give variables that bring in an element of choice into a formula a name:

**Definition 1.2.2: free variable**

Let  $v$  be a variable and  $\varphi$  a formula. We will say that  $v$  is *free* in  $\varphi$  if:

1.  $\varphi$  is an atomic formula and  $v$  occurs in (as a symbol in)  $\varphi$
2.  $\varphi \equiv (\neg\alpha)$  and  $v$  is free in  $\alpha$
3.  $\varphi \equiv (\alpha \vee \beta)$  and  $v$  is free in at least one of  $\alpha$  or  $\beta$
4.  $\varphi \equiv (\forall u)(\alpha)$  and  $v$  is not  $u$  and  $v$  is free in  $\alpha$

**Example 1.2.3: Free Variables**

1. In the formula

$$\forall v_2 \neg(\forall v_3)(v_1 = S(v_2) \vee v_3 = v_2)$$

the variable  $v_1$  is free whereas the variables  $v_2$  and  $v_3$  are not free

2. A more subtle example is the following

$$(\forall v_1 \forall v_2 (v_1 + v_2 = 0)) \vee v_1 = S(0)$$

Notice that  $v_1$  here is free while  $v_2$  is not free; in other words, be weary of parenthesis and the scope of quantifiers in parenthesis.

<sup>2</sup>Notice that we are already abusing notation here

3. An example of a variable being both free and not free, depending on the scope, is  $v_6$  in the following formula:

$$\forall v_0 (= v_1 f_3^1 v_3 \rightarrow (\neg \forall v_3 P_9^1 v_3))$$

#### Definition 1.2.4: Sentence

Let  $\mathcal{L}$  a language. Then a *sentence* in  $\mathcal{L}$  is a formula of  $\mathcal{L}$  that contains no free variables.

#### Example 1.2.5: Sentences

The following uses  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  as a language

1. the formula  $1 + 1 = 2$  is a sentence
2. the formula  $(\forall x)(x + 1 = x)$  is a sentence

As a rule of thumb, if it seems like you can determine if a statement is true or false without any choice then it's a sentence. Intuitively, the first statement is true while the second statement is false. We will explore exactly what is the nature of this in section 1.4.

## 1.3 Structure

It was stressed many times that the symbols in a language do not come with any meaning attached to them. The goal of this section is to show how we attach a particular meaning to the symbols

#### Definition 1.3.1: Structure (Model)

Let  $\mathcal{L}$  be a language. Then an  $\mathcal{L}$ -structure  $\mathfrak{A}$  is a nonempty set  $A$ , called the *universe of  $\mathfrak{A}$*  together with:

1. For each constant symbol  $c$  of  $\mathcal{L}$ , an element  $c^{\mathfrak{A}}$  in  $A$
2. For each  $n$ -ary function symbol  $f$  of  $\mathcal{L}$ , a function  $f^{\mathfrak{A}} : A^n \rightarrow A$
3. For each  $n$ -ary relation symbol  $R$  of  $\mathcal{L}$ , an  $n$ -ary relation  $R^{\mathfrak{A}}$  on  $A$  (i.e. a subset of  $A^n$ )

Often, we write  $|\mathfrak{A}| := A$ .

Note that all functions will be total functions (the entire domain maps to something in the co-domain) unless otherwise specified. Note too that  $c^{\mathfrak{A}}$  need not be the same symbol as  $c$ : for example,  $c$  might be \$ while  $c^{\mathfrak{A}}$  is “Friends”. Often, a structure will be written as an ordered pair, for example:

$$\mathfrak{A} = (A, c_1^{\mathfrak{A}}, c_2^{\mathfrak{A}}, f_1^{\mathfrak{A}}, R_1^{\mathfrak{A}}, R_2^{\mathfrak{A}})$$

Naturally, we will immediately start simplifying notation as long as it's not ambiguous. For example, the standard structure on  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  will be denoted

$$\mathfrak{N} = (\mathbb{N}, 0, S, +, \cdot, E, <)$$

where we have dropped the superscript and take  $\mathbb{N} := \{0, 1, 2, \dots\}$ . In set theory, 0 is usually considered a natural number. Naturally, we can construct different  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$ -structures, for example we can just as well construct a  $(\text{mod } 2)$  structure with the language  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$ , and label this  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$ -structure  $\mathfrak{T}$ .

### Example 1.3.2: Structure

1.  $\Omega = (\mathbb{Q}, <)$  is a structure with the language of linear order on  $\mathbb{Q}$ . Other structures with the language  $<$  maybe be  $(\mathbb{R}, <)$ ,  $(\{0\}, \emptyset, <)$ ,  $((\mathbb{N}, \mathbb{N}), <)$  are other examples, given appropriate definition of  $<$ .
2. Let  $\mathcal{L}_F$  be the language of fields we defined earlier. Then we may certainly make a structure for  $\mathcal{L}_F$  that will be a field, however there is no restriction to make it follows the axioms of a field: we may also map the two field operations to the same function and have a group structure, or really almost any other structures.
3. An important structure that will be useful to us later on is the *Henkin structure* of a language. Let  $\mathcal{L}$  be  $\{0, f, g, R\}$ , with constant symbol  $0$ , unary function symbol  $f$ , binary function symbol  $g$ , and 3-ary relation symbol  $R$ . We now define a  $\mathcal{L}$  structure  $\mathfrak{B}$ : the universe,  $B$ , is the set of all variable-free  $\mathcal{L}$ -terms; the universe contains all terms that do not have a variable. The constant  $0^{\mathfrak{B}}$  is the term  $0$ . The functions  $f^{\mathfrak{B}}$  and  $g^{\mathfrak{B}}$  are defined by concatenation like so:

$$f^{\mathfrak{B}}(t) = ft \quad g^{\mathfrak{B}}(t, s) = gts$$

Note that the function symbols  $f, g$  are indeed variable free, and hence this is a valid function. Finally, we may let the relation  $R^{\mathfrak{B}}$  be anything we want. As a random example:

$$R^{\mathfrak{B}} = \{(r, s, t \in B^3) \mid \text{the number of function symbols in } r \text{ is even}\}$$

This structure on  $\mathcal{L}$  will be important to us when we look at the completeness theorem in chapter ref:HERE.

## 1.4 Truth in a Structure

We now get to assigning truth value's to sentences. We will do so by having an assignment function. There are many assignment functions we will use at varying levels: we will start by having a *variable assignment function* which gives to each variable in  $Vars$  an element of  $A$ . We then build on this by defining a *term assignment function*, which uses the variable assignment function and then also allows us to give to each term of  $\mathcal{L}$  an element of  $A$ . Finally, we will link formulas to an assignment function

### Definition 1.4.1: Variable Assignment Function

Let  $\mathcal{L}$  be a language and  $\mathfrak{A}$  be a  $\mathcal{L}$ -structure. Then a *variable assignment function* into  $\mathfrak{A}$  is a function  $s$  that assigned to each variable an element of the universe  $A$ . So a variable assignment function into  $\mathfrak{A}$  is any function with domain  $Vars$  and codomain  $A$ ,  $s : Vars \rightarrow A$ .

Note variable assignment function need not be injective or surjective.

**Example 1.4.2: Variable Assignment Function**

Take  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  with the standard structure  $\mathfrak{N}$ . Then the function  $s$  mapping  $s(v_i) = i$  is a variable assignment function. Another example would be  $s'$  where

$$s'(v_i) = \text{the smallest prime number that does not divide } i + 1$$

**Definition 1.4.3: Modification Of The Assignment Function**

Let  $s$  be a variable assignment function into  $\mathfrak{A}$ ,  $x$  is a variable, and  $a \in A$ . Then  $s[x|a]$  is the variable assignment function into  $\mathfrak{A}$  defined as:

$$s[x|a](v) = \begin{cases} s(v) & \text{if } v \text{ is a variable other than } x \\ a & \text{if } v \text{ is the variable } x \end{cases}$$

We call the function  $s[x|a]$  an *x-modification of the assignment function s*.

In other words, an *x-modification* of an assignment function overrides what  $s(x)$  is; it force it to map to  $a$ . Next, we will extend the variable assignment function  $s$  to a term assignment function  $\bar{s}$ . This function will assign an element of the universe to each term of the language  $\mathcal{L}$ , and is “auto-generated” based off of the variable-assignment function and the functions of a given  $\mathcal{L}$ -structure:

**Definition 1.4.4: Term Assignment Function**

Let  $\mathcal{L}$  be a language,  $\mathfrak{A}$  an  $\mathcal{L}$ -structure, and  $s$  a variable assignment function into  $\mathfrak{A}$ . Then the function  $\bar{s}$ , called the *term assignment function generated by s*, is the function with domain consisting of the set of  $\mathcal{L}$ -terms and codomain  $A$  defined recursively as follows:

1. if  $t$  is a variables,  $\bar{s}(t) = s(t)$
2. If  $t \equiv c$  is a constant symbol, then  $\bar{s}(t) = c^{\mathfrak{A}}$
3. if  $t \equiv ft_1t_2...t_n$ , then  $\bar{s}(t) = f^{\mathfrak{A}}(\bar{s}(t_1), \bar{s}(t_2), \dots, \bar{s}(t_n))$

We will mostly be interested in truth of sentences, but for future purposes we will first describe truth (or “satisfaction”) for arbitrary formulas, relative to an assignment function

**Definition 1.4.5: Structure Satisfying Assignment Formula ( $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi[s]$ )**

Let  $\mathfrak{A}$  be an  $\mathcal{L}$ -structure,  $\varphi$  an  $\mathcal{L}$ -formula, and  $s : Vars \rightarrow A$  an assignment function. Then we will say that  $\mathfrak{A}$  *satisfies*  $\varphi$  with assignment  $s$ , and write  $\mathfrak{A} \models \varphi[s]$  in the following circumstances:

1. Atomic formulas:

- (a) if  $\varphi \equiv t_1 t_2$  and  $\bar{s}(t_i)$  is the same element of the universe  $A$  as  $\bar{s}(t_2)$  (i.e.  $\bar{s}(t_1) = a = \bar{s}(t_2)$ )
- (b) If  $\varphi \equiv R t_1 t_2 \dots t_n$  and  $(\bar{s}(t_1), \bar{s}(t_2), \dots, \bar{s}(t_n)) \in R^{\mathfrak{A}}$

2. recursive formulas:

- (a)  $\varphi \equiv (\neg \alpha)$  and  $\mathfrak{A} \not\models \alpha[s]$  (where  $\not\models$  means “does not satisfy”)
- (b) if  $\varphi \equiv (\alpha \vee \beta)$  and  $\mathfrak{A} \models \alpha[s]$  or  $\mathfrak{A} \models \beta[s]$ , or both
- (c) If  $\varphi \equiv (\forall x)(\alpha)$  and, for each  $a$  of  $A$ ,  $\mathfrak{A} \models \alpha[s(x|a)]$

If  $\Gamma$  is a set of  $\mathcal{L}$ -formulas, we say that  $\mathfrak{A}$  satisfies  $\Gamma$  with assignment  $s$  if for each  $\gamma \in \Gamma$ ,  $\mathfrak{A} \models \gamma[s]$ , and write  $\mathfrak{A} \models \Gamma[s]$ . We say that  $\Gamma$  is *satisfiable with*  $s$  if there exists a model  $\mathfrak{M}$  that satisfies  $\Gamma$ .

Note that the symbol  $\models$  is *not* part of the language  $\mathcal{L}$ . Instead,  $\models$  is a metalinguistic symbol that we use to talk about formulas in the language and structures of the language. Notice too that we finally have our usual interpretation of  $\neg$  as negative,  $\vee$  as or, and  $\forall$  as for all. In some first-order languages, the  $\vee$  is replaced by  $\rightarrow$ , in which case we would get if  $\varphi \equiv \alpha \rightarrow \beta$  and  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi[s]$  if

$$\mathfrak{M} \models \beta[s] \text{ whenever } \mathfrak{M} \models \alpha[s]$$

**Example 1.4.6: Truth Assignment**

1. If  $\mathcal{L} = \{\}$  is the empty language,  $\mathfrak{A} = (\{1, 2\})$  a  $\mathcal{L}$ -structure, then take  $s(v_1) = 1$  and  $s(v_2) = 2$ . Let  $\varphi \equiv v_1 = v_2$ . Then  $\mathfrak{A} \not\models \varphi[s]$ , that is  $\mathfrak{A}$  satisfies  $\varphi$  with  $s$ . On the other hand, if  $s(v_2) = 1$ , then  $\mathfrak{A} \models \varphi[s]$ . It should be easy to come up with other assignment functions  $s$  and or other  $\mathcal{L}$ -structures that will give the formula  $v_1 = v_2$  (or in formal notation  $= v_1 v_2$ ) a different true value.

We have determined whether a general formula satisfies a  $\mathcal{L}$ -structure given an assignment function, but what about the special case of sentences? Since they do not have free variables, they should in a sense be independent of any choice function. That is indeed the case. For now, we will take the choice of assignment function for sentences too, and show that the choice of assignment function is inconsequential. From there, we will conclude that  $\sigma$  is a true sentence in  $\mathfrak{A}$  if and only if  $\mathfrak{A} \models \sigma[s]$  for all possible variable assignment function  $s$ .

**Lemma 1.4.7: Equal On Variables Then Equal On Terms**

Let  $s_1, s_2$  be variable-assignment functions into a structure  $\mathfrak{A}$ , and let  $t$  be a term such that

$$s_1(v) = s_2(v) \quad \text{for every variable } v \text{ occurring in } t$$

Then  $\overline{s_1}(t) = \overline{s_2}(t)$ .

**Proof:**

We use induction on terms (definition 1.1.3) and the clauses of definition 1.4.4. If  $t$  is a variable, it occurs in  $t$ , so  $\overline{s_1}(t) = s_1(t) = s_2(t) = \overline{s_2}(t)$ . If  $t$  is a constant symbol  $c$ , then  $\overline{s_1}(t) = c^{\mathfrak{A}} = \overline{s_2}(t)$ . If  $t \equiv ft_1t_2 \cdots t_n$ , then every variable occurring in some  $t_i$  occurs in  $t$ , so the induction hypothesis gives  $\overline{s_1}(t_i) = \overline{s_2}(t_i)$  for all  $1 \leq i \leq n$ , and therefore

$$\overline{s_1}(t) = f^{\mathfrak{A}}(\overline{s_1}(t_1), \dots, \overline{s_1}(t_n)) = f^{\mathfrak{A}}(\overline{s_2}(t_1), \dots, \overline{s_2}(t_n)) = \overline{s_2}(t)$$

as we sought to show.

**Proposition 1.4.8: Agree On Variables Then Models The Same**

Let  $s_1, s_2$  be variables assignment functions into a structure  $\mathfrak{A}$  such that  $s_1(v) = s_2(v)$  for every *free variable*  $v$  in the formula  $\varphi$ . Then

$$\mathfrak{A} \models \varphi[s_1] \quad \text{iff} \quad \mathfrak{A} \models \varphi[s_2]$$

**Proof:**

We again use structural induction. If  $\varphi \equiv t_1 = t_2$  then the free variables of  $\varphi$  are exactly the variables that occur in  $\varphi$ . Thus, by lemma 1.4.7 we have  $\overline{s_1}(t_1) = \overline{s_2}(t_1)$  and  $\overline{s_1}(t_2) = \overline{s_2}(t_2)$  meaning they are the same element of the universe  $A$ , and so  $\mathfrak{A} \models (t_1 = t_2)[s_1]$  if and only if  $\mathfrak{A} \models (t_1 = t_2)[s_2]$ . If  $\varphi \equiv Rt_1t_2 \cdots t_n$ , the free variables of  $\varphi$  are again the variables occurring in it, so lemma 1.4.7 gives  $\overline{s_1}(t_i) = \overline{s_2}(t_i)$  for every  $i$ , and the tuple  $(\overline{s_1}(t_1), \dots, \overline{s_1}(t_n))$  lies in  $R^{\mathfrak{A}}$  exactly when  $(\overline{s_2}(t_1), \dots, \overline{s_2}(t_n))$  does.

For  $\varphi \equiv \neg\alpha$ , notice that  $\neg\alpha$  and  $\alpha$  have exactly the same free-variables, so  $s_1$  and  $s_2$  agree on the free-variables of  $\alpha$ . Thus, by the inductive hypothesis  $\mathfrak{A} \models \alpha[s_1]$  if and only if  $\mathfrak{A} \models \alpha[s_2]$ , and by the negation clause  $\mathfrak{A} \models \varphi[s_1]$  if and only if  $\mathfrak{A} \models \varphi[s_2]$ . For  $\varphi \equiv (\alpha \vee \beta)$ , a variable free in  $\alpha$  or in  $\beta$  is free in  $\varphi$  by definition 1.2.2, so the induction hypothesis applies to  $\alpha$  and to  $\beta$ , and the disjunction clause gives  $\mathfrak{A} \models \varphi[s_1]$  if and only if  $\mathfrak{A} \models \varphi[s_2]$ .

Finally, for  $\varphi \equiv (\forall x)(\alpha)$ , the only variable that might be free in  $\alpha$  that is not free in  $(\forall x)(\alpha)$  is  $x$ . Thus, for each  $a \in A$ , the assignments  $s_1[x|a]$  and  $s_2[x|a]$  agree on all free variables of  $\alpha$ , and so by the induction hypothesis  $\mathfrak{A} \models \alpha[s_1[x|a]]$  if and only if  $\mathfrak{A} \models \alpha[s_2[x|a]]$ . As this holds for every  $a \in A$ , the quantifier clause of definition 1.4.5 gives

$$\mathfrak{A} \models \varphi[s_1] \quad \text{if and only if} \quad \mathfrak{A} \models \varphi[s_2]$$

Thus, by the principle of induction, this holds true for all of  $\varphi$ , completing the proof.

The following corollary is important as it shows that sentences are “independent” of variable assignment functions

**Corollary 1.4.9: Satisfiability For Sentences**

Let  $\sigma$  be a sentence in the language  $\mathcal{L}$  and  $\mathfrak{A}$  an  $\mathcal{L}$ -structure. Then  $\mathfrak{A} \models \sigma[s]$  for all assignment functions  $s$ , or  $\mathfrak{A} \models \sigma[s]$  for no assignment functions  $s$

**Proof:**

By definition,  $\sigma$  has *no* free variables. And so if  $s_1$  and  $s_2$  are two assignment functions, they (vacuously) agree on free variables. Thus,  $\mathfrak{A} \models \sigma[s_1]$  if and only if  $\mathfrak{A} \models \sigma[s_2]$ . Since this is true in general, we see that either  $\mathfrak{A} \models \sigma[s]$  for all assignments or no assignments, as we sought to show.

A consequence of the above corollary is that if  $\sigma$  is a sentence,  $\mathfrak{M} \models \sigma$  if and only if there is some assignment  $v : V \rightarrow |\mathfrak{M}|$  such that  $\mathfrak{M} \models \sigma[v]$ .

**Definition 1.4.10: Modelled Formulas and True Sentences ( $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi$ )**

Let  $\varphi$  be a formula in a language  $\mathcal{L}$  and  $\mathfrak{A}$  be a  $\mathcal{L}$ -structure. Then

1. we say that  $\mathfrak{A}$  is a *model* for  $\varphi$  if and only if  $\mathfrak{A} \models \varphi[s]$  for every assignment function  $s$ , and we write  $\mathfrak{A} \models \varphi$ .
2. If  $\Phi$  is a set of  $\mathcal{L}$ -formulas, we will say that  $\mathfrak{A}$  models  $\Phi$ , and write  $\mathfrak{A} \models \Phi$  if and only if  $\mathfrak{A} \models \varphi$  for each  $\varphi \in \Phi$ .
3. We say that  $\varphi$  or  $\Phi$  is *satisfiable* if there exists a model  $\mathfrak{M}$  that satisfies it (i.e. a model  $\mathfrak{M}$  such that  $\Gamma$  is satisfiable for every assignment function  $s$ ).
4. For the case of  $\varphi$  being a *sentence*, then we have  $\mathfrak{A} \models \sigma$  if and only if  $\mathfrak{A} \models \sigma[s]$  for any assignment function  $s$ . In this case we will say that the sentence  $\varphi$  is *true* in  $\mathfrak{A}$ .

**Example 1.4.11: True Sentences**

Let's take the number theory structure with language  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  and standard structure

$$\mathfrak{N} = (\mathbb{N}, 0, S, +, \cdot, E, <)$$

Let  $s$  be the variable assignment function  $s(v_i) = 2i$  (ex.  $s(3) = 6$ ). As an example of the term-assignment function that comes from it:

$$\begin{aligned} \bar{s}(v_1 + v_1) & \text{ is } +^{\mathfrak{N}}(\bar{s}(v_1), \bar{s}(v_1)) \\ & \text{ is } +^{\mathfrak{N}}(2, 2) \\ & \text{ is } 4 \end{aligned}$$

or similarly:

$$\begin{aligned} \bar{s}(SSSS0) & \text{ is } S^{\mathfrak{N}}(S^{\mathfrak{N}}(S^{\mathfrak{N}}(S^{\mathfrak{N}}(0)))) \\ & \text{ is } 4 \end{aligned}$$

Let's now look for true sentences. Consider the sentence:

$$(\forall v_1)\neg(\forall v_2)\neg(v_1 = v_2 + v_2)$$

where  $\neg(\forall v_2)\neg$  is usually shorthand to  $(\exists v_2)$ . Parsing this into a english, we see that the sentence is asking whether all numbers are the sum of two identical numbers; if all numbers are even. This is intuitively wrong, so let's start parsing the sentence by the rules we have been given to come to the same conclusion:

$$\begin{aligned} \mathfrak{A} \models \sigma[s] & \quad \text{iff} \quad \text{For every } a \in \mathbb{N}, \mathfrak{A} \models \neg(\forall v_2)\neg(v_1 = v_2 + v_2)s[v_1|a] \\ & \quad \text{iff} \quad \text{For every } a \in \mathbb{N}, \mathfrak{A} \not\models (\forall v_2)\neg(v_1 = v_2 + v_2)s[v_1|a] \\ & \quad \text{iff} \quad \text{For every } a \in \mathbb{N}, \text{ there exists a } b \in \mathbb{N}, \mathfrak{A}(v_1 = v_2 + v_2)s[v_1|a][v_2|b] \end{aligned}$$

we many now plug in  $a$  and see that not  $b$  will satisfy this property, showing that  $\mathfrak{A} \not\models \sigma[s]$  we many now plug in  $a$  and see that not  $b$  will satisfy this property, showing that  $\mathfrak{A} \not\models \sigma[s]$ . Thus, we may say that  $\mathfrak{A}$  does not model  $\sigma$ , and so  $\sigma$  is *false*.

#### Proposition 1.4.12: Existential Quantifier

Let  $\mathfrak{M}$  be a structure of a first order language  $\mathcal{L}$ ,  $s$  an assignment for  $\mathfrak{M}$ ,  $x$  a variable, and  $\varphi$  a formula of  $\mathcal{L}$ . Then  $\mathfrak{M} \models \exists x, \varphi[s]$  if and only if  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi[s(x|m)]$  for some  $m \in |\mathfrak{M}|$

#### **Proof:**

By the abbreviation  $(\exists x)(\alpha) := (\neg(\forall x)(\neg\alpha))$  introduced after definition 1.1.5, the formula  $\exists x\varphi$  is  $(\neg(\forall x)(\neg\varphi))$ . By the negation clause of definition 1.4.5,  $\mathfrak{M} \models (\neg(\forall x)(\neg\varphi))[s]$  holds exactly when  $\mathfrak{M} \not\models (\forall x)(\neg\varphi)[s]$ . By the quantifier clause,  $\mathfrak{M} \models (\forall x)(\neg\varphi)[s]$  holds exactly when  $\mathfrak{M} \models (\neg\varphi)[s(x|m)]$  for every  $m \in |\mathfrak{M}|$ , and by the negation clause again this holds exactly when  $\mathfrak{M} \not\models \varphi[s(x|m)]$  for every  $m \in |\mathfrak{M}|$ . Hence  $\mathfrak{M} \models (\exists x\varphi)[s]$  holds exactly when it is not the case that  $\mathfrak{M} \not\models \varphi[s(x|m)]$  for every  $m$ , that is, exactly when  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi[s(x|m)]$  for some  $m \in |\mathfrak{M}|$ , as claimed.

**Proposition 1.4.13: Important Shorthand's**

Let  $\mathfrak{M}$  be a structure for  $\mathcal{L}$  and  $\alpha, \beta$  be sentences of  $\mathcal{L}$ . Then:

1.  $\mathfrak{M} \models \neg\alpha$  if and only if  $\mathfrak{M} \not\models \alpha$
2.  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha \rightarrow \beta$  if and only if  $\mathfrak{M} \models \beta$  whenever  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha$
3.  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha \vee \beta$  if and only if  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha$  or  $\mathfrak{M} \models \beta$
4.  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha \wedge \beta$  if and only if  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha$  and  $\mathfrak{M} \models \beta$
5.  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha \leftrightarrow \beta$  if and only if  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha$  exactly when  $\mathfrak{M} \models \beta$
6.  $\mathfrak{M} \models \forall x\alpha$  if and only if  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha$

Moreover, let  $\Sigma$  be a set of formulas,  $\psi$  a sentence and  $\rho$  a formula, and for a set of formulas  $\Gamma$  write  $\Gamma \models \rho$  when every structure that satisfies every member of  $\Gamma$  (definition 1.4.10) satisfies  $\rho$ . Then

$$\Sigma \cup \{\psi\} \models \rho \quad \text{if and only if} \quad \Sigma \models (\psi \rightarrow \rho)$$

**Proof:**

The universe  $|\mathfrak{M}|$  is nonempty (definition 1.3.1), so we may fix an assignment  $s_0$  into  $\mathfrak{M}$ . For a sentence  $\sigma$ , corollary 1.4.9 gives that  $\mathfrak{M} \models \sigma[s]$  holds for every assignment  $s$  or for none, so by definition 1.4.10 we have  $\mathfrak{M} \models \sigma$  exactly when  $\mathfrak{M} \models \sigma[s_0]$ . If  $\alpha$  and  $\beta$  are sentences, then so are  $\neg\alpha$ ,  $\alpha \vee \beta$ ,  $\alpha \rightarrow \beta$ ,  $\alpha \wedge \beta$ ,  $\alpha \leftrightarrow \beta$  and  $\forall x\alpha$ , because by definition 1.2.2 a variable free in one of these formulas is free in  $\alpha$  or in  $\beta$ . Each item therefore reduces to a statement about  $s_0$ , which we unwind with the clauses of definition 1.4.5.

1.  $\mathfrak{M} \models \neg\alpha$  holds exactly when  $\mathfrak{M} \models (\neg\alpha)[s_0]$ , which by the negation clause holds exactly when  $\mathfrak{M} \not\models \alpha[s_0]$ , that is, when  $\mathfrak{M} \not\models \alpha$ .
2. The formula  $\alpha \rightarrow \beta$  is  $((\neg\alpha) \vee \beta)$ . By the disjunction and negation clauses,  $\mathfrak{M} \models (\alpha \rightarrow \beta)[s_0]$  holds exactly when  $\mathfrak{M} \not\models \alpha[s_0]$  or  $\mathfrak{M} \models \beta[s_0]$ . Hence  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha \rightarrow \beta$  exactly when  $\mathfrak{M} \not\models \alpha$  or  $\mathfrak{M} \models \beta$ , that is, exactly when  $\mathfrak{M} \models \beta$  whenever  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha$ .
3. By the disjunction clause,  $\mathfrak{M} \models (\alpha \vee \beta)[s_0]$  holds exactly when  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha[s_0]$  or  $\mathfrak{M} \models \beta[s_0]$ , that is, when  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha$  or  $\mathfrak{M} \models \beta$ .
4. The formula  $\alpha \wedge \beta$  is  $(\neg((\neg\alpha) \vee (\neg\beta)))$ . By the negation and disjunction clauses,  $\mathfrak{M} \models (\alpha \wedge \beta)[s_0]$  holds exactly when neither  $\mathfrak{M} \not\models \alpha[s_0]$  nor  $\mathfrak{M} \not\models \beta[s_0]$  holds, that is, when  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha$  and  $\mathfrak{M} \models \beta$ .
5. The formula  $\alpha \leftrightarrow \beta$  is  $((\alpha \rightarrow \beta) \wedge (\beta \rightarrow \alpha))$ , a conjunction of the sentences  $\alpha \rightarrow \beta$  and  $\beta \rightarrow \alpha$ . By item (4) and then item (2),  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha \leftrightarrow \beta$  holds exactly when  $\mathfrak{M} \models \beta$  whenever  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha$ , and  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha$  whenever  $\mathfrak{M} \models \beta$ . This is the statement that  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha$  holds exactly when  $\mathfrak{M} \models \beta$  does.
6. If  $\mathfrak{M} \models \forall x\alpha$ , then  $\mathfrak{M} \models (\forall x\alpha)[s_0]$ , so by the quantifier clause  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha[s_0(x|m)]$  for every  $m \in |\mathfrak{M}|$ . Taking  $m = s_0(x)$ , for which  $s_0(x|m)$  is  $s_0$ , gives  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha[s_0]$ , so  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha$ . Conversely, if  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha$ , then  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha[s]$  for every assignment  $s$  by definition 1.4.10, in particular for every  $s_0(x|m)$ , so  $\mathfrak{M} \models (\forall x\alpha)[s_0]$  and  $\mathfrak{M} \models \forall x\alpha$ .

For the final claim, suppose first that  $\Sigma \cup \{\psi\} \models \rho$ . Let  $\mathfrak{M} \models \Sigma$  and let  $s$  be an assignment into  $\mathfrak{M}$ . If  $\mathfrak{M} \not\models \psi[s]$ , then  $\mathfrak{M} \models (\neg\psi)[s]$ , hence  $\mathfrak{M} \models ((\neg\psi) \vee \rho)[s]$ , which is  $\mathfrak{M} \models (\psi \rightarrow \rho)[s]$ . If  $\mathfrak{M} \models \psi[s]$ , then  $\mathfrak{M} \models \psi$  by the first paragraph, since  $\psi$  is a sentence, so  $\mathfrak{M} \models \Sigma \cup \{\psi\}$ . The hypothesis then gives  $\mathfrak{M} \models \rho$ , in particular  $\mathfrak{M} \models \rho[s]$ , and again  $\mathfrak{M} \models (\psi \rightarrow \rho)[s]$ . As  $s$  was arbitrary,  $\mathfrak{M} \models \psi \rightarrow \rho$ , and so  $\Sigma \models (\psi \rightarrow \rho)$ . Conversely, suppose  $\Sigma \models (\psi \rightarrow \rho)$  and  $\mathfrak{M} \models \Sigma \cup \{\psi\}$ . For every assignment  $s$  we have  $\mathfrak{M} \models ((\neg\psi) \vee \rho)[s]$  and  $\mathfrak{M} \models \psi[s]$ , so  $\mathfrak{M} \models (\neg\psi)[s]$  and therefore  $\mathfrak{M} \models \rho[s]$ . Thus  $\mathfrak{M} \models \rho$ , and  $\Sigma \cup \{\psi\} \models \rho$ , completing the proof.

Note that  $\alpha$  and  $\beta$  are sentences in the above. If they were formulas, we must be weary of particular assignment functions.

## 1.5 Substitutions and Substitutability

we now tackle the problem of when we can substitute a variable by a term. For example, if we have a term  $(\forall x)\varphi(x)$  which is true in a particular structure  $\mathfrak{A}$ , we see that if we replace the variable  $x$  by the constant  $c$  (recall that  $c^{\mathfrak{A}}$  in a structure is an element of  $A$ ), then we would expect  $\varphi(c)$  will also be true. However, things are not always so simple. Take for example  $\mathfrak{A} \models \forall x \exists y \neg(x = y)$ . This sentence is true in any structure  $\mathfrak{A}$  if  $A$  has at least 2 elements. Then if we replace the variable  $x$  with the variable  $u$ , then we would expect that the truth values stays the same. However, if we replace  $x$  with  $y$ , then we see that the sentence is no longer true, for any structure! In other words, our bad choice of substitution changed the truth value of the formula. We will thus be more careful with how we proceed with substituting terms inside a quantifier that binds a variable involved with the term

### Definition 1.5.1: Term Substitution

let  $u$  be a term,  $x$  a variable, and  $t$  a term. Then we define the term  $u_t^x$  (read “ $u$  with  $x$  replaced by  $t$ ”) as follows:

1. If  $u$  is a variable not equal to  $x$ , then  $u_t^x$  is  $u$
2. if  $u$  is  $x$ , then  $u_t^x$  is  $t$
3. if  $u$  is a constant symbol, then  $u_t^x$  is  $u$
4. if  $u \equiv f u_1 u_2 \dots u_n$ , where  $f$  is an  $n$ -ary function symbol and the  $u_i$  are terms, then<sup>a</sup>

$$u_t^x \text{ is } f(u_1)_t^x (u_2)_t^x \dots (u_n)_t^x$$

<sup>a</sup>The parenthesis technically should not be there, but they were added for readability

Essentially, all this definition is saying is that we should find the variable  $x$  (if it's in the term  $u$ ) and replace it with  $t$ .

### Example 1.5.2: Term Substitution

Let's say  $u$  is  $f(x, y) + h(z, x, g(x))$ , and we want to replace  $x$  with  $t$  which is  $g(c)$ . Processing the definition, we get  $u_t^x$  is:

$$f(g(c), y) + h(z, g(c), g(g(c)))$$

We define it similarly for a formula

**Definition 1.5.3: Formula Substitution**

Suppose that  $\varphi$  is an  $\mathcal{L}$ -formula,  $t$  is a term, and  $x$  is a variable. Then we define the formula  $\varphi_t^x$  (read “ $\varphi$  with  $x$  replaced by  $t$ ”) as:

1. if  $\varphi \equiv u_1 = u_2$  then  $\varphi_t^x$  is  $(u_1)_t^x = (u_2)_t^x$
2. If  $\varphi \equiv Ru_1u_2\dots u_n$ , then  $\varphi_t^x$  is  $R(u_1)_t^x(u_2)_t^x\dots(u_n)_t^x$
3. if  $\varphi \equiv \neg(\alpha)$  then  $\varphi_t^x$  is  $\neg(\alpha_t^x)$
4. If  $\varphi \equiv (\alpha \vee \beta)$ , then  $\varphi_t^x$  is  $(\alpha_t^x \vee \beta_t^x)$
5. If  $\varphi \equiv (\forall y)(\alpha)$ , then

$$\varphi_t^x = \begin{cases} \varphi & \text{if } x \text{ is } y \\ (\forall y)(\alpha_t^x) & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

**Example 1.5.4: Formula Substitution**

Suppose that we have the formula  $\varphi$

$$P(x, y) \rightarrow [(\forall x)(Q(g(x), z)) \vee (\forall y)(R(x, h(x)))]$$

then if  $t$  is the term  $g(c)$ , we get that  $\varphi_t^x$  is

$$P(g(c), y) \rightarrow [(\forall x)(Q(g(g(c)), z)) \vee (\forall y)(R(g(c), h(g(c))))]$$

With the preliminary definitions done, we can now talk about when we can substitute a term for a variable without running into the problems mentioned at the beginning of this section; we will not substitute a term in such a way that a variable contained in that term is inadvertently bound by a quantifier

**Definition 1.5.5: Substitutable**

Let  $\varphi$  be an  $\mathcal{L}$ -formula,  $t$  a term, and  $x$  a variable. Then we say that  $t$  is *substitutable* for  $x$  in  $\varphi$ , or  $x$  can be *substituted* by  $t$ , if:

1.  $\varphi$  is atomic
2.  $\varphi \equiv \neg(\alpha)$  and  $t$  is substitutable for  $x$  in  $\alpha$
3.  $\varphi \equiv (\alpha \vee \beta)$  and  $t$  is substitutable for  $x$  in both  $\alpha$  and  $\beta$
4.  $\varphi \equiv (\forall y)(\alpha)$  and either
  - (a)  $x$  is not free in  $\varphi$  (i.e.  $x$  is bound or does not exist in  $\varphi$ )
  - (b)  $y$  does not occur in  $t$  and  $t$  is substitutable for  $x$  in  $\alpha$

Note that  $\varphi_t^x$  is defined whether or not  $t$  is substitutable for  $x$  in  $\varphi$ . Usually we will want to do substitutions only if the terms are substitutable, but we can do a substitution even if it will change the truth value. On the other hand, we will often only substitute if it is substitutable.

**Example 1.5.6: Substitutability**

1.  $x$  is always substitutable for  $x$  in any formula  $\varphi$ , namely  $\varphi_x^x$  is simply  $\varphi$
2. Let  $\varphi := \forall y \ x = y$ . Then  $y$  is not substitutable by  $x$ , since the new  $y$  would be “bounded” by the quantifier  $\forall y$

## 1.6 Logical Implication

The last bit of language we will gain is that of formula implication. In mathematics, it is very common to have answers to questions of the form: If these statements are true, it is necessarily the case that the other statement(s) is/are true.

**Definition 1.6.1: Logical Implication ( $\Delta \models \Gamma$ )**

Suppose that  $\Delta$  and  $\Gamma$  are sets of  $\mathcal{L}$ -formulas. Then we will say that  $\Delta$  *logically implies*  $\Gamma$  and write  $\Delta \models \Gamma$  if for every  $\mathcal{L}$ -structure  $\mathfrak{A}$ , if  $\mathfrak{A} \models \Delta$ , then  $\mathfrak{A} \models \Gamma$

To be pedantic, this definition does not necessarily mean that there is a causal relation between  $\Delta$  and  $\Gamma$ , it means that it so happens that if  $\Delta$  is true, it must be that  $\Gamma$  is true. Notice too that it is independent of any  $\mathcal{L}$ -structure, meaning the implication should be “universally” valid.

**Example 1.6.2: Logical Implication**

1. Let  $\mathfrak{M}$  be any structure. Then  $\mathfrak{M} \models \{\varphi\}$  if and only if  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi$ , then  $\{\varphi\} \models \varphi$
2. Let  $\alpha, \beta$  be formulas. Show that  $\{\alpha \rightarrow \beta, \alpha\} \models \beta$

**Definition 1.6.3: Valid Formula (Tautology and Contradiction) ( $\models \varphi$ )**

Let  $\varphi$  be an  $\mathcal{L}$ -formula. Then we say that  $\varphi$  is valid (or that it is a tautology) if  $\emptyset \models \varphi$ , in other words  $\varphi$  is true in every  $\mathcal{L}$ -structure with every assignment function  $s$ . If  $\models \neg\varphi$ , we say that  $\varphi$  is a *contradiction*.

**Example 1.6.4: Valid Formula and Models**

1.  $\models \forall x \ x = x$  is a true sentence in all models and in all term assignment functions. On the other hand  $\exists x \ \neg x = x$  is a contradiction
2.  $\models \varphi \rightarrow \varphi$  is a tautology, while  $\models \neg(\varphi \rightarrow \varphi)$  is a contradiction.

**Proposition 1.6.5: Modelling And Contradiction**

Suppose  $\varphi$  is a contradiction. Then  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi[s]$  is false for every structure  $\mathfrak{M}$  and assignment  $s$ . As a consequence,  $\Sigma$  is satisfiable if and only if there is no contradiction  $\chi$  such that  $\Sigma \models \chi$ .

**Proof:**

Suppose  $\varphi$  is a contradiction, so that  $\models \neg\varphi$  by definition 1.6.3: every  $\mathcal{L}$ -structure  $\mathfrak{M}$  and every assignment  $s$  have  $\mathfrak{M} \models (\neg\varphi)[s]$ . By the negation clause of definition 1.4.5, this holds exactly when  $\mathfrak{M} \not\models \varphi[s]$ . Hence  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi[s]$  fails for every structure  $\mathfrak{M}$  and every assignment  $s$ .

For the consequence, suppose first that  $\Sigma$  is satisfiable, and fix a structure  $\mathfrak{M}$  with  $\mathfrak{M} \models \Sigma$ . If  $\chi$  were a contradiction with  $\Sigma \models \chi$ , then  $\mathfrak{M} \models \chi$  by definition 1.6.1. The universe  $A$  of  $\mathfrak{M}$  is nonempty by definition 1.3.1, so there is at least one assignment  $s : Vars \rightarrow A$ , and then  $\mathfrak{M} \models \chi[s]$ , contradicting the first part. Hence no contradiction  $\chi$  has  $\Sigma \models \chi$ .

Suppose instead that  $\Sigma$  is not satisfiable, and let  $\chi := \neg(\forall x)(x = x)$ . For any  $\mathfrak{M}$ , any  $s$ , and any  $a \in A$  we have  $s[x|a](x) = a$ , so  $\mathfrak{M} \models (x = x)[s[x|a]]$  by the equality clause of definition 1.4.5, and therefore  $\mathfrak{M} \models (\forall x)(x = x)[s]$ . Applying the negation clause twice,  $\mathfrak{M} \models (\neg\chi)[s]$ . Thus  $\models \neg\chi$ , and  $\chi$  is a contradiction. Since no structure models  $\Sigma$ , the condition defining  $\Sigma \models \chi$  in definition 1.6.1 holds vacuously, so  $\Sigma \models \chi$ . An unsatisfiable  $\Sigma$  therefore implies a contradiction, which is the contrapositive of the remaining direction.

Finally, we require the following terminology for later

**Definition 1.6.6: Theory and Axioms**

If  $\Sigma$  is a set of sentences then the theory of  $\Sigma$  is

$$\text{Th}(\Sigma) = \{\tau \mid \tau \text{ is a sentence and } \Sigma \models \tau\}$$

If  $\Delta$  is a set of sentences and  $\mathcal{S}$  is a collection of structures, then  $\Delta$  is a set of (non-logical) axioms for  $\mathcal{S}$  if for every structure  $\mathfrak{M}$ ,  $\mathfrak{M} \models \Delta$

**Example 1.6.7: Theory And Axiom**

1. example of theory
2. Let  $\{\exists x \exists y ((\neg(x = y)) \forall z (z = x \vee z = y))\}$ . Every structure over the language  $\mathcal{L} = \{=\}$  satisfying this sentence must have exactly two elements in the universe, and so the above set is a set of non-logical axioms for the collection of sets of cardinality 2.

## 1.7 \*Propositional Language

We will take a moment to focus on another type language. This language will be purely focused on determining where a given formula  $\varphi$  is either *True* or *False*. The language will feel restrictive as compared to first-order language, and it indeed has limitations: if not careful with our definition of atomic formulas we may raise a Russel-like contradiction. However, its simplicity also has its advantages: this language will capture the intuition that a given statement can either be assignment *true* (T) or *false* (F). Given a model  $\mathcal{M}$  with a language  $\mathcal{L}$ , we may convert many first-order questions into propositional questions. This will come in handy in the next chapter where we will link “deductibility” (the ability to prove or deduce a statement) to “satisfiability” ( $\mathcal{M} \models \varphi$ ). Due to this link, one of my professors called propositional logic “0th order logic”.

**Definition 1.7.1: Propositional Language**

The symbols of  $\mathcal{L}_P$  are

1. Parenthesis: ( and )
2. Connectives:  $\neg$  and  $\rightarrow$
3. Atomic formulas  $A_0, A_1, \dots, A_n, \dots$

A *formula* of  $\mathcal{L}_P$  are finite sequences or strings of symbols from  $\mathcal{L}_P$  satisfying one of the following rules:

1. Every atomic formula is a formula
2. If  $\alpha$  is a formula,  $(\neg\alpha)$  is a formula
3. if  $\alpha$  and  $\beta$  are formulas,  $(\alpha \rightarrow \beta)$  is a formula
4. No other sequence of symbols is a formula

Like first-order languages, we have shorthand's:

1.  $(\alpha \wedge \beta)$  is  $(\neg(\alpha \rightarrow (\neg\beta)))$
2.  $(\alpha \vee \beta)$  is  $((\neg\alpha) \rightarrow \beta)$
3.  $(\alpha \leftrightarrow \beta)$  for  $(\alpha \rightarrow \beta) \wedge (\beta \rightarrow \alpha)$

**Definition 1.7.2: Propositional Sub formula**

Let  $\varphi$  be a formula of  $\mathcal{L}_P$ . Then the subformulas of  $\varphi$ ,  $S(\varphi)$  is defined as follows:

1. if  $\varphi$  is an atomic formula,  $S(\varphi) = \{\varphi\}$
2. if  $\varphi$  is  $(\neg\alpha)$  then  $S(\varphi) = S(\alpha) \cup \{(\neg\alpha)\}$
3. If  $\varphi$  is  $(\alpha \rightarrow \beta)$  then  $S(\varphi)$  is  $S(\alpha) \cup S(\beta) \cup \{(\alpha \rightarrow \beta)\}$

Just like for first order language, we have unique readability for propositional language. Instead of having structure and a variable-assignment function, we define a truth assignment function directly on the formulas:

**Definition 1.7.3: Truth Assignment Function**

A *truth assignment* is a function  $v$  whose domain is the set of all formulas of  $\mathcal{L}_P$  and whose range is any binary set, say  $\{T, F\}$  such that

1.  $v(A_n)$  is defined for every atomic formula  $A_n$
2. For any formula  $\alpha$ ,

$$v((\neg\alpha)) = \begin{cases} T & \text{if } v(\alpha) = F \\ F & \text{if } v(\alpha) = T \end{cases}$$

3. For any  $\alpha, \beta$ :

$$v((\alpha \rightarrow \beta)) = \begin{cases} F & \text{if } v(\alpha) = T \text{ and } v(\beta) = F \\ T & \text{Otherwise} \end{cases}$$

It is easy to show that if  $\delta$  is any formula and  $u, v$  are truth assignments such that  $u(A_n) = v(A_n)$  for all atomic formulas which occur in  $\delta$ , then  $u(\delta) = v(\delta)$ .

**Proposition 1.7.4: Relating Our Shorthand With Our Intuition**

Let  $\alpha, \beta$  be formulas and  $v$  a truth assignment function. Then:

1.  $v(\neg\alpha) = T$  if and only if  $v(\alpha) = F$
2.  $v(\alpha \rightarrow \beta) = T$  if and only if  $v(\beta) = T$  whenever  $v(\alpha) = T$
3.  $v(\alpha \wedge \beta) = T$  if and only if  $v(\alpha) = T$  and  $v(\beta) = T$
4.  $v(\alpha \vee \beta) = T$  if and only if  $v(\alpha) = T$  or  $v(\beta) = T$
5.  $v(\alpha \leftrightarrow \beta) = T$  if and only if  $v(\alpha) = v(\beta)$

**Proof:**

Here  $\neg$  and  $\rightarrow$  are the connectives of definition 1.7.1, and  $\wedge, \vee, \leftrightarrow$  are the shorthands listed after it:  $(\alpha \wedge \beta)$  is  $(\neg(\alpha \rightarrow (\neg\beta)))$ ,  $(\alpha \vee \beta)$  is  $((\neg\alpha) \rightarrow \beta)$ , and  $(\alpha \leftrightarrow \beta)$  is  $((\alpha \rightarrow \beta) \wedge (\beta \rightarrow \alpha))$ . The two clauses of definition 1.7.3 compute  $v$  on a negation or an implication from the values of  $v$  on its parts. Applying them to the parts of the shorthands, for each of the four possible pairs  $(v(\alpha), v(\beta))$ , gives the two tables

| $\alpha$ | $\beta$ | $\neg\beta$ | $\alpha \rightarrow \neg\beta$ | $\alpha \wedge \beta$ | $\neg\alpha$ | $\alpha \vee \beta$ | $\alpha$ | $\beta$ | $\alpha \rightarrow \beta$ | $\beta \rightarrow \alpha$ | $\alpha \leftrightarrow \beta$ |
|----------|---------|-------------|--------------------------------|-----------------------|--------------|---------------------|----------|---------|----------------------------|----------------------------|--------------------------------|
| $T$      | $T$     | $F$         | $F$                            | $T$                   | $F$          | $T$                 | $T$      | $T$     | $T$                        | $T$                        | $T$                            |
| $T$      | $F$     | $T$         | $T$                            | $F$                   | $F$          | $T$                 | $T$      | $F$     | $T$                        | $F$                        | $F$                            |
| $F$      | $T$     | $F$         | $T$                            | $F$                   | $T$          | $T$                 | $F$      | $T$     | $F$                        | $F$                        | $F$                            |
| $F$      | $F$     | $T$         | $T$                            | $F$                   | $T$          | $F$                 | $F$      | $T$     | $T$                        | $T$                        | $T$                            |

in which each entry is the value of  $v$  on the formula heading its column. In the first table the column for  $\neg\beta$  comes from that for  $\beta$  by the negation clause, the column for  $\alpha \rightarrow \neg\beta$  from those for  $\alpha$  and  $\neg\beta$  by the implication clause, the column for  $\alpha \wedge \beta$ , which is  $\neg(\alpha \rightarrow \neg\beta)$ , from the previous column by the negation clause, the column for  $\neg\alpha$  from that for  $\alpha$ , and the column for  $\alpha \vee \beta$ , which is  $\neg\alpha \rightarrow \beta$ , from those for  $\neg\alpha$  and  $\beta$  by the implication clause. In the second table

the two implications come from the implication clause.

1. This is the negation clause of definition 1.7.3.
2. By the implication clause,  $v(\alpha \rightarrow \beta) = F$  exactly when  $v(\alpha) = T$  and  $v(\beta) = F$ . So  $v(\alpha \rightarrow \beta) = T$  exactly when  $v(\beta) = T$  whenever  $v(\alpha) = T$ .
3. In the first table,  $v(\alpha \wedge \beta) = T$  in the first row only, which is the row with  $v(\alpha) = v(\beta) = T$ .
4. In the first table,  $v(\alpha \vee \beta) = T$  in the first three rows, which are the rows where  $v(\alpha) = T$  or  $v(\beta) = T$ .
5. The formula  $\alpha \leftrightarrow \beta$  is the conjunction of the formulas  $\alpha \rightarrow \beta$  and  $\beta \rightarrow \alpha$ , so by item (3) applied to these two formulas, its value is  $T$  exactly when both of the two preceding columns of the second table are  $T$ , which gives its last column. That column is  $T$  in the first and last rows, which are the rows with  $v(\alpha) = v(\beta)$ , completing the proof.

Note that  $\rightarrow$  is *not* associative, that is  $\alpha \rightarrow (\beta \rightarrow \gamma)$  does not model  $(\alpha \rightarrow \beta) \rightarrow \gamma$ , and vice-versa.

#### Definition 1.7.5: Satisfied Formula

Let  $v$  be a truth assignment and  $\varphi$  a formula. Then we say that  $v$  *satisfies*  $\varphi$  if  $v(\varphi) = T$ . If  $\Sigma$  is a set of formulas, we will say  $v$  satisfies  $\Sigma$  if  $v(\sigma) = T$  for all  $\sigma \in \Sigma$ .

#### Definition 1.7.6: Satisfiable, Tautology, Contradiction

We say that  $\varphi$  (resp.  $\Sigma$ ) is *satisfiable* if there is a truth assignment such that  $v(\varphi) = T$  (or  $v(\sigma) = T$  for all  $\Sigma$ ), is a *tautology* if it is satisfied by every truth assignment, and a *contradiction* if there is not truth assignment satisfying it

A natural tautology is  $\alpha \rightarrow \alpha$  and a natural contradiction is  $\neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$ .  $\beta$  More generally,  $\beta$  a tautology if and only if  $\neg\beta$  is a contradiction.

#### Definition 1.7.7: Propositional Implication

A set of formulas  $\Sigma$  *implies* a formula  $\varphi$  if every truth assignment  $v$  which satisfies  $\Sigma$  also satisfies  $\varphi$ . We write  $\Sigma \models \varphi$ , and  $\Sigma \not\models \varphi$  in the opposite case. If  $\Sigma$  is empty, we usually write  $\models \varphi$  instead of  $\emptyset \models \varphi$ .

If  $\Delta$  and  $\Gamma$  are sets of formulas, then  $\Delta$  implies  $\Gamma$  if every truth assignment  $v$  which satisfies  $\Delta$  also satisfies  $\Gamma$

#### Proposition 1.7.8: Properties of Propositional Implication

1. If  $\Gamma \subseteq \Sigma$  is a subset of formulas then  $\Sigma \models \Gamma$
2.  $\Sigma \cup \{\psi\} \models \rho$  if and only if  $\Sigma \models \psi \rightarrow \rho$
3.  $\Sigma$  is satisfiable if and only if there is no contradiction  $\chi$  such that  $\Sigma \models \chi$

**Proof:**

1. Let  $v$  be a truth assignment satisfying  $\Sigma$ . Each  $\gamma \in \Gamma$  lies in  $\Sigma$ , so  $v(\gamma) = T$  by definition 1.7.5. Hence  $v$  satisfies  $\Gamma$ , and  $\Sigma \models \Gamma$  by definition 1.7.7.
2. Suppose  $\Sigma \cup \{\psi\} \models \rho$ , and let  $v$  satisfy  $\Sigma$ . If  $v(\psi) = F$ , then  $v(\psi \rightarrow \rho) = T$  by the implication clause of definition 1.7.3. If  $v(\psi) = T$ , then  $v$  satisfies  $\Sigma \cup \{\psi\}$ , so  $v(\rho) = T$  and again  $v(\psi \rightarrow \rho) = T$ . Hence  $\Sigma \models \psi \rightarrow \rho$ . Conversely, suppose  $\Sigma \models \psi \rightarrow \rho$ , and let  $v$  satisfy  $\Sigma \cup \{\psi\}$ . Then  $v(\psi \rightarrow \rho) = T$  and  $v(\psi) = T$ . The implication clause rules out  $v(\rho) = F$ , since  $v(\psi) = T$  together with  $v(\rho) = F$  would force  $v(\psi \rightarrow \rho) = F$ . Hence  $v(\rho) = T$ , and  $\Sigma \cup \{\psi\} \models \rho$ .
3. Suppose  $\Sigma$  is satisfiable, say  $v$  satisfies  $\Sigma$ , and let  $\chi$  be any formula with  $\Sigma \models \chi$ . Then  $v(\chi) = T$ , so  $\chi$  is satisfied by some truth assignment and is not a contradiction by definition 1.7.6. Conversely, suppose  $\Sigma$  is not satisfiable. Then no truth assignment satisfies  $\Sigma$ , so the defining condition of  $\Sigma \models \chi$  holds vacuously for every formula  $\chi$ , in particular for  $\chi \equiv \neg(A_0 \rightarrow A_0)$ . For any  $v$ , the value  $v(A_0 \rightarrow A_0) = F$  would require  $v(A_0) = T$  and  $v(A_0) = F$  at once, so  $v(A_0 \rightarrow A_0) = T$  and  $v(\neg(A_0 \rightarrow A_0)) = F$ . Hence  $\neg(A_0 \rightarrow A_0)$  is a contradiction implied by  $\Sigma$ . Taking the contrapositive completes the equivalence.

## 1.8 Summary

1. **terms and formulas:** terms are the nouns which can either be a variable, a constant, or a function taking in a term. A formula can either be  $t_1 = t_2$  for some two terms  $t_1, t_2$ , some  $n$ -relation  $Rt_1 \dots t_n$ , or recursively built to add negations, or's, or forall on a variable:  $\neg\varphi$ ,  $\alpha \vee \beta$ ,  $(\forall v)(\varphi)$
2. **infix notation and shortcuts:**
3. **subformulas:** recursively go through and compile all the subformulas within a formula.
4. **free variables:** within a formula, we may have a variable  $v_i$  which is not quantified by a  $\forall$ .
5. **sentence:** a formula with no free variables.
6. **structure (model):** a set  $A$  (called the universe) along with a collection of functions, relations, and a subset of  $A$  which be used for associated functions to function symbols, relations to relations symbols, and constants to constant symbols.
7. **variable and term assignment function:** If  $Vars \subseteq \mathcal{L}$  is the collection of all variables, then  $s : Vars \rightarrow A$  is a variable assignment function. This can then be extended to be a term assignment function. We can also override a particular assignment by doing  $s[x|a](v)$ , which will on input of variable  $x$  give  $a$  instead of  $s(x)$ .
8. **Modelling ( $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi[s]$ ):** Given an assignment function  $s$ , after we evaluate it and interpret all the relation symbols as well as  $\gamma, \vee$  and  $\forall$  semantically, is the resulting value true. If two assignment functions that agree on the free variables of a formula  $\varphi$ , then  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi[s_1]$  if and only if  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi[s_2]$ . Consequently, if  $\varphi$  is a sentence  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi[s]$  for any variable assignment function  $s$ , and so it is meaningful to drop the  $[s]$  and just say  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi$  if  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi[s]$  for all  $s$ .

9. **(Models, satisfiable, truth):** if  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi$ , we say that  $\mathfrak{M}$  models  $\varphi$ . If  $\varphi$  is a formula in  $\mathfrak{M}$ , we will say that it's *satisfiable* if there is a  $\mathfrak{M}$  such that  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi$ . If  $\varphi$  is a sentence, then then if  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi$ , we shall say that  $\varphi$  is *true*.
10. **Existential Quantifier and Shorthand's** Let  $\varphi$  be a formula. Then  $\mathfrak{M} \models (\exists x, \varphi)[s]$  if and only if there is some  $m \in |\mathfrak{M}|$  such that  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi[s(x|m)]$ . Furthermore, for sentences, all the usual rules of logic works for modelling, for example  $\mathfrak{M} \models \neg\alpha$  if and only if  $\mathfrak{M} \not\models \alpha$ . If we were dealing with formulas, we would have to keep track of an assignment function. For a set of formulas  $\Sigma$ , a sentence  $\psi$  and a formula  $\rho$ , we also have:
- $$\Sigma \cup \{\psi\} \models \rho \quad \text{if and only if} \quad \Sigma \models (\psi \rightarrow \rho)$$
11. **Substitution and Substitutability:** replace a particular variable  $x$  with a term  $t$ . As long as the replacement does not change the truth value, then the substitution is substitutable.
12. **Logical Implications** ( $\Delta \models \Gamma$ ) Let  $\Delta, \Gamma$  be two sets of  $\mathcal{L}$ -formula. Then  $\Delta$  logically implies  $\Gamma$  if for any structure where  $\mathfrak{M} \models \Delta$  then  $\mathfrak{M} \models \Gamma$ .
13. **Tautology and Contradiction:** If  $\emptyset \models \varphi$ , then  $\varphi$  is a tautology. If  $\emptyset \models \neg\varphi$ , then  $\varphi$  is a *contradiction*.
14. **Modelling Contradiction:** If  $\varphi$  is a contradiction,  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi[s]$  is false for every structure  $\mathfrak{M}$  and assignment  $s$ . Hence, a set  $\Sigma$  is satisfiable if and only if there is no contradiction  $\chi$  such that  $\Sigma \models \chi$ .
15. **Propositional formulas:** no functions, relations, constants. Just variables, connectives, parenthesis, and recursive relations.
16. **Truth Assignment et al:** assign  $T, F$  to every variable. Then recursively go through formulas and deal with  $\neg$  and  $\rightarrow$ . All the same shorthand's apply for  $\vee, \leftrightarrow, \wedge$ , and so forth. Same notion of satisfiable, tautology, and contradiction, and logical implication (which we will call *propositional implication* if the context requires specificity)

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## *Deductions*

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We have now firmly established the language of logic, with the notion of a language having nouns and statements, structures in which we may wonder if those formulas are satisfiable, and we can ask whether a formula or sentences are valid, that is model any structure with any variable-assignment function. We now learn how to string together deductions that will let us step-by-step deduce more complicated results by incrementally showing each step of the way a true statement that let's us deduce the next. In the beginning, we will start by defining the language of deductions (just like how language have yet to have any truth values). In general, a deductive system need not be *sound*, meaning that a deduction will be equivalent to a *logical implication* (i.e. if we deduce  $B$  from  $A$ ,  $A \vdash B$ , then  $A \models B$ ). This will be called the *soundness theorem*. We will see that the deductive system we will create is indeed sound: that deduction imply implications. In the next chapter, will show the converse, that implication gives deduction: this will be called the *completeness theorem*.

One of the key properties of proof's is that they are (relatively) easy to follow, as compared to the usual difficulty there is in producing them. We would want confidence in being able to know that at the end of a proof, we know it's true and was easily checkable (if at least easy mechanically) to see that it's true. Hence, we be following these restrictions on our logical axioms and rules of inference:

1. There will be an algorithm (i.e., a mechanical procedure) that will decide, given a formula  $\theta$ , whether or not  $\theta$  is a logical axiom.
2. There will be an algorithm that will decide, given a finite set of formulas  $\Gamma$  and a formula  $\theta$ , whether or not  $(\Gamma, \theta)$  is a rule of inference.
3. For each rule of inference  $(\Gamma, \theta)$ ,  $\Gamma$  will be a finite set of formulas.
4. Each logical axiom will be valid.
5. Our rules of inference will preserve truth. In other words, for each rule of inference  $(\Gamma, \theta)$ ,  $\Gamma \models \theta$ .

## 2.1 Deductions

Fix a language  $\mathcal{L}$ . A deduction will be a finite sequence of formula's which we will consider to be legal steps to take letting us go from our assumptions (if any) to our conclusion. If each step of the sequence follows the rule of deduction, we will get a valid deduction. The legal actions we can take may come from one of three sources:

1. the *logical axioms*: these are a collection of formulas which are part of our deductive system that we may use in any deduction (note that the validity of them is not in question yet, they are simply syntactical formulas)
2. the *nonlogical axioms*: These are a collection of formulas which are given *for a given deduction*. They are the assumptions that are made for a particular deduction
3. the *rules of inference*: These are a collection of rules that will tell us when we are allowed to combine two pieces of information together to get the next step in our deduction.

For now, assume we have a fixed set of  $\mathcal{L}$ -formula  $\Lambda$  called the *logical axioms*, and set of ordered pairs  $(\Gamma, \varphi)$  called the *rules of inferences*. In the following sections, we will specify the formulas that belong to the logical axioms and the rules of inferences. The logical axioms are will be formulas that will be deemed to be “justified” in any deduction. Sometimes, we require more context, and so we will sometimes need a context-dependent set  $\Sigma$  to have the justification (thus, a deduction will be dependent on  $\Sigma$ ). The rules of inferences will be a way of deducing the next step in a deduction given what was already deduced.

### Definition 2.1.1: Deduction

Let  $\Sigma$  be a collection of  $\mathcal{L}$ -formulas and  $D$  a finite sequence of  $\mathcal{L}$ -formulas  $(\varphi_1, \varphi_2, \dots, \varphi_n)$ . Then we will say that  $D$  is a *deduction* from  $\Sigma$  if for each  $i$ ,  $1 \leq i \leq n$ , either

1.  $\varphi_i \in \Lambda$  (that is  $\varphi_i$  is a logical axiom)
2.  $\varphi_i \in \Sigma$  (that is  $\varphi_i$  is a nonlogical axiom)
3. there is a rule of inference  $(\Gamma, \varphi_i)$  such that  $\Gamma \subseteq \{\varphi_1, \varphi_2, \dots, \varphi_{i-1}\}$

If there is a deduction from  $\Sigma$ , the last line of which is the formula  $\varphi$ , we will call this a *deduction form  $\Sigma$  of  $\varphi$*  and write  $\Sigma \vdash \varphi$

Depending on  $\Lambda$  and the rules of inferences, there may be many different types of deductive systems. Often, there is either many logical axioms with few rules of inferences, or many rules of inference with few logical axioms, though this is a rule of thumb.

### Example 2.1.2: Deductions

1. Let  $\mathcal{L} = \{P\}$  where  $P$  is a binary relation symbol. Let  $\Sigma$  be our set of axioms

$$\Sigma = \{\forall x P(x, x), P(u, v), P(u, v) \rightarrow P(v, u), P(v, u) \rightarrow P(u, u)\}$$

and let  $\Lambda = \emptyset$  for now. For the rules of inferences, let it be

$$\{(\{\alpha, \alpha \rightarrow \beta\}, \beta) \mid \alpha \text{ and } \beta \text{ are formulas of } \mathcal{L}\}$$

which is the rule of modus ponens, that is the given the formulas  $\alpha$  and  $\alpha \rightarrow \beta$ , we may conclude  $\beta$  (we will abbreviate this to **MP**). Now we can write a deduction from  $\Sigma$  of the formula  $P(u, u)$ ,  $\Sigma \vdash P(u, u)$  as follows

|                               |                    |
|-------------------------------|--------------------|
| $P(u, v)$                     | $\in \Sigma$       |
| $P(u, v) \rightarrow P(v, u)$ | $\in \Sigma$       |
| $P(v, u)$                     | <b>MP</b> , (1, 2) |
| $P(v, u) \rightarrow P(u, u)$ | $\in \Sigma$       |
| $P(u, u)$                     | <b>MP</b> , (3, 4) |

and so, we have deduced  $P(u, u)$ . Note that we could not have deduce  $\forall x P(x, x) \vdash P(u, u)$  since the symbol  $\forall$  is still a formality here! We are very restricted in what symbols means, deductions at this stage are still linguistic manipulation rules.

2. Let  $\Lambda = \Sigma = \emptyset$ . Then given any language  $\mathcal{L}$ , is it possible to deduce something? In fact, it is not<sup>a</sup>! This captures intuitively the idea that we cannot make deductions without any assumptions.

<sup>a</sup>Once we get to rules of inference, if we allow any tautology for any formula  $\varphi$  once converted into propositional logic  $\varphi_p$  to be in a rule of inference, then we can actually deduce more. This will be explored when we talk about rules of inference

### Proposition 2.1.3: Universal set of Deduction for $\Sigma$

Let  $\mathcal{L}$  be a language, fix sets of  $\mathcal{L}$ -formulas  $\Sigma$  and  $\Lambda$ , and a collection of rules of inference  $(\Gamma, \theta)$ , each with  $\Gamma$  finite as required at the start of this chapter. Then the set  $Thm_\Sigma = \{\varphi \mid \Sigma \vdash \varphi\}$  is the smallest set  $C$  of  $\mathcal{L}$ -formulas such that

1.  $\Sigma \subseteq C$
2.  $\Lambda \subseteq C$
3. If  $(\Gamma, \theta)$  is a rule of inference and  $\Gamma \subseteq C$  then  $\theta \in C$ .

#### **Proof:**

Deductions are as in definition 2.1.1. First, a formula  $\sigma \in \Sigma$  has the one-line deduction  $(\sigma)$  from  $\Sigma$ , and a formula  $\lambda \in \Lambda$  has the one-line deduction  $(\lambda)$ . So  $\Sigma \subseteq Thm_\Sigma$  and  $\Lambda \subseteq Thm_\Sigma$ . Now let  $(\Gamma, \theta)$  be a rule of inference with  $\Gamma \subseteq Thm_\Sigma$ , and write  $\Gamma = \{\gamma_1, \dots, \gamma_k\}$ , which is possible as  $\Gamma$  is finite. Choose deductions  $D_1, \dots, D_k$  from  $\Sigma$  whose last lines are  $\gamma_1, \dots, \gamma_k$ , and form the sequence  $D_1 D_2 \dots D_k \theta$ . Each entry of  $D_j$  keeps its justification in definition 2.1.1: that definition constrains an entry only through  $\Lambda$ ,  $\Sigma$ , and the set of entries preceding it, and in the longer sequence an entry of  $D_j$  is preceded by every entry that preceded it in  $D_j$ . The last entry  $\theta$  is justified by the rule  $(\Gamma, \theta)$ , because each  $\gamma_j$  is the last line of  $D_j$  and so precedes  $\theta$ . If  $k = 0$ , the sequence is the single line  $\theta$ , and the rule  $(\emptyset, \theta)$  justifies it since  $\emptyset$  is a subset of the (empty) set of preceding entries. Hence  $\Sigma \vdash \theta$  and  $\theta \in Thm_\Sigma$ , so  $Thm_\Sigma$  satisfies (1) to (3).

Now let  $C$  be any set satisfying (1) to (3), let  $\varphi \in Thm_\Sigma$ , and let  $(\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_n)$  be a deduction of  $\varphi$  from  $\Sigma$ . We show  $\varphi_i \in C$  for every  $i$ , by strong induction on  $i$ . If  $\varphi_i \in \Lambda$  or  $\varphi_i \in \Sigma$ , then

$\varphi_i \in C$  by (2) or (1). Otherwise there is a rule of inference  $(\Gamma, \varphi_i)$  with  $\Gamma \subseteq \{\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_{i-1}\}$ , and  $\Gamma \subseteq C$  by the induction hypothesis, so  $\varphi_i \in C$  by (3). In particular  $\varphi = \varphi_n \in C$ , so  $Thm_\Sigma \subseteq C$ . Thus  $Thm_\Sigma$  is the smallest set satisfying (1) to (3), as claimed.

#### Example 2.1.4: Theorem

Take the sentence  $\varphi \equiv \exists x \exists y ((\neg x = y) \wedge \forall z (z = x \vee z = y))$ . Every  $\mathcal{L}$  structure satisfying this sentence must have exactly two elements in the universe. Hence  $\{\varphi\}$  is a set of non-logical axioms for the collection of sets of cardinality two:

$$\{\mathfrak{M} \mid \mathfrak{M} \text{ is an } \mathcal{L}\text{-structure with exactly two elements}\}$$

## 2.2 The Logical Axioms

We know figure out what our logical axioms will be. There will be an infinite amount of them, but we can they will be decidable (a computer in a finite amount of time can decide whether a given formula  $\varphi$  is a logical axiom or not). These will be the axioms we will use for all our structures. For a particular structure, we will amend some more axioms via  $\Sigma$ . We will talk about those and rules of inference later, concentrating for now on logical axioms

### 2.2.1 Equality Axioms

In these notes, we have taken the approach for  $=$  being part of any language. We will have three equality axioms. These axioms (in particular the last 2) are designed to allow substitution of equal for equals

1. The first simply says that any object is equal to itself

$$x = x \text{ for each variable } x \quad (2.1)$$

2. Assume that  $x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n$  are variable and  $y_1, y_2, \dots, y_n$  are variables and  $f$  is an  $n$ -ary function symbol. Then

$$[(x_1 = y_1) \wedge (x_2 = y_2) \wedge \dots \wedge (x_n = y_n)] \rightarrow (f(x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n) = f(y_1, y_2, \dots, y_n)) \quad (2.2)$$

3. Similarly to the above except replace the function  $f$  with the relation  $R$

$$[(x_1 = y_1) \wedge (x_2 = y_2) \wedge \dots \wedge (x_n = y_n)] \rightarrow (R(x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n) \rightarrow R(y_1, y_2, \dots, y_n)) \quad (2.3)$$

Sometimes,  $=$  is seen as a part of this part

### 2.2.2 Quantifier Axioms

The Quantifier axioms allow for easy substitution. In other words, if we have  $\forall x P(x)$ , and  $t$  is a term in our language, we would like to be able to state  $P(t)$ , or if we have formula where we can substitute  $t$  by  $x$   $\varphi_t^x$ , then we want to say  $\exists x \varphi$ . Hence the following axioms:

1. (universal substantiation)

$$(\forall x\varphi) \rightarrow \varphi_t^x, \text{ if } t \text{ is substitutable for } x \text{ in } \varphi \quad (2.4)$$

2. (existential generalization)

$$\varphi_t^x \rightarrow (\exists x\varphi), \text{ if } t \text{ is substitutable for } x \text{ in } \varphi \quad (2.5)$$

## 2.3 Rules of Inference

We will have two rules of inferences: one for propositional consequences and one for quantifiers. To understand rules of inference, we will briefly dive into *propositional logic*. We will be working with a restricted language  $\mathcal{L}_P$  consisting of countably infinite propositional variables  $A, B, C, \dots$  and connectives  $\vee$  and  $\neg$  (or  $\neg$  and  $\rightarrow$ ). We have no quantifiers, no relation symbols, no function symbols, and no constants. Formulas are defined as being the collection of all  $\varphi$  such that  $\varphi$  is a propositional variable, or  $\varphi$  is  $(\neg\alpha)$  or  $\varphi$  is  $(\alpha \vee \beta)$ , with  $\alpha$  and  $\beta$  being formulas of propositional logic. Each propositional variable can be assigned one of two truth values:  $T$  or  $F$  via a truth assignment function  $v$ . We then extend  $v$  to any formula as so:

$$\bar{v}(\varphi) = \begin{cases} v(\varphi) & \text{if } \varphi \text{ is a propositional variable} \\ F & \text{if } \varphi \equiv (\neg\alpha) \text{ and } \bar{v}(\alpha) = T \\ F & \text{if } \varphi \equiv (\alpha \vee \beta) \text{ and } \bar{v}(\alpha) = \bar{v}(\beta) = F \\ T & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

With this, we have the following definition:

### Definition 2.3.1: Tautology And Contradiction

Let  $\varphi$  be a propositional formula. Then  $\varphi$  is a *tautology* if  $\bar{v}(\varphi) = T$  for any truth assignment  $v$ , and a *contradiction* if  $\bar{v}(\varphi) = F$  for any truth assignment  $v$ .

Propositional logic will be a useful simplification of first-order logic. We will show how to convert a  $\mathcal{L}$ -formula  $\beta$  into a (propositional) formula  $\beta_P$

1. Find all subformulas of  $\beta$  of the form  $\forall x\alpha$  that are not in the scope of another quantifier. Replace them with propositional variables in a systematic fashion. This means that if  $\forall yQ(y, c)$  appears twice in  $\beta$ , it is replaced by the same letter both times, and distinct subformulas are replaced by distinct letters
2. Find all atomic formulas that remain, and replace them systematically with new propositional variables

For example, take

$$(\forall xP(x) \wedge Q(c, z)) \rightarrow (Q(c, z) \vee \forall xP(x))$$

Then this would become

$$(B \wedge A) \rightarrow (A \vee B)$$

Note that if  $\beta_P$  is a tautology, then  $\beta$  is valid, but the converse is false

**Example 2.3.2: Valid First Order Formula Not Tautology**

Let

$$\beta \equiv [(\forall x)(\theta) \wedge (\forall x)(\theta \rightarrow \rho)] \rightarrow (\forall x)(\rho)$$

Then  $\beta$  is valid, but  $\beta_P$  would be  $[A \wedge B] \rightarrow C$ , which is certainly not a tautology.

**Definition 2.3.3: Propositional Consequence for Propositional Logic**

Let  $\Gamma_P$  be a set of propositional formulas and  $\phi_P$  a propositional formula. The new will say that  $\phi_P$  is a propositional consequence of  $\Gamma - P$  if every truth assignment that makes each propositional formula in  $\Gamma_P$  true also makes  $\phi_P$  true. Notice that  $\phi_P$  is a tautology if and only if  $\phi_P$  is a propositional consequence of  $\emptyset$

**Lemma 2.3.4: propositional Consequence Equivalent Formulation**

If  $\Gamma_P = \{(\gamma_1)_P, \dots, (\gamma_n)_P\}$  is a nonempty finite set of propositional formulas and  $\phi_P$  is a propositional formula, then  $\phi_P$  is a propositional consequence of  $\Gamma_P$  if and only if

$$[(\gamma_1)_P \wedge (\gamma_2)_P \wedge \dots \wedge (\gamma_n)_P] \rightarrow \phi_P$$

is a tautology

**Proof:**

Truth values are computed by the extension  $\bar{v}$  of a truth assignment  $v$  displayed at the start of this section, whose connectives are  $\neg$  and  $\vee$ , with  $(\alpha \wedge \beta)$  and  $(\alpha \rightarrow \beta)$  the abbreviations  $(\neg((\neg\alpha) \vee (\neg\beta)))$  and  $((\neg\alpha) \vee \beta)$  fixed after definition 1.1.5. By the clauses of  $\bar{v}$ ,  $\bar{v}((\neg\alpha) \vee \beta) = F$  exactly when  $\bar{v}(\neg\alpha) = F$  and  $\bar{v}(\beta) = F$ , that is, when  $\bar{v}(\alpha) = T$  and  $\bar{v}(\beta) = F$ . So (i)  $\bar{v}(\alpha \rightarrow \beta) = T$  exactly when  $\bar{v}(\alpha) = F$  or  $\bar{v}(\beta) = T$ . Likewise  $\bar{v}(\neg((\neg\alpha) \vee (\neg\beta))) = T$  exactly when  $\bar{v}((\neg\alpha) \vee (\neg\beta)) = F$ , that is, when  $\bar{v}(\neg\alpha) = \bar{v}(\neg\beta) = F$ , that is, when  $\bar{v}(\alpha) = \bar{v}(\beta) = T$ . So (ii)  $\bar{v}(\alpha \wedge \beta) = T$  exactly when  $\bar{v}(\alpha) = \bar{v}(\beta) = T$ . If the connectives are  $\neg$  and  $\rightarrow$ , as this section also allows, (i) and (ii) are items (2) and (3) of proposition 1.7.4.

Write  $\gamma$  for the conjunction  $[(\gamma_1)_P \wedge \dots \wedge (\gamma_n)_P]$ , grouped in any way, for instance to the right. We claim  $\bar{v}(\gamma) = T$  exactly when  $\bar{v}((\gamma_i)_P) = T$  for every  $i \leq n$ , by induction on  $n \geq 1$ . For  $n = 1$  the conjunction is  $(\gamma_1)_P$ . For  $n \geq 2$  it is  $(\gamma' \wedge \gamma'')$ , where  $\gamma'$  and  $\gamma''$  are groupings of the first  $j$  and of the last  $n - j$  conjuncts for some  $1 \leq j < n$ , and (ii) with the induction hypothesis for  $\gamma'$  and  $\gamma''$  gives the claim. By (i),  $\bar{v}(\gamma \rightarrow \phi_P) = T$  exactly when  $\bar{v}(\gamma) = F$  or  $\bar{v}(\phi_P) = T$ .

Hence  $\gamma \rightarrow \phi_P$  is a tautology (definition 2.3.1) exactly when every truth assignment  $v$  has  $\bar{v}(\gamma) = F$  or  $\bar{v}(\phi_P) = T$ , that is, exactly when every truth assignment  $v$  with  $\bar{v}((\gamma_i)_P) = T$  for all  $i \leq n$  has  $\bar{v}(\phi_P) = T$ . By definition 2.3.3, this last condition says that  $\phi_P$  is a propositional consequence of  $\Gamma_P$ , as claimed.

**Definition 2.3.5: Propositional Consequence For 1st Order Logic**

Let  $\Gamma$  be a finite set of  $\mathcal{L}$ -formulas and  $\varphi$  is an  $\mathcal{L}$ -formula. Then we will say that  $\varphi$  is a propositional consequence of  $\Gamma$  if  $\varphi_P$  is a propositional consequence of  $\Gamma_P$ .

**Example 2.3.6: Propositional Consequence For 1st Order Logic**

Let  $\mathcal{L}$  be a language that contains two relations symbols  $P$  and  $Q$ . Let  $\Gamma$  be the set

$$\{\forall x P(x) \rightarrow \exists y Q(y), \exists y Q(y) \rightarrow P(x), \neg P(x) \leftrightarrow (y = z)\}$$

If we let  $\varphi$  be the formula  $\forall x P(x) \rightarrow \neg(y = z)$ , then by applying the conversion procedure we get that

$$\Gamma_P = \{A \rightarrow B, B \rightarrow C, \neg C \leftrightarrow D\}$$

and

$$\varphi_P \equiv A \rightarrow \neg D$$

Then we can easily see that  $\varphi$  is a propositional consequence of  $\Gamma$ .

**Definition 2.3.7: Rule Of Inference Of Type (PC)**

Let  $\Gamma$  be a finite set of  $\mathcal{L}$ -formulas,  $\varphi$  is an  $\mathcal{L}$ -formula, and  $\varphi$  is a propositional consequence of  $\Gamma$ , then  $(\Gamma, \varphi)$  is a *rule of inference of type (PC)*.

The point behind the formalism is that we managed to prove, say  $\gamma_1, \gamma_2$ , and we proved that

$$[\gamma_1 \wedge \gamma_2 \rightarrow \varphi]_P$$

is a tautology, then we may conclude  $\varphi$ . Furthermore, if  $\varphi_P$  is a tautology, rule (PC) allows us to assert  $\varphi$  in any deduction by setting  $\Gamma = \emptyset$ .

**2.3.1 Quantifier Rules**

The idea behind Quantifier rules is simple: If we managed to prove “ $x$  is this property” without quantifying  $x$ , then it is reasonable to say that we have proved “ $(\forall x)x$  is this property”. Similarly, if we proved something with the assumption of “ $x$  did this thing”, then it is safe to say that we assume “ $(\exists x)x$  did this thing”, then we can still prove the same thing

**Definition 2.3.8: Rules Of Inference Of Type (QR)**

Suppose that the variable  $x$  is not free in the formula  $\psi$ . Then both of the following are *rules of inference of type (QR)*:

$$\begin{aligned} &(\{\psi \rightarrow \varphi\}, \psi \rightarrow (\forall x \varphi(x))) \\ &(\{\varphi \rightarrow \psi\}, \psi \rightarrow (\exists x \varphi) \rightarrow \psi) \end{aligned}$$

What we are essentially saying is

1. From the formula  $\psi \rightarrow \varphi$ , we may deduce  $\psi \rightarrow (\forall x\varphi)$
2. From the formula  $\varphi \rightarrow \psi$ , we may deduce  $(\exists x\varphi) \rightarrow \psi$

## 2.4 Soundness

We now verify that our deductive system is *sound*: every deduction records a genuine logical implication. The heart of the matter is that each logical axiom is valid and each rule of inference preserves truth; soundness then follows by induction on the length of a deduction. We first record the semantic effect of a substitution, on which the quantifier axioms rest.

### Lemma 2.4.1: Substitution Lemma

Let  $\varphi$  be an  $\mathcal{L}$ -formula,  $x$  a variable, and  $t$  a term substitutable for  $x$  in  $\varphi$ . Then for every  $\mathcal{L}$ -structure  $\mathfrak{A}$  and every assignment  $s$  into  $\mathfrak{A}$ ,

$$\mathfrak{A} \models \varphi_t^x[s] \quad \text{if and only if} \quad \mathfrak{A} \models \varphi[s(x|\bar{s}(t))]$$

#### *Proof:*

We first record the corresponding term identity: for every term  $u$ ,  $\bar{s}(u_t^x) = \bar{s}'(u)$  where  $s' = s(x|\bar{s}(t))$ . This is a structural induction on  $u$ . If  $u$  is  $x$ , then  $u_t^x = t$  and  $\bar{s}(t) = s'(x) = \bar{s}'(u)$ . If  $u$  is a variable other than  $x$  or a constant symbol, then  $u_t^x = u$  and  $s, s'$  agree on it. If  $u := fu_1 \dots u_n$ , then  $\bar{s}(u_t^x) = f^{\mathfrak{A}}(\bar{s}((u_1)_t^x), \dots) = f^{\mathfrak{A}}(\bar{s}'(u_1), \dots) = \bar{s}'(u)$  by the induction hypothesis.

Now the formula statement, by induction on the number of connectives and quantifiers of  $\varphi$ . For an atomic formula ( $t_1 = t_2$  or  $Rt_1 \dots t_n$ ) the claim is immediate from the term identity applied to each argument. The cases  $\varphi := \neg\alpha$  and  $\varphi := (\alpha \vee \beta)$  follow at once from the induction hypothesis, since substitution commutes with the connectives. Finally suppose  $\varphi := (\forall y)(\alpha)$  with  $t$  substitutable for  $x$  in  $\varphi$ . If  $x$  is  $y$  or  $x$  is not free in  $\varphi$ , then  $\varphi_t^x = \varphi$  and  $s, s'$  agree on the free variables of  $\varphi$ , so the claim is proposition 1.4.8. Otherwise substitutability forces  $y$  not to occur in  $t$ , so  $\bar{s}(y|a)(t) = \bar{s}(t)$  for every  $a \in A$ ; applying the induction hypothesis to  $\alpha$  under the assignment  $s(y|a)$  and quantifying over  $a$  yields the claim for  $\varphi$ .

### Theorem 2.4.2: Soundness Of The Logical Axioms

Every logical axiom is valid.

#### *Proof:*

The equality axiom  $x = x$  holds in every structure under every assignment because  $=^{\mathfrak{A}}$  is genuine equality on the universe; the function and relation congruence axioms hold because equal arguments have equal images under  $f^{\mathfrak{A}}$  and lie in  $R^{\mathfrak{A}}$  together. For the quantifier axioms, fix  $\mathfrak{A}, s$  and suppose  $t$  is substitutable for  $x$  in  $\varphi$ . If  $\mathfrak{A} \models (\forall x\varphi)[s]$ , then  $\mathfrak{A} \models \varphi[s(x|a)]$  for every  $a \in A$ , in particular for  $a = \bar{s}(t)$ ; by the Substitution Lemma this is  $\mathfrak{A} \models \varphi_t^x[s]$ . Hence  $(\forall x\varphi) \rightarrow \varphi_t^x$  is valid, and its existential counterpart  $\varphi_t^x \rightarrow \exists x\varphi$  is handled dually.

**Theorem 2.4.3: Soundness Of The Rules Of Inference**

If  $(\Gamma, \theta)$  is a rule of inference, then  $\Gamma \models \theta$ .

**Proof:**

Suppose first that  $(\Gamma, \theta)$  is of type (PC), so  $\theta_P$  is a propositional consequence of  $\Gamma_P$ . Fix  $\mathfrak{A}, s$  with  $\mathfrak{A} \models \gamma[s]$  for every  $\gamma \in \Gamma$ . Assigning to each propositional variable of the translation the truth value of the corresponding first-order subformula under  $(\mathfrak{A}, s)$  defines a truth assignment  $v$  with  $v(\gamma_P) = T$  for all  $\gamma \in \Gamma$ ; since  $\theta_P$  is a propositional consequence of  $\Gamma_P$ , also  $v(\theta_P) = T$ , that is  $\mathfrak{A} \models \theta[s]$ . Suppose instead  $(\Gamma, \theta)$  is of type (QR), say  $\Gamma = \{\psi \rightarrow \varphi\}$  and  $\theta \equiv \psi \rightarrow (\forall x\varphi)$  with  $x$  not free in  $\psi$ . Fix  $\mathfrak{A}, s$  with  $\mathfrak{A} \models (\psi \rightarrow \varphi)[s]$  and suppose  $\mathfrak{A} \models \psi[s]$ . For any  $a \in A$  the assignment  $s(x|a)$  still satisfies  $\psi$  (as  $x$  is not free in  $\psi$ , by proposition 1.4.8), hence  $\mathfrak{A} \models \varphi[s(x|a)]$ ; as  $a$  was arbitrary,  $\mathfrak{A} \models (\forall x\varphi)[s]$ , so  $\mathfrak{A} \models \theta[s]$ . The existential rule is dual.

**Theorem 2.4.4: Soundness Theorem**

If  $\Sigma \vdash \varphi$  then  $\Sigma \models \varphi$ .

**Proof:**

Let  $(\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_n)$  be a deduction of  $\varphi = \varphi_n$  from  $\Sigma$ , and fix  $\mathfrak{A}, s$  with  $\mathfrak{A} \models \Sigma[s]$ . We show  $\mathfrak{A} \models \varphi_i[s]$  for every  $i$  by induction on  $i$ . If  $\varphi_i$  is a logical axiom it is valid by theorem 2.4.2; if  $\varphi_i \in \Sigma$  then  $\mathfrak{A} \models \varphi_i[s]$  by assumption; and if  $\varphi_i$  arises from a rule  $(\Gamma, \varphi_i)$  with  $\Gamma \subseteq \{\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_{i-1}\}$ , then  $\mathfrak{A} \models \Gamma[s]$  by the induction hypothesis, so  $\mathfrak{A} \models \varphi_i[s]$  by theorem 2.4.3. In particular  $\mathfrak{A} \models \varphi[s]$ ; as  $\mathfrak{A}, s$  were arbitrary,  $\Sigma \models \varphi$ .

## 2.5 Propositional Logic: a Warm-Up

We take a moment to develop a different deductive system that is still sound. This deductive system will be for propositional logic. For any language  $\mathcal{L}$ , we will label  $\mathcal{L}_P$  the propositional language induced by  $\mathcal{L}$ . in this section, the term formula will refer to *propositional formula*.

**Definition 2.5.1: Axiom Schema**

For any formulas'  $\alpha, \beta, \gamma \in \mathcal{L}_P$ , the following are valid axioms:

- A1  $(\alpha \rightarrow (\beta \rightarrow \alpha))$
- A2  $((\alpha \rightarrow (\beta \rightarrow \gamma)) \rightarrow ((\alpha \rightarrow \beta) \rightarrow (\alpha \rightarrow \gamma)))$
- A3  $((\neg\beta) \rightarrow (\neg\alpha)) \rightarrow (((\neg\beta) \rightarrow \alpha) \rightarrow \beta)$

These three are called the *axiom schemas*, and any particular choice of formulas gives an *axiom* of  $\mathcal{L}_P$

this is the equivalent to the logical axioms  $\Lambda$ . It should be shown that every axiom of  $\mathcal{L}_P$  is a tautology (and hence, if converted from syntactic to semantic meaning, it is already sound).

The rule of inference we will have is simply Modus Ponens

**Definition 2.5.2: Modus Ponens (MP)**

Given any formula  $\varphi$  and  $(\varphi \rightarrow \psi)$ , then we may infer  $\psi$ , i.e.

$$(\{\varphi, (\varphi \rightarrow \psi)\}, \psi)$$

is our rule of inference.

It is important for future reference to box the following result:

**Proposition 2.5.3: MP and axiom Satisfies Logical Implication**

The logical axioms are tautologies, and

$$\{\varphi, (\varphi \rightarrow \psi)\} \models \psi$$

Do not forget that as of yet, MP is just a rule by which we can add further formulas to our deduction and does not have a semantic meaning. If you wish, you can think that it simply happens that MP satisfies the above formula

**Proof:**

The logical axioms here are the instances of A1, A2, A3 in definition 2.5.1, and truth assignments are those of definition 1.7.3, under which  $v(\alpha \rightarrow \beta) = F$  exactly when  $v(\alpha) = T$  and  $v(\beta) = F$ . Each axiom is a tautology in the sense of definition 1.7.6, because a truth assignment  $v$  giving it the value  $F$  leads to a contradiction in each case.

- A1:  $v(\alpha \rightarrow (\beta \rightarrow \alpha)) = F$  requires  $v(\alpha) = T$  and  $v(\beta \rightarrow \alpha) = F$ , and the latter requires  $v(\alpha) = F$ .
- A2:  $v$  of the axiom is  $F$  only if  $v(\alpha \rightarrow (\beta \rightarrow \gamma)) = T$  and  $v((\alpha \rightarrow \beta) \rightarrow (\alpha \rightarrow \gamma)) = F$ . The latter requires  $v(\alpha \rightarrow \beta) = T$  and  $v(\alpha \rightarrow \gamma) = F$ , so  $v(\alpha) = T$  and  $v(\gamma) = F$ , and then  $v(\alpha \rightarrow \beta) = T$  forces  $v(\beta) = T$ . Now  $v(\beta \rightarrow \gamma) = F$ , and with  $v(\alpha) = T$  this gives  $v(\alpha \rightarrow (\beta \rightarrow \gamma)) = F$ .
- A3:  $v$  of the axiom is  $F$  only if  $v((\neg\beta) \rightarrow (\neg\alpha)) = T$  and  $v(((\neg\beta) \rightarrow \alpha) \rightarrow \beta) = F$ . The latter requires  $v((\neg\beta) \rightarrow \alpha) = T$  and  $v(\beta) = F$ , so  $v(\neg\beta) = T$ . Then  $v((\neg\beta) \rightarrow \alpha) = T$  forces  $v(\alpha) = T$ , while  $v((\neg\beta) \rightarrow (\neg\alpha)) = T$  forces  $v(\neg\alpha) = T$ , that is,  $v(\alpha) = F$ .

For the second claim, let  $v$  satisfy  $\{\varphi, (\varphi \rightarrow \psi)\}$ . If  $v(\psi) = F$ , then  $v(\varphi) = T$  would give  $v(\varphi \rightarrow \psi) = F$ , which is not the case. So  $v(\psi) = T$ , and  $\{\varphi, (\varphi \rightarrow \psi)\} \models \psi$  by definition 1.7.7, completing the proof.

The definition of deduction remains the same as for first-order logic.

**Example 2.5.4: Deductions In Propositional Logic**

1. We will show  $\vdash \varphi \rightarrow \varphi$

|                                                                                                                                                                                         |         |
|-----------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|---------|
| $(\varphi \rightarrow ((\varphi \rightarrow \varphi) \rightarrow \varphi)) \rightarrow ((\varphi \rightarrow (\varphi \rightarrow \varphi)) \rightarrow (\varphi \rightarrow \varphi))$ | A2      |
| $\varphi \rightarrow ((\varphi \rightarrow \varphi) \rightarrow \varphi)$                                                                                                               | A1      |
| $(\varphi \rightarrow (\varphi \rightarrow \varphi)) \rightarrow (\varphi \rightarrow \varphi)$                                                                                         | 1, 2 MP |
| $\varphi \rightarrow (\varphi \rightarrow \varphi)$                                                                                                                                     | A1      |
| $\varphi \rightarrow \varphi$                                                                                                                                                           | 3,4 MP  |

2. We will next show transitivity:  $\{\alpha \rightarrow \beta, \beta \rightarrow \gamma\} \vdash \alpha \rightarrow \gamma$ :

|                                                                                                                                    |         |
|------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|---------|
| $(\beta \rightarrow \gamma) \rightarrow (\alpha \rightarrow (\beta \rightarrow \gamma))$                                           | A1      |
| $\beta \rightarrow \gamma$                                                                                                         | Premise |
| $\alpha \rightarrow (\beta \rightarrow \gamma)$                                                                                    | 1,2 MP  |
| $(\alpha \rightarrow (\beta \rightarrow \gamma)) \rightarrow ((\alpha \rightarrow \beta) \rightarrow (\alpha \rightarrow \gamma))$ | A2      |
| $(\alpha \rightarrow \beta) \rightarrow (\alpha \rightarrow \gamma)$                                                               | 4,3 MP  |
| $\alpha \rightarrow \beta$                                                                                                         | Premise |
| $\alpha \rightarrow \gamma$                                                                                                        | 5,6 MP  |

Hence,  $\{\alpha \rightarrow \beta, \beta \rightarrow \gamma\} \vdash \alpha \rightarrow \gamma$ , completing the proof.

3. Since we have shown the above two deductions, which is simply a finite length of sequences, we may always simply add in the deduction of them into any other deduction. For example, we will show  $\vdash (\neg\alpha \rightarrow \alpha) \rightarrow \alpha$

|                                                                                                        |               |
|--------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|---------------|
| $(\neg\alpha \rightarrow \neg\alpha) \rightarrow ((\neg\alpha \rightarrow \alpha) \rightarrow \alpha)$ | A3            |
| $(\neg\alpha \rightarrow \neg\alpha)$                                                                  | first example |
| $(\neg\alpha \rightarrow \alpha) \rightarrow \alpha$                                                   | 1,2 MP        |

completing the proof.

4. Another useful one to have is  $\{\alpha \rightarrow (\beta \rightarrow \gamma), \beta\} \vdash \alpha \rightarrow \gamma$ :

|                                                                                                                                    |         |
|------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|---------|
| $(\alpha \rightarrow (\beta \rightarrow \gamma)) \rightarrow ((\alpha \rightarrow \beta) \rightarrow (\alpha \rightarrow \gamma))$ | A2      |
| $\alpha \rightarrow (\beta \rightarrow \gamma)$                                                                                    | Premise |
| $(\alpha \rightarrow \beta) \rightarrow (\alpha \rightarrow \gamma)$                                                               | 1,2 MP  |
| $\beta \rightarrow (\alpha \rightarrow \beta)$                                                                                     | A1      |
| $\beta$                                                                                                                            | Premise |
| $\alpha \rightarrow \beta$                                                                                                         | 4,5 MP  |
| $\alpha \rightarrow \gamma$                                                                                                        | 3,6 MP  |

completing the proof.

5. For  $\vdash \alpha \vee \neg\alpha$ , remember to first convert to  $\neg a \rightarrow b$ , which in this case is  $(\neg\alpha) \rightarrow \neg\alpha$ , which we have shown is deducible in example 1.

6. A result that combines many of the above results is the following:  $\vdash \neg\neg\beta \rightarrow \beta$

$$(\neg\beta \rightarrow \neg\neg\beta) \rightarrow ((\neg\beta \rightarrow \neg\beta) \rightarrow \beta) \quad \text{A3}$$

$$(\neg\neg\beta \rightarrow (\neg\beta \rightarrow \neg\neg\beta)) \quad \text{A1}$$

$$\neg\neg\beta \rightarrow ((\neg\beta \rightarrow \neg\beta) \rightarrow \beta) \quad \text{1,2 and example 2}$$

$$\neg\beta \rightarrow \neg\beta \quad \text{example 1}$$

$$\neg\neg\beta \rightarrow \beta \quad \text{3,4 example 4}$$

completing the proof.

There are many important shortcuts that one ought to know

#### Lemma 2.5.5: Deduction Shortcuts

1. If  $(\varphi_1, \varphi_2, \dots, \varphi_n)$  is a deduction of  $\mathcal{L}_P$ , then  $\varphi_1, \varphi_2, \dots, \varphi_l$  is a deduction of  $\mathcal{L}_P$ ,  $1 \leq l \leq n$
2. If  $\Gamma \vdash \delta$ ,  $\Gamma \vdash \delta \rightarrow \beta$ , then  $\Gamma \vdash \beta$
3. If  $\Gamma \subseteq \Delta$  and  $\Gamma \vdash \alpha$ , then  $\Delta \vdash \alpha$
4. If  $\Gamma \vdash \Delta$ ,  $\Delta \vdash \sigma$ , then  $\Gamma \vdash \sigma$

#### Proof:

Deductions are as in definition 2.1.1, with the instances of A1, A2, A3 of definition 2.5.1 as the logical axioms and Modus Ponens (definition 2.5.2) as the rule of inference.

1. Let  $(\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_n)$  be a deduction from a set  $\Gamma$  and let  $1 \leq l \leq n$ . The condition of definition 2.1.1 on an entry  $\varphi_i$  mentions only the logical axioms,  $\Gamma$ , and the entries  $\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_{i-1}$ . For  $i \leq l$  these are the same in  $(\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_l)$  as in the full sequence, so  $(\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_l)$  is a deduction from  $\Gamma$ .
2. Let  $(\alpha_1, \dots, \alpha_p)$  and  $(\beta_1, \dots, \beta_q)$  be deductions from  $\Gamma$  with  $\alpha_p \equiv \delta$  and  $\beta_q \equiv \delta \rightarrow \beta$ . In the sequence  $(\alpha_1, \dots, \alpha_p, \beta_1, \dots, \beta_q, \beta)$  each  $\alpha_i$  and each  $\beta_j$  keeps its justification, because every entry that preceded it in its own deduction still precedes it. The last entry  $\beta$  follows by Modus Ponens from the earlier entries  $\delta$  and  $\delta \rightarrow \beta$ . So the sequence is a deduction of  $\beta$  from  $\Gamma$ , and  $\Gamma \vdash \beta$ .
3. The only clause of definition 2.1.1 that mentions the nonlogical axioms is  $\varphi_i \in \Gamma$ , and  $\Gamma \subseteq \Delta$  turns it into  $\varphi_i \in \Delta$ . So a deduction of  $\alpha$  from  $\Gamma$  is a deduction of  $\alpha$  from  $\Delta$ .
4. Here  $\Gamma \vdash \Delta$  means  $\Gamma \vdash \delta$  for every  $\delta \in \Delta$ . Let  $(\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_n)$  be a deduction of  $\sigma$  from  $\Delta$ . We show  $\Gamma \vdash \varphi_i$  for every  $i$ , by strong induction on  $i$ . If  $\varphi_i$  is a logical axiom, the one-line sequence  $(\varphi_i)$  is a deduction from  $\Gamma$ . If  $\varphi_i \in \Delta$ , then  $\Gamma \vdash \varphi_i$  by hypothesis. If  $\varphi_i$  follows by Modus Ponens from  $\varphi_u$  and  $\varphi_w \equiv \varphi_u \rightarrow \varphi_i$  with  $u, w < i$ , then  $\Gamma \vdash \varphi_u$  and  $\Gamma \vdash \varphi_u \rightarrow \varphi_i$  by the induction hypothesis, and  $\Gamma \vdash \varphi_i$  by item (2). For  $i = n$  this gives  $\Gamma \vdash \sigma$ , completing the proof.

An important result is that two opposite formulas can deduce anything:

**Theorem 2.5.6: Contradiction Deduces Anything**For any  $\delta$  and  $\gamma$ 

$$\{\delta, \neg\delta\} \vdash \gamma$$

showing that having (intuitively) a premise and the negation of the premise can imply anything

**Proof:**

|     |                                                                                                        |         |
|-----|--------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|---------|
| (1) | $\neg\delta \rightarrow (\neg\gamma \rightarrow \neg\delta)$                                           | A1      |
| (2) | $\neg\delta$                                                                                           | Premise |
| (3) | $\neg\gamma \rightarrow \neg\delta$                                                                    | 1,2 MP  |
| (4) | $\delta \rightarrow (\neg\gamma \rightarrow \delta)$                                                   | A1      |
| (5) | $\delta$                                                                                               | Premise |
| (6) | $\neg\gamma \rightarrow \delta$                                                                        | 4,5 MP  |
| (7) | $(\neg\gamma \rightarrow \neg\delta) \rightarrow ((\neg\gamma \rightarrow \delta) \rightarrow \gamma)$ | A3      |
| (8) | $(\neg\gamma \rightarrow \delta) \rightarrow \gamma$                                                   | 3,7 MP  |
| (9) | $\gamma$                                                                                               | 6, 8 MP |

One important simplification that is important but more complicated to prove is the following

**Theorem 2.5.7: Deduction Theorem**If  $\Sigma$  is any set of formulas,  $\alpha$  and  $\Gamma$  are any formula, then  $\Sigma \vdash \alpha \rightarrow \beta$  if and only if  $\Sigma \cup \{\alpha\} \vdash \beta$ **Proof:**The fact that  $\Sigma \vdash (\alpha \rightarrow \beta)$ , then  $\Sigma \cup \{\alpha\} \vdash \beta$  is easy: simply use Modus Ponens.For the other direction, assume  $\Sigma \cup \{\alpha\} \vdash \beta$ . We will use induction on the minimal length of deduction (which exists since we are dealing with discrete quantities bounded below by a minimal length of 1). If  $n = 1$ , then  $\beta$  is a member of  $\Sigma$ , a logical axiom, or  $\alpha$  itself. In the first two cases, using axiom 1 we have:

|                                                |                                       |
|------------------------------------------------|---------------------------------------|
| $\beta$                                        | $\beta \in \Sigma$ or a logical axiom |
| $\beta \rightarrow (\alpha \rightarrow \beta)$ | A1                                    |
| $\alpha \rightarrow \beta$                     | 1,2 MP                                |

If  $\beta$  is  $\alpha$ , then  $\vdash \alpha \rightarrow \alpha$  by example 2.5.4(1), so  $\Sigma \vdash \alpha \rightarrow \alpha$  by lemma 2.5.5(3). So let's say it holds true for  $k < n$  so that for any  $\delta, \gamma$  if a shortest deduction  $\Sigma \cup \{\delta\} \vdash \gamma$  has length  $k$  then  $\Sigma \vdash (\delta \rightarrow \gamma)$ . Since the length of the deduction is longer than 1, the formula  $\beta$  is neither a member of  $\Sigma \cup \{\alpha\}$  nor a logical axiom, or else it would have a deduction of length 1. Take a deduction  $\Sigma \cup \{\alpha\} \vdash \beta$  with a shortest length deduction  $n$ . Since we conclude  $\beta$ , it must be we use modus ponens to arrive at  $\beta$  in the deduction  $\Sigma \cup \{\alpha\} \vdash \beta$ , meaning we have  $\varphi_i, \varphi_j$  with  $i, j < n$  with which we use MP. Note that  $\max(i, j) = n - 1$ , since if it were less, then we would have a shortest deduction of length less than  $n$ , contradicting our assumption of  $n$  being the minimal

length. Thus, let

$$\varphi_i = \theta \quad \varphi_j = \theta \rightarrow \beta$$

We now have two deduction, each of length less than  $n$ :

$$\Sigma \cup \{\alpha\} \vdash \theta \quad \Sigma \cup \{\alpha\} \vdash (\theta \rightarrow \beta)$$

hence, by our induction hypothesis, we also have:

$$\Sigma \vdash \alpha \rightarrow \theta \quad \Sigma \vdash \alpha \rightarrow (\theta \rightarrow \beta) \quad (2.6)$$

We now finish up: concatenate the deduction's in equation (2.6). Then, add to it the following version of axiom 2:

$$[\alpha \rightarrow (\theta \rightarrow \beta)] \rightarrow (\alpha \rightarrow \theta) \rightarrow (\alpha \rightarrow \beta)]$$

Then since we have  $\alpha \rightarrow (\theta \rightarrow \beta)$ , by modus ponens we have

$$(\alpha \rightarrow \theta) \rightarrow (\alpha \rightarrow \beta)$$

and since we have  $\alpha \rightarrow \theta$ , by modus ponens again we have:

$$\alpha \rightarrow \beta$$

Hence, we have

$$\Sigma \vdash \alpha \rightarrow \beta$$

completing the proof.

Using this theorem, we can make some results easier:

### Example 2.5.8: Using Deduction Theorem

1.  $\vdash \varphi \rightarrow \varphi$  if and only if  $\{\varphi\} \rightarrow \varphi$ , which is trivial.
2. Since  $\vdash \neg\neg\beta \rightarrow \beta$ , it is easy to show  $\vdash \beta \rightarrow \neg\neg\beta$  in combination with the Deduction theorem, in particular showing that  $\beta \vdash \neg\neg\beta$ . Letting  $\alpha \equiv (\neg\beta)$ , we have

|     |                                                                                                                         |                                            |
|-----|-------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|--------------------------------------------|
| (1) | $\neg\neg(\neg\beta) \rightarrow \neg\beta$                                                                             | $\vdash \neg\neg\alpha \rightarrow \alpha$ |
| (2) | $(\neg\neg(\neg\beta) \rightarrow \neg\beta) \rightarrow ((\neg\neg\beta \rightarrow \beta) \rightarrow \neg\neg\beta)$ | A3                                         |
| (3) | $(\neg\neg\beta \rightarrow \beta) \rightarrow \neg\neg\beta$                                                           | 1,2 MP                                     |
| (4) | $\beta \rightarrow (\neg\neg\beta \rightarrow \beta)$                                                                   | A1                                         |
| (5) | $\beta$                                                                                                                 | Premise                                    |
| (6) | $(\neg\neg\beta \rightarrow \beta)$                                                                                     | 4,5 MP                                     |
| (7) | $\neg\neg\beta$                                                                                                         | 3,6 MP                                     |

3.  $\neg\neg a \rightarrow b \vdash a \rightarrow b$ . By the deduction theorem, we have  $\{\neg\neg a \rightarrow b, a\} \vdash b$ . Since  $a \vdash \neg\neg a$ , we have

|                            |                       |
|----------------------------|-----------------------|
| $\neg\neg a \rightarrow b$ | premise               |
| $\neg\neg a$               | $a \vdash \neg\neg a$ |
| $b$                        |                       |

completing the proof. Similarly, since  $\neg\neg a \vdash a$ , we can prove  $a \rightarrow b \vdash \neg\neg a \rightarrow b$

Another important result is Modus tollens

**Lemma 2.5.9: Modus Tollens (MT)**

$$\neg\beta \rightarrow \neg\alpha \vdash \alpha \rightarrow \beta \quad \text{and} \quad \alpha \rightarrow \beta \vdash \neg\beta \rightarrow \neg\alpha$$

**Proof:**

To deduce the first, by the deduction theorem:

$$\{\neg\beta \rightarrow \neg\alpha, \alpha\} \rightarrow \beta$$

Then

|                                                                                                         |         |
|---------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|---------|
| (1) $(\neg\beta \rightarrow \neg\alpha) \rightarrow ((\neg\beta \rightarrow \alpha) \rightarrow \beta)$ | A3      |
| (2) $(\neg\beta \rightarrow \neg\alpha)$                                                                | Premise |
| (3) $((\neg\beta \rightarrow \alpha) \rightarrow \beta)$                                                | 1,2 MP  |
| (4) $\alpha \rightarrow (\neg\beta \rightarrow \alpha)$                                                 | A1      |
| (5) $\alpha$                                                                                            | Premise |
| (6) $\neg\beta \rightarrow \alpha$                                                                      | 4,5 MP  |
| (7) $\beta$                                                                                             | 3,6 MP  |

For the second, by the Deduction theorem it is equivalent to show that

$$\{\alpha \rightarrow \beta, \neg\beta\} \vdash \neg\alpha$$

Hence, it suffices to deduce  $\neg\alpha$ . We proceed with the deduction:

|                                                                                                                      |                       |
|----------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|-----------------------|
| (1) $\neg\beta \rightarrow (\alpha \rightarrow \neg\beta)$                                                           | A1                    |
| (2) $\neg\beta$                                                                                                      | Premise               |
| (3) $\alpha \rightarrow \neg\beta$                                                                                   | 1,2 MP                |
| (4) $(\neg\neg\alpha \rightarrow \neg\beta)$                                                                         | 3, deduced in example |
| (5) $(\neg\neg\alpha \rightarrow \neg\beta) \rightarrow ((\neg\neg\alpha \rightarrow \beta) \rightarrow \neg\alpha)$ | A3                    |
| (6) $(\neg\neg\alpha \rightarrow \beta) \rightarrow \neg\alpha$                                                      | 4,5 MP                |
| (7) $(\alpha \rightarrow \beta)$                                                                                     | Premise               |
| (8) $(\neg\neg\alpha \rightarrow \beta)$                                                                             | 7, deduced in example |
| (9) $\neg\alpha$                                                                                                     | 6,8 MP                |

Showing that  $\{\alpha \rightarrow \beta, \neg\beta\} \rightarrow \neg\alpha$ , which by the Deduction theorem is equivalent to

$$\alpha \rightarrow \beta \vdash \neg\beta \rightarrow \neg\alpha$$

completing the proof.

**Corollary 2.5.10: Consequences Of MT**

1.  $\alpha \vdash \beta$  if and only if  $\neg\beta \vdash \neg\alpha$
2.  $\{\alpha \wedge \beta\} \vdash \beta \wedge \alpha$
3.  $(\beta \rightarrow \neg\alpha) \vdash (\alpha \rightarrow \neg\beta)$
4.  $(\neg\beta \rightarrow \alpha) \vdash (\neg\alpha \rightarrow \beta)$  and  $(\neg\alpha \rightarrow \beta) \vdash (\neg\beta \rightarrow \alpha)$
5.  $\sigma \vdash (\sigma \vee \tau)$
6.  $\{\alpha \wedge \beta\} \vdash \beta$
7.  $\{\alpha \wedge \beta\} \vdash \alpha$

**Proof:**

1. By the deduction theorem,  $a \vdash b$  if and only if  $\vdash a \rightarrow b$ . By MT  $a \rightarrow b \vdash \neg b \rightarrow \neg a$ . Thus, by transitivity, we have  $\vdash \neg b \rightarrow \neg a$ . By the deduction theorem  $\vdash \neg b \rightarrow \neg a$  if and only if  $\neg b \vdash \neg a$ , showing one side of the implication. For the other side, we use the other side of MT to get  $\neg b \rightarrow \neg a \vdash a \rightarrow b$ . Hence:

$$a \vdash b \Leftrightarrow \vdash a \rightarrow b \Leftrightarrow \vdash \neg b \rightarrow \neg a \Leftrightarrow \neg b \vdash \neg a$$

Giving us that  $a \vdash b$  if and only if  $\neg b \vdash \neg a$ , completing the lemma.

2. Recall that  $\alpha \wedge \beta \equiv \neg(\alpha \rightarrow (\neg\beta))$ , so the claim is  $\neg(\alpha \rightarrow (\neg\beta)) \vdash \neg(\beta \rightarrow (\neg\alpha))$ . By item (1), with  $\beta \rightarrow \neg\alpha$  in place of  $\alpha$  and  $\alpha \rightarrow \neg\beta$  in place of  $\beta$ , it suffices to show  $(\beta \rightarrow \neg\alpha) \vdash (\alpha \rightarrow \neg\beta)$ , which is item (3). We prove item (3) here. The second deduction of lemma 2.5.9 gives

$$\beta \rightarrow \neg\alpha \vdash \neg\neg\alpha \rightarrow \neg\beta$$

and example 2.5.8(3) gives  $\neg\neg\alpha \rightarrow \neg\beta \vdash \alpha \rightarrow \neg\beta$ . By lemma 2.5.5(4),  $\beta \rightarrow \neg\alpha \vdash \alpha \rightarrow \neg\beta$ , as we sought to show.

3. This is the deduction obtained in the proof of item (2).
4. The second deduction of lemma 2.5.9, with  $\neg\beta$  in place of  $\alpha$  and  $\alpha$  in place of  $\beta$ , gives  $(\neg\beta \rightarrow \alpha) \vdash (\neg\alpha \rightarrow \neg\neg\beta)$ . The transitivity of example 2.5.4(2) gives  $\{\neg\alpha \rightarrow \neg\neg\beta, \neg\neg\beta \rightarrow \beta\} \vdash \neg\alpha \rightarrow \beta$ , and  $\vdash \neg\neg\beta \rightarrow \beta$  by example 2.5.4(6). So  $(\neg\beta \rightarrow \alpha)$  deduces both members of  $\{\neg\alpha \rightarrow \neg\neg\beta, \neg\neg\beta \rightarrow \beta\}$ , using lemma 2.5.5(3) for the second, and lemma 2.5.5(4) gives  $(\neg\beta \rightarrow \alpha) \vdash (\neg\alpha \rightarrow \beta)$ . The second deduction is the first with  $\alpha$  and  $\beta$  exchanged.
5. The formula  $\sigma \vee \tau$  is  $(\neg\sigma) \rightarrow \tau$ . By theorem 2.5.6,  $\{\sigma, \neg\sigma\} \vdash \tau$ , so  $\{\sigma\} \vdash (\neg\sigma) \rightarrow \tau$  by theorem 2.5.7.
6. The formula  $\alpha \wedge \beta$  is  $\neg(\alpha \rightarrow \neg\beta)$ . The instance  $\neg\beta \rightarrow (\alpha \rightarrow \neg\beta)$  of A1 and Modus Ponens give  $\neg\beta \vdash \alpha \rightarrow \neg\beta$ , so item (1) gives  $\neg(\alpha \rightarrow \neg\beta) \vdash \neg\neg\beta$ . As  $\vdash \neg\neg\beta \rightarrow \beta$  by example 2.5.4(6), Modus Ponens and lemma 2.5.5(4) give  $\neg(\alpha \rightarrow \neg\beta) \vdash \beta$ .
7. By theorem 2.5.6,  $\{\neg\alpha, \alpha\} \vdash \neg\beta$ , so  $\neg\alpha \vdash \alpha \rightarrow \neg\beta$  by theorem 2.5.7. Item (1) gives  $\neg(\alpha \rightarrow \neg\beta) \vdash \neg\neg\alpha$ , and as  $\vdash \neg\neg\alpha \rightarrow \alpha$  by example 2.5.4(6), Modus Ponens and lemma 2.5.5(4) give  $\neg(\alpha \rightarrow \neg\beta) \vdash \alpha$ , completing the proof.

### 2.5.1 Soundness and Completeness For Propositional Logic

With that established, we may ask about the soundness of this deductive system, in particular if  $\Delta$  is a set of formulas and  $\alpha$  is a formula such that  $\Delta \vdash \alpha$ , then  $\Delta \models \alpha$ . The soundness theorem is relatively easy to prove

#### Theorem 2.5.11: Soundness Theorem

Let  $\Delta$  be a set of formulas and  $\alpha$  a formula such that  $\Delta \vdash \alpha$ . Then  $\Delta \models \alpha$

#### Proof:

We will proceed by induction on the shortest length deduction from  $\Delta$  to  $\alpha$ . If  $n = 1$ , then that either means  $\alpha$  is an axiom or  $\alpha \in \Delta$ . If  $\alpha$  is an axiom, which is easy to show they are all tautologies (hence satisfying all truth assignment). Thus, if  $v(\Delta) = T$ , then  $v(\alpha) = T$ , and so  $\Delta \models \alpha$

Assume now that  $\Delta \vdash \beta$  then  $\Delta \models \beta$  for any deduction of length  $k < n$ , and consider  $\Delta \vdash \alpha$  has shortest deduction of length  $n > 1$ . Then it must be that we conclude  $\alpha$  by Modus Ponens, since if it were by an axiom or if  $\alpha \in \Delta$ , the deduction would be of length 1. We thus must have

$$\varphi_i \equiv \gamma \quad \varphi_j \equiv \gamma \rightarrow \alpha \quad \text{for some } i, j < n$$

Then by modus ponens we'd get  $\varphi_n \equiv \alpha$ . Now, since  $\Delta \vdash \gamma$  and  $\Delta \vdash \gamma \rightarrow \alpha$ , by our induction hypothesis we know that  $\Delta \models \gamma$  and  $\Delta \models \gamma \rightarrow \alpha$ . Since:

$$v(\gamma \rightarrow \alpha) = \begin{cases} F & \text{if } v(\gamma) = T \text{ and } v(\alpha) = F \\ T & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

and  $v(\gamma) = v(\gamma \rightarrow \alpha) = T$ , it must be that  $v(\alpha) = T$ , implying  $\Delta \models \alpha$ . Thus, by the principle of induction,  $\Delta \vdash \alpha$  then  $\Delta \models \alpha$ , completing the proof.

We start working towards the completeness theorem. We require some more definitions and lemma

#### Definition 2.5.12: Inconsistent

Let  $\Gamma$  be a set of formulas. Then  $\Gamma$  is *inconsistent* if  $\Gamma \vdash \neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$  for some formula  $\alpha$ .  $\Gamma$  is *consistent* if it is not inconsistent

The main result we will show is that satisfiability and consistency are “equivalent” for propositional logic which will lead us to the completeness theorem:

#### Lemma 2.5.13: Satisfiable, then Consistent

Let  $\Sigma$  be a set of satisfiable formulas (so that there is a  $v$  such that  $v(\Sigma) = T$ ). Then  $\Sigma$  is consistent (so  $\Sigma \not\vdash \neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$ )

**Proof:**

Assume  $\Sigma$  is satisfiable with the truth-assignment function  $v$ . For the sake of contradiction, let's say  $\Sigma$  is inconsistent, meaning  $\Sigma \vdash \neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$  with a deduction of length  $n$ . Recall that the logical axioms are tautologies ( $\models \alpha$  for any axiom), and by proposition 2.5.3 ( $\{\alpha, (\alpha \rightarrow \beta)\} \models \beta$ ). Hence, whether  $\varphi_i$  is part of the axiom schema, a result of modes ponens, or an element of  $\Sigma$ , we have that

$$\begin{aligned}\Sigma &\models \varphi_1 \\ \Sigma \cup \{\varphi_1\} &\models \varphi_2 \\ &\vdots \\ \Sigma \cup \{\varphi_i \mid 1 \leq i \leq n-1\} &\models \varphi_n\end{aligned}$$

since  $\varphi_n \equiv \neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$ , that means we have implied a contradiction. However, the set on the left hand side is valid, meaning the right hand side would have to be true. Since it's a contradiction, we must have:

$$\Sigma \cup \{\varphi_i \mid 1 \leq i \leq n-1\} \not\models \varphi_n$$

However, a valid set cannot be imply and not imply a statement, hence, it cannot be that  $\Sigma$  is inconsistent, completing the proof.

For the converse, we would require to show that if  $\Sigma$  is consistent, we can find a truth assignment that satisfies it. We will build up to exactly this result, which will be they key to the soundness theorem. We first explore some property of inconsistent and consistent sets:

**Lemma 2.5.14: Inconsistent Can Deduce Anything**

Suppose that  $\Delta$  is an inconsistent set of formulas. Then  $\Delta \vdash \psi$  for any formula  $\psi$

**Proof:**

Since  $\Delta$  is inconsistent, we have  $\Delta \vdash \neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$ . Let  $\psi$  be any formula. Then as shown in example 2.5.4  $\vdash (\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$ , and so by the elementary lemma's we have  $\neg\psi \vdash (\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$ , and so by the deduction theorem we have  $\vdash \neg\psi \rightarrow (\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$ . By Modus Tollens, we have  $\vdash \neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha) \rightarrow \neg\neg\psi$ . Combining with  $\Delta$ , we get that  $\Delta \vdash \neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha) \rightarrow \neg\neg\psi$ . Since  $\Delta \vdash \neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$  we have by modus tollens  $\Delta \vdash \neg\neg\psi$ . Finally, since  $\neg\neg\psi \vdash \psi$ , by transitivity of deductions we have:

$$\Delta \vdash \psi$$

completing the proof.

**Proposition 2.5.15: Inconsistent, Then Only Requires Finitely Many Formulas**

Suppose  $\Sigma$  is an inconsistent set of formulas. Then there is a finite subset  $\Delta$  of  $\Sigma$  such that  $\Delta$  is inconsistent

**Proof:**

Suppose that  $\Sigma$  is inconsistent so that  $\Sigma \vdash \neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$ . Then by definition of a deduction a finite set  $\Delta \subseteq \Sigma$  is used in the deduction. But then  $\Delta \vdash \neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$ , completing the proof.

**Corollary 2.5.16: Finite Subcondition For Consistency**

A set of formulas  $\Gamma$  is consistent if and only if every finite subset of  $\Gamma$  is consistent

**Proof:**

If  $\Gamma$  is inconsistent, then certainly a finite subset is inconsistent by the above. Conversely, suppose one subset  $\Delta \subseteq \Gamma$  were inconsistent, meaning  $\Delta \vdash \neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$ . But then  $\Gamma \vdash \neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$ , completing the proof.

Finally, we have one more definition needed which will allow us to make consistency imply satisfiability

**Definition 2.5.17: Maximally Consistent**

A set of formulas  $\Sigma$  is *maximally consistent* if  $\Sigma$  is consistent but  $\Sigma \cup \{\varphi\}$  is inconsistent for any  $\varphi \notin \Sigma$

Such set certainly exist: if  $v$  to be a truth assignment, then  $\Sigma = \{\varphi \mid v(\varphi) = T\}$  is maximally consistent: lemma 2.5.13 shows it's consistent, and it is maximal since if  $v(\varphi) = F$ , then  $v(\neg\varphi) = T$  so  $\neg\varphi \in \Sigma$ . If  $\varphi$  was in  $\Sigma$  as well, we can use lemma 2.5.14 to deduce anything, in particular  $\Sigma \cup \{\varphi\} \vdash \neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$ .

**Proposition 2.5.18: Properties Of Maximally Consistent Set**

Suppose that  $\Sigma$  is maximally consistent set of formula and  $\varphi$  and  $\psi$  is a formula.

1. If  $\Sigma \vdash \varphi$ , then  $\varphi \in \Sigma$
2.  $\neg\varphi \in \Sigma$  if and only if  $\varphi \notin \Sigma$
3.  $\varphi \rightarrow \psi \in \Sigma$  if and only if  $\varphi \notin \Sigma$  or  $\psi \in \Sigma$

**Proof:**

1. Let's say  $\Sigma \vdash \varphi$  so that  $(\varphi_1, \varphi_2, \dots, \varphi_n, \varphi)$  is a valid deduction. For the sake of contradiction, let's say

$$\Sigma \cup \{\varphi\} \vdash \neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$$

using the deduction theorem, we get:

$$\Sigma \vdash \varphi \rightarrow (\neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha))$$

and then we have that  $\Sigma \vdash \varphi$  to use modus ponens to get to the contradiction.

2. Let's say  $\varphi \in \Sigma$  and  $\Sigma$  is maximally consistent. Consider  $\Sigma \cup \{\neg\varphi\} \vdash \neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$ . Since  $\varphi \in \Sigma$ , we have the subset  $\{\varphi, \neg\varphi\}$ . But then, we have shown in theorem 2.5.6 that

$$\{\varphi, \neg\varphi\} \vdash \neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$$

Since  $\{\varphi, \neg\varphi\} \subseteq \Sigma \cup \{\neg\varphi\}$ , we have by lemma 2.5.5(3) that

$$\Sigma \cup \{\neg\varphi\} \vdash \neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$$

showing that  $\Sigma \cup \{\neg\varphi\}$  is inconsistent, hence  $\neg\varphi \notin \Sigma$ .

For the converse, we will show that if  $\Sigma \cup \{\varphi\} \vdash \neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$  and  $\Sigma \cup \{\neg\varphi\} \vdash \neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$ , then we have a contradiction. Starting with the first one, we get by the deduction theorem that

$$\Sigma \vdash (\varphi \rightarrow \neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)) \quad \text{MT} \quad \vdash (\neg\neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha) \rightarrow \varphi) \quad \text{ex. 2.5.8(3)} \quad \vdash (\alpha \rightarrow \alpha) \rightarrow \varphi$$

Hence, by transitivity we have:

$$\Sigma \vdash (\alpha \rightarrow \alpha) \rightarrow \varphi$$

Since  $\vdash \alpha \rightarrow \alpha$  by modus ponens and transitivity we get:

$$\Sigma \vdash \varphi$$

which as we have proven earlier implies  $\varphi \in \Sigma$ . Now, notice that we can do the exact same thing but with  $\neg\varphi$  the whole time, leading us to conclude that  $\neg\varphi \in \Sigma$ . However, as we have seen having  $\varphi$  and  $\neg\varphi$  in  $\Sigma$  is a contradiction. Our initial assumption was that neither was inside there, hence it must be that *at least* one is inside there. By the first part of the proof (outlined in the slides and not put as part of the proof for this quiz), we have that *at most* one of them is inside there, completing the proof of the entire proposition.

3. Assume  $\varphi \rightarrow \psi \in \Sigma$ . We want to show that either  $\varphi \notin \Sigma$  or  $\psi \in \Sigma$  (or both). If  $\varphi \notin \Sigma$  we are done, and if  $\varphi \in \Sigma$ , then by Modus Ponens  $\psi \in \Sigma$ .

Conversely, assume either  $\varphi \notin \Sigma$  or  $\psi \in \Sigma$ . BY part 1, it is equivalent to show that either  $\neg\varphi \in \Sigma$  or  $\psi \in \Sigma$  (which we can intuitively think of the logically equivalent statement for  $\varphi \rightarrow \psi$  of  $\neg\varphi \vee \psi \in \Sigma$ ). If  $\psi \in \Sigma$ , then by axiom 1

|                                               |         |
|-----------------------------------------------|---------|
| $\psi \rightarrow (\varphi \rightarrow \psi)$ | A1      |
| $\psi$                                        | Premise |
| $\varphi \rightarrow \psi$                    | 1,2 MP  |

If  $\neg\varphi \in \Sigma$ , then by a similar logic to what we have just shown  $\neg\psi \rightarrow \neg\varphi \in \Sigma$ . By modus Tollens,  $\varphi \rightarrow \psi \in \Sigma$ .

This proofs are very exciting: if we interpret this in terms of truth assignments and  $\Sigma$  being satisfied, then  $\varphi \rightarrow \psi \in \Sigma$  if either  $\varphi$  is false or  $\psi$  is true, which essentially translates to the inclusion relation just proved above. Similarly, if  $\varphi$  is true, certainly  $\neg\varphi$  is not true and hence not in  $\Sigma$ . This allows us to define the following:

**Proposition 2.5.19: Truth Assignment Induced By Maximally Consistent Set**

Let  $\Sigma$  be a maximally consistent set. Then define a function  $v$  by:

$$v(\varphi) = \begin{cases} T & \varphi \in \Sigma \\ F & \text{Otherwise} \end{cases}$$

Then  $v$  is a truth assignment.

**Proof:**

a truth assignment function assigns random values to the atomic formulas and then has to recursively satisfy:

$$v(\neg\alpha) = \begin{cases} F & v(\alpha) = T \\ T & v(\alpha) = F \end{cases} \quad v(\alpha \rightarrow \beta) = \begin{cases} F & \text{If } v(\alpha) = T \text{ and } v(\beta) = F \\ T & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

But this property is exactly met by the definition of  $\Sigma$ .

**Proposition 2.5.20: Maximally Consistent, Then Satisfiable**

Let  $\Sigma$  be maximally consistent. Then  $\Sigma$  is satisfiable

**Proof:**

If  $\Sigma$  is a maximally consistent set, then the  $v$  in proposition 2.5.19 satisfies it.

Thus, we know have that if  $\Sigma$  is maximally consistent, it is satisfiable. Certainly if  $\Delta \subseteq \Sigma$  and  $\Sigma$  is maximally consistent, then  $\Delta$  is satisfiable. We want to show that any consistent formula is satisfiable. For this, we require the following important result showing us that any consistent set of formula belongs to a maximally consistent set of formulas:

**Proposition 2.5.21: Embedding consistent set into Maximally consistent set**

Suppose  $\Gamma$  is a consistent set of formulas. Then there is a maximally consistent set of formulas  $\Sigma$  such that  $\Gamma \subseteq \Sigma$

**Proof:**

First, notice that by our definition of formula there can only be countably many possible formulas, so let's enumerate them:

$$\{\varphi_0, \varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_n, \dots\}$$

We will construct such a maximally consistent set  $\Sigma$  inductively by defining  $\Gamma = \Sigma_0$  and recursively defining  $\Sigma_i$  to make

$$\Sigma = \bigcup_{i \in \mathbb{N}} \Sigma_i$$

The base case is trivial ( $\Sigma_0 = \Gamma$ ). For the inductive step, assume that  $\Sigma_n$  is a consistent set of formulas. We have one of two cases: if  $\Sigma_n \vdash \varphi_n$ , then let  $\Sigma_{n+1} = \Sigma_n \cup \{\varphi_n\}$ . Otherwise, let  $\Sigma_{n+1} = \Sigma_n \cup \{\neg\varphi_n\}$ .

First,  $\Sigma_{n+1}$  is consistent. In the first case, if  $\Sigma_n \cup \{\varphi_n\}$  were inconsistent, then we can use the deduction theorem and modus ponens to show that  $\Sigma_n$  is inconsistent – a contradiction. In the second case, if  $\Sigma_n \cup \{\neg\varphi_n\}$  were inconsistent, then we apply the deduction theorem, then modus tollens, and use the fact that  $\vdash (\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$  to get that  $\Sigma_n \vdash \varphi_n$  – a contradiction by the construction of  $\Sigma_{n+1}$ . Hence,  $\Sigma_{n+1}$  is consistent.

Finally, take  $\Sigma = \bigcup_{i \in \mathbb{N}} \Sigma_i$ . This set is consistent since if for the sake of contradiction we have  $\Sigma \vdash \neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$ , then by definition we have a derivations

$$(\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_{n-1}, \neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha))$$

If any of the  $\varphi_i$  belong to some  $\Sigma_j$ , then there must be some large enough  $k \in \mathbb{N}$  such that all of these formula's belong to  $\Sigma_k$  (by definition of the construction). But then, we have that

$$\Sigma_k \vdash \neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$$

contradicting the fact that  $\Sigma_k$  is consistent. Hence,  $\Sigma$  is consistent. For maximal consistent, consider some  $\varphi \notin \Sigma$  and take  $\Sigma \cup \{\varphi\}$ . Since there are only countably many formula, there is a  $i \in \mathbb{N}$  such that  $\varphi = \varphi_i$ . Then by construction  $\neg\varphi \in \Sigma_i \subseteq \Sigma$ . But then  $\Sigma$  contains both  $\varphi$  and  $\neg\varphi$ , which as we have shown means it can imply anything, including  $\neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$ . Since making  $\Sigma$  bigger makes it inconsistent, we have that  $\Sigma$  is indeed maximally consistent, completing the proof.

### Theorem 2.5.22: Consistent If And Only If Satisfiable

A set  $\Sigma$  is consistent if and only if it is satisfiable

#### **Proof:**

If  $\Sigma$  is satisfiable, by lemma 2.5.13, it is consistent. Conversely, if  $\Sigma$  is consistent, by proposition 2.5.21 it belongs to a maximally consistent set, which by proposition 2.5.19 it is satisfiable, and hence any subset is also satisfiable, completing the proof.

We finally got the Completeness theorem

### Theorem 2.5.23: Completeness Theorem

Let  $\Sigma$  be a set of formulas. Then if:

$$\Sigma \models \varphi \quad \text{then} \quad \Sigma \vdash \varphi$$

#### **Proof:**

Say  $\Sigma \models \varphi$ . If  $\Sigma$  is inconsistent, then it proves anything, and it is always the case that  $\Sigma \vdash \varphi$ .

Assuming  $\Sigma$  is consistent, we prove the contrapositive:  $\Sigma \not\vdash \varphi$  then  $\Sigma \not\models \varphi$ . In the case where  $\neg\varphi \in \Sigma$ , Then it cannot be that both  $\neg\varphi$  and  $\varphi$  are true, so it cannot be that  $\Sigma \models \varphi$ , hence  $\Sigma \not\models \varphi$ . If  $\neg\varphi \notin \Sigma$ , I claim that  $\Sigma \cup \{\neg\varphi\}$  is consistent. To see this, extend  $\Sigma$  to a maximally consistent set  $\bar{\Sigma}$  where we know that  $\Sigma \not\vdash \varphi$  so we make  $\Sigma_1 = \Sigma \cup \{\neg\varphi\}$ . Then we know that  $\bar{\Sigma} \not\vdash \varphi$  or else  $\varphi \in \bar{\Sigma}$  which we know is not the case. But then  $\Sigma \cup \{\neg\varphi\}$  is certainly consistent.

Since  $\Sigma \cup \{\neg\varphi\}$  is consistent, it belongs to a maximally consistent set and is thus satisfiable. But if the maximal set is satisfiable, certainly any subset is satisfiable, including the set  $\Sigma \cup \{\neg\varphi\}$ . But then, there is a truth assignment in which  $\Sigma \models \neg\varphi[v]$ . But then that means  $\Sigma \not\models \varphi[v]$ . Thus,  $\Sigma \not\models \varphi$ .

Thus, we have that if  $\Sigma \models \varphi$ , then  $\Sigma \vdash \varphi$ , completing the proof.

One result we get from this that might seem innocuous but is really important is that satisfiability is really a finite condition:

**Theorem 2.5.24: Compactness Theorem**

A set of formulas  $\Gamma$  is satisfiable if and only if every finite subset of  $\Gamma$  is satisfiable.

**Proof:**

$\Gamma$  is satisfiable if and only if it is consistent, and a set is consistent if and only if every finite subset is consistent, and a set is consistent if and only if it is satisfiable.

## 2.6 A second look at Deductions

When we first studied first-order deduction, we have taken an inference heavy approach. In this section, we will take an axiom heavy approach similar to what we have done for propositional deductions. A lot of the work is the same, what will differ is that we will define a large axiom schema and only have modus ponens. Since we are using axioms, we will require the following when it comes to working with quantifiers

**Definition 2.6.1: Generalization**

If  $\varphi$  is any formula and  $x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n$  is any variables, then  $\forall x_1, \dots, \forall x_n \varphi$  is a *generalization* of  $\varphi$

**Example 2.6.2: Generalizations**

Let  $\varphi \equiv x = y \rightarrow fx = fy$ . Then  $\forall z(x = y \rightarrow fz = fz)$  and  $\forall x \forall y(x = y \rightarrow fx = fy)$  are generalizations of  $\varphi$ .  $\forall x \exists y \varphi$  is not a generalization.

**Lemma 2.6.3: Generalization Of Tautology**

Let  $\varphi$  be a tautology (so that  $\models \varphi$ ). Then any generalization of a tautology is a tautology

**Proof:**

Let  $\models \varphi$ . and consider  $\forall x_i \varphi$ . Since  $\varphi$  is true for all assignment functions, including  $s[x_i|a]$  for all  $a$  in any universe, certainly  $\models \varphi$  for any variable  $x_i$ . This can be continued inductively for all variables.

**Definition 2.6.4: First Order Axiom Schema**

Every first-order language  $\mathcal{L}$  has eight *logical axiom schemas*:

1. **A1**  $(\alpha \rightarrow (\beta \rightarrow \alpha))$
2. **A2**  $((\alpha \rightarrow (\beta \rightarrow \gamma)) \rightarrow ((\alpha \rightarrow \beta) \rightarrow (\alpha \rightarrow \gamma)))$
3. **A3**  $((\neg\beta) \rightarrow (\neg\alpha)) \rightarrow (((\neg\beta) \rightarrow \alpha) \rightarrow \beta)$
4. **A4**  $(\forall x\alpha \rightarrow \alpha_t^x)$  if  $t$  is substitutable for  $x$  in  $\alpha$
5. **A5**  $(\forall x(\alpha \rightarrow \beta) \rightarrow (\forall x\alpha \rightarrow \forall x\beta))$
6. **A6**  $(\alpha \rightarrow \forall x\alpha)$  if  $x$  does not occur free in  $\alpha$  (i.e. if  $x$  is bounded or does not exist)
7. **A7**  $x = x$
8. **A8**  $(x = y \rightarrow (\alpha \rightarrow \beta))$  if  $\alpha$  is atomic and  $\beta$  is obtained by replacing some occurrences (possibly all or none) of  $x$  in  $\alpha$  by  $y$ .

all of these are called the *logical axioms* of  $\mathcal{L}$  by replacing for formulas  $\alpha, \beta, \gamma$  of  $\mathcal{L}$ . Furthermore, all generalizations of logical axioms of  $\mathcal{L}$  are logical axioms of  $\mathcal{L}$ .

Notice that for **A4**, we may write  $\forall x\alpha \rightarrow \alpha_x^x$  which is  $\forall x\alpha \rightarrow \alpha$ . All axioms are tautologies:

**Proposition 2.6.5: Logical Axiom And Tautology**

Every logical axiom is a tautology

**Proof:**

A tautology here is a valid formula in the sense of definition 1.6.3, one that every  $\mathcal{L}$ -structure  $\mathfrak{A}$  satisfies under every assignment  $s$ . Fix  $\mathfrak{A}$  and  $s$ . Since  $(\varphi \rightarrow \psi)$  is  $((\neg\varphi) \vee \psi)$ , the negation and disjunction clauses of definition 1.4.5 give that  $\mathfrak{A} \models (\varphi \rightarrow \psi)[s]$  fails exactly when  $\mathfrak{A} \models \varphi[s]$  and  $\mathfrak{A} \not\models \psi[s]$ . We show that no instance of A1 to A8 of definition 2.6.4 fails under  $s$ .

- A1: if  $(\alpha \rightarrow (\beta \rightarrow \alpha))$  failed, then  $\mathfrak{A} \models \alpha[s]$  and  $\mathfrak{A} \not\models (\beta \rightarrow \alpha)[s]$ , and the latter gives  $\mathfrak{A} \not\models \alpha[s]$ .
- A2: if the instance failed, then  $\mathfrak{A} \models (\alpha \rightarrow (\beta \rightarrow \gamma))[s]$  and  $\mathfrak{A} \not\models ((\alpha \rightarrow \beta) \rightarrow (\alpha \rightarrow \gamma))[s]$ . The latter gives  $\mathfrak{A} \models (\alpha \rightarrow \beta)[s]$  and  $\mathfrak{A} \not\models (\alpha \rightarrow \gamma)[s]$ , so  $\mathfrak{A} \models \alpha[s]$ ,  $\mathfrak{A} \not\models \gamma[s]$ , and then  $\mathfrak{A} \models \beta[s]$ . Hence  $\mathfrak{A} \not\models (\beta \rightarrow \gamma)[s]$ , which with  $\mathfrak{A} \models \alpha[s]$  gives  $\mathfrak{A} \not\models (\alpha \rightarrow (\beta \rightarrow \gamma))[s]$ .
- A3: if the instance failed, then  $\mathfrak{A} \models ((\neg\beta) \rightarrow (\neg\alpha))[s]$ ,  $\mathfrak{A} \models ((\neg\beta) \rightarrow \alpha)[s]$  and  $\mathfrak{A} \not\models \beta[s]$ . Then  $\mathfrak{A} \models (\neg\beta)[s]$ , so the two implications give both  $\mathfrak{A} \models \alpha[s]$  and  $\mathfrak{A} \models (\neg\alpha)[s]$ , which the negation clause forbids.
- A4: let  $t$  be substitutable for  $x$  in  $\alpha$ , and suppose  $\mathfrak{A} \models (\forall x\alpha)[s]$ . Then  $\mathfrak{A} \models \alpha[s(x|a)]$  for every  $a \in A$ , in particular for  $a = \bar{s}(t)$ , and lemma 2.4.1 turns this into  $\mathfrak{A} \models \alpha_t^x[s]$ .
- A5: suppose  $\mathfrak{A} \models (\forall x(\alpha \rightarrow \beta))[s]$  and  $\mathfrak{A} \models (\forall x\alpha)[s]$ . For each  $a \in A$  we have  $\mathfrak{A} \models (\alpha \rightarrow \beta)[s(x|a)]$  and  $\mathfrak{A} \models \alpha[s(x|a)]$ , so  $\mathfrak{A} \models \beta[s(x|a)]$ . Hence  $\mathfrak{A} \models (\forall x\beta)[s]$ , and the instance does not fail.

- A6: let  $x$  not be free in  $\alpha$ , and suppose  $\mathfrak{A} \models \alpha[s]$ . For each  $a \in A$ , the assignment  $s(x|a)$  agrees with  $s$  on every variable other than  $x$ , hence on the free variables of  $\alpha$ , so  $\mathfrak{A} \models \alpha[s(x|a)]$  by proposition 1.4.8. Hence  $\mathfrak{A} \models (\forall x\alpha)[s]$ .
- A7: both sides of  $x = x$  have the value  $\bar{s}(x) = s(x)$ , so  $\mathfrak{A} \models (x = x)[s]$  by the equality clause.
- A8: suppose  $\mathfrak{A} \models (x = y)[s]$ , that is,  $s(x) = s(y)$ . Let  $u$  be a term and  $u'$  a string obtained from  $u$  by replacing some occurrences of  $x$  by  $y$ . By induction on  $u$  (definition 1.1.3),  $u'$  is a term with  $\bar{s}(u') = \bar{s}(u)$ . If  $u$  is  $x$ , then  $u'$  is  $x$  or  $y$ , and  $s(x) = s(y)$ . If  $u$  is another variable or a constant symbol, then  $u'$  is  $u$ . If  $u \equiv fu_1 \cdots u_n$ , then the occurrences of  $x$  lie in the  $u_i$ , so  $u' \equiv fu'_1 \cdots u'_n$  with each  $u'_i$  obtained from  $u_i$  in the same manner, and definition 1.4.4 with the induction hypothesis gives  $\bar{s}(u') = f^{\mathfrak{A}}(\bar{s}(u'_1), \dots, \bar{s}(u'_n)) = f^{\mathfrak{A}}(\bar{s}(u_1), \dots, \bar{s}(u_n)) = \bar{s}(u)$ . Now the atomic formula  $\alpha$  is  $= u_1 u_2$  or  $Ru_1 \cdots u_n$ , and  $\beta$  is  $= u'_1 u'_2$  or  $Ru'_1 \cdots u'_n$  with each  $u'_i$  obtained from  $u_i$  in this manner. The atomic clauses then give  $\mathfrak{A} \models \alpha[s]$  exactly when  $\mathfrak{A} \models \beta[s]$ , so  $\mathfrak{A} \models (\alpha \rightarrow \beta)[s]$  and the instance does not fail.

Every instance of A1 to A8 is therefore valid. A generalization of a valid formula is valid by lemma 2.6.3, so every logical axiom of definition 2.6.4 is a tautology, as claimed.

This time, instead of having many rules of inference, we will only have one:

**Definition 2.6.6: First Order Modus Ponens**

Given a formula  $\varphi$  and  $(\varphi \rightarrow \psi)$ , we may infer  $\psi$ .

The definition of deduction is identical

**Definition 2.6.7: Deduction Reiteration**

Let  $\Sigma$  be a collection of  $\mathcal{L}$ -formulas and  $D$  a finite sequence of  $\mathcal{L}$ -formulas  $(\varphi_1, \varphi_2, \dots, \varphi_n)$ . Then we will say that  $D$  is a *deduction* from  $\Sigma$  if for each  $i$ ,  $1 \leq i \leq n$ , either

1.  $\varphi_i \in \Lambda$  (that is  $\varphi_i$  is a logical axiom)
2.  $\varphi_i \in \Sigma$  (that is  $\varphi_i$  is a nonlogical axiom)
3. there is a rule of inference  $(\Gamma, \varphi_i)$  such that  $\Gamma \subseteq \{\varphi_1, \varphi_2, \dots, \varphi_{i-1}\}$

If there is a deduction from  $\Sigma$ , the last line of which is the formula  $\varphi$ , we will call this a *deduction from  $\Sigma$  of  $\varphi$*  and write  $\Sigma \vdash \varphi$

**Example 2.6.8: First Order Deductions**

1. We will show  $\{\alpha\} \vdash \exists x\alpha$

|                                                                                                         |            |
|---------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|------------|
| $(\forall x\neg\alpha \rightarrow \neg\alpha) \rightarrow (\alpha \rightarrow \neg\forall x\neg\alpha)$ | MT         |
| $\forall x\neg\alpha \rightarrow \neg\alpha$                                                            | A4         |
| $\alpha \rightarrow \neg\forall x\neg\alpha$                                                            | MP         |
| $\alpha$                                                                                                | Assumption |
| $\neg\forall x\neg\alpha$                                                                               | MP         |
| $\exists x\alpha$                                                                                       |            |

2. Show that  $\vdash \forall x\varphi \rightarrow \forall y\varphi_y^x$  if  $y$  does not occur at all in  $\varphi$
3.  $\vdash \alpha \vee \neg\alpha$
4.  $\{c = d\} \vdash \forall zQacv \rightarrow Qazd$
5.  $\vdash x = y \rightarrow y = x$
6.  $\{\exists x\alpha\} \vdash \alpha$  if  $x$  does not occur free in  $\alpha$  (i.e. if  $x$  is bound in  $\alpha$ )

We get many of the same results as before:

**Proposition 2.6.9: Properties Of Deduction**

1. Let  $\varphi_1, \varphi_2, \dots, \varphi_n$  be a deduction of  $\mathcal{L}$ , then  $\varphi_1, \varphi_2, \dots, \varphi_l$  be a deduction of  $\mathcal{L}$  for any  $l$  such that  $1 \leq l \leq n$ .
2. If  $\Gamma \vdash \delta$  and  $\Gamma \vdash \delta \rightarrow \beta$  then  $\Gamma \vdash \beta$
3. if  $\Gamma \subseteq \Delta$  and  $\Gamma \vdash \alpha$  then  $\Delta \vdash \alpha$
4. if  $\Gamma \vdash \Delta$  and  $\Delta \vdash \sigma$  then  $\Gamma \vdash \sigma$

**Proof:**

Throughout, deductions are as in definition 2.6.7, with Modus Ponens (definition 2.6.6) as the rule of inference.

1. Let  $(\varphi_1, \varphi_2, \dots, \varphi_n)$  be a deduction from a set of formulas  $\Gamma$  and let  $1 \leq l \leq n$ . The condition of definition 2.6.7 constrains each index  $i$  separately, and for a given  $i$  it mentions only  $\Lambda$ ,  $\Gamma$ , and the formulas  $\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_{i-1}$ . For  $i \leq l$  these data are the same in  $(\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_l)$  as in the full sequence. Hence  $(\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_l)$  is a deduction from  $\Gamma$ .
2. Let  $(\alpha_1, \dots, \alpha_p)$  be a deduction from  $\Gamma$  with  $\alpha_p \equiv \delta$ , and  $(\beta_1, \dots, \beta_q)$  a deduction from  $\Gamma$  with  $\beta_q \equiv \delta \rightarrow \beta$ . Consider the sequence

$$(\alpha_1, \dots, \alpha_p, \beta_1, \dots, \beta_q, \beta)$$

Each  $\alpha_i$  keeps its original justification. Each  $\beta_j$  that is a logical axiom or a member of  $\Gamma$  keeps its justification as well, and each  $\beta_j$  obtained by Modus Ponens from  $\beta_u$  and  $\beta_w$

with  $u, w < j$  still has both premises among the strictly earlier entries of the new sequence. Finally,  $\beta$  follows by Modus Ponens from  $\delta$  and  $\delta \rightarrow \beta$ , which occur earlier. Hence the displayed sequence is a deduction from  $\Gamma$  with last line  $\beta$ , and  $\Gamma \vdash \beta$ .

3. A deduction from  $\Gamma$  is verbatim a deduction from  $\Delta$ : the only clause of definition 2.6.7 that mentions the set of nonlogical axioms is  $\varphi_i \in \Sigma$ , read here with  $\Gamma$  for  $\Sigma$ , and  $\Gamma \subseteq \Delta$  turns it into  $\varphi_i \in \Delta$ .
4. Here  $\Gamma \vdash \Delta$  means  $\Gamma \vdash \delta$  for every  $\delta \in \Delta$ . Let  $(\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_n)$  be a deduction of  $\sigma \equiv \varphi_n$  from  $\Delta$ . By induction on  $i$  we show  $\Gamma \vdash \varphi_i$  for every  $i \leq n$ . If  $\varphi_i \in \Delta$ , the one term sequence  $(\varphi_i)$  is a deduction from  $\Gamma$ . If  $\varphi_i \in \Delta$ , then  $\Gamma \vdash \varphi_i$  by hypothesis. If  $\varphi_i$  follows by Modus Ponens from  $\varphi_u$  and  $\varphi_w \equiv \varphi_u \rightarrow \varphi_i$  with  $u, w < i$ , then  $\Gamma \vdash \varphi_u$  and  $\Gamma \vdash \varphi_u \rightarrow \varphi_i$  by the induction hypothesis, so  $\Gamma \vdash \varphi_i$  by item (2). Taking  $i = n$  gives  $\Gamma \vdash \sigma$ .

### Theorem 2.6.10: Deduction Theorem

Let  $\Sigma$  be any set of formulas and  $\alpha, \beta$  any formulas. Then  $\Sigma \vdash \alpha \rightarrow \beta$  if and only if  $\Sigma \cup \{\alpha\} \vdash \beta$

#### Proof:

The proof of theorem 2.5.7 uses only that logical axioms and members of  $\Sigma \cup \{\alpha\}$  have one-line deductions, the schemas A1 and A2, Modus Ponens as the only rule of inference, the deduction of  $\alpha \rightarrow \alpha$  in example 2.5.4(1), which consists of instances of A1, A2 and applications of Modus Ponens, and the monotonicity of lemma 2.5.5(3). For the deductions of definition 2.6.7, A1 and A2 are schemas of definition 2.6.4, Modus Ponens is the rule of definition 2.6.6, and monotonicity is proposition 2.6.9(3). The same argument therefore proves the theorem.

### Lemma 2.6.11: Tautological Consequences Are Deducible

Let  $\gamma_1, \dots, \gamma_n, \varphi$  be formulas of the propositional language of definition 1.7.1 with  $\{\gamma_1, \dots, \gamma_n\} \models \varphi$  (definition 1.7.7), and let  $A_0, \dots, A_r$  include their atomic formulas. Let  $\chi_0, \dots, \chi_r$  be  $\mathcal{L}$ -formulas, and for a propositional formula  $\delta$  write  $\delta^*$  for the  $\mathcal{L}$ -formula obtained by replacing each  $A_j$  with  $j \leq r$  by  $\chi_j$  and every other atomic formula by  $\chi_0$ . Then  $\{\gamma_1^*, \dots, \gamma_n^*\} \vdash \varphi^*$  in the deductive system of definition 2.6.7.

#### Proof:

By theorem 2.5.23 there is a deduction  $(\delta_1, \dots, \delta_m)$  of  $\varphi$  from  $\{\gamma_1, \dots, \gamma_n\}$  in the propositional system of section 2.5, whose logical axioms are the instances of A1, A2, A3 of definition 2.5.1 and whose rule is Modus Ponens. The replacement  $\delta \mapsto \delta^*$  satisfies  $(\neg\delta)^* \equiv (\neg\delta^*)$  and  $(\delta \rightarrow \delta')^* \equiv (\delta^* \rightarrow \delta'^*)$ , where on the right  $\rightarrow$  is the abbreviation fixed after definition 1.1.5. So it sends an instance of A1, A2 or A3 to an instance of the same schema of definition 2.6.4, a premise  $\gamma_i$  to  $\gamma_i^*$ , and an application of Modus Ponens to  $\delta_u$  and  $(\delta_u \rightarrow \delta_w)$  to an application of Modus Ponens to  $\delta_u^*$  and  $(\delta_u^* \rightarrow \delta_w^*)$ . Hence  $(\delta_1^*, \dots, \delta_m^*)$  is a deduction of  $\varphi^*$  from  $\{\gamma_1^*, \dots, \gamma_n^*\}$  as in definition 2.6.7, as claimed.

We know get a result is a new result due to our axiomatic approach

**Theorem 2.6.12: Generalization Theorem**

Suppose  $x$  is a variable,  $\Gamma$  is a set of formulas in which  $x$  does not occur free (i.e.  $x$  is either bound or does not exist), and  $\varphi$  is a formula such that  $\Gamma \vdash \varphi$ . Then  $\Gamma \vdash \forall x\varphi$

**Proof:**

Let  $(\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_n)$  be a deduction of  $\varphi$  from  $\Gamma$  (definition 2.6.7), with Modus Ponens as the rule of inference. We show  $\Gamma \vdash \forall x\varphi_i$  for every  $i$ , by strong induction on  $i$ .

- If  $\varphi_i$  is a logical axiom, then  $\forall x\varphi_i$  is a generalization of a logical axiom, hence a logical axiom by definition 2.6.4, and the one-line deduction  $(\forall x\varphi_i)$  suffices.
- If  $\varphi_i \in \Gamma$ , then  $x$  is not free in  $\varphi_i$ , so  $\varphi_i \rightarrow \forall x\varphi_i$  is an instance of **A6**, and  $(\varphi_i, \varphi_i \rightarrow \forall x\varphi_i, \forall x\varphi_i)$  is a deduction from  $\Gamma$ .
- If  $\varphi_i$  follows by Modus Ponens from  $\varphi_j$  and  $\varphi_k \equiv (\varphi_j \rightarrow \varphi_i)$  with  $j, k < i$ , then  $\Gamma \vdash \forall x\varphi_j$  and  $\Gamma \vdash \forall x(\varphi_j \rightarrow \varphi_i)$  by the induction hypothesis. The instance  $\forall x(\varphi_j \rightarrow \varphi_i) \rightarrow (\forall x\varphi_j \rightarrow \forall x\varphi_i)$  of **A5** and two applications of proposition 2.6.9(2) give  $\Gamma \vdash \forall x\varphi_i$ .

For  $i = n$  this is  $\Gamma \vdash \forall x\varphi$ , completing the proof.

**Lemma 2.6.13: Replacing A Constant By A Variable**

Let  $c$  be a constant symbol and  $x$  a variable. For a formula  $\psi$ , write  $\psi_x^c$  for the string obtained from  $\psi$  by replacing every occurrence of  $c$  by  $x$ . Let  $(\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_n)$  be a deduction (definition 2.6.7) from a set  $\Gamma$  of formulas in which  $c$  does not occur, and suppose that  $x$  occurs in none of  $\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_n$ . Then  $((\varphi_1)_x^c, \dots, (\varphi_n)_x^c)$  is a deduction from the set of those  $\varphi_i$  that belong to  $\Gamma$ , and  $c$  does not occur in it.

**Proof:**

By induction on definition 1.1.3 and then on definition 1.1.5, the replacement turns terms into terms and formulas into formulas, and it passes through the connectives and the quantifier:

$$(\neg\psi)_x^c \equiv (\neg\psi_x^c) \quad (\psi \vee \chi)_x^c \equiv (\psi_x^c \vee \chi_x^c) \quad ((\forall y)(\psi))_x^c \equiv (\forall y)(\psi_x^c)$$

the last because the quantified variable  $y$  is not the constant  $c$ . As  $\rightarrow$  abbreviates a formula built from  $\neg$  and  $\vee$ , also  $(\psi \rightarrow \chi)_x^c \equiv (\psi_x^c \rightarrow \chi_x^c)$ . Write  $\psi'$  for  $\psi_x^c$ , and let  $\Phi$  be the set of those  $\varphi_i$  that belong to  $\Gamma$ .

*Step 1: three facts about the replacement.* Let  $y$  be a variable other than  $x$ , let  $\alpha$  be a formula and  $t$  a term.

- Every variable other than  $x$  that is free in  $\alpha'$  is free in  $\alpha$ . This is an induction on  $\alpha$  through definition 1.2.2: the replacement introduces only occurrences of  $x$ , and it leaves each quantifier  $(\forall u)$  of  $\alpha$  unchanged.
- $(\alpha_t^y)' \equiv (\alpha')_{t'}^y$ . The corresponding identity  $(u_t^y)' \equiv (u')_{t'}^y$  for a term  $u$  holds by induction through definition 1.5.1. If  $u$  is  $y$ , both sides are  $t'$ . If  $u$  is  $c$ , both sides are  $x$ , because  $x$

is not  $y$ . If  $u$  is another variable or constant symbol, both sides are  $u$ . If  $u \equiv fu_1 \cdots u_n$ , both operations act argument by argument, so the induction hypothesis for the  $u_i$  gives the identity. For formulas we induct through definition 1.5.3. The atomic case is the term identity applied to each argument, and the cases of  $\neg$  and  $\vee$  follow from the induction hypothesis. If  $\alpha \equiv (\forall z)(\beta)$ , then both sides are  $\alpha'$  when  $z$  is  $y$ , and both are  $(\forall z)((\beta')_{t'})^y$  by the induction hypothesis when  $z$  is not  $y$ .

- (c) If  $x$  does not occur in  $\alpha$  and  $t$  is substitutable for  $y$  in  $\alpha$ , then  $t'$  is substitutable for  $y$  in  $\alpha'$ . By induction through definition 1.5.5, the atomic case is automatic and the cases of  $\neg$  and  $\vee$  follow from the induction hypothesis. Let  $\alpha \equiv (\forall z)(\beta)$ . If  $y$  is not free in  $\alpha$ , then  $y$  is not free in  $\alpha'$  by (a). Otherwise  $z$  does not occur in  $t$  and  $t$  is substitutable for  $y$  in  $\beta$ . As  $x$  does not occur in  $\alpha$ , the variable  $z$  is not  $x$ , so  $z$  does not occur in  $t'$ , whose variables are those of  $t$  and possibly  $x$ , and  $t'$  is substitutable for  $y$  in  $\beta'$  by the induction hypothesis.

*Step 2:*  $(\varphi'_1, \dots, \varphi'_n)$  is a deduction from  $\Phi$  in which  $c$  does not occur. No  $\varphi'_i$  contains  $c$ . If  $\varphi_i \in \Phi$ , then  $\varphi'_i$  is  $\varphi_i$ , since  $c$  does not occur in  $\Gamma$ . If  $\varphi_i$  follows by Modus Ponens from  $\varphi_j$  and  $\varphi_k \equiv (\varphi_j \rightarrow \varphi_i)$  with  $j, k < i$ , then  $\varphi'_k \equiv (\varphi'_j \rightarrow \varphi'_i)$ , so  $\varphi'_i$  follows from  $\varphi'_j$  and  $\varphi'_k$  by Modus Ponens. It remains to show that  $\psi'$  is a logical axiom whenever  $\psi$  is a logical axiom in which  $x$  does not occur. By definition 2.6.4, such a  $\psi$  is a generalization  $\forall y_1 \cdots \forall y_j \theta$  of an instance  $\theta$  of one of A1 to A8, and  $\psi' \equiv \forall y_1 \cdots \forall y_j \theta'$ , so it suffices that  $\theta'$  is an instance of the same schema.

- A1, A2, A3, A5: the replacement passes through  $\neg$ ,  $\rightarrow$  and  $\forall$ , so  $\theta'$  is the instance of the same schema with  $\alpha', \beta', \gamma'$  in place of  $\alpha, \beta, \gamma$ .
- A4:  $\theta \equiv \forall y \alpha \rightarrow \alpha_t^y$  with  $t$  substitutable for  $y$  in  $\alpha$ . The variable  $x$  does not occur in  $\alpha$  and is not  $y$ , which occurs in  $\theta$ . By (b),  $\theta' \equiv \forall y \alpha' \rightarrow (\alpha')_{t'}^y$ , and by (c),  $t'$  is substitutable for  $y$  in  $\alpha'$ .
- A6:  $\theta \equiv \alpha \rightarrow \forall y \alpha$  with  $y$  not free in  $\alpha$ , and  $\theta' \equiv \alpha' \rightarrow \forall y \alpha'$ . The variable  $y$  occurs in  $\theta$ , so it is not  $x$ , and it is not free in  $\alpha'$  by (a).
- A7:  $\theta$  is  $y = y$ , which does not contain  $c$ , so  $\theta'$  is  $\theta$ .
- A8:  $\theta \equiv (y = z \rightarrow (\alpha \rightarrow \beta))$  with  $\alpha$  atomic and  $\beta$  obtained from  $\alpha$  by replacing some occurrences of  $y$  by  $z$ . Then  $\theta' \equiv (y = z \rightarrow (\alpha' \rightarrow \beta'))$ , the formula  $\alpha'$  is atomic, and  $\beta'$  is obtained from  $\alpha'$  by replacing the same occurrences of  $y$  by  $z$ , because the two replacements act on different positions,  $c$  not being the variable  $y$ .

Hence  $(\varphi'_1, \dots, \varphi'_n)$  is a deduction from  $\Phi$  in which  $c$  does not occur, completing the proof.

#### Theorem 2.6.14: Generalization On Constants

Suppose that  $c$  is a constant symbol,  $\Gamma$  is a set of formulas in which  $c$  does not occur, and  $\varphi$  is a formula such that  $\Gamma \vdash \varphi$ . Then there is a variable  $x$  which does not occur in  $\varphi$  such that  $\Gamma \vdash \forall x \varphi_x^c$ . Moreover, there is a deduction of  $\forall x \varphi_x^c$  from  $\Gamma$  in which  $c$  does not occur

What this theorem is saying is that if we prove a property of a constant, say  $x_0$  is a constant and  $\vdash P(x_0)$ , then we in fact have  $\vdash \forall x P(x)$

**Proof:**

Fix a deduction  $(\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_n)$  of  $\varphi$  from  $\Gamma$  as in definition 2.6.7, with Modus Ponens as the rule of inference, and let  $\Phi$  be the finite set of those  $\varphi_i$  that belong to  $\Gamma$ . Only finitely many variables occur in  $\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_n$ , so we may choose a variable  $x$  occurring in none of them. In particular  $x$  does not occur in  $\varphi$  or in any member of  $\Phi$ . Write  $\psi'$  for  $\psi_x^c$ . By lemma 2.6.13,  $(\varphi'_1, \dots, \varphi'_n)$  is a deduction of  $\varphi'$  from  $\Phi$  in which  $c$  does not occur.

The variable  $x$  occurs in no member of  $\Phi$ , so it is free in none. We show by strong induction on  $i$  that  $\forall x\varphi'_i$  has a deduction from  $\Phi$  in which  $c$  does not occur. If  $\varphi'_i$  is a logical axiom, then  $\forall x\varphi'_i$  is a generalization of it, hence a logical axiom, and the one-line deduction suffices. If  $\varphi'_i \in \Phi$ , then  $(\varphi'_i, \varphi'_i \rightarrow \forall x\varphi'_i, \forall x\varphi'_i)$  is a deduction, the middle formula being an instance of A6 since  $x$  is not free in  $\varphi'_i$ . If  $\varphi'_i$  follows by Modus Ponens from  $\varphi'_j$  and  $\varphi'_k := (\varphi'_j \rightarrow \varphi'_i)$  with  $j, k < i$ , we concatenate the deductions of  $\forall x\varphi'_j$  and  $\forall x(\varphi'_j \rightarrow \varphi'_i)$  given by the induction hypothesis, in which each entry keeps its justification since the entries before it in its own deduction still precede it, and append the three formulas

$$\forall x(\varphi'_j \rightarrow \varphi'_i) \rightarrow (\forall x\varphi'_j \rightarrow \forall x\varphi'_i) \quad \forall x\varphi'_j \rightarrow \forall x\varphi'_i \quad \forall x\varphi'_i$$

an instance of A5 followed by two applications of Modus Ponens. In each case the new formulas do not contain  $c$ . For  $i = n$  this is a deduction of  $\forall x\varphi_x^c$  from  $\Phi$ , hence from  $\Gamma$  by proposition 2.6.9(3), in which  $c$  does not occur. Since  $x$  does not occur in  $\varphi$ , this completes the proof.

**Lemma 2.6.15: Alphabetic Variants**

Let  $\varphi$  be a formula and  $x, y$  variables such that  $y$  does not occur in  $\varphi$ . Then

$$\vdash \forall x\varphi \rightarrow \forall y\varphi_y^x \quad \text{and} \quad \vdash \forall y\varphi_y^x \rightarrow \forall x\varphi$$

**Proof:**

Deductions are those of definition 2.6.7. If  $y$  is  $x$ , then  $x$  does not occur in  $\varphi$ , so  $\varphi_y^x$  is  $\varphi$ , because definition 1.5.3 only changes free occurrences of the substituted variable. Both claims then read  $\vdash \forall x\varphi \rightarrow \forall x\varphi$ , which lemma 2.6.11 gives from  $\emptyset \models A_0 \rightarrow A_0$ . Suppose from now on that  $y$  is not  $x$ . Each of the following facts is proved by induction on  $\varphi$  through definition 1.5.1, definition 1.5.3 and definition 1.5.5, using that  $y$  does not occur in  $\varphi$ .

- (i)  $y$  is substitutable for  $x$  in  $\varphi$ . The atomic case is automatic and the cases of  $\neg$  and  $\vee$  follow from the induction hypothesis. Let  $\varphi := (\forall z)(\alpha)$ . If  $x$  is not free in  $\varphi$ , the first alternative of the quantifier clause applies. Otherwise  $z$  occurs in  $\varphi$  while  $y$  does not, so  $z$  does not occur in the term  $y$ , and  $y$  is substitutable for  $x$  in  $\alpha$  by the induction hypothesis.
- (ii)  $x$  is not free in  $\varphi_y^x$ . In an atomic formula every occurrence of  $x$  is replaced by  $y$ , and the cases of  $\neg$  and  $\vee$  follow from the induction hypothesis. If  $\varphi := (\forall z)(\alpha)$ , then  $\varphi_y^x$  is  $\varphi$  when  $z$  is  $x$ , in which  $x$  is not free, and  $\varphi_y^x$  is  $(\forall z)(\alpha_y^x)$  otherwise, in which  $x$  is not free by the induction hypothesis.
- (iii)  $x$  is substitutable for  $y$  in  $\varphi_y^x$ . The atomic case is automatic and the cases of  $\neg$  and  $\vee$  follow from the induction hypothesis. Let  $\varphi := (\forall z)(\alpha)$ . If  $z$  is  $x$ , then  $\varphi_y^x$  is  $\varphi$ , in which  $y$  does not occur, so  $y$  is not free in it. Otherwise  $\varphi_y^x$  is  $(\forall z)(\alpha_y^x)$ , the variable  $z$  is not  $x$

and so does not occur in the term  $x$ , and  $x$  is substitutable for  $y$  in  $\alpha_y^x$  by the induction hypothesis.

- (iv)  $(\varphi_y^x)_x^y \equiv \varphi$ . For a term,  $x$  becomes  $y$  and then  $x$  again, the variable  $y$  does not occur, other variables and constant symbols are left unchanged, and compound terms are treated argument by argument. For formulas the atomic case follows, and the cases of  $\neg$  and  $\vee$  follow from the induction hypothesis. If  $\varphi \equiv (\forall z)(\alpha)$  and  $z$  is  $x$ , then  $\varphi_y^x$  is  $\varphi$ , and substituting for  $y$ , which does not occur in  $\varphi$ , leaves  $\varphi$  unchanged. Otherwise  $z$  is neither  $x$  nor  $y$ , the variable  $y$  not occurring in  $\varphi$ , so  $(\varphi_y^x)_x^y$  is  $(\forall z)((\alpha_y^x)_x^y)$ , which is  $\varphi$  by the induction hypothesis.
- (v) If  $\vdash \psi \rightarrow \chi$  and the variable  $u$  is not free in  $\psi$ , then  $\vdash \psi \rightarrow \forall u\chi$ . Indeed theorem 2.6.12, with the empty set of hypotheses, gives  $\vdash \forall u(\psi \rightarrow \chi)$ , and the instance  $\forall u(\psi \rightarrow \chi) \rightarrow (\forall u\psi \rightarrow \forall u\chi)$  of **A5** with proposition 2.6.9(2) gives  $\vdash \forall u\psi \rightarrow \forall u\chi$ . The formula  $\psi \rightarrow \forall u\psi$  is an instance of **A6**. Applied to  $\{A_0 \rightarrow A_1, A_1 \rightarrow A_2\} \models A_0 \rightarrow A_2$ , lemma 2.6.11 gives  $\{\psi \rightarrow \forall u\psi, \forall u\psi \rightarrow \forall u\chi\} \vdash \psi \rightarrow \forall u\chi$ , and proposition 2.6.9(4) gives  $\vdash \psi \rightarrow \forall u\chi$ .

By (i),  $\forall x\varphi \rightarrow \varphi_y^x$  is an instance of **A4**. The variable  $y$  is not free in  $\forall x\varphi$ , since it does not occur in  $\varphi$ , so (v) gives  $\vdash \forall x\varphi \rightarrow \forall y\varphi_y^x$ . By (iii) and (iv),  $\forall y\varphi_y^x \rightarrow \varphi$  is an instance of **A4**. By (ii),  $x$  is not free in  $\forall y\varphi_y^x$ , so (v) gives  $\vdash \forall y\varphi_y^x \rightarrow \forall x\varphi$ , completing the proof.

### Example 2.6.16: More Deductions

1. We will show  $\vdash \varphi \rightarrow \psi$  then  $\vdash \forall x\varphi \rightarrow \forall x\psi$ . Since  $x$  does not occur free in any formula  $\emptyset$ , it follows from  $\vdash \varphi \rightarrow \psi$  by the generalization theorem that  $\vdash \forall(\varphi \rightarrow \psi)$ . But then

$$\begin{array}{ll} \forall x(\varphi \rightarrow \psi) & \\ \forall x(\varphi \rightarrow \psi) \rightarrow (\forall x\varphi \rightarrow \forall x\psi) & \text{A5} \\ \forall x\varphi \rightarrow \forall x\psi & \text{MP} \end{array}$$

2. show  $\vdash \forall x\forall y\forall z(x = y \rightarrow (y = z \rightarrow x = z))$  (Hint: apply Deduction theorem twice, and show  $x = y \vdash y = z$ . Now think of the derivation, and finish with Generalization theorem)
3.  $\vdash \forall x\alpha \rightarrow \exists x\alpha$
4.  $\vdash \exists x\gamma \rightarrow \forall x\gamma$  if  $x$  does not occur free in  $\gamma$
5. (Using generalization on constants) Let  $\mathcal{L}$  be the language of number theory and take  $\forall x\exists y x < y$ . Then we can say given an  $n$ , we have  $n < n + 1$ , so  $\exists y n < y$ , and so we conclude  $\forall x\exists y x < y$

## 2.6.1 Soundness and Completeness

Let  $\mathcal{L}$  be a fixed first-order language. All formulas will be considered as part of  $\mathcal{L}$ . First, a set  $\Gamma$  of sentences is inconsistent if  $\Gamma \vdash \neg(\psi \rightarrow \psi)$  for some formula  $\psi$ . A set  $\Sigma$  is maximally consistent of  $\Sigma \cup \{\tau\}$  is inconsistent whenever  $\tau$  is a sentence such that  $\tau \notin \Sigma$ . Now some review:

**Proposition 2.6.17: Results From Earlier**

1. (Soundness Theorem) If  $\alpha$  is a sentence and  $\Delta$  is a set of sentences such that  $\Delta \vdash \alpha$ , then  $\Delta \models \alpha$
2. If a set of sentences  $\Gamma$  is satisfiable, then it is consistent
3. Suppose  $\Delta$  is an inconsistent set of sentences. Then  $\Delta \vdash \psi$  for any formula  $\psi$
4. Supposer  $\Sigma$  is an inconsistent set of sentences. then there is a finite subset  $\Delta$  of  $\Sigma$  such that  $\Delta$  is inconsistent
5. A set of sentences  $\Gamma$  is consistent if and only if every finite subset of  $\Gamma$  is consistent

**Proof:**

Deductions are those of definition 2.6.7, with the logical axioms of definition 2.6.4 and Modus Ponens (definition 2.6.6) as the only rule of inference.

1. We prove more: if  $(\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_n)$  is a deduction from a set of formulas  $\Delta$  and  $\mathfrak{M} \models \Delta$ , then  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi_i[s]$  for every  $i$  and every assignment  $s$  into  $\mathfrak{M}$ . We use strong induction on  $i$ . If  $\varphi_i$  is a logical axiom, it is valid by proposition 2.6.5. If  $\varphi_i \in \Delta$ , then  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi_i[s]$  because  $\mathfrak{M} \models \Delta$  (definition 1.4.10). If  $\varphi_i$  follows by Modus Ponens from  $\varphi_j$  and  $\varphi_k : \equiv (\varphi_j \rightarrow \varphi_i)$  with  $j, k < i$ , then  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi_j[s]$  and  $\mathfrak{M} \models ((\neg\varphi_j) \vee \varphi_i)[s]$  by the induction hypothesis. As  $\mathfrak{M} \not\models (\neg\varphi_j)[s]$ , the disjunction clause of definition 1.4.5 gives  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi_i[s]$ . Now let  $\Delta$  be a set of sentences and  $\alpha$  a sentence with  $\Delta \vdash \alpha$ . Every structure  $\mathfrak{M}$  with  $\mathfrak{M} \models \Delta$  satisfies  $\alpha$  under every assignment, so  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha$ , and  $\Delta \models \alpha$  by definition 1.6.1.
2. Let  $\mathfrak{M} \models \Gamma$ , and suppose  $\Gamma \vdash \neg(\psi \rightarrow \psi)$  for a formula  $\psi$ . Fix an assignment  $s$  into  $\mathfrak{M}$ , which exists since  $|\mathfrak{M}|$  is nonempty. The claim proved in (1) gives  $\mathfrak{M} \models (\neg(\psi \rightarrow \psi))[s]$ , that is,  $\mathfrak{M} \not\models ((\neg\psi) \vee \psi)[s]$ , so  $\mathfrak{M} \not\models (\neg\psi)[s]$  and  $\mathfrak{M} \not\models \psi[s]$ . The first of these says  $\mathfrak{M} \models \psi[s]$ , which contradicts the second. Hence  $\Gamma$  is consistent.
3. The deduction of  $\varphi \rightarrow \varphi$  in example 2.5.4(1), and the deduction of  $\gamma$  from  $\{\delta, \neg\delta\}$  in the proof of theorem 2.5.6, consist of instances of A1, A2, A3 and applications of Modus Ponens, for arbitrary formulas  $\varphi, \gamma, \delta$ . These schemas and this rule are also those of definition 2.6.4 and definition 2.6.6, so the same sequences, with  $\mathcal{L}$ -formulas in place of  $\varphi, \gamma, \delta$ , are deductions in the sense of definition 2.6.7. Now let  $\Delta \vdash \neg(\chi \rightarrow \chi)$  for a formula  $\chi$ , and let  $\psi$  be any formula. The first deduction gives  $\vdash \chi \rightarrow \chi$ , so  $\Delta \vdash \chi \rightarrow \chi$  by proposition 2.6.9(3). The second, with  $\delta : \equiv (\chi \rightarrow \chi)$  and  $\gamma : \equiv \psi$ , gives  $\{\chi \rightarrow \chi, \neg(\chi \rightarrow \chi)\} \vdash \psi$ . Since  $\Delta$  deduces both members of this set, proposition 2.6.9(4) gives  $\Delta \vdash \psi$ .
4. Let  $(\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_n)$  be a deduction of  $\neg(\psi \rightarrow \psi)$  from  $\Sigma$ , and let  $\Delta$  be the finite set of those  $\varphi_i$  that belong to  $\Sigma$ . The same sequence is a deduction from  $\Delta$ , because each  $\varphi_i$  justified by membership in  $\Sigma$  belongs to  $\Delta$ , and the other justifications do not mention the set of nonlogical axioms. So  $\Delta \vdash \neg(\psi \rightarrow \psi)$ , and  $\Delta$  is a finite inconsistent subset of  $\Sigma$ .
5. If  $\Gamma$  is consistent and  $\Delta \subseteq \Gamma$  is finite, then  $\Delta$  is consistent, since a deduction of some  $\neg(\psi \rightarrow \psi)$  from  $\Delta$  would give one from  $\Gamma$  by proposition 2.6.9(3). Conversely, if every finite subset of  $\Gamma$  is consistent, then  $\Gamma$  is consistent, since by (4) an inconsistent  $\Gamma$  would have a finite inconsistent subset. This completes the proof.

In propositional logic, we found maximally consistent sets given consistent sets. We may do the same thing in propositional logic, but we have one more tool at our disposal to find maximally consistent sets

**Proposition 2.6.18: Relating Structures And Theorems**

Let  $\mathfrak{M}$  be a structure. Then  $Th(\mathfrak{M})$  is a maximally consistent set of sentences

This is the mirror of  $\Sigma = \{\varphi \mid v(\varphi) = T\}$

**Proof:**

Define  $Th(\mathfrak{M}) = \{\tau \mid \tau \text{ is a sentence and } \mathfrak{M} \models \tau\}$ . Let's say  $Th(\mathfrak{M})$  is not maximally consistent so that  $Th(\mathfrak{M}) \cup \{\tau\}$  is consistent. Necessarily  $\mathfrak{M} \not\models \tau$  or else  $\tau \in Th(\mathfrak{M})$ . But then  $\mathfrak{M} \models \neg\tau$  (recall that  $\tau$  is a sentence, so if  $\mathfrak{M} \not\models \tau$  for some assignment, it doesn't do so for any assignment), and so  $\neg\tau$  and  $\tau$  are in  $Th(\mathfrak{M}) \cup \{\tau\}$ , and the rest of the proof plays out identically.

**Example 2.6.19: Theory Of Structure**

Let  $\mathfrak{M} = (\{5\})$  be a structure for  $\mathcal{L} = \{=\}$ . Then  $Th(\mathfrak{M})$  is a maximally consistent set of sentences. It turns out that

$$Th(\mathfrak{M}) = Th(\{\forall x \forall y \, x = y\})$$

So we also get a set of sentences,  $\Sigma = \{\forall x \forall y \, x = y\}$  such that  $Th(\Sigma)$  is maximally consistent.

**Theorem 2.6.20: Zorn's Lemma**

Let  $(P, \leq)$  be a partially ordered set in which every chain, that is every subset of  $P$  totally ordered by  $\leq$ , has an upper bound in  $P$ . Then  $P$  has a maximal element, an element  $m$  such that  $m \leq p$  implies  $p = m$ .

Zorn's lemma is equivalent, over the remaining axioms of set theory, to the axiom of choice, and it is adopted here without proof.

As before, we may abuse maximality to get the same results as in first-order logic, mainly due to the fact we are working with sentences

**Proposition 2.6.21: Operational Facts About Maximally Consistent Sets**

1. If  $\Sigma$  is a maximally consistent set of sentences,  $\tau$  is a sentence, and  $\Sigma \vdash \tau$ , then  $\tau \in \Sigma$
2. Suppose  $\Sigma$  is maximally consistent set of sentences and  $\tau$  is a sentence. Then  $\neg\tau \in \Sigma$  if and only if  $\tau \notin \Sigma$
3. Suppose  $\Sigma$  is a maximally consistent set of sentences and  $\varphi$  and  $\psi$  are any sentence. Then  $\varphi \rightarrow \psi \in \Sigma$  if and only if  $\varphi \notin \Sigma$  or  $\psi \in \Sigma$
4. Suppose  $\Gamma$  is a consistent set of sentences. Then there is a maximally consistent set of sentences  $\Sigma$  with  $\Gamma \subseteq \Sigma$

**Proof:**

Deductions are those of definition 2.6.7, and a maximally consistent set is in particular consistent. Each use of lemma 2.6.11 below rests on a propositional implication checked with the clauses of definition 1.7.3.

1. Suppose  $\Sigma \vdash \tau$  but  $\tau \notin \Sigma$ . Then  $\Sigma \cup \{\tau\}$  is inconsistent, so  $\Sigma \cup \{\tau\} \vdash \neg(\psi \rightarrow \psi)$  for some formula  $\psi$ , and  $\Sigma \vdash \tau \rightarrow \neg(\psi \rightarrow \psi)$  by theorem 2.6.10. Then proposition 2.6.9(2) gives  $\Sigma \vdash \neg(\psi \rightarrow \psi)$ , contradicting the consistency of  $\Sigma$ . Hence  $\tau \in \Sigma$ .
2. The formulas  $\tau$  and  $\neg\tau$  are not both in  $\Sigma$ : no truth assignment satisfies  $\{A_0, \neg A_0\}$ , so  $\{A_0, \neg A_0\} \models \neg(A_0 \rightarrow A_0)$ , and lemma 2.6.11 with proposition 2.6.9(3) would give  $\Sigma \vdash \neg(\tau \rightarrow \tau)$ . Suppose now that  $\tau \notin \Sigma$ . As in (1),  $\Sigma \vdash \tau \rightarrow \neg(\psi \rightarrow \psi)$  for some formula  $\psi$ . A truth assignment with  $v(A_0) = T$  gives  $A_0 \rightarrow \neg(A_1 \rightarrow A_1)$  the value  $F$ , because  $v(A_1 \rightarrow A_1) = T$ , so  $\{A_0 \rightarrow \neg(A_1 \rightarrow A_1)\} \models \neg A_0$ . By lemma 2.6.11 and proposition 2.6.9(4),  $\Sigma \vdash \neg\tau$ , and  $\neg\tau \in \Sigma$  by (1), since  $\neg\tau$  is a sentence. Hence exactly one of  $\tau$  and  $\neg\tau$  lies in  $\Sigma$ .
3. If  $\varphi \rightarrow \psi \in \Sigma$  and  $\varphi \in \Sigma$ , then  $\Sigma \vdash \psi$  by proposition 2.6.9(2), so  $\psi \in \Sigma$  by (1). Conversely,  $\varphi \rightarrow \psi$  is a sentence, and it lies in  $\Sigma$  by (1) as soon as  $\Sigma \vdash \varphi \rightarrow \psi$ . If  $\psi \in \Sigma$ , this follows from  $\{A_1\} \models A_0 \rightarrow A_1$ , lemma 2.6.11 and proposition 2.6.9(4). If  $\varphi \notin \Sigma$ , then  $\neg\varphi \in \Sigma$  by (2), and it follows from  $\{\neg A_0\} \models A_0 \rightarrow A_1$  in the same way.
4. Let  $P$  be the set of consistent sets of sentences of  $\mathcal{L}$  containing  $\Gamma$ , partially ordered by inclusion. The empty chain has the upper bound  $\Gamma \in P$ . If  $\mathcal{C} \subseteq P$  is a nonempty chain, then  $\bigcup \mathcal{C}$  contains  $\Gamma$ , and a finite subset of  $\bigcup \mathcal{C}$  lies in a single member of  $\mathcal{C}$ , the chain being totally ordered. That member is consistent, so the finite subset is consistent by proposition 2.6.17(5), and then  $\bigcup \mathcal{C}$  is consistent by proposition 2.6.17(5) again. So  $\bigcup \mathcal{C} \in P$  is an upper bound for  $\mathcal{C}$ . By theorem 2.6.20,  $P$  has a maximal element  $\Sigma$ . It is consistent and contains  $\Gamma$ , and if  $\tau$  is a sentence not in  $\Sigma$ , then  $\Sigma \cup \{\tau\}$  contains  $\Gamma$  and properly contains  $\Sigma$ , so it is not in  $P$ , that is, it is inconsistent. Hence  $\Sigma$  is maximally consistent, completing the proof.

Hence, we have the same relation between maximally consistent sets and “propositionally satisfiability”. When we did this in propositional logic, we defined a suitable truth assignment function from a maximally consistent set of formulas. Now we need to construct a suitable structure from a maximally consistent set of sentences. The following definition will be key in our construction. The motivation behind this definition is as follows: suppose we have  $\Sigma \vdash \exists x\varphi$ . Then recall that for  $\mathfrak{M}$  to satisfy  $\exists x\varphi$ , we must have a constant  $c$  such that  $\varphi_c^x$  is satisfied by  $\mathfrak{M}$ . To have  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi_c^x$ , we need  $\Sigma \vdash \varphi_c^x$ . Thus, if we have  $\Sigma \vdash \exists x\varphi$ , we in a sense need a constant  $c$  such that  $\Sigma \vdash \exists x\varphi \rightarrow \varphi_c^x$ . These constant will be “witnesses” for the existential formulas that our maximally consistent set derives

**Definition 2.6.22: Witness**

Suppose  $\sigma$  is a set of sentences, and  $C$  is a set of (some of the) constants of  $\mathcal{L}$ . Then  $C$  is a *set of witnesses* for  $\Sigma$  in  $\mathcal{L}$  if for every formula  $\varphi$  of  $\mathcal{L}$  with at most one free variable  $x$ , there is a constant symbol  $c \in C$  such that  $\Sigma \vdash \exists x\varphi \rightarrow \varphi_c^x$

Essentially, every element of the universe of formulas for which  $\Sigma$  must exist is “named” or “witnessed” by some constant  $C$ , so we take the subset of constant symbols that we use that are associated with

symbols  $C^{\mathfrak{M}}$  for any structure  $\mathfrak{M}$ .

**Proposition 2.6.23: Extension Of Witnesses**

Let  $\Gamma$  and  $\Sigma$  be sets of sentences of  $\mathcal{L}$ ,  $\Gamma \subseteq \Sigma$  and  $C$  is a set of witnesses for  $\Gamma$  in  $\mathcal{L}$ . Then  $C$  is a set of witnesses for  $\Sigma$  in  $\mathcal{L}$ .

**Proof:**

Let  $\varphi$  be a formula of  $\mathcal{L}$  with at most one free variable  $x$ . Since  $C$  is a set of witnesses for  $\Gamma$ , there is a constant  $c \in C$  with  $\Gamma \vdash \exists x \varphi \rightarrow \varphi_c^x$ . As  $\Gamma \subseteq \Sigma$ , every deduction from  $\Gamma$  is a deduction from  $\Sigma$ , so  $\Sigma \vdash \exists x \varphi \rightarrow \varphi_c^x$ . Hence  $C$  is a set of witnesses for  $\Sigma$ .

**Example 2.6.24: Set Of Witnesses**

Let  $\mathcal{L}_O$  be the first order language with a signal 2-ary relation symbol  $<$  and countably many constant symbols  $c_q$  for each  $q \in \mathbb{Q}$ . Let  $\Sigma$  include all sentences

1.  $c_p < c_q$  for every  $p, q \in \mathbb{Q}$  such that  $p < q$
2.  $\forall x (\neg x < x)$
3.  $\forall x \forall y (x < y \vee x = y \vee y < x)$
4.  $\forall x \forall y \forall z (x < y \rightarrow (y < z \rightarrow x < z))$
5.  $\forall x \forall y (x < y \rightarrow \exists z (x < z \wedge z < y))$
6.  $\forall x \exists y (x < y)$
7.  $\forall x \exists y (y < x)$

Essentially  $\Sigma$  asserts that  $<$  is a linear order on the universe (points 2 to 4) which is dense (point 5) and has no endpoints (6,7) and has a suborder isomorphic to  $\mathbb{Q}$  (1). Then  $C = \{c_q \mid q \in \mathbb{Q}\}$  is a set of Witnesses for  $\Sigma$  in  $\mathcal{L}_O$ .

With the above example, we can deduce the model for the set of sentences from the set of witnesses by simply letting the universe be the set of witnesses, and define the relation interpreting  $<$  in a very obvious way from  $\Sigma$ . However, this is due to the example being purposefully well-chosen, in particular there are not constant symbols which are not witnesses,  $\Sigma$  proves that distinct constant symbols are not equal to each other, and  $\Sigma$  explicitly has everything you need to know about  $<$ . In general, we may not know whether  $\Sigma$  has a set of witnesses, for  $\Sigma$  may not even have constants. Furthermore, if  $\Sigma$  has a set of witnesses, say  $C$ , we usually cannot let the universe just be  $C$  (for example, what if  $\Sigma \vdash c = d$  with distinct witnesses  $c$  and  $d$ ). What if we have constant symbols which are not in  $C$ ? What if  $\Sigma$  doesn't prove enough to define relation and functions for the given symbols? Even if  $\Sigma$  does prove enough, how would we be able to tell?

The main way we shall get around this is by working with maximally consistent sets of sentences in suitable languages:

**Lemma 2.6.25: Generalization on Sentences**

Suppose  $\Sigma$  is a set of sentences,  $\varphi$  is any formula and  $x$  is any variable. Then  $\Sigma \vdash \varphi$  if and only if  $\Sigma \vdash \forall x\varphi$

Note that the key part of this lemma is that we are working with sentences.

**Proof:**

The members of  $\Sigma$  are sentences, so  $x$  is free in none of them, and  $\Sigma \vdash \varphi$  gives  $\Sigma \vdash \forall x\varphi$  by theorem 2.6.12. Conversely,  $x$  is substitutable for  $x$  in  $\varphi$ , by induction through definition 1.5.5: in the quantifier clause either  $x$  is not free in  $(\forall z)(\alpha)$ , or  $z$  is not  $x$  and so does not occur in the term  $x$ . Also  $\varphi_x^x$  is  $\varphi$ , since replacing  $x$  by  $x$  changes nothing. So  $\forall x\varphi \rightarrow \varphi$  is an instance of **A4**, and  $\Sigma \vdash \forall x\varphi$  gives  $\Sigma \vdash \varphi$  by proposition 2.6.9(2), completing the proof.

**Theorem 2.6.26: Enough Witnesses**

Suppose  $\Gamma$  is a consistent set of sentences of  $\mathcal{L}$ . Then there is a nonempty set  $C$  of constant symbols which are *not* symbols of  $\mathcal{L}$  such that, for the language  $\mathcal{L}' = \mathcal{L} \cup C$  obtained by adding the constant symbols in  $C$  to the symbols of  $\mathcal{L}$ , there is a maximally consistent set  $\Sigma$  of sentences of  $\mathcal{L}'$  with  $\Gamma \subseteq \Sigma$  for which  $C$  is a set of witnesses

**Proof:**

Deductions are those of definition 2.6.7. Each use of lemma 2.6.11 rests on a propositional implication checked with the clauses of definition 1.7.3.

*Step 1: the language  $\mathcal{L}'$ .* Put  $\mathcal{L}_0 = \mathcal{L}$ . Given  $\mathcal{L}_k$ , let  $P_k$  be the set of pairs  $(\varphi, x)$  of an  $\mathcal{L}_k$ -formula  $\varphi$  and a variable  $x$  such that no variable other than  $x$  is free in  $\varphi$ , with  $P_{-1} = \emptyset$ . Let  $\mathcal{L}_{k+1}$  be  $\mathcal{L}_k$  together with a new constant symbol  $c_{(\varphi, x)}$  for each pair  $(\varphi, x) \in P_k \setminus P_{k-1}$ , distinct pairs receiving distinct symbols. Let  $\mathcal{L}'$  be the union of the  $\mathcal{L}_k$  and  $C$  the set of new constant symbols, which is nonempty as  $(x = x, x) \in P_0$ . A formula has finitely many symbols, so every  $\mathcal{L}'$ -formula is an  $\mathcal{L}_k$ -formula for some  $k$ , and every pair  $(\varphi, x)$  of an  $\mathcal{L}'$ -formula with at most  $x$  free lies in some  $P_k$ . Call the least such  $k$  the level of the pair, and write  $c_{(\varphi, x)}$  for its constant, which lies in  $\mathcal{L}_{k+1}$  but not in  $\mathcal{L}_k$ . Let

$$\theta_{(\varphi, x)} := (\exists x\varphi \rightarrow \varphi_{c_{(\varphi, x)}}^x) \quad \Theta := \Gamma \cup \{\theta_{(\varphi, x)} \mid (\varphi, x) \text{ a pair of some level}\}$$

Each  $\theta_{(\varphi, x)}$  is a sentence of  $\mathcal{L}'$ , since  $x$  is the only variable that may be free in  $\varphi$ .

*Step 2:  $\Gamma$  is consistent as a set of  $\mathcal{L}'$ -sentences.* Suppose  $D$  is a deduction in  $\mathcal{L}'$  of  $\neg(\psi \rightarrow \psi)$  from  $\Gamma$ . Let  $d_1, \dots, d_r$  be the members of  $C$  occurring in  $D$ , and choose distinct variables  $y_1, \dots, y_r$  occurring in no line of  $D$ . No  $d_i$  occurs in  $\Gamma$ , so applying lemma 2.6.13  $r$  times, replacing  $d_i$  by  $y_i$  at the  $i$ -th time, gives a deduction  $D'$  from  $\Gamma$  in which no member of  $C$  occurs. Its last line is  $\neg(\psi' \rightarrow \psi')$ , where  $\psi'$  is  $\psi$  with each  $d_i$  replaced by  $y_i$ , because the replacement passes through the connectives. Every line of  $D'$  is an  $\mathcal{L}$ -formula, and a logical axiom of  $\mathcal{L}'$  that is an  $\mathcal{L}$ -formula is a logical axiom of  $\mathcal{L}$ : the schemas and their side conditions depend only on the formulas involved, and an instance  $\forall x\alpha \rightarrow \alpha_t^x$  of **A4** in which  $t$  does not appear is also the instance with  $t$  replaced by  $x$ . So  $D'$  is a deduction in  $\mathcal{L}$ , and  $\Gamma$  would be inconsistent in  $\mathcal{L}$ ,

contrary to hypothesis.

*Step 3: adding one witness sentence.* Let  $\Delta$  be a consistent set of  $\mathcal{L}'$ -sentences, let  $(\varphi, x)$  be a pair, write  $c = c_{(\varphi, x)}$ , and suppose that  $c$  occurs neither in  $\Delta$  nor in  $\varphi$ . We show that  $\Delta \cup \{\theta_{(\varphi, x)}\}$  is consistent. Suppose not. Then  $\Delta \cup \{\theta_{(\varphi, x)}\} \vdash \neg(\psi \rightarrow \psi)$  for some formula  $\psi$ , so  $\Delta \vdash \theta_{(\varphi, x)} \rightarrow \neg(\psi \rightarrow \psi)$  by theorem 2.6.10. From  $\{A_0 \rightarrow \neg(A_1 \rightarrow A_1)\} \models \neg A_0$ , then  $\{\neg(A_0 \rightarrow A_1)\} \models A_0$  and  $\{\neg(A_0 \rightarrow A_1)\} \models \neg A_1$ , lemma 2.6.11 and proposition 2.6.9(4) give

$$\Delta \vdash \exists x \varphi \quad \Delta \vdash \neg \varphi_c^x$$

By theorem 2.6.14, there is a variable  $y$  not occurring in  $\neg \varphi_c^x$  with  $\Delta \vdash \forall y (\neg \varphi_c^x)_y^c$ , where  $(\cdot)_y^c$  replaces every occurrence of  $c$  by  $y$ . As  $c$  does not occur in  $\varphi$ , the formula  $(\varphi_c^x)_y^c$  is  $\varphi_y^x$ . This is an induction through definition 1.5.1 and definition 1.5.3. In a term,  $x$  becomes  $c$  and then  $y$ , while all other symbols are unchanged because  $c$  does not occur in  $\varphi$ . The atomic case and the cases of  $\neg$  and  $\forall$  follow, and for  $\varphi \equiv (\forall z)(\alpha)$  both formulas are  $\varphi$  when  $z$  is  $x$ , and both are  $(\forall z)(\alpha_y^x)$  by the induction hypothesis otherwise. So  $\Delta \vdash \forall y (\neg \varphi)_y^x$ . If  $y$  is  $x$ , this formula is  $\forall x \neg \varphi$ . Otherwise  $y$  does not occur in  $\varphi$ , since the symbols of  $\varphi$  other than the free occurrences of  $x$  all occur in  $\varphi_c^x$ , and lemma 2.6.15 with proposition 2.6.9(2) and (3) gives  $\Delta \vdash \forall x \neg \varphi$  again. The formula  $\exists x \varphi$  is  $\neg \forall x \neg \varphi$ , so  $\{A_0, \neg A_0\} \models \neg(A_0 \rightarrow A_0)$  and lemma 2.6.11 give  $\Delta \vdash \neg(\forall x \neg \varphi \rightarrow \forall x \neg \varphi)$ , contradicting the consistency of  $\Delta$ .

*Step 4:  $\Theta$  is consistent.* By proposition 2.6.17(5) it suffices that every finite subset of  $\Theta$  is consistent, and every finite subset lies in a set  $\Gamma \cup \{\theta_1, \dots, \theta_m\}$  with  $\theta_i = \theta_{(\varphi_i, x_i)}$  for distinct pairs listed in order of nondecreasing level  $k_1 \leq \dots \leq k_m$ . We show by induction on  $j \leq m$  that  $\Delta_j = \Gamma \cup \{\theta_1, \dots, \theta_j\}$  is consistent. For  $j = 0$  this is Step 2. Let  $c = c_{(\varphi_{j+1}, x_{j+1})}$ . It does not occur in  $\Gamma$ , which consists of  $\mathcal{L}$ -sentences, nor in the  $\mathcal{L}_{k_{j+1}}$ -formula  $\varphi_{j+1}$ . For  $i \leq j$  the sentence  $\theta_i$  is built from the  $\mathcal{L}_{k_i}$ -formula  $\varphi_i$ , with  $k_i \leq k_{j+1}$ , and the constant  $c_{(\varphi_i, x_i)}$ , which differs from  $c$  because the pairs differ. So  $c$  does not occur in  $\Delta_j$ , and Step 3 shows that  $\Delta_{j+1}$  is consistent.

*Step 5: conclusion.* By proposition 2.6.21(4), applied in the language  $\mathcal{L}'$ , there is a maximally consistent set  $\Sigma$  of  $\mathcal{L}'$ -sentences with  $\Gamma \subseteq \Theta \subseteq \Sigma$ . If  $\varphi$  is an  $\mathcal{L}'$ -formula with at most one free variable  $x$ , then  $(\varphi, x)$  is a pair of some level, and  $\theta_{(\varphi, x)} \in \Sigma$  gives  $\Sigma \vdash \exists x \varphi \rightarrow \varphi_{c_{(\varphi, x)}}^x$  with  $c_{(\varphi, x)} \in C$ . Hence  $C$  is a set of witnesses for  $\Sigma$  in  $\mathcal{L}'$ , as we sought to show.

What this theorem shows is that we can always brute force a set of witnesses. If there is not a set of witnesses, we just add one, and if the set does not decide enough, we make it decide *everything*.

**Lemma 2.6.27: Closed Terms And Equality**

Let  $\mathcal{L}$  be a first-order language, and let  $t, u, w, t_1, \dots, t_n, u_1, \dots, u_n$  be closed terms of  $\mathcal{L}$ , that is terms in which no variable occurs. Let  $f$  be an  $n$ -ary function symbol and  $R$  an  $n$ -ary relation symbol of  $\mathcal{L}$ , and let  $E = \{t_1 = u_1, \dots, t_n = u_n\}$ . Then, for deductions as in definition 2.6.7,

1.  $t$  is substitutable for every variable  $x$  in every formula  $\varphi$ , and  $\vdash \varphi$  implies  $\vdash \varphi_t^x$
2.  $\vdash t = t$
3.  $\{t = u\} \vdash u = t$
4.  $\{t = u, u = w\} \vdash t = w$
5.  $E \vdash ft_1 \cdots t_n = fu_1 \cdots u_n$
6.  $E \cup \{Rt_1 \cdots t_n\} \vdash Ru_1 \cdots u_n$

**Proof:**

Here  $r = r'$  stands for the atomic formula  $= rr'$  of definition 1.1.5, and **A1** to **A8** are the schemas of definition 2.6.4.

*Step 1: item (1).* Let  $r$  be a closed term. It is substitutable for  $x$  in  $\varphi$ , by induction through definition 1.5.5. The atomic case is automatic, and the cases of  $\neg$  and  $\vee$  follow from the induction hypothesis. If  $\varphi \equiv (\forall y)(\alpha)$ , then  $y$  does not occur in  $r$ , which contains no variable, and  $r$  is substitutable for  $x$  in  $\alpha$  by the induction hypothesis. Now let  $\vdash \varphi$ . By theorem 2.6.12, applied with the empty set of hypotheses,  $\vdash \forall x \varphi$ . As  $\forall x \varphi \rightarrow \varphi_r^x$  is an instance of **A4**, proposition 2.6.9(2) gives  $\vdash \varphi_r^x$ .

*Step 2: closed instances.* Let  $\varphi$  be a formula without quantifiers. By induction through definition 1.5.1 and definition 1.5.3, the formula  $\varphi_r^x$  is  $\varphi$  with every occurrence of  $x$  replaced by  $r$ , and it has no quantifiers. Let  $z_1, \dots, z_m$  be distinct variables and  $r_1, \dots, r_m$  closed terms, and suppose  $\vdash \varphi$ . Applying item (1) for  $z_1$  and  $r_1$ , then for  $z_2$  and  $r_2$ , and so on, gives  $\vdash \varphi'$ , where  $\varphi'$  is  $\varphi$  with every occurrence of each  $z_i$  replaced by  $r_i$ , because the closed terms inserted at one stage contain no variable that a later stage replaces.

*Step 3: chains of instances of A8.* Let  $t_1, \dots, t_n, u_1, \dots, u_n$  be any closed terms, with  $E$  as in the statement, and let  $x_1, \dots, x_n, y_1, \dots, y_n$  be distinct variables. For a formula  $\varphi$  without quantifiers, write  $\varphi'$  for  $\varphi$  with every occurrence of each  $x_i$  replaced by  $t_i$  and every occurrence of each  $y_i$  replaced by  $u_i$ . Let  $\alpha_0, \dots, \alpha_n$  be atomic formulas whose variables are among the  $x_i$  and  $y_i$ , such that for each  $j < n$  the formula  $\alpha_{j+1}$  is obtained from  $\alpha_j$  by replacing some occurrences of  $x_{j+1}$  by  $y_{j+1}$ . We show  $E \cup \{\alpha'_0\} \vdash \alpha'_n$ . For  $j < n$ , the formula  $x_{j+1} = y_{j+1} \rightarrow (\alpha_j \rightarrow \alpha_{j+1})$  is an instance of **A8**, and it has no quantifiers, as  $\rightarrow$  abbreviates a formula built from  $\neg$  and  $\vee$ . Step 2 gives

$$\vdash t_{j+1} = u_{j+1} \rightarrow (\alpha'_j \rightarrow \alpha'_{j+1})$$

and proposition 2.6.9(3) with two applications of proposition 2.6.9(2) gives  $E \cup \{\alpha'_j\} \vdash \alpha'_{j+1}$ .

By induction on  $j$ , it follows that  $E \cup \{\alpha'_0\} \vdash \alpha'_j$  for every  $j \leq n$ . The step from  $j$  to  $j + 1$  is proposition 2.6.9(4), since  $E \cup \{\alpha'_0\}$  deduces every member of  $E \cup \{\alpha'_j\}$ .

*Step 4: items (2) to (6).* As  $x_1 = x_1$  is an instance of **A7**, item (1) with  $\varphi \equiv (x_1 = x_1)$  gives (2). Let  $P$  be the relation symbol  $R$ , or the symbol  $=$  with  $n = 2$ , and take  $\alpha_j \equiv Py_1 \cdots y_j x_{j+1} \cdots x_n$  in Step 3. Then  $\alpha'_0$  is  $Pt_1 \cdots t_n$  and  $\alpha'_n$  is  $Pu_1 \cdots u_n$ , so

$$E \cup \{Pt_1 \cdots t_n\} \vdash Pu_1 \cdots u_n$$

For  $P = R$  this is (6). For  $P$  the symbol  $=$ , taking  $(t_1, u_1, t_2, u_2)$  to be  $(t, u, t, t)$  gives  $\{t = u, t = t\} \vdash u = t$ , and taking it to be  $(t, t, u, w)$  gives  $\{t = t, u = w, t = u\} \vdash t = w$ . In both cases (2), with proposition 2.6.9(3) and (4), removes the hypothesis  $t = t$ , which proves (3) and (4). For (5), take  $\alpha_j \equiv (fx_1 \cdots x_n = fy_1 \cdots y_j x_{j+1} \cdots x_n)$  in Step 3, replacing the occurrence of  $x_{j+1}$  in the right-hand term. Then  $\alpha'_0$  is  $ft_1 \cdots t_n = ft_1 \cdots t_n$ , which (2) deduces, and  $\alpha'_n$  is  $ft_1 \cdots t_n = fu_1 \cdots u_n$ . Step 3 with proposition 2.6.9(3) and (4) gives (5), completing the proof.

### Theorem 2.6.28: Constructing Structure

Suppose  $\Sigma$  is a maximally consistent set of sentences of  $\mathcal{L}'$  and  $C$  is a set of witnesses for  $\Sigma$ . Then there is a structure  $\mathfrak{M}$  such that  $\mathfrak{M} \models \Sigma$ .

#### Proof:

Deductions are those of definition 2.6.7, and proposition 2.6.21 and lemma 2.6.27 are applied in the language  $\mathcal{L}'$ .

*Step 1: the structure.* Applied to the formula  $x = x$ , definition 2.6.22 provides a member of  $C$ , so the set  $T$  of closed terms of  $\mathcal{L}'$ , the terms in which no variable occurs, contains  $C$  and is nonempty. For  $t, u \in T$  write  $t \sim u$  when  $(t = u) \in \Sigma$ . A sentence deduced from a set of sentences contained in  $\Sigma$  is deduced from  $\Sigma$  by proposition 2.6.9(3), and therefore lies in  $\Sigma$  by proposition 2.6.21(1). Formulas built from closed terms without quantifiers are sentences, so items (2) to (6) of lemma 2.6.27 give the following for  $t, u, w, t_1, \dots, t_n, u_1, \dots, u_n \in T$ .

- $(t = t) \in \Sigma$ , if  $(t = u) \in \Sigma$  then  $(u = t) \in \Sigma$ , and if  $(t = u) \in \Sigma$  and  $(u = w) \in \Sigma$  then  $(t = w) \in \Sigma$ . So  $\sim$  is an equivalence relation on  $T$ .
- If  $t_i \sim u_i$  for  $1 \leq i \leq n$ , then  $(ft_1 \cdots t_n = fu_1 \cdots u_n) \in \Sigma$  for every  $n$ -ary function symbol  $f$  of  $\mathcal{L}'$ , and  $(Rt_1 \cdots t_n) \in \Sigma$  implies  $(Ru_1 \cdots u_n) \in \Sigma$  for every  $n$ -ary relation symbol  $R$  of  $\mathcal{L}'$ . As  $u_i \sim t_i$  by the first item, the converse implication holds as well.

Write  $[t]$  for the class of  $t \in T$  and  $M := T/\sim$  for the nonempty set of classes. Define the  $\mathcal{L}'$ -structure  $\mathfrak{M}$  with universe  $M$  by

$$c^{\mathfrak{M}} := [c], \quad f^{\mathfrak{M}}([t_1], \dots, [t_n]) := [ft_1 \dots t_n], \quad ([t_1], \dots, [t_n]) \in R^{\mathfrak{M}} \text{ iff } (Rt_1 \dots t_n) \in \Sigma$$

for every constant symbol  $c$ ,  $n$ -ary function symbol  $f$  and  $n$ -ary relation symbol  $R$  of  $\mathcal{L}'$ . By the second item,  $f^{\mathfrak{M}}$  and  $R^{\mathfrak{M}}$  do not depend on the terms chosen to represent the classes. Every element of  $M$  is  $[t]$  for a closed term  $t$ , and  $\bar{s}(t) = [t]$  for every closed term  $t$  and

every assignment  $s$  into  $\mathfrak{M}$ , by induction on  $t$  through definition 1.4.4:  $\bar{s}(c) = c^{\mathfrak{M}} = [c]$ , and  $\bar{s}(ft_1 \cdots t_n) = f^{\mathfrak{M}}(\bar{s}(t_1), \dots, \bar{s}(t_n)) = f^{\mathfrak{M}}([t_1], \dots, [t_n]) = [ft_1 \cdots t_n]$ .

*Step 2: for every  $\mathcal{L}'$ -sentence  $\tau$ ,  $\mathfrak{M} \models \tau$  if and only if  $\tau \in \Sigma$ .* We induct on the number of connectives and quantifiers of  $\tau$ . Fix an assignment  $s_0$  into  $\mathfrak{M}$ . For a sentence  $\sigma$ , corollary 1.4.9 and definition 1.4.10 give  $\mathfrak{M} \models \sigma$  exactly when  $\mathfrak{M} \models \sigma[s_0]$ .

- Let  $\tau$  be atomic. Every variable occurring in  $\tau$  is free in  $\tau$  by definition 1.2.2, so the terms of  $\tau$  are closed. If  $\tau$  is  $t = u$ , then  $\mathfrak{M} \models \tau[s_0]$  holds exactly when  $[t] = [u]$ , that is, when  $\tau \in \Sigma$ . If  $\tau$  is  $Rt_1 \cdots t_n$ , then  $\mathfrak{M} \models \tau[s_0]$  holds exactly when  $([t_1], \dots, [t_n]) \in R^{\mathfrak{M}}$ , that is, when  $\tau \in \Sigma$ .
- Let  $\tau \equiv (\neg\alpha)$ . Then  $\alpha$  is a sentence, and  $\mathfrak{M} \models \tau$  holds exactly when  $\mathfrak{M} \not\models \alpha$  by proposition 1.4.13(1), by the induction hypothesis exactly when  $\alpha \notin \Sigma$ , and by proposition 2.6.21(2) exactly when  $\tau \in \Sigma$ .
- Let  $\tau \equiv (\alpha \vee \beta)$ . Then  $\alpha$  and  $\beta$  are sentences, and  $\mathfrak{M} \models \tau$  holds exactly when  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha$  or  $\mathfrak{M} \models \beta$  by proposition 1.4.13(3), by the induction hypothesis exactly when  $\alpha \in \Sigma$  or  $\beta \in \Sigma$ , and by maximal consistency exactly when  $\tau \in \Sigma$ .
- Let  $\tau \equiv (\forall x)(\alpha)$ , so that no variable other than  $x$  is free in  $\alpha$ . For a closed term  $t$ , the formula  $\alpha_t^x$  is a sentence, as  $t$  is closed and  $x$  is the only variable that may be free in  $\alpha$ , and it has as many connectives and quantifiers as  $\alpha$ , by induction through definition 1.5.3. So the induction hypothesis applies to it. By lemma 2.6.27(1),  $t$  is substitutable for  $x$  in  $\alpha$ , so lemma 2.4.1 and  $\bar{s}_0(t) = [t]$  give

$$\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha_t^x \quad \text{exactly when} \quad \mathfrak{M} \models \alpha[s_0(x|[t])]$$

Suppose  $\tau \in \Sigma$ . For a closed term  $t$ , the formula  $\forall x\alpha \rightarrow \alpha_t^x$  is an instance of **A4**, so  $\Sigma \vdash \alpha_t^x$  by proposition 2.6.9(2), and  $\alpha_t^x \in \Sigma$  by proposition 2.6.21(1). By the induction hypothesis  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha_t^x$ , that is  $\mathfrak{M} \models \alpha[s_0(x|[t])]$ . Every element of  $M$  is  $[t]$  for a closed term  $t$ , so  $\mathfrak{M} \models \tau[s_0]$  by the quantifier clause of definition 1.4.5.

Suppose  $\tau \notin \Sigma$ , so that  $(\neg\tau) \in \Sigma$  by proposition 2.6.21(2). The formula  $\exists x\neg\alpha$  is  $\neg\forall x\neg\neg\alpha$ . From  $\emptyset \models \neg\neg A_0 \rightarrow A_0$ , lemma 2.6.11 gives  $\vdash \neg\neg\alpha \rightarrow \alpha$ . Then theorem 2.6.12, with the empty set of hypotheses, gives  $\vdash \forall x(\neg\neg\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$ , and the instance  $\forall x(\neg\neg\alpha \rightarrow \alpha) \rightarrow (\forall x\neg\neg\alpha \rightarrow \forall x\alpha)$  of **A5** with proposition 2.6.9(2) gives  $\vdash \forall x\neg\neg\alpha \rightarrow \forall x\alpha$ . From  $\{A_0 \rightarrow A_1\} \models \neg A_1 \rightarrow \neg A_0$ , lemma 2.6.11 and proposition 2.6.9(4) give

$$\vdash \neg\forall x\alpha \rightarrow \exists x\neg\alpha$$

and proposition 2.6.9(2) and (3) give  $\Sigma \vdash \exists x\neg\alpha$ . No variable other than  $x$  is free in  $\neg\alpha$ , so definition 2.6.22 provides  $c \in C$  with  $\Sigma \vdash \exists x\neg\alpha \rightarrow (\neg\alpha)_c^x$ , where  $(\neg\alpha)_c^x$  is  $\neg\alpha_c^x$  by definition 1.5.3. Hence  $\Sigma \vdash \neg\alpha_c^x$  by proposition 2.6.9(2), the sentence  $\neg\alpha_c^x$  lies in  $\Sigma$  by proposition 2.6.21(1), and  $\alpha_c^x \notin \Sigma$  by (2) of the same proposition. By the induction hypothesis  $\mathfrak{M} \not\models \alpha_c^x$ , that is  $\mathfrak{M} \not\models \alpha[s_0(x|[c])]$ , so  $\mathfrak{M} \not\models \tau$ .

In particular  $\mathfrak{M} \models \tau$  for every  $\tau \in \Sigma$ , so  $\mathfrak{M} \models \Sigma$ , completing the proof.

Combining the two preceding theorems gives model existence.

**Corollary 2.6.29: Structure And Satisfaction First Order Logic**

Suppose  $\Gamma$  is a consistent set of sentences of a first order language  $\mathcal{L}$ . Then there is a structure  $\mathfrak{M}$  for  $\mathcal{L}$  satisfying  $\Gamma$ .

**Proof:**

By theorem 2.6.26 there is a maximally consistent set  $\Sigma \supseteq \Gamma$  of sentences of  $\mathcal{L}' = \mathcal{L} \cup C$  for which  $C$  is a set of witnesses, and by theorem 2.6.28 an  $\mathcal{L}'$ -structure  $\mathfrak{M}'$  with  $\mathfrak{M}' \models \Sigma$ , hence  $\mathfrak{M}' \models \Gamma$ . Let  $\mathfrak{M}$  be the  $\mathcal{L}$ -reduct of  $\mathfrak{M}'$ , obtained by forgetting the interpretations of the constants in  $C$ . Since every sentence of  $\Gamma$  is a sentence of  $\mathcal{L}$ , we still have  $\mathfrak{M} \models \Gamma$ .

With model existence in hand, the remaining theorems follow exactly as in the propositional case.

**Theorem 2.6.30: First Order Consistent Iff Satisfiable**

A set of sentences  $\Sigma$  in  $\mathcal{L}$  is consistent if and only if it is satisfiable

**Proof:**

If  $\Sigma$  is satisfiable it is consistent by proposition 2.6.17(2). Conversely, if  $\Sigma$  is consistent it has a model by the corollary above, hence is satisfiable.

**Theorem 2.6.31: Completeness Theorem**

If  $\alpha$  is a sentence and  $\Delta$  is a set of sentences such that  $\Delta \models \alpha$  then  $\Delta \vdash \alpha$

**Proof:**

We prove the contrapositive: if  $\Delta \not\vdash \alpha$  then  $\Delta \not\models \alpha$ . First,  $\Delta \cup \{\neg\alpha\}$  is consistent, for otherwise  $\Delta \cup \{\neg\alpha\} \vdash \alpha$ , so by the Deduction Theorem (theorem 2.6.10)  $\Delta \vdash \neg\alpha \rightarrow \alpha$ ; since  $\vdash (\neg\alpha \rightarrow \alpha) \rightarrow \alpha$  (example 2.5.4), modus ponens gives  $\Delta \vdash \alpha$ , a contradiction. By theorem 2.6.30 the consistent set  $\Delta \cup \{\neg\alpha\}$  has a model  $\mathfrak{M}$ ; then  $\mathfrak{M} \models \Delta$  while  $\mathfrak{M} \models \neg\alpha$ , so  $\mathfrak{M} \not\models \alpha$  and therefore  $\Delta \not\models \alpha$ , as required.

Thus, in first order logic, just like for propositional logic, a sentence is implied by some set of premisses if and only if it has a proof from those premisses

**Theorem 2.6.32: Compactness Theorem**

A set of sentences  $\Delta$  is satisfiable if and only if every finite subset of  $\Delta$  is satisfiable

**Proof:**

A set of sentences is satisfiable if and only if it is consistent (theorem 2.6.30), and a set is consistent if and only if every finite subset of it is consistent (proposition 2.6.17(5)). Hence  $\Delta$  is satisfiable iff it is consistent iff every finite subset is consistent iff, again by theorem 2.6.30, every finite subset is satisfiable.

## 2.7 Applications of Compactness

In this chapter, we shall go over some Model theory and some application of the compactness theorem.

### Definition 2.7.1: Model Morphism

Let  $\mathcal{L}$  be a first-order language and  $\mathfrak{M}, \mathfrak{N}$  two models of  $\mathcal{L}$ . Then:

1.  $\mathfrak{M}$  and  $\mathfrak{N}$  are *isomorphic* if there is a function  $\varphi : |\mathfrak{M}| \rightarrow |\mathfrak{N}|$  such that
  - (a)  $\varphi$  is bijective
  - (b)  $\varphi(c^{\mathfrak{M}}) = c^{\mathfrak{N}}$
  - (c)  $\varphi(f^{\mathfrak{M}}(a_1, a_2, \dots, a_k)) = f^{\mathfrak{N}}(\varphi(a_1), \dots, \varphi(a_k))$  for every  $k$ -place function  $f$  of  $\mathcal{L}$  and  $a_1, a_2, \dots, a_k \in |\mathfrak{M}|$
  - (d)  $P^{\mathfrak{M}}(a_1, a_2, \dots, a_k)$  holds if and only if  $P^{\mathfrak{N}}(\varphi(a_1), \dots, \varphi(a_k))$  for every  $k$ -place relation symbol of  $\mathcal{L}$  and elements  $a_1, a_2, \dots, a_k \in |\mathfrak{M}|$
2.  $\mathfrak{M}$  and  $\mathfrak{N}$  are *elementarily equivalent* if  $\text{Th}(\mathfrak{M}) = \text{Th}(\mathfrak{N})$ , that is if  $\mathfrak{M} \models \sigma$  if and only if  $\mathfrak{N} \models \sigma$ . We write  $\mathfrak{M} \equiv \mathfrak{N}$

If  $\mathfrak{M} \cong \mathfrak{N}$  then  $\mathfrak{M} \equiv \mathfrak{N}$ , however the converse need not be true:

### Example 2.7.2: Elementary Equivalent, But Not Isomorphic

Let  $\mathfrak{C} = (\mathbb{N})$  be an infinite model of the basic language  $\mathcal{L}$ . Extend  $\mathcal{L}$  to  $\mathcal{L}_R$  by adding the constant symbol  $c_r$  for every real number  $r$  and let  $\Sigma$  be the set of sentences of  $\mathcal{L}$  including

1. every sentence  $\tau$  of  $\text{Th}(\mathfrak{C})$
2.  $\neg c_r = c_s$  for every pair of real numbers  $r, s$  such that  $r \neq s$

Then every finite subset of  $\Sigma$  is satisfiable. hence by the compactness theorem there is a model  $\mathfrak{U}'$  of  $\mathcal{L}_R$  satisfying  $\Sigma$  and hence  $\text{Th}(\mathfrak{C})$ . Let  $\mathfrak{U}$  be the model we get by dropping the interpretations of all the constant symbols  $c_r$  from  $\mathfrak{U}'$  which is then a model of  $\mathcal{L}$ . Note that  $|\mathfrak{U}| = |\mathfrak{U}'|$  since  $\mathfrak{U}'$  requires a distinct element of the universe to interpret each constant symbol  $c_r$  of  $\mathcal{L}_R$ . Since  $\text{Th}(\mathfrak{C})$  is a maximally consistent set of sentences of  $\mathcal{L}$ , it follows that  $\mathfrak{C} \equiv \mathfrak{U}$ . However,  $\mathfrak{C}$  cannot be isomorphic to  $\mathfrak{U}$  since the cardinalities do not match.

(there are lots of cool examples to add here, especially the non-standard models of the real numbers)

(I would love to add Löwenheim–Skolem theorem and Lefschetz Principle to prove the Ax-Grothendieck Theorem, that is any injective regular function  $f : V \rightarrow V$  between two varieties over an algebraically closed field (of characteristic zero) is surjective. This utilises those two theorems and compactness)

## 2.8 Summary

Due to how the course was run for me, I will be summarising this a bit differently for now. I will come back to this another time to add a more comprehensive summary another time

1. **Axiom Schema:** these are the logical axioms:
  - A1  $(\alpha \rightarrow (\beta \rightarrow \alpha))$
  - A2  $((\alpha \rightarrow (\beta \rightarrow \gamma)) \rightarrow ((\alpha \rightarrow \beta) \rightarrow (\alpha \rightarrow \gamma)))$
  - A3  $((\neg\beta \rightarrow (\neg\alpha)) \rightarrow (((\neg\beta) \rightarrow \alpha) \rightarrow \beta))$
2. **Modus Ponens:** this is our one rule of inference:  $(\{\varphi, (\varphi \rightarrow \psi)\}, \psi)$
3. **Deduction** Take a finite sequence of  $\mathcal{L}$ -formulas  $(\varphi_1, \varphi_2, \dots, \varphi_n)$ . Then this is a *deduction* from  $\Sigma$  if:
  - (a)  $\varphi_i$  is an axiom in the axiom schema (i.e. a logical axioms)
  - (b)  $\varphi_i \in \Sigma$  (i.e. a non-logical axiom)
  - (c)  $\varphi_k$  follows from  $\varphi_i, \varphi_j$  ( $i, j < k$ ) and modus ponens.
4. **Examples** Look at example 2.5 for a list of important examples, and lemma 2.8.1 for important shortcuts
5. **Contradiction**  $\{\delta, \neg\delta\} \vdash \gamma$
6. **Deduction Theorem**

$$\Sigma \vdash \alpha \rightarrow \beta \quad \text{iff} \quad \sigma \cup \{\alpha\} \vdash \beta$$
7. **More examples** Look at example 2.5., modus Tollens (MT), and corollary 2.8.1 for more important deductions to have at your finger tips.
8. **Soundness Theorem**  $\Delta \vdash \alpha$ . Then  $\Delta \models \alpha$ . This one is easy to do with some good inductive reasoning. The rest of the results for propositional deductions builds towards the converse of the Soundness Theorem.
9. **Satisfiability and Consistency.** A set is *inconsistent* if  $\Gamma \vdash \neg(\alpha \rightarrow \alpha)$  (i.e. it implies a contradiction). If  $\Gamma$  is satisfiable, then  $\Gamma$  is consistent (hence, if a truth assignment function works,  $\Gamma$  at least does not deduce a contradiction)
10. **Inconsistency:** If inconsistent, then can deduce anything, and only requires finitely many formulas to deduce the inconsistency. The converse of the last statement is that a set is consistent if and only if every finite subset is consistent.
11. **Maximally Consistent:**  $\Sigma$  is maximally consistent if when adding a new formula,  $\Sigma$  becomes inconsistent. Maximally consistent sets really behave like logical objects:
  - (a)  $\Sigma \vdash \varphi$  then  $\varphi \in \Sigma$
  - (b)  $\neg\varphi \in \Sigma$  if and only if  $\varphi \notin \Sigma$
  - (c)  $\varphi \rightarrow \psi \in \Sigma$  if and only if  $\varphi \notin \Sigma$  or  $\psi \in \Sigma$  (i.e. if  $\varphi \notin \Sigma$ , it's the vacuous truth case, or if  $\varphi \in \Sigma$  then (like in modus ponens)  $\psi \in \Sigma$ )
12. **Truth Assignment via Maximally Consistent Sets:** Simply do  $v(\varphi) = T$  if  $\varphi \in \Sigma$  and  $F$  otherwise. Then trivially, A maximally consistent set is satisfiable with the above truth assignment function. We next ensure that for any consistent set  $\Gamma$ , we can embed it in a maximally consistent set  $\Sigma$ , and since a set is satisfiable if and only if every subset is satisfiable, we got that *consistent implies satisfiable*. By our earlier result, we have that *consistent if and only if satisfiable*

13. **Completeness Theorem:**  $\Sigma \models \varphi$  then  $\Sigma \vdash \varphi$ .
14. **Compactness Theorem**  $\Gamma$  is satisfiable if and only if every finite subset is satisfiable. This follows from the equivalence with consistency in which this holds.
15. **Generalization:** We now move on to deduction for first-order logic. If  $\varphi$  is any formula and  $x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n$  any variables,  $\forall x_1 \dots \forall x_n \varphi$  is the *generalization* of  $\varphi$ . Note that the generalization of a tautology is a tautology.
16. **First order Axiom Schema:**
  - (a) **A1**  $(\alpha \rightarrow (\beta \rightarrow \alpha))$
  - (b) **A2**  $((\alpha \rightarrow (\beta \rightarrow \gamma)) \rightarrow (\alpha \rightarrow \beta) \rightarrow (\alpha \rightarrow \gamma))$
  - (c) **A3**  $((\neg \beta) \rightarrow (\neg \alpha)) \rightarrow ((\neg \beta) \rightarrow \alpha) \rightarrow \beta$
  - (d) **A4**  $(\forall x \alpha \rightarrow \alpha_t^x)$  if  $t$  is substitutable for  $x$  in  $\alpha$
  - (e) **A5**  $(\forall x(\alpha \rightarrow \beta) \rightarrow (\forall x \alpha \rightarrow \forall x \beta))$
  - (f) **A6**  $(\alpha \rightarrow \forall x \alpha)$  if  $x$  does not occur free in  $\alpha$  (i.e. if  $x$  is bounded or does not exist)
  - (g) **A7**  $x = x$
  - (h) **A8**  $(x = y \rightarrow (\alpha \rightarrow \beta))$  if  $\alpha$  is atomic and  $\beta$  is obtained by replacing some occurrences (possibly all or none) of  $x$  in  $\alpha$  by  $y$ .
17. **Repeat:** deductions and MP are defined the same way. The properties of deductions carry over, and so does the Deduction Theorem
18. **Generalization Theorem:** If  $x$  is bound or does not exist in  $\varphi$  and  $\Gamma \vdash \varphi$ , then  $\Gamma \vdash \forall x \varphi$ .
19. **Generalization on Constants:** What this theorem is saying is that if we prove a property of a constant, say  $x_0$  is a constant and  $\vdash P(x_0)$ , then we in fact have  $\vdash \forall x P(x)$
20. **More Examples** Looks at 2.9 for more good examples to have at your finger tips.
21.  **$Th(\mathfrak{M})$  is maximally consistent.** Define

$$Th(\mathfrak{M}) = \{\tau \mid \tau \text{ is a sentence and } \mathfrak{M} \models \tau\}$$

Then it is easy to show it is maximally consistent, parallelising our earlier need in propositional deduction for showing that maximally consistent then satisfiable. However, this time we have constants to deal with. Hence

22. **Witness** In first order deductions, we have the existential quantifier, which means that we require a way to “witness” the existence. That’s what the set of witnesses does. It is not too hard to show that there is enough witnesses, and that a maximally consistent set  $\Sigma$  along with a set of witnesses  $C$  will together be enough to show that there is a  $\mathfrak{M}$  such that  $\mathfrak{M} \models \Sigma$ , that is  $\Sigma$  is satisfiable. The rest follows from the same results almost identical proofs from propositional deduction

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## *Computability*

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In this chapter, we open a new discussion. We are going to characterize a type of function known as a *computable function*. These are functions that, roughly speaking, we can actually “work out” as human being. Since we can work it out, we may try to encode the process into an artificial thinking machine to grind the computation faster (a computer) and get an output for a given input. In other words, computable functions are those for which we can give an input and a set of transformation rules, and in a finite (or countably infinite) amount of time, we can deduce an output. Though it might seem like this is “obvious”, mathematics as its now understood does have uncomputable functions. For example,  $\mathbb{R}$  and  $\mathbb{R}^2$  have the same cardinality, which by definition means they are in bijection to each other:  $f : \mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^2$ . However, it is impossible to define a function where when I give you an input  $x \in \mathbb{R}$ , and you can tell me  $f(x)$  in a finite or even [countably] infinite amount of time. This is because the “construction” of the function used the [uncountable] axiom of choice, which instead of giving a way of choosing each element, it simply asserts that no matter how many sets there are (in our case,  $\{x\}$  for each  $x \in \mathbb{R}$ ), we may always choose an element from each set. Due to the existence of uncountable sets (like  $\mathbb{R}$ ), we get some counter-intuitive results which spurred the development of much of logic for the first half of the 20th century.

We are thus going to look at functions in which we can actually find ways of getting values out of them. Our discussion will start with defining what it means to be able to “compute” values. We then use this definition to define computable functions, and then classify all possible computation functions in terms of a small set of initial function that we can use to build all computable functions using composition and two types of recursion. This discussion will lead us to show that in any model of first order logic that tries to capture the rules of arithmetic’s, we can always find a contradiction.

### 3.1 Turing Machines

Fundamentally, a Turing machine tries to capture the idea that we may take an input and manipulate it in some way to get an output using rules of transformation. In essence, a Turing machine will require memory, rules of deduction and a way to take in inputs and give outputs. We start off with the input of a Turing machine. The input will be manipulated by the Turing machine to produce an output.

#### Definition 3.1.1: Tape

A *tape* is an infinite sequence

$$a = a_0a_1a_2\dots$$

such that for each integer  $i$  the *cell*  $a_i \in \{0, 1\}$ . The  $i$ th cell is said to be *blank* if  $a_i$  is zero and is *marked* if  $a_i = 1$ . A tape is *blank* if each cell is 0

As a convention, we will assume that all but finitely many cells of any given tape is blank, and that any cell not explicitly described is blank. We will omit as much of the tape as possible, and thus write

$$01011011011$$

to represent the tape  $01011011011000\dots$ , and we will sometimes put superscript to abbreviate further, for example:

$$01^301^{25}001$$

If  $\sigma$  is any finite sequence,  $\sigma^n$  is  $n$ copies of the sequence concatenated.

#### Definition 3.1.2: Tape Position

A *tape position* is a triple  $(s, i, \mathbf{a})$  where  $s$  and  $i$  are natural numbers with  $s > 0$ , and  $\mathbf{a}$  is a tape. Given a tape position  $(s, i, \mathbf{a})$ , we will refer to cell  $i$  as the *scanned cell* and  $s$  as the *state*.

We will usually display the tape position by underlining the scanned cell and put the state number to the left. For example,  $(2, 4, \mathbf{a})$  can be represented as:

$$2 : 010\underline{1}001011011$$

that is, it is a tape position at state two with the 4th cell being scanned.

#### Definition 3.1.3: Turing Machine

A *Turing machine* is a function  $M$  such that for some natural number  $n$  such that the domain is a subset of

$$\{1, \dots, n\} \times \{0, 1\} = \{(s, b) \mid 1 \leq s \leq n, b \in \{0, 1\}\}$$

and the range is a subset of

$$\{0, 1\} \times \{-1, 1\} \times \{1, \dots, n\}$$

or  $\{(c, d, t) \mid c \in \{0, 1\}, d \in \{-1, 1\}, 1 \leq t \leq n\}$ . We would write the domain and range as Dom and Range so  $M : \text{Dom}(M) \rightarrow \text{Range}(M)$ .

A possible source of confusion is the difference between the input of a Turing machine, the output of a Turing machine, and the tape position. The following summarizes these to diminish confusion:

1.  $(s, v)$  is the *state* and the *value* at the tape, so  $M(s, v) = (o, d, s')$  maps to (output, direction, state) with output values in  $\{0, 1\}$ , direction values  $\{-1, 1\}$  (i.e. left or right) and state value  $\{1, 2, \dots, n\}$ .
2.  $(s, c, \mathbf{a})$  is the *state*, the *cell number*, and the *input tape* with  $s \in \{1, 2, \dots, n\}$  and  $c \in \mathbb{N}$ .

Often, we shall refer to a Turing machine simply as machine or TM. If  $n \geq 1$  is least such that  $M$  satisfies the above, we call  $M$  an  $n$ -state Turing machine and  $\{1, \dots, n\}$  is the *states* of  $M$ . Here is how to interpret  $M$ . Let's say  $M(s, c) = (b, d, t)$ . What  $M$  will do is scan at the current cell, overwrite the symbol, move left or right, and execute the next instruction. In particular, if  $M$  is in state  $s$  (executing instruction number  $s$ ) and the scanner is presently reading  $c$  in cell  $i$ , then the machine  $M$  should:

1. set  $a_i = b$  (replace  $c$  with  $b$  in the scanned cell)
2. move the scanner to  $a_{i+d}$  (move it left if  $d = -1$  and right if  $d = 1$ )
3. enter state  $t$  (go to instruction  $t$ )

If  $M$  is not equipped to handle input  $c$  at instruction  $s$  (so  $M(s, c)$  is undefined), then the computation in progress will stop, or *halt*.

#### Example 3.1.4: Turing Machine

We usually visualize Turing machines using table. Take the following

| $M$ | 0   | 1   |
|-----|-----|-----|
| 1   | 1R2 | 0R1 |
| 2   | 0L2 |     |

where  $L$  represents  $-1$  and  $R$  represents  $1$ . Then

$$M(1, 0) = (1, 1, 2)$$

$$M(1, 1) = (0, 1, 1)$$

$$M(2, 0) = (0, -1, 2)$$

and  $M(2, 1)$  is undefined. Thus we have

$$M\{(1, 0), (1, 1), (2, 0)\} \rightarrow \{(1, 1, 2), (0, 1, 1), (0, -1, 2)\}$$

Let's say the tap on which  $M$  was acting on was in position:

$$1 : 01001111o$$

Then, since it was in state 1 while scanning a cell containing 0, it would:

1. write 1 in the scanned cell
2. move the scanner one cell to the right
3. go to state 2

Since  $M$  does not know what to do with input 1 in state 2, it would halt, ending the computation

This leads us to ask questions of *computability*. Informally, a computation is a sequence of actions of a machine  $M$  on a tape according to the given rules described above, starting with instruction 1 and the scanner at cell  $a_1$  (or  $a_0$  if you are a computer scientist) on the given tape. A computation ends (*halts*) when and if the machine encounters a tape position which it does not know what to do in. If it never halts, and does not *crash* by running the scanner off the left and of the tape<sup>1</sup>, the computation never ends. We make this notion rigorous

#### Definition 3.1.5: Computation

Let  $M$  be a Turing machine. Then

1. if  $p = (s, i, \mathbf{a})$  is a tape position and  $M(s, a_i) = (b, d, t)$  is defined, then  $\mathbf{M}(p) = (t, i+d, \mathbf{a}')$  is the *successor tape position* where  $a'_i = b$  and  $a'_j = a_j$  whenever  $j \neq i$
2. A *partial computation* with respect to  $M$  is a sequence  $p_1 p_2 \dots$  of tape positions such that  $p_{l+1} = \mathbf{M}(p_l)$  for each  $l < k$ .
3. A partial computation  $p_1, p_2, \dots, p_k$  with respect to  $M$  is a *computation* (with respect to  $M$ ) with *input tape*  $\mathbf{a}$  if  $p_1 = (1, 0, \mathbf{a})$  and  $\mathbf{M}(p_k)$  is undefined (and *not* because the scanner run off the end of the tape). The *output tape* of the computation is the tape of the final tape position  $p_k$ .

As we have defined things, a partial computation is a computation only if the Turing machine halts but does not crash in the final tape position. The requirement that it halts means that any computation can only have finitely many steps. Unless stated otherwise, all partial computations on

<sup>1</sup>some authors treat this as another way of halting

a given input begins in state 1.

### Example 3.1.6: Computations

1. Let  $M$  be the same Turing machine as in example 3.1.4. Let  $\mathbf{a} = 1100$ . Then the initial starting point must be

$1 : \underline{1}100$

Then going through the computations, we get:

$1 : 0\underline{1}00$

$1 : 00\underline{0}0$

$1 : 001\underline{0}$

$1 : 0\underline{1}0$

Since  $M(2, 1)$  is undefined, the process terminates, hence we have given a computation.

2. (look at homework and quiz for further examples)

It will be useful for future purposes to have a library of Turing machines that manipulate blocks of 1s in various ways and very useful to be able to combine machines performing simpler tasks to perform more complex ones. (give such Turing machines here)

As we have defined Turing machines, we have set ourselves many (potential) limitations. For example, why only input 0 and 1? Why have only one tape? Here are a list of possible additions and expansions we may wish to add to our definition:

1. The machines can move the scanner many steps at a time
2. any finite alphabet of at least two symbols can be used
3. Separate the read and write heads
4. have multiple heads
5. have the tape be two-way infinite
6. have multiple tapes
7. have two or higher dimensional tapes

We shall see that anything that is computable on any of the possible augmentations of Turing machines given from any combinations of the above features is in fact computable on a Turing machine, and so in terms of computability these augmentations are “redundant” (they do not add any extra computations).

(I skipped this cause its routine checks. I looked over it, and if I need to in the future I will write about it)

From now on, we shall assume we may have a Turing machine augmented with any of the above additions, since we have shown they are all simulated by Turing Machines.

## 3.2 Computable Functions and Relations

We shall discuss what it means to have a computable function and computable relations. From here on out, functions may be *partial functions*, in which case we shall explicitly specify what is the domain and codomain of  $f$  on which  $f$  becomes a function, or write  $f : \text{Dom}(f) \rightarrow Y$ . Note that any  $k$ -place function is a particular  $k + 1$ -place relation:

$$R_f(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, m) \Leftrightarrow f(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) = m$$

and if  $R$  is a  $k$ -place relation, there is an induced function known as the *characteristic function* of  $R$  defined by:

$$\chi_R(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } R(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) \text{ is true} \\ 0 & \text{if } R(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) \text{ is false} \end{cases}$$

Natural numbers on tapes will be represented in unary notation:  $n$  will be represented as  $1^{n+1}$  (the extra 1 serves as “memory” for the Turing machine to be aware of some of its actions). If  $(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) \in \mathbb{N}^k$ , then this will be represented as

$$1^{n_1+1} 0 1^{n_2+1} \dots 0 1^{n_k+1}$$

This way of defining natural numbers on a tape is not terribly space efficient (think of binary representations), but it will be Turing-machine-computation friendly.

### Definition 3.2.1: [Turing] Computable Function

Let  $f : \mathbb{N}^k \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$  be a partial function. Then  $f$  is said to be *[Turing] computable* (or just *computable*) if for any  $(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) \in \text{Dom}(f)$ , the computation of  $M$  with input tape

$$\underline{0} 1^{n_1+1} 0 1^{n_2+1} \dots 0 1^{n_k+1}$$

will halt with output tape

$$\underline{0} 1^{f(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k)+1}$$

A machine  $M$  that satisfies the above condition is said to *compute*  $f$ .

### Example 3.2.2: Computable Functions

1. Show that  $\iota : \mathbb{N} \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$  defined by  $\iota(n) = n$  is computable with machine  $M = \emptyset$ .
2. Show that  $f(n, m) = n + m$  is computable
3. show that  $\pi_1 : \mathbb{N}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$  giving  $\pi(n, m) = n$  is computable
4. show that  $O : \mathbb{N} \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$  defined by  $O(n) = 0$  is computable.
5. Show that

$$PRED(n) = \begin{cases} n - 1 & n \geq 1 \\ 0 & n = 0 \end{cases}$$

is computable.

6. Show that

$$Diff(n) = \begin{cases} n - m & n \geq m \\ 0 & n < m \end{cases}$$

is computable.

7. show that any projection functions  $\pi_i : \mathbb{N}^k \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$  is computable.

Note that not all functions  $f : \mathbb{N}^k \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$  are computable, even when  $k = 1$ . To see this, note that there are  $\mathbb{N}^{\mathbb{N}}$  number of functions from  $\mathbb{N}$  to  $\mathbb{N}$ , i.e. uncountably many. By definition, a Turing machine has a finite domain and codomain. All possible Turing machines over a particular finite domain and codomain is countable, and the union of all such machines is a countable union which (by the countable axiom of choice) is still countable. Hence, there must be non-computable functions. Hence, there are more unique functions of the form  $f : \mathbb{N} \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$  than there are unique Turing machines to show that each function is computable.

For a concrete example (which will be given, but not proven), consider the following:

### Definition 3.2.3: Busy Beaver Competition

A machine  $M$  is an  $n$ -state entry in the busy beaver competition if:

1.  $M$  has a two-way infinite tape and alphabet  $\{1\}$ <sup>a</sup>
2.  $M$  has  $n + 1$  states, but state  $n + 1$  is used only for halting ( $M(n + 1, 0)$  and  $M(n + 1, 1)$  is undefined)
3.  $M$  eventually halts when given a blank input tape

The *score* of  $M$  in the competition is the number of 1's on the output tape of its computation from a blank input tape. The maximum of all possible scores for  $n$ -state entry machine is denoted  $\Sigma(n)$

<sup>a</sup>Remember that such a machine can be converted to a Turing Machine

The function  $\Sigma(n)$  is well-defined as there are only finitely many Turing  $n + 1$  state machines (with alphabet  $\{1\}$ ) and since we are taking the subset which must halt, a maximum must be achieved.

### Example 3.2.4: Busy Beaver Competition

1. The only 0-state entry is  $M = \emptyset$ , and so trivially  $\Sigma(0) = 0$
2. Define  $P$  as

| P | 0   | 1   |
|---|-----|-----|
| 1 | 1R2 | 1L2 |
| 2 | 1L1 | 1L3 |

Then  $P$  is a 2-tate entry in the busy beaver competition with a score of 4, so  $\Sigma(2) \geq 4$ .

3. Show that  $\Sigma(1) = 1$
4. Show that  $\Sigma(3) \geq 6$
5. Show that  $\Sigma(n) < \Sigma(n+1)$

The function  $\Sigma$  grows very quickly. We know that:

$$\Sigma(0) = 0 \quad \Sigma(1) = 1 \quad \Sigma(2) = 4 \quad \Sigma(3) = 6 \quad \Sigma(4) = 13$$

and  $\Sigma(5) = 4098$  [2, Theorem 6.1]. The bbchallenge collaboration obtained the last value from a computer proof, completed in 2024 and checked in the Coq proof assistant, that decides for every 5-state machine started on a blank tape whether it halts. Up to renaming the states  $2, \dots, 5$ , exchanging left with right, changing transitions that are never used, and the direction of the final move into the halting state, two 5-state entries score 4098. One of them, the machine with the longest run, halts after 47,176,870 steps [2, Theorem 1.1 and Appendix B].

#### Proposition 3.2.5: Non-Computable Function

The function  $\Sigma$  is *not* computable by any Turing machine

#### Proof:

An entry in the busy beaver competition (definition 3.2.3) runs on a two-way infinite tape. We read such a run as in definition 3.1.5, except that a tape is a function  $\mathbf{a}: \mathbb{Z} \rightarrow \{0, 1\}$  with finitely many marked cells and a tape position  $(s, i, \mathbf{a})$  allows any  $i \in \mathbb{Z}$ . The successor of  $(s, i, \mathbf{a})$  is  $(t, i + d, \mathbf{a}')$  when  $M(s, a_i) = (b, d, t)$ , where  $a'_i = b$  and  $a'_j = a_j$  for  $j \neq i$ . The run from the blank tape starts at  $(1, 0, \mathbf{a})$  with  $\mathbf{a}$  blank, and it halts at the first position  $(s, i, \mathbf{a})$  at which  $M(s, a_i)$  is undefined. Such a run cannot leave the tape.

Suppose, for a contradiction, that a  $k$ -state Turing machine  $M$  computes  $\Sigma$  in the sense of definition 3.2.1. For each  $n \in \mathbb{N}$  we build an entry  $B_n$  from three parts, and we write  $N := n + 1$ .

*Step 1: the writer.* For  $1 \leq i \leq n + 1$ , the state  $w_i$  has the single instruction  $B_n(w_i, 0) = (1, -1, w_{i+1})$ , where  $w_{n+2}$  is the first state  $d_1$  of the next part. From the blank tape, starting in  $w_1$  at cell 0, the writer marks the cells  $0, -1, \dots, -n$  and stops in state  $d_1$  at the blank cell  $h := -(n + 1)$ . The marked cells are then exactly  $h + 1, \dots, h + N$ .

*Step 2: the doubler.* The twelve states  $d_1, \dots, d_{12}$  have the instructions below, in the notation of example 3.1.4, where  $m_1$  is the first state of  $M$  and an empty entry is undefined.

|          | 0          | 1          |
|----------|------------|------------|
| $d_1$    | $0Rd_2$    |            |
| $d_2$    |            | $0Rd_3$    |
| $d_3$    | $0Rd_9$    | $1Rd_4$    |
| $d_4$    | $0Rd_5$    | $1Rd_4$    |
| $d_5$    | $1Rd_6$    | $1Rd_5$    |
| $d_6$    | $1Ld_7$    |            |
| $d_7$    | $0Ld_8$    | $1Ld_7$    |
| $d_8$    | $0Rd_2$    | $1Ld_8$    |
| $d_9$    | $1Rd_{10}$ | $1Rd_9$    |
| $d_{10}$ | $1Ld_{11}$ |            |
| $d_{11}$ | $0Rd_{12}$ | $1Ld_{11}$ |
| $d_{12}$ |            | $1Lm_1$    |

For  $0 \leq j \leq N - 1$  let  $I_j$  be the position in state  $d_2$  at cell  $h + 1 + j$  whose marked cells are exactly  $h + 1 + j, \dots, h + N$  and  $h + N + 2, \dots, h + N + 1 + 2j$ . After Step 1, the state  $d_1$  moves the head from  $h$  to  $h + 1$ , which gives  $I_0$ . If  $j \leq N - 2$ , then the run passes from  $I_j$  to  $I_{j+1}$  through the following moves.

- The state  $d_2$  erases cell  $h + 1 + j$  and moves right, and  $d_3$  reads the marked cell  $h + 2 + j$  and moves right into  $d_4$ .
- The state  $d_4$  moves right across the marked cells up to  $h + N$ , reads the blank cell  $h + N + 1$  and moves right into  $d_5$ .
- The state  $d_5$  moves right across the  $2j$  marked cells  $h + N + 2, \dots, h + N + 1 + 2j$  and marks the blank cell  $h + N + 2 + 2j$ , then  $d_6$  marks  $h + N + 3 + 2j$  and moves left into  $d_7$ .
- The state  $d_7$  moves left across the marked cells down to  $h + N + 2$ , reads the blank cell  $h + N + 1$  and moves left into  $d_8$  at cell  $h + N$ , which is marked because  $j + 2 \leq N$ .
- The state  $d_8$  moves left across the marked cells down to  $h + 2 + j$ , reads the blank cell  $h + 1 + j$  and moves right into  $d_2$  at cell  $h + 2 + j$ .

From  $I_{N-1}$ , the state  $d_2$  erases cell  $h + N$ , then  $d_3$  reads the blank cell  $h + N + 1$  and moves right into  $d_9$ , which crosses the  $2N - 2$  marked cells  $h + N + 2, \dots, h + 3N - 1$  and marks  $h + 3N$ . Then  $d_{10}$  marks  $h + 3N + 1$  and moves left,  $d_{11}$  moves left across the marked cells down to  $h + N + 2$ , reads the blank cell  $h + N + 1$  and moves right, and  $d_{12}$  reads the marked cell  $h + N + 2$  and moves left into  $m_1$ . The doubler therefore ends in state  $m_1$  at the blank cell  $c := h + N + 1$ , and the marked cells are exactly  $c + 1, \dots, c + 2N$ . Relative to the cell  $c$ , this is the start of a computation on the input tape  $01^{2N}$ , which represents the number  $2N - 1 = 2n + 1$ .

*Step 3: the copy of  $M$ , and the halting state.* The states of  $M$  are renamed  $m_1, \dots, m_k$  and keep their instructions. For every state  $m_s$  and symbol  $b$  at which  $M$  has no instruction,  $B_n$  gets the instruction  $B_n(m_s, b) = (b, 1, H)$ , for a new state  $H$  without instructions. Let  $p_1, \dots, p_r$  be the computation of  $M$  with input tape  $01^{2N}$ , with  $p_l = (s_l, i_l, \mathbf{a}^l)$ . It exists because  $M$  computes  $\Sigma$ , and its output tape  $\mathbf{a}^r$  is  $01^{\Sigma(2n+1)+1}$ . By induction on  $l \leq r$ , the run of  $B_n$  reaches the position in state  $m_{s_l}$  at cell  $c + i_l$  in which cell  $c + j$  holds  $a_j^l$  for every  $j \geq 0$  and every cell below  $c$  is blank. The case  $l = 1$  is the end of Step 2. For  $l < r$ , the scanned cell holds  $a_{i_l}^l$  because  $i_l \geq 0$ ,

and  $M(s_l, a_{i_l}^l)$  is defined because  $p_{l+1}$  exists (definition 3.1.5), so  $B_n$  follows the same instruction as  $M$  and reaches the position for  $l + 1$ . The cell it writes is  $c + i_l \geq c$ , so the cells below  $c$  stay blank. At  $l = r$ , the instruction  $M(s_r, a_{i_r}^r)$  is undefined, so  $B_n$  writes back the scanned symbol, moves right and halts in  $H$ . Its final tape carries exactly the  $\Sigma(2n + 1) + 1$  marked cells of  $\mathbf{a}^r$ .

*Step 4: counting states.* Number the states of  $B_n$  as  $w_1, \dots, w_{n+1}$ , then  $d_1, \dots, d_{12}$ , then  $m_1, \dots, m_k$ , then  $H$ , so that  $w_1$  is state 1 and  $H$  is state  $n + k + 14$ . Every instruction refers to states among these. As  $M$  halts on the input tape  $01^{2N}$ , it lacks an instruction somewhere, so  $H$  is the target of an instruction of  $B_n$ , while  $H$  has no instructions. By the convention following definition 3.1.3,  $B_n$  thus has  $n + k + 14$  states, the last of them used only for halting, and it halts on the blank tape. So  $B_n$  is an  $(n + k + 13)$ -state entry in the busy beaver competition, with score  $\Sigma(2n + 1) + 1$ .

*Step 5: the contradiction.* Take  $n = k + 12$ . Then  $2n + 1 = n + k + 13$ , so  $B_n$  is a  $(2n + 1)$ -state entry whose score  $\Sigma(2n + 1) + 1$  exceeds  $\Sigma(2n + 1)$ , the greatest score of a  $(2n + 1)$ -state entry. This contradiction shows that no Turing machine computes  $\Sigma$ , as claimed.

The function  $\Sigma$  and this proposition are due to Radó [1].

Coming back to computational functions, we have that they are very flexible:

**Proposition 3.2.6: Composition Is Turing Computable**

Let  $f$  and  $g$  be computable functions such that  $g \circ f$  is well-defined. Then  $g \circ f$  is computable

**Proof:**

For simplicity, let's say  $f : \mathbb{N}^1 \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$  and  $g : \mathbb{N} \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$ . Consider  $(g \circ f)(x) = g(f(x))$ . By definition of  $f$ , there exists a Turing machine,  $M_f$  such that when translating  $x$  into unary representation,  $M_f$  halts on

$$01^{f(x)+1}$$

Since  $g \circ f$  is well-defined,  $f(x)$  is a valid input for  $g$ . Then by the computability of  $g$ , there exists a Turing machine  $M_g$  such that when translating  $f(x)$  into unary representation,  $M_g$  halts on

$$01^{g(f(x))+1} \tag{3.1}$$

Thus, we see that we can modify  $M_f$  so that instead of halting on the last input, it instead goes to the initial state of  $M_g$ . We may combine these two Turing machines and label it  $M_{g \circ f}$ . Thus, we have a Turing machine such that on input  $x$  in unary representation, we get that  $M_{g \circ f}$  halts<sup>a</sup> on the tape at the position in equation (3.1). Since this is true for arbitrary input, we see that  $g \circ f$  must be computable, completing the proof.

<sup>a</sup>in finite amount of time. For us, halting has to happen in a finite amount of time

**Lemma 3.2.7: Composition Of Computable Functions**

Let  $h$  be an  $m$ -place computable function and  $g_1, \dots, g_m$  be  $k$ -place computable functions. Then the  $k$ -place function  $f = h \circ (g_1, \dots, g_m)$ , defined at  $(n_1, \dots, n_k)$  exactly when every  $g_j(n_1, \dots, n_k)$  is defined and  $h$  is defined at  $(g_1(n_1, \dots, n_k), \dots, g_m(n_1, \dots, n_k))$ , is computable.

**Proof:**

Let  $M_h$  and  $M_{g_1}, \dots, M_{g_m}$  compute  $h$  and the  $g_j$  (definition 3.2.1). We use a machine with  $m + 2$  tapes, one of the augmentations allowed after example 3.1.6, with input and output on tape 1. Started on the input  $01^{n_1+1}0 \dots 01^{n_k+1}$ , it copies the input onto tapes  $2, \dots, m + 1$  and runs  $M_{g_j}$  on tape  $j + 1$  for each  $j$  in turn. It then writes the resulting blocks one after another onto tape  $m + 2$  in the input format, and runs  $M_h$  on tape  $m + 2$ . Finally it erases tape 1, copies the block of tape  $m + 2$  onto it, returns to cell 0 and halts.

Let  $\vec{n} = (n_1, \dots, n_k) \in \text{Dom}(f)$ . Each  $g_j(\vec{n})$  is defined, so the run of  $M_{g_j}$  halts with tape  $j + 1$  reading  $01^{g_j(\vec{n})+1}$ , and tape  $m + 2$  then reads

$$01^{g_1(\vec{n})+1}0 \dots 01^{g_m(\vec{n})+1}$$

As  $h$  is defined at  $(g_1(\vec{n}), \dots, g_m(\vec{n}))$ , the run of  $M_h$  halts with tape  $m + 2$  reading  $01^{f(\vec{n})+1}$ . So the machine halts with output tape  $01^{f(\vec{n})+1}$ , and it computes  $f$ , as claimed.

With computable functions being closed under function composition, we may imagine there is a “basis” of computational functions:

**Definition 3.2.8: Initial Functions**

The following are called the *initial functions*

1.  $O$ , the 1-place function such that  $O(n) = 0$  for all  $\mathbb{N}$
2.  $S$ , the 1-place function such that  $S(n) = n + 1$
3.  $\pi_i^k : \mathbb{N}^k \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$  that projects onto the  $i$ th component (note that  $\pi_1^1$  is the identity)

Note that we will be allowed to combine a finite number of inputs and still consider it a composition:

$$(O, S) : \mathbb{N}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{N}^2 \quad (a, b) \mapsto (0, b + 1)$$

Though composing these functions gives us a good family of functions, we are nevertheless limited in the number of computable functions we have by this method as we can see by this next proposition:

**Proposition 3.2.9: Composition Of Initial Functions Is Bounded**

Let  $f$  be a 1-place function obtained from finitely many compositions of initial functions. Then there exists a constant  $c \in \mathbb{N}$  such that  $f(n) \leq n + c$

**Proof:**

A composition step may combine several functions into a tuple, as noted after definition 3.2.8, so the functions met along the way may have several places. We therefore prove more: every  $k$ -place function  $g$  obtained from the initial functions by finitely many compositions has a constant  $c_g \in \mathbb{N}$  with

$$g(n_1, \dots, n_k) \leq \max(n_1, \dots, n_k) + c_g \quad \text{for all } (n_1, \dots, n_k) \in \mathbb{N}^k$$

The induction is on the number of compositions used. For the initial functions,  $O(n) = 0 \leq n + 0$ ,  $S(n) = n + 1$ , and  $\pi_i^k(n_1, \dots, n_k) = n_i \leq \max(n_1, \dots, n_k) + 0$ . For a composition  $g = h \circ (g_1, \dots, g_m)$ , with  $h$  an  $m$ -place and each  $g_j$  a  $k$ -place function obtained with fewer compositions, the induction hypothesis gives

$$g(n_1, \dots, n_k) \leq \max_j g_j(n_1, \dots, n_k) + c_h \leq \max(n_1, \dots, n_k) + \max_j c_{g_j} + c_h$$

so  $c_g = c_h + \max_j c_{g_j}$  works. For a 1-place function  $f$  we have  $\max(n) = n$ , so  $f(n) \leq n + c_f$ , as claimed.

This shows us that there are in fact relatively few computable functions developed through composition. We thus will define 2 more methods by which we may construct computable functions which allows for a much greater class of them. We will show these 3 methods will allow us to construct all computable function on  $\mathbb{N}$  from the initial functions.

### 3.2.1 Primitive Recursion

Primitive recursion is what we would usually call recursion in computer science or induction in mathematics. We call it primitive recursion to distinguish it with another recursive method to define functions which we will define in the next section (unbounded minimalization). Primitive recursion will be sufficient to build up essentially all familiar arithmetic functions from initial functions

#### Definition 3.2.10: Primitive Recursion

Let  $g$  be a  $k$ -place function ( $k \geq 1$ ), and  $h$  a  $(k+2)$ -place function. Let  $f$  be a  $(k+1)$ -place function such that

1.  $f(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, 0) = g(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k)$
2.  $f(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, m+1) = h(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, m, f(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, m))$

for every  $(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) \in \mathbb{N}^k$  and  $m \in \mathbb{N}$ . Then  $f$  is said to be obtained from  $g$  and  $h$  by *primitive recursion*.

We see how this defines  $f$  inductively: it's initial value is given by  $g$ , and the rest is given by  $h$  with the same inputs as well as the preceding value of  $f$ . Note that if  $f$  is a 1-place function, then we define it by doing:

1.  $f(0) = c$  for some constant  $c$
2.  $f(n+1) = (n, f(n))$

**Example 3.2.11: Primitive Recursion**

1.  $SUM(n, m) = n + m$  can be obtained by primitive recursion from the initial function  $\pi_1^1$  and  $S \circ \pi_3^3$  of initial functions as follows:

- (a)  $SUM(n, 0) = \pi_1^1(n)$

- (b)  $SUM(n, m + 1) = (S \circ \pi_3^3)(n, m, SUM(n, m))$

We may prove this with induction, the base case is  $SUM(n, 0) = \pi_1^1(n) = n = n + 0$ . and for  $m \geq 0$ , assume  $SUM(n, m) = n + m$  so that then

$$\begin{aligned} SUM(n, m + 1) &= (S \circ \pi_3^3)(n, m, SUM(n, m)) \\ &= S(\pi_3^3(n, m, SUM(n, m))) \\ &= S(SUM(n, m)) \\ &= SUM(n, m) + 1 \\ &= n + m + 1 \end{aligned}$$

2.  $h(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, m) = \sum_{i=0}^m g(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, i)$  for any  $k \geq 0$  and each  $g$  is  $(k + 1)$ -place primitive recursive. Here  $h(\vec{n}, 0) = g(\vec{n}, 0)$  and  $h(\vec{n}, m + 1) = SUM(h(\vec{n}, m), g(\vec{n}, m + 1))$  for  $\vec{n} = (n_1, \dots, n_k)$ , so for  $k \geq 1$  the function  $h$  arises by primitive recursion from  $g \circ (\pi_1^k, \dots, \pi_k^k, O \circ \pi_1^k)$  and  $SUM \circ (\pi_{k+2}^{k+2}, g \circ (\pi_1^{k+2}, \dots, \pi_k^{k+2}, S \circ \pi_{k+1}^{k+2}))$ . For  $k = 0$ , the same recursion with an extra variable  $u$  carried along unchanged gives a 2-place function  $H(u, m)$ , and  $h(m) = H(m, m)$ .

3.  $MULT(n, m) = nm$  is obtained via primitive recursion on  $O$  and  $SUM \circ (\pi_3^3, \pi_1^3)$  by defining

- (a)  $MULT(n, 0) = O(n)$

- (b)  $MULT(n, m + 1) = (SUM \circ (\pi_3^3, \pi_1^3))(n, m, MULT(n, m))$

Then:

$$\begin{aligned} MULT(n, m + 1) &= (SUM \circ (\pi_3^3, \pi_1^3))(n, m, MULT(n, m)) \\ &= SUM(n, MULT(n, m)) \\ &= SUM(n, nm) \\ &= n + nm \\ &= (1 + m)n \\ &= n(1 + m) \end{aligned}$$

giving us  $MULT(n, m + 1) = n(m + 1)$ .

4.  $EXP(n, m) = n^m$ . Define  $EXP(x, 0) = 1$  and

$$EXP(x, n + 1) = (MULT \circ (\pi_1^3, \pi_3^3))(x, n, EXP(x, n))$$

where  $MULT(n, m) = nm$ . Given for a moment that  $MULT$  is well-defined, we compute:

$$\begin{aligned} EXP(x, n+1) &= MULT((\pi_1^3, \pi_3^3)(x, n, EXP(x, n))) \\ &= MULT(x, EXP(x, n)) \\ &= MULT(x, x^n) \\ &= xx^n \\ &= x^{n+1} \end{aligned}$$

giving us  $EXP(x, n+1) = x^{n+1}$ , which is our desired definition. If  $MULT(n, 0) = 0$  and then

5. For  $FACT(n) = n!$ , define:

$$Fact(n) = \begin{cases} 1 & n = 0 \\ MULT(n, Fact(n-1)) & n > 0 \end{cases}$$

With a variable  $u$  carried along unchanged, the 2-place function given by  $F(u, 0) = 1$  and  $F(u, n+1) = MULT(S(n), F(u, n))$  arises by primitive recursion, and  $Fact(n) = F(n, n)$  is primitive recursive.

6. The function  $PRED(n) = n - 1$  is primitive recursive since

$$PRED(n+1) = \begin{cases} 0(n) & n = 0 \\ \pi_1^2(n, PRED(n)) & n > 0 \end{cases}$$

7. Recall

$$DIFF(n, m) = \begin{cases} n - m & n \geq m \\ 0 & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

For a fixed  $n$  where  $n \geq m$ , we may equivalently think of this function as  $D_n(m)$ . Then:

$$D_n(m) = \begin{cases} n & m = 0 \\ PRED(D_n(PRED(m))) & m > 0 \end{cases}$$

Note that when  $n < m$ , we get  $PRED(D_n(m)) = PRED(0) = 0$ . Thus, define

$$DIFF(n, m) = D_n(m)$$

for each  $n \in \mathbb{N}$ .

8. Define

$$AbsDiff(n, m) = |n - m|$$

We will write  $n \dot{-} m$  for  $DIFF(n, m)$ . First, note that:

$$|n - m| = (n \dot{-} m) + (m \dot{-} n) = SUM((n \dot{-} m), (m \dot{-} n))$$

and that

$$m \dot{-} n = \pi_2^2(n, m) \dot{-} \pi_1^2(n, m)$$

Thus:

$$AbsDiff(n, m) = SUM(n \dot{-} m, \pi_2^2(n, m) \dot{-} \pi_1^2(n, m))$$

**Proposition 3.2.12: Computable Functions Closed Under Primitive Recursion**

Let  $g$  be a computable  $k$ -place function ( $k \geq 1$ ),  $h$  a computable  $(k+2)$ -place function. Then if  $f$  is obtained from  $g$  and  $h$  by primitive recursion, then  $f$  is also Turing computable

**Proof:**

Let  $M_g$  and  $M_h$  compute  $g$  and  $h$  (definition 3.2.1). We use a machine with four tapes, one of the augmentations allowed after example 3.1.6, with input and output on tape 1. Write  $\vec{n} = (n_1, \dots, n_k)$ . Started on the input  $\underline{0}1^{n_1+1}\underline{0} \dots \underline{0}1^{n_k+1}\underline{0}1^{m+1}$ , the machine copies the first  $k$  blocks onto tape 4 and runs  $M_g$  there, copies the resulting block onto tape 3, and writes the counter  $\underline{0}1$  on tape 2. It then repeats the following round. It compares the block on tape 2 with the last block of tape 1 by moving along both at once. If they have the same length, it erases tape 1, copies the block of tape 3 onto it, returns to cell 0 and halts. Otherwise it erases tape 4 and writes on it the first  $k$  blocks of tape 1, then the block of tape 2, then the block of tape 3, in the input format. It runs  $M_h$  on tape 4, replaces the block of tape 3 by the resulting block, marks one more cell at the end of the block of tape 2, and starts the next round.

Let  $(\vec{n}, m) \in \text{Dom}(f)$ , so that  $g(\vec{n})$  and every  $f(\vec{n}, i)$  with  $i \leq m$  are defined. We show by induction on  $i \leq m$  that the  $i$ -th round starts with tape 2 reading  $\underline{0}1^{i+1}$  and tape 3 reading  $\underline{0}1^{f(\vec{n}, i)+1}$ . For  $i = 0$ , the run of  $M_g$  halts with output  $\underline{0}1^{g(\vec{n})+1}$  and  $g(\vec{n}) = f(\vec{n}, 0)$ . If  $i < m$ , the comparison fails, tape 4 receives the input  $\underline{0}1^{n_1+1}\underline{0} \dots \underline{0}1^{n_k+1}\underline{0}1^{i+1}\underline{0}1^{f(\vec{n}, i)+1}$ , and since  $h$  is defined there with value  $f(\vec{n}, i+1)$ , the run of  $M_h$  halts with output  $\underline{0}1^{f(\vec{n}, i+1)+1}$ , which gives the claim for  $i+1$ . In the round  $i = m$  the comparison succeeds, and the machine halts with output tape  $\underline{0}1^{f(\vec{n}, m)+1}$ . Hence the machine computes  $f$ , as claimed.

**Definition 3.2.13: Primitive Recursive Function**

Let  $f : \mathbb{N}^k \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$  be a function. Then  $f$  is said to be *primitively recursive* if it can be defined from the initial functions by finitely many compositions and primitive recursion.

**Lemma 3.2.14: Important Primitive Recursive Functions**

Show that the following functions are primitive recursive

1. For any  $k \geq 0$  and primitive recursive  $(k+1)$ -place function  $g$ , the  $(k+1)$ -place function  $f$  given by

$$f(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, m) = \prod_{i=0}^m g(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, i)$$

is primitive recursive

2. For any constant  $a \in \mathbb{N}$ ,

$$\chi_{\{a\}}(n) = \begin{cases} 0 & n \neq a \\ 1 & n = a \end{cases}$$

is primitive recursive

3. If  $f$  is a primitive recursive  $k$ -place function, and  $a, c_1, c_2, \dots, c_k \in \mathbb{N}$ , the function

$$h(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) = \begin{cases} f(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) & (n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) \neq (c_1, c_2, \dots, c_k) \\ a & (n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) = (c_1, c_2, \dots, c_k) \end{cases}$$

is primitive recursive

**Proof:**

1. Define

$$f(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, 0) = g(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, 0)$$

Next, we shall overload the notation of  $\pi_i^j$  so that  $\pi_1^3, \pi_2^3, \pi_3^3$  will represent projecting  $(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, m, f(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, m))$  to  $(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k), m$ , and  $f(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, m)$  respectively. Then:

$$\begin{aligned} f(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, m+1) &= (Mult \circ (g \circ (\pi_1^3, S(\pi_2^3)), \pi_3^3))(n_1, \dots, n_k, m, f(n_1, \dots, n_k, m)) \\ &= Mult \circ \left( g(n_1, \dots, n_k, m+1), \prod_{i=0}^m g(n_1, \dots, n_k, i) \right) \\ &= g(n_1, \dots, n_k, m+1) \prod_{i=0}^m g(n_1, \dots, n_k, i) \\ &= \prod_{i=0}^{m+1} g(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, i) \end{aligned}$$

giving us our function

2. First, define

$$\chi_{\{0\}}(n) = \begin{cases} 1 & n = 0 \\ 0 & n > 0 \end{cases}$$

Then, for  $\chi_{\{a\}}$ , define

$$\chi_{\{a\}}(n) = \chi_{\{0\}}(|n - a|)$$

see example 3.2.11(8) for  $|n - a| = \text{AbsDiff}(n, a)$ .

3. We may first modify  $\chi_{\{0\}}$  to  $\chi_0^a$  so that:

$$\chi_0^a = \begin{cases} 1 & n = 0 \\ C_a(n) & n > 0 \end{cases}$$

Then, we augment  $\chi_{\{c\}}$  to  $\chi_{\{(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k)\}}$  by doing

$$\begin{aligned} & \chi_{\{(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k)\}}(m_1, m_2, \dots, m_k) \\ &= \\ & \text{Mult}(\text{Mult}(\dots \text{Mult}(\chi_{\{n_1\}}(m_1), \chi_{\{n_2\}}(m_2)), \chi_{\{n_3\}}(m_3)), \dots) \chi_{\{n_k\}}(m_k) \end{aligned}$$

Then:

$$h(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) = \text{Sum}(\text{Mult}(\chi_c, a), \text{Mult}(\text{Diff}(1, \chi_c), f))(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k)$$

Which translates to:

$$h(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) = \begin{cases} f(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) & (n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) \neq c \\ a & (n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) = c \end{cases}$$

### Theorem 3.2.15: Primitive Recursive, Then Computable

Every primitive recursive function is computable.

#### Proof:

By definition 3.2.13 a primitive recursive function is built from the initial functions by finitely many compositions and primitive recursions, so the theorem follows by induction on the number of constructions used once each initial function is computable and both constructions preserve computability.

For the initial functions of definition 3.2.8 we describe machines in the input format of definition 3.2.1. For  $O$ : on input  $\underline{0}1^{n+1}$ , move right onto the block of ones, leave the first one in place, erase every later one while moving right, then walk back to cell 0 and halt. The output tape is  $\underline{0}1$ , and  $O(n) = 0$ . For  $S$ : move right to the first blank cell after the block of ones, mark it, walk back to cell 0 and halt. The output tape is  $\underline{0}1^{n+2}$ , and  $S(n) = n + 1$ . For  $\pi_i^k$ : on input  $\underline{0}1^{n_1+1}0 \dots 01^{n_k+1}$ , if  $i = 1$ , erase every block after the first and halt at cell 0. If  $i \geq 2$ , erase the blocks other than the  $i$ th together with the zeros separating them, except keep the single one in cell 1 as an anchor marking the left end. Then repeat the following: walk left from the leftmost one of the surviving block; if the first cell to its left is marked, the block abuts the anchor; if it is blank, walk back, shift the block one cell to the left (erase its rightmost one and mark the cell just left of its leftmost one), and repeat. The anchor guarantees that the leftward walk always meets a marked cell before cell 0, so the machine never runs off the tape. Once the block abuts the anchor, erase the rightmost one of the combined block and halt at cell 0. The output tape is

$01^{n_i+1}$ , since the anchor and the shifted block together carry  $n_i + 2$  ones.

A composition step may combine several functions into a tuple, as noted after definition 3.2.8, and computable functions are closed under such compositions by lemma 3.2.7. Computable functions are closed under primitive recursion by proposition 3.2.12. This completes the induction.

We may extend the notion of primitive recursive to relations using our earlier observation of how all relations can be represented through characteristic functions:

**Definition 3.2.16: Primitive Recursive Relation**

Let  $k \geq 1$ . Then a  $k$ -place relation  $P \subseteq \mathbb{N}^k$  is *primitive recursive* if the characteristic function

$$\chi_P(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) = \begin{cases} 1 & (n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) \in P \\ 0 & (n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) \notin P \end{cases}$$

is primitive recursive

Almost all relations we have seen are primitive recursive:

**Example 3.2.17: Primitive Recursive Relations and further Functions**

Below, a bounded sum or product whose index starts at  $a$  is read as the sum or product from 0 in which each term with index  $i < a$  is replaced by 0 or by 1, using the factor  $\chi_{\{0\}}(DIFF(a, i))$ , which is 1 exactly when  $a \leq i$ . Bounded sums and products of primitive recursive functions are primitive recursive by example 3.2.11(2) and lemma 3.2.14(1), and so are their compositions with primitive recursive functions, also in the upper limit.

1. The relation  $P = \{2\} \subseteq \mathbb{N}$  is primitive recursive, as its characteristic function  $\chi_{\{2\}}$  is primitive recursive by lemma 3.2.14(2).
2. If  $P$  is primitive recursive, then  $\neg P$  (i.e.  $\mathbb{N}^k \setminus P$ ) is primitive recursive, since

$$\chi_{\neg P}(n_1, \dots, n_k) = \chi_{\{0\}}(\chi_P(n_1, \dots, n_k))$$

In particular  $\mathbb{N}^* = \mathbb{N} \setminus \{0\}$  has the primitive recursive characteristic function

$$\chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}(n) = \chi_{\{0\}}(\chi_{\{0\}}(n))$$

3.  $P \vee Q$  (i.e.  $P \cup Q$ ) is primitive recursive if  $P, Q$  are primitive recursive, since  $\chi_{P \vee Q} = \chi_{\mathbb{N}^*} \circ SUM \circ (\chi_P, \chi_Q)$ .
4.  $P \wedge Q$  (i.e.  $P \cap Q$ ) is primitive recursive if  $P, Q$  are primitive recursive, since  $\chi_{P \wedge Q} = MULT \circ (\chi_P, \chi_Q)$ .
5.  $EQUAL$ , where  $EQUAL(n, m) \Leftrightarrow n = m$ , is primitive recursive, since  $\chi_{EQUAL}(n, m) = \chi_{\{0\}}(AbsDiff(n, m))$  with  $AbsDiff$  from example 3.2.11(8). We also write  $EQUAL$  for  $\chi_{EQUAL}$ .
6.  $DIV$ , where  $DIV(n, m) \Leftrightarrow n|m$ , that is  $nk = m$  for some  $k \in \mathbb{N}$ . Such a  $k$  can be taken with  $k \leq m$ : if  $m = 0$  take  $k = 0$ , and if  $m \geq 1$  then  $n, k \geq 1$  and  $k \leq nk = m$ . Hence

$$\chi_{DIV}(n, m) = \chi_{\mathbb{N}^*} \left( \sum_{k=0}^m EQUAL(MULT(n, k), m) \right)$$

is primitive recursive. We also write *Div* or *div* for  $\chi_{DIV}$ .

7. *ISPRIME*, where  $ISPRIME(n) \Leftrightarrow n$  is prime. For  $n \geq 1$  the number of  $k \leq n$  with  $k|n$  is the number of divisors of  $n$ , which is 2 exactly when  $n$  is prime, and for  $n = 0$  this number is 1, as  $0|0$ . Hence  $\chi_{ISPRIME}(n) = \chi_{\{2\}}\left(\sum_{k=0}^n \chi_{DIV}(k, n)\right)$  is primitive recursive.
8. *Prime*( $n$ ) =  $p_n$ , also written  $p(n)$ , where  $p_0 = 1$  and  $p_n$  is the  $n$ th prime for  $n \geq 1$ . For  $x \geq 1$  some prime  $q$  has  $x < q \leq x! + 1$ : a prime factor  $q$  of  $x! + 1 \geq 2$  cannot satisfy  $q \leq x$ , since then  $q$  would divide  $x!$  and hence 1. So  $p_{n+1}$  is the least  $z \leq p_n! + 1$  with  $z > p_n$  and  $ISPRIME(z)$ . Let  $\chi_Q(x, z) = \chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}(DIFF(z, x)) \cdot \chi_{ISPRIME}(z)$ , the characteristic function of the relation  $Q(x, z)$  that holds when  $z > x$  and  $z$  is prime. If some  $z \leq B$  satisfies  $Q(x, z)$ , then the least such  $z$  is

$$\sum_{y=0}^B \prod_{w=0}^y \chi_{\{0\}}(\chi_Q(x, w))$$

because the product is 1 exactly when no  $w \leq y$  satisfies  $Q(x, w)$ . Taking  $B = FACT(x) + 1$ , with *FACT* from example 3.2.11(5), defines a primitive recursive function  $N(x)$  with  $p_{n+1} = N(p_n)$ . With a variable  $u$  carried along unchanged, the 2-place function given by  $F(u, 0) = 1$  and  $F(u, n + 1) = N(F(u, n))$  arises by primitive recursion, and  $Prime(n) = F(n, n)$  is primitive recursive.

9. *POWER*( $n, m$ ) is the largest  $k \leq m$  such that  $n^k | m$ . When  $m \geq 1$  and  $n \geq 2$  it is the largest  $k$  with  $n^k | m$ , because  $n^k | m$  forces  $k < 2^k \leq n^k \leq m$ . Also  $POWER(n, 0) = 0$ . As  $n^j | n^k$  for  $j \leq k$ , the  $k \leq m$  with  $n^k | m$  are exactly  $0, 1, \dots, POWER(n, m)$ , so

$$POWER(n, m) = DIFF\left(\sum_{k=0}^m \chi_{DIV}(EXP(n, k), m), 1\right)$$

is primitive recursive. We also write *Power* or *pow* for it.

10. *LENGTH*( $n$ ) is the largest  $\ell \leq n$  such that  $p_\ell | n$ . For  $n \geq 1$  it is the largest  $\ell$  with  $p_\ell | n$ : the primes increase from  $p_1 = 2$ , so  $p_\ell \geq \ell + 1$ , and  $p_\ell | n$  forces  $\ell < p_\ell \leq n$ . Also  $LENGTH(0) = 0$  and  $LENGTH(1) = 0$ . For  $1 \leq \ell \leq n$ , some  $j$  with  $\ell \leq j \leq n$  has  $p_j | n$  exactly when  $\ell \leq LENGTH(n)$ , so

$$LENGTH(n) = \sum_{\ell=1}^n \chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}\left(\sum_{j=\ell}^n \chi_{DIV}(Prime(j), n)\right)$$

is primitive recursive. We also write *Length* for it.

11. *ELEMENT*( $n, i$ ) =  $POWER(Prime(i), n)$ , also written *Element*( $n, i$ ). If  $n = p_1^{n_1} \cdots p_k^{n_k}$  with  $n \geq 1$  and  $i \geq 1$ , then  $ELEMENT(n, i) = n_i$  by item (9) and unique factorization, where  $n_i = 0$  if  $i > k$ . It is primitive recursive as a composition of *POWER* and *Prime*.
12. *SUBSEQ*( $n, i, j$ ) =  $p_i^{n_i} p_{i+1}^{n_{i+1}} \cdots p_j^{n_j}$  if  $n = p_1^{n_1} \cdots p_k^{n_k}$  with  $k = LENGTH(n)$  and  $1 \leq i \leq j \leq k$ , and  $SUBSEQ(n, i, j) = 0$  otherwise. Hence

$$\begin{aligned} SUBSEQ(n, i, j) &= \chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}(i) \cdot \chi_{\{0\}}(DIFF(i, j)) \cdot \chi_{\{0\}}(DIFF(j, LENGTH(n))) \\ &\quad \cdot \prod_{t=i}^j EXP(Prime(t), ELEMENT(n, t)) \end{aligned}$$

so it is primitive recursive.

13.  $CONCAT(n, m) = p_1^{n_1} \cdots p_k^{n_k} p_{k+1}^{m_1} \cdots p_{k+\ell}^{m_\ell}$  if  $n = p_1^{n_1} \cdots p_k^{n_k}$  and  $m = p_1^{m_1} \cdots p_\ell^{m_\ell}$  with  $n, m \geq 1$ ,  $k = LENGTH(n)$  and  $\ell = LENGTH(m)$ . No prime beyond  $p_k$  divides  $n$ , by item (10). So, with  $E(n, m, t) = EXP(Prime(LENGTH(n) + t), ELEMENT(m, t))$ ,

$$CONCAT(n, m) = MULT\left(n, \prod_{t=1}^{LENGTH(m)} E(n, m, t)\right)$$

which is primitive recursive.

The above collection of primitive recursive functions and relation give us the tools for representing finite sequences of integers by a single integer, as well as tools for manipulating these representations. Thus, at least in principle, we may reduce all problems with primitive recursive functions and relations to problem involving only 1-place primitive recursive functions and relations

**Theorem 3.2.18: K-Place To 1-Place Primitive Recursive Function**

A  $k$ -place function  $g$  is primitive recursive if and only if the 1-place function  $h$  given by  $h(n) = g(Power(p_1, n), \dots, Power(p_k, n))$  is primitive recursive. In particular  $h(n) = g(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k)$  if  $n = p_1^{n_1} \cdots p_k^{n_k}$ .

**Proof:**

Here  $Power$  is the primitive recursive function of example 3.2.17(9). For fixed  $k$  the primes  $p_1, \dots, p_k$  are constants, and a constant function is a composition of  $S$  with  $O$ , so each 1-place function  $n \mapsto Power(p_i, n)$  is primitive recursive. By unique factorization,  $Power(p_i, p_1^{n_1} \cdots p_k^{n_k}) = n_i$ , which gives the last sentence of the statement.

If  $g$  is primitive recursive, then  $h$  is the composition of  $g$  with the  $k$  functions  $n \mapsto Power(p_i, n)$ , hence primitive recursive. If  $h$  is primitive recursive, then for every  $(n_1, \dots, n_k) \in \mathbb{N}^k$

$$g(n_1, \dots, n_k) = h\left(\prod_{i=1}^k EXP(p_i, n_i)\right)$$

where  $EXP$  is example 3.2.11(4) and the product consists of  $k - 1$  applications of  $MULT$  from example 3.2.11(3). This exhibits  $g$  as a composition of primitive recursive functions, so  $g$  is primitive recursive, completing the proof.

**Lemma 3.2.19: Recognizing Prime Power Codes**

Fix  $k \geq 1$  and let

$$Code_k(n) = \chi_{\{0\}} \left( AbsDiff \left( n, \prod_{i=1}^k EXP(p_i, Power(p_i, n)) \right) \right)$$

Then  $Code_k$  is primitive recursive,  $Code_k(n) = 1$  when  $n = p_1^{n_1} \cdots p_k^{n_k}$  for some  $n_1, \dots, n_k \in \mathbb{N}$ , and  $Code_k(n) = 0$  otherwise. Moreover, for every  $k$ -place relation  $P$ , the 1-place relation  $P' = \{p_1^{n_1} \cdots p_k^{n_k} \mid (n_1, \dots, n_k) \in P\}$  satisfies, for every  $n \in \mathbb{N}$ ,

$$\chi_{P'}(n) = MULT(Code_k(n), \chi_P(Power(p_1, n), \dots, Power(p_k, n)))$$

**Proof:**

For fixed  $k$ , the primes  $p_1, \dots, p_k$  are constants, and a constant function is a composition of  $S$  with  $O$ . With  $Power$  from example 3.2.17(9),  $EXP$ ,  $MULT$  and  $AbsDiff$  from example 3.2.11(4), (3) and (8), and  $\chi_{\{0\}}$  from lemma 3.2.14(2), the function  $Code_k$  is a composition of primitive recursive functions, the product being  $k-1$  applications of  $MULT$ , so it is primitive recursive. It takes the value 1 exactly when  $n$  equals the product. If  $n = p_1^{n_1} \cdots p_k^{n_k}$ , then  $Power(p_i, n) = n_i$  by unique factorization, so the product is  $n$ . If  $n$  equals the product, then  $n$  has this form. This includes  $n = 0$ , where  $Power(p_i, 0) = 0$  by example 3.2.17(9), so the product is  $1 \neq 0$  and  $Code_k(0) = 0$ .

For the identity, if  $n = p_1^{n_1} \cdots p_k^{n_k}$ , then the exponents of  $n$  are determined by unique factorization, so  $n \in P'$  exactly when  $(n_1, \dots, n_k) = (Power(p_1, n), \dots, Power(p_k, n))$  lies in  $P$ , and the right side is  $\chi_P(n_1, \dots, n_k) = \chi_{P'}(n)$ . Otherwise  $n \notin P'$ , since every member of  $P'$  has this form, and both sides are 0, completing the proof.

**Corollary 3.2.20: K-Place To 1-Place Primitive Recursive Relation**

A  $k$ -place relation  $P$  is primitive recursive if and only if the 1-place relation  $P' = \{p_1^{n_1} \cdots p_k^{n_k} \mid (n_1, \dots, n_k) \in P\}$  is primitive recursive, so that

$$(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) \in P \Leftrightarrow p_1^{n_1} \cdots p_k^{n_k} \in P'$$

**Proof:**

By lemma 3.2.19, the primitive recursive function  $Code_k$  satisfies, for every  $n$ ,

$$\chi_{P'}(n) = MULT(Code_k(n), \chi_P(Power(p_1, n), \dots, Power(p_k, n)))$$

If  $P$  is primitive recursive, the right side is a composition of primitive recursive functions, with  $Power$  from example 3.2.17(9), so  $P'$  is primitive recursive. If  $P'$  is primitive recursive, then  $\chi_P(n_1, \dots, n_k) = \chi_{P'}(p_1^{n_1} \cdots p_k^{n_k})$  is a composition of primitive recursive functions, with  $EXP$  and  $MULT$  from example 3.2.11(4) and (3), so  $P$  is primitive recursive, completing the proof.

Note that not all computable functions are primitive recursive function:

**Definition 3.2.21: Ackerman's Function**

Define the 2-place function  $A$  as follows:

1.  $A(0, \ell) = S(\ell)$
2.  $A(S(k), 0) = A(k, 1)$
3.  $A(S(k), S(\ell)) = A(k, A(S(k), \ell))$

Given  $A$ , define the 1-place function  $\alpha$  by  $\alpha(n) = A(n, n)$ . It is not too hard to see that  $A$ , and hence  $\alpha$  are Turing computable.

Ackermann's function essentially stacks power towers. For example, with  $\alpha_4(n) = A(4, n)$ :

$$\begin{aligned}\alpha_4(0) &= 2^{2^2} - 3 = 13 \\ \alpha_4(1) &= 2^{2^{2^2}} - 3 = 2^{16} - 3 = 65533 \\ \alpha_4(2) &= 2^{2^{2^{2^2}}} - 3 = 2^{65536} - 3 \\ &\vdots\end{aligned}$$

In general  $A(4, n)$  is 3 less than a tower of  $n + 3$  twos.

**Proposition 3.2.22: Ackerman's Functions Growth**

Let  $\alpha$  be Ackerman's function and  $f$  be any primitive recursive function. Then there is an  $n \in \mathbb{N}$  such that for all  $k > n$ ,  $\alpha(k) > f(k)$ . As a consequence,  $\alpha$  is not primitive recursive.

**Proof:**

Write  $A$  for the function of definition 3.2.21. Every value  $A(k, \ell)$  is defined: each clause of the definition refers only to values  $A(k', \ell')$  with  $k' < k$ , or with  $k' = k$  and  $\ell' < \ell$ , and there is no infinite descending sequence in this lexicographic order on pairs.

The function  $A$  obeys the following growth estimates.

1.  $A(k, \ell) > \ell$  for all  $k, \ell$ . Induction on  $k$ , and for fixed  $k$  induction on  $\ell$ . For  $k = 0$ :  $A(0, \ell) = \ell + 1$ . For  $k + 1$  and  $\ell = 0$ :  $A(k + 1, 0) = A(k, 1) > 1 > 0$ . For  $k + 1$  and  $\ell + 1$ :  $A(k + 1, \ell + 1) = A(k, A(k + 1, \ell)) > A(k + 1, \ell) \geq \ell + 1$ , the first inequality by the hypothesis for  $k$  and the second by the hypothesis for  $\ell$ .
2.  $A(k, \ell + 1) > A(k, \ell)$ , so  $A(k, \cdot)$  is strictly increasing in its second argument. For  $k = 0$  this reads  $\ell + 2 > \ell + 1$ . For  $k + 1$ :  $A(k + 1, \ell + 1) = A(k, A(k + 1, \ell)) > A(k + 1, \ell)$  by (1).
3.  $A(k + 1, \ell) \geq A(k, \ell + 1)$ . Induction on  $\ell$ . For  $\ell = 0$  both sides are  $A(k, 1)$ . For  $\ell + 1$ :  $A(k + 1, \ell + 1) = A(k, A(k + 1, \ell)) \geq A(k, A(k, \ell + 1)) \geq A(k, \ell + 2)$ , using the hypothesis for  $\ell$  with (2) for the first step, and  $A(k, \ell + 1) \geq \ell + 2$  from (1) with (2) for the second.
4.  $A(k + 1, \ell) > A(k, \ell)$ , by (3) followed by (2). Consequently  $A(k', \ell) \geq A(k, \ell)$  whenever  $k' \geq k$ .

5.  $A(1, \ell) = \ell + 2$  and  $A(2, \ell) = 2\ell + 3$ . Indeed  $A(1, 0) = A(0, 1) = 2$  and  $A(1, \ell + 1) = A(0, A(1, \ell)) = A(1, \ell) + 1$ . Likewise  $A(2, 0) = A(1, 1) = 3$  and  $A(2, \ell + 1) = A(1, A(2, \ell)) = A(2, \ell) + 2$ .
6. If  $u \geq r$  and  $u + 1 \geq s$ , then  $A(r, A(s, \ell)) \leq A(u + 2, \ell)$ . Indeed  $A(s, \ell) \leq A(u + 1, \ell)$  by (4), so by (2) and (4) again

$$A(r, A(s, \ell)) \leq A(u, A(u + 1, \ell)) = A(u + 1, \ell + 1) \leq A(u + 2, \ell)$$

where the equality is the defining recursion and the last step is (3).

Next, the domination lemma: for every primitive recursive  $j$ -place function  $f$  there is an  $m$  with

$$f(n_1, \dots, n_j) < A(m, \max(n_1, \dots, n_j)) \quad \text{for all } (n_1, \dots, n_j) \in \mathbb{N}^j$$

We induct on the construction of  $f$  from the initial functions in definition 3.2.13, writing  $\vec{n}$  for the input and  $M$  for  $\max(n_1, \dots, n_j)$ .

For the initial functions:  $O(n) = 0 < n + 1 = A(0, n)$ , next  $S(n) = n + 1 < n + 2 = A(1, n)$  by (5), and  $\pi_i^k(\vec{n}) = n_i \leq M < A(0, M)$ .

For a composition  $f = h \circ (g_1, \dots, g_t)$  with  $h(p_1, \dots, p_t) < A(r, \max_i p_i)$  and  $g_i(\vec{n}) < A(s_i, M)$ : put  $s = \max_i s_i$ , so that  $\max_i g_i(\vec{n}) < A(s, M)$  by (4). By (2),

$$f(\vec{n}) = h(g_1(\vec{n}), \dots, g_t(\vec{n})) < A(r, A(s, M))$$

and (6) with  $u = \max(r, s)$  gives  $f(\vec{n}) < A(u + 2, M)$ .

For a primitive recursion, let  $f$  be the  $(k + 1)$ -place function obtained from  $g$  and  $h$  as in definition 3.2.10, with  $g(\vec{n}) < A(r, \max \vec{n})$  and  $h(\vec{n}, t, p) < A(s, \max(\vec{n}, t, p))$ , and put  $q = \max(r, s) + 1$ . We first show, by induction on  $t$ ,

$$f(\vec{n}, t) < A(q, \max(\vec{n}) + t)$$

For  $t = 0$  this is  $g(\vec{n}) < A(r, \max \vec{n}) \leq A(q, \max \vec{n})$  by (4). For  $t + 1$ , abbreviate  $N = \max(\vec{n}) + t$ . By the hypothesis for  $t$ , and since  $\max(\vec{n}) \leq N$  and  $t \leq N < A(q, N)$  by (1), every argument of  $h$  in  $f(\vec{n}, t + 1) = h(\vec{n}, t, f(\vec{n}, t))$  is smaller than  $A(q, N)$ . By (2), then (4) with  $s \leq q - 1$ , then the defining recursion,

$$f(\vec{n}, t + 1) < A(s, A(q, N)) \leq A(q - 1, A(q, N)) = A(q, N + 1)$$

which is the bound for  $t + 1$ . Finally,  $\max(\vec{n}) + t \leq 2 \max(\vec{n}, t) < A(2, \max(\vec{n}, t))$  by (5), so by (2) and then (6) with  $u = q$ ,

$$f(\vec{n}, t) < A(q, A(2, \max(\vec{n}, t))) \leq A(q + 2, \max(\vec{n}, t))$$

This closes the induction and proves the domination lemma.

Now let  $f$  be a primitive recursive 1-place function and choose  $m$  with  $f(k) < A(m, k)$  for all  $k$ . For every  $k > m$  we have  $k \geq m + 1$ , so by (4)

$$\alpha(k) = A(k, k) \geq A(m + 1, k) > A(m, k) > f(k)$$

Hence  $n = m$  witnesses the statement. If  $\alpha$  itself were primitive recursive, the statement applied to  $f = \alpha$  would produce an  $n$  with  $\alpha(k) > \alpha(k)$  for all  $k > n$ , which is absurd. Hence  $\alpha$  is not primitive recursive.

### 3.2.2 Unbounded Minimalization

Our final method will round off our tool box of possible ways of constructing computable functions. We shall show that using composition, primitive composition, and Unbounded Minimalization, we will have all Computable functions.

#### Definition 3.2.23: Unbounded Minimalization

Let  $g$  be a  $(k + 1)$ -place function ( $k \geq 1$ ). Then the *unbounded minimalization* of  $g$  is the  $k$ -place function  $f$  defined by

$$f(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) = m \text{ where } m \text{ is least so that } g(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, m) = 0$$

We often denote this as

$$f(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) = \mu m [g(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, m) = 0]$$

If no such  $m$  exists, then we say the unbounded minimalization of  $g$  is not defined on  $(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k)$ .

Note that it is not unbounded minimalization was not defined algorithmically, but logically. In other words, it is not obvious if unbounded minimalization is computable. If a give you a function  $g$ , can you determine in a finite amount if the unbounded minimalization of  $g$  is well-defined? We thus need to guarantee our function always can terminate

#### Definition 3.2.24: Regular Function

A  $(k + 1)$ -place function  $g$  is said to be *regular* if for every  $(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) \in \mathbb{N}^k$ , there is at least one  $m \in \mathbb{N}$  such that  $g(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, m) = 0$ .

Hence we may do the obvious algorithm of computing  $g(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, m)$  for  $m = 0, 1, \dots$ , until we find an  $m$  so that  $g(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, m) = 0$ .

#### Example 3.2.25: Unbounded Minimalization

1.  $f(n)$  is the function that returns the smallest prime factor of  $n$
2. If  $p|n$ , then  $g(n) = k$  where  $n = pk$ .
3.  $p(n)$  returns the  $n$ th prime number.

The reason why this is called unbounded minimization is due to the following

**Proposition 3.2.26: Bounded Minimalization**

Let  $g$  be a  $(k+1)$ -place primitive recursive regular function such that for some primitive recursive  $k$ -place function  $h$ ,

$$\mu m[g(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, m) = 0] \leq h(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k)$$

for all  $(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) \in \mathbb{N}^k$ . Then  $\mu m[g(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, m) = 0]$  is primitive recursive

**Proof:**

Write  $\vec{n}$  for  $(n_1, \dots, n_k)$  and  $\chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}$  for the function of example 3.2.17(2), so  $\chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}(x) = 0$  if  $x = 0$  and  $\chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}(x) = 1$  if  $x > 0$ . It is primitive recursive, being  $\chi_{\{0\}} \circ \chi_{\{0\}}$  with  $\chi_{\{0\}}$  from lemma 3.2.14(2). The composition  $\chi_{\mathbb{N}^*} \circ g$  is primitive recursive, hence so is the  $(k+1)$ -place function

$$t(\vec{n}, i) = \prod_{j=0}^i \chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}(g(\vec{n}, j))$$

by lemma 3.2.14(1). Since  $g$  is regular (definition 3.2.24), the value  $\mu(\vec{n}) := \mu m[g(\vec{n}, m) = 0]$  is defined for every  $\vec{n} \in \mathbb{N}^k$ . If  $i < \mu(\vec{n})$ , every factor of  $t(\vec{n}, i)$  equals 1, so  $t(\vec{n}, i) = 1$ . If  $i \geq \mu(\vec{n})$ , the factor with  $j = \mu(\vec{n})$  equals  $\chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}(0) = 0$ , so  $t(\vec{n}, i) = 0$ . Hence for every  $m$  the sum  $\sum_{i=0}^m t(\vec{n}, i)$  counts the indices  $i \leq m$  with  $i < \mu(\vec{n})$ , so

$$\sum_{i=0}^m t(\vec{n}, i) = \min(\mu(\vec{n}), m+1)$$

The  $(k+1)$ -place function  $u(\vec{n}, m) = \sum_{i=0}^m t(\vec{n}, i)$  is primitive recursive by example 3.2.11(2), and therefore so is the  $k$ -place composition  $F(\vec{n}) = u(\vec{n}, h(\vec{n}))$ . By hypothesis  $\mu(\vec{n}) \leq h(\vec{n}) < h(\vec{n}) + 1$ , so  $F(\vec{n}) = \mu(\vec{n})$ . Hence  $\mu m[g(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, m) = 0]$  is primitive recursive.

**Proposition 3.2.27: Unbounded Minimalization Is Computable**

Let  $g$  be a Turing computable regular  $(k+1)$ -place function. Then the unbounded minimalization of  $g$  is Turing computable.

**Proof:**

Let  $M_g$  be a machine computing  $g$  (definition 3.2.1), and write

$$f(n_1, \dots, n_k) = \mu m[g(n_1, \dots, n_k, m) = 0]$$

We use a machine with three tapes, one of the augmentations allowed after example 3.1.6. Started on the input  $01^{n_1+1}0 \dots 01^{n_k+1}$  on tape 1, it writes the counter  $01$ , representing  $m = 0$ , on tape 2, and then repeats the following round. It erases tape 3, copies onto it the input followed by the counter, in the form

$$01^{n_1+1}0 \dots 01^{n_k+1}01^{m+1}$$

and runs  $M_g$  on tape 3. As  $g$  is a function on all of  $\mathbb{N}^{k+1}$  and  $M_g$  computes it, this run halts with tape 3 reading  $01^{g(n_1, \dots, n_k, m)+1}$ . The machine then reads cell 2 of tape 3, which is blank

exactly when  $g(n_1, \dots, n_k, m) = 0$ . If it is blank, the machine erases tape 1, copies the counter  $01^{m+1}$  onto it, returns to cell 0 and halts. Otherwise it marks the cell after the last marked cell of tape 2, which replaces  $m$  by  $m + 1$ , and starts the next round.

The rounds test  $m = 0, 1, 2, \dots$  in increasing order, each round halts, and the machine halts in the round of the least  $m$  with  $g(n_1, \dots, n_k, m) = 0$ . Such an  $m$  exists because  $g$  is regular (definition 3.2.24), so the machine halts after finitely many rounds with output tape  $01^{f(n_1, \dots, n_k)+1}$ . Hence it computes  $f$ , and the unbounded minimalization of  $g$  is Turing computable, as claimed.

We now combine all our types of functions

#### Definition 3.2.28: Recursive Function

Let  $f$  be a  $k$ -place function. Then  $f$  is *recursive* if it can be defined from the initial functions by finitely many application of composition, primitive recursion, and unbounded minimalization of regular functions.

Similarly, a  $k$ -place partial function is *recursive* if it can be defined from initial functions by finitely many application of composition, primitive recursion, and unbounded minimalization of (possibly non-regular) functions.

#### Definition 3.2.29: Recursive Relation

A  $k$ -place relation  $P$  is said to be *recursive* (or Turing computable) if its characteristic function  $\chi_P$  is recursive

#### Theorem 3.2.30: Recursive Function, Then Computable

Let  $f$  be a recursive function. Then  $f$  is computable

#### Proof:

Here  $f$  is recursive in the first sense of definition 3.2.28, so there is a finite sequence  $f_1, \dots, f_r = f$  of functions in which each  $f_j$  is an initial function, a composition  $h \circ (g_1, \dots, g_m)$  of earlier functions of the sequence, obtained by primitive recursion from two earlier functions, or the unbounded minimalization of an earlier regular function. Each  $f_j$  is total, since the initial functions are total and composition, primitive recursion and the minimalization of a regular function produce total functions from total ones. We show by strong induction on  $j$  that each  $f_j$  is computable.

- An initial function is primitive recursive by definition 3.2.13, with no constructions applied, so it is computable by theorem 3.2.15.
- Let  $f_j = h \circ (g_1, \dots, g_m)$ , where  $h$  and  $g_1, \dots, g_m$  are computable by the induction hypothesis. Then  $f_j$  is computable by lemma 3.2.7.
- Let  $f_j$  be obtained by primitive recursion from a  $k$ -place  $g$  with  $k \geq 1$  and a  $(k+2)$ -place  $h$  (definition 3.2.10), both computable by the induction hypothesis. Then  $f_j$  is computable by proposition 3.2.12.

- Let  $f_j$  be the unbounded minimalization of a regular  $(k+1)$ -place function  $g$  that is computable by the induction hypothesis. Then  $f_j$  is computable by proposition 3.2.27.

For  $j = r$  this shows that  $f$  is computable, as we sought to show.

In the next section, we shall show the following very important result

### Theorem 3.2.31: Computable, Then Recursive

Let  $f$  be a total computable function. Then  $f$  is recursive

Hence, for total functions, recursive and Turing computable is synonymous. We end this section with some important technical results

### Theorem 3.2.32: K-Place To 1-Place Recursive Function

A  $k$ -place function  $g$  is recursive if and only if the 1-place function  $h$  given by  $h(n) = g(\text{Power}(p_1, n), \dots, \text{Power}(p_k, n))$  is recursive. In particular  $h(n) = g(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k)$  if  $n = p_1^{n_1} \dots p_k^{n_k}$ .

#### Proof:

Here  $\text{Power}$  is the primitive recursive function of example 3.2.17(9). For fixed  $k$  the primes  $p_1, \dots, p_k$  are constants, and a constant function is a composition of  $S$  with  $O$ , so each 1-place function  $n \mapsto \text{Power}(p_i, n)$  is primitive recursive. Primitive recursive functions are recursive, the build-up of definition 3.2.13 being a special case of that of definition 3.2.28. By unique factorization,  $\text{Power}(p_i, p_1^{n_1} \dots p_k^{n_k}) = n_i$ , which gives the last sentence of the statement.

If  $g$  is recursive, then  $h$  is the composition of  $g$  with the  $k$  functions  $n \mapsto \text{Power}(p_i, n)$ , hence recursive. If  $h$  is recursive, then for every  $(n_1, \dots, n_k) \in \mathbb{N}^k$

$$g(n_1, \dots, n_k) = h\left(\prod_{i=1}^k \text{EXP}(p_i, n_i)\right)$$

where  $\text{EXP}$  is example 3.2.11(4) and the product consists of  $k-1$  applications of  $\text{MULT}$  from example 3.2.11(3). This exhibits  $g$  as a composition of recursive functions, so  $g$  is recursive, completing the proof.

### Corollary 3.2.33: K-Place To 1-Place Recursive Relation

A  $k$ -place relation  $P$  is recursive if and only if the 1-place relation  $P' = \{p_1^{n_1} \dots p_k^{n_k} \mid (n_1, \dots, n_k) \in P\}$  is recursive, so that

$$(n_1, \dots, n_k) \in P \quad \Leftrightarrow \quad p_1^{n_1} \dots p_k^{n_k} \in P'$$

**Proof:**

By lemma 3.2.19, the function  $Code_k$  defined there is primitive recursive, hence recursive, and for every  $n$

$$\chi_{P'}(n) = MULT(Code_k(n), \chi_P(Power(p_1, n), \dots, Power(p_k, n)))$$

If  $P$  is recursive, then so is  $\chi_P$  (definition 3.2.29). By theorem 3.2.32 applied to  $g = \chi_P$ , the second argument of  $MULT$  in the last display is a recursive function of  $n$ , and therefore  $\chi_{P'}$  is recursive. If  $P'$  is recursive, then the identity

$$\chi_P(n_1, \dots, n_k) = \chi_{P'}\left(\prod_{i=1}^k EXP(p_i, n_i)\right)$$

exhibits  $\chi_P$  as a composition of recursive functions, so  $P$  is recursive, as claimed.

### 3.3 Characterizing Computability

In this section, we work towards showing that all total computable functions are recursive. We will show that any Turing machine can be simulated by some recursive function. Since the functions we worked with input natural numbers, we will have to codify the tape and the Turing machine as natural numbers.

**Definition 3.3.1: Code of Position**

Let  $(s, i, \mathbf{a})$  be a tape position such that all but finitely many cells of  $\mathbf{a}$  are blank. Let  $n \in \mathbb{N}$  such that  $a_k = 0$  for all  $k > n$ . Then the *code* of  $(s, i, \mathbf{a})$  is

$$[(s, i, \mathbf{a})] = 2^s 3^i 5^{a_0} 7^{a_1} 11^{a_2} \dots p_{n+3}^{a_n}$$

For example,

**Example 3.3.2: Code of Position**

1. the code of  $(2, 1, 1001)$  is:

$$[(2, 1, 1001)] = 2^2 3^1 5^1 7^0 11^0 13^1 = 780$$

2. Let  $(1, 0, \mathbf{a})$  where  $\mathbf{a}$  is blank. Then it's code is 2
3. Let  $(4, 3, \mathbf{a})$  where  $\mathbf{a}$  is 1011100101. What is its code?
4. What tape position do we get from 10314720. What is the tape position?

**Definition 3.3.3: Code Of Sequence Of Tape Positions**

Let  $t_1, t_2, \dots, t_n$  be a sequence of tape positions. Then the code of the sequence is

$$[t_1, t_2, \dots, t_n] = 2^{[t_1]} 3^{[t_2]} \dots p_n^{[t_n]}$$

Note that both the tape positions and the sequence of tape positions have unique codes, and hence they are injective. However, they are *not* surjective, for example there is no code  $2^{2^1} 3^{1^5} 5^2$  since there cannot be 2 “1”s in the first cell. Hence, detecting when a number is a tape position or a sequence of tape positions is important, and for our purposes it has to be done in a recursive way:

**Proposition 3.3.4: TapePos And TapePosSeq**

Define the following two relations:

1. **TapePos**, where **TapePos**( $n$ ) holds when  $n$  is the code of a tape position
2. **TapePosSeq**, where **TapePosSeq**( $n$ ) holds when  $n$  is the code of a finite sequence of tape positions

Then these two relations are primitive recursive.

**Proof:**

We use *Element*, *Length*, *Prime* and the conventions on bounded sums and products from example 3.2.17, and  $\chi_{\{a\}}$  from lemma 3.2.14(2).

1. By definition 3.3.1 and definition 3.1.2,  $n$  is the code of a tape position exactly when  $n = 2^s 3^i \prod_{t \geq 3} p_t^{e_t}$  with  $s \geq 1$  and every  $e_t \in \{0, 1\}$ , the cell  $c$  corresponding to the prime  $p_{c+3}$ . For  $n \geq 1$  we have  $Element(n, 1) = s$ , and  $Element(n, t) = 0$  for  $t > Length(n)$ . Hence

$$\begin{aligned} \chi_{\mathbf{TapePos}}(n) &= \chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}(n) \cdot \chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}(Element(n, 1)) \\ &\quad \cdot \prod_{t=3}^{Length(n)} (\chi_{\{0\}}(Element(n, t)) + \chi_{\{1\}}(Element(n, t))) \end{aligned}$$

where the two summands are never 1 at once. This is primitive recursive.

2. The code  $2^{[t_1]} 3^{[t_2]} \dots p_r^{[t_r]}$  of definition 3.3.3 has positive exponents, as tape position codes are at least 2, so for it  $Length(n) = r$  and  $Element(n, l) = [t_l]$ . Conversely, if  $n \geq 1$  and  $Element(n, l)$  codes a tape position for every  $1 \leq l \leq Length(n)$ , then  $n = \prod_{l=1}^{Length(n)} p_l^{Element(n, l)}$  codes the sequence of these positions, since no prime beyond  $p_{Length(n)}$  divides  $n$ . Hence

$$\chi_{\mathbf{TapePosSeq}}(n) = \chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}(n) \cdot \prod_{l=1}^{Length(n)} \chi_{\mathbf{TapePos}}(Element(n, l))$$

which is primitive recursive by (1), the case  $n = 1$  being the empty sequence. This completes the proof.

**Proposition 3.3.5: Important Primitive Recursive Functions**

The following are primitive recursive

1. The 4-place function ENTRY (or NEXT) such that

$$ENTRY(j, w, t, n) = \begin{cases} [(t, i + w - 1, \mathbf{a}')] & n = [(s, i, \mathbf{a})], j \in \{0, 1\} \\ & w \in \{0, 2\}, i + w - 1 \geq 0 \\ & t \geq 1, \text{ where } a'_k = a_k \\ & \text{for } k \neq i \text{ and } a'_i = j. \\ 0 & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

2. For any Turing Machine  $M$  with alphabet  $\{1\}$ , the 1-place function  $STEP_M$  such that

$$STEP_M(n) = \begin{cases} [\mathbf{M}(s, i, \mathbf{a})] & \text{if } n = [(s, i, \mathbf{a})] \text{ and} \\ & \mathbf{M}(s, i, \mathbf{a}) \text{ is defined.} \\ 0 & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

3. For any Turing Machine  $M$  with alphabet  $\{1\}$  the 1-place relation  $COMP_M$  where

$$COMP_M(n) \Leftrightarrow n \text{ is the code of a computation } M$$

**Proof:**

We use *EQUAL*, *Element*, *Length*, *Prime*, *EXP*, *MULT*, *SUM*, *DIFF*,  $\chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}$  and the conventions on bounded sums and products from example 3.2.11 and example 3.2.17,  $\chi_{\{a\}}$  from lemma 3.2.14(2), and **TapePos**, **TapePosSeq** from proposition 3.3.4. For a tape position code  $n = [(s, i, \mathbf{a})]$ , definition 3.3.1 gives  $s = \text{Element}(n, 1)$ ,  $i = \text{Element}(n, 2)$  and  $a_c = \text{Element}(n, c + 3)$  for every cell  $c$ , and every marked cell  $c$  has  $c + 3 \leq \text{Length}(n)$ .

1. Write  $s_n = \text{Element}(n, 1)$  and  $i_n = \text{Element}(n, 2)$ , let

$$A(j, n, c) = \text{MULT}(\text{EQUAL}(c, i_n), j) + \text{MULT}(\chi_{\{0\}}(\text{EQUAL}(c, i_n)), \text{Element}(n, c + 3))$$

and let  $G(j, w, t, n)$  be the product of  $\chi_{\text{TapePos}}(n)$ ,  $\chi_{\{0\}}(\text{DIFF}(j, 1))$ ,  $\chi_{\{0\}}(w) + \chi_{\{2\}}(w)$ ,  $\chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}(i_n + w)$  and  $\chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}(t)$ . Then

$$\begin{aligned} ENTRY(j, w, t, n) &= G(j, w, t, n) \cdot \text{EXP}(2, t) \cdot \text{EXP}(3, \text{DIFF}(i_n + w, 1)) \\ &\quad \cdot \prod_{c=0}^{\text{Length}(n) + i_n} \text{EXP}(\text{Prime}(c + 3), A(j, n, c)) \end{aligned}$$

is primitive recursive. The factor  $G$  is 1 exactly when  $n$  is a tape position code,  $j \leq 1$ ,  $w \in \{0, 2\}$ ,  $i_n + w - 1 \geq 0$  and  $t \geq 1$ , which are the conditions of the statement, and it is 0 otherwise. When it is 1, the exponent of 3 is  $i_n + w - 1$ , the exponent  $A(j, n, c)$  is  $j$  for  $c = i_n$  and  $a_c$  for  $c \neq i_n$ , which is the cell  $c$  of  $\mathbf{a}'$ , and the product runs over every marked cell of  $\mathbf{a}'$ , all of which are at most  $\text{Length}(n) + i_n$ . So the value is  $[(t, i_n + w - 1, \mathbf{a}')]$ .

2. The machine  $M$  has finitely many instructions. For each  $(s_0, b) \in \text{Dom}(M)$  write  $M(s_0, b) = (x_1, x_2, x_3)$ , and let

$$I(n, s_0, b) = \text{EQUAL}(\text{Element}(n, 1), s_0) \cdot \text{EQUAL}(\text{Element}(n, \text{Element}(n, 2) + 3), b)$$

For a tape position code  $n = [(s, i, \mathbf{a})]$ , this is 1 exactly when  $(s, a_i) = (s_0, b)$ . Let

$$\text{STEP}_M(n) = \sum_{(s_0, b) \in \text{Dom}(M)} I(n, s_0, b) \cdot \text{ENTRY}(x_1, x_2 + 1, x_3, n)$$

a finite sum of compositions of primitive recursive functions. If  $n = [(s, i, \mathbf{a})]$ , at most one term is nonzero, the one with  $(s_0, b) = (s, a_i)$ . If  $M(s, a_i) = (x_1, x_2, x_3)$  is defined, this term is  $\text{ENTRY}(x_1, x_2 + 1, x_3, n)$ , which by (1) is the code  $[(x_3, i + x_2, \mathbf{a}')] of the successor position  $\mathbf{M}(s, i, \mathbf{a})$  of definition 3.1.5(1) when  $i + x_2 \geq 0$ , and 0 when the successor would leave the tape and so has no code. If  $M(s, a_i)$  is undefined, every term is 0, and if  $n$  is not a tape position code, every term is 0 because of the factor  $\chi_{\text{TapePos}}(n)$  in  $\text{ENTRY}$ . This is  $\text{STEP}_M$  as described in the statement, with the value 0 for a successor that leaves the tape.$

3. Let  $D_M(q) = \sum_{(s_0, b) \in \text{Dom}(M)} I(q, s_0, b)$ , which for a tape position code  $q$  is 1 exactly when  $M$  has an instruction at the position coded by  $q$ , and 0 otherwise. Writing  $e_l$  for  $\text{Element}(n, l)$ , let

$$\begin{aligned} \chi_{\text{COMP}_M}(n) &= \chi_{\text{TapePosSeq}}(n) \cdot \chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}(\text{Length}(n)) \cdot \text{EQUAL}(\text{Element}(e_1, 1), 1) \\ &\quad \cdot \chi_{\{0\}}(\text{Element}(e_1, 2)) \cdot \chi_{\{0\}}(D_M(e_{\text{Length}(n)})) \\ &\quad \cdot \prod_{l=1}^{\text{Length}(n)-1} \text{EQUAL}(\text{STEP}_M(e_l), e_{l+1}) \end{aligned}$$

This is primitive recursive. Its first two factors are 1 exactly when  $n$  codes a nonempty sequence  $q_1, \dots, q_r$  of tape positions, and the next two exactly when  $q_1 = (1, 0, \mathbf{a})$  for some tape  $\mathbf{a}$ . The factor  $\chi_{\{0\}}(D_M(e_{\text{Length}(n)}))$  is 1 exactly when  $M$  has no instruction at  $q_r$ , which is the halting condition of definition 3.1.5(3). As tape position codes are at least 2, by (2) each factor of the product is 1 exactly when  $q_{l+1} = \mathbf{M}(q_l)$ , so the product is 1 exactly when  $q_1, \dots, q_r$  is a partial computation (definition 3.1.5(2)). Hence  $\chi_{\text{COMP}_M}(n) = 1$  exactly when  $n$  is the code of a computation of  $M$ , completing the proof.

Finally, the last important result to show that total Turing computable functions are recursive is this next recursive function that requires unbounded mineralization

#### Proposition 3.3.6: Simulation Function

Let  $M$  be a Turing machine with alphabet  $\{1\}$ . Then the 1-place (partial) function  $\text{SIM}_M$  is recursive, where

$$\text{SIM}_M(n) = [(t, j, \mathbf{b})]$$

if  $n = [(1, 0, \mathbf{a})]$  for some input tape  $a$  and  $M$  eventually halts in position  $(t, j, \mathbf{b})$ , on input  $\mathbf{a}$

Note that  $\text{SIM}_M(n)$  may be undefined if  $n \neq [(1, 0, \mathbf{a})]$  for an input  $\mathbf{a}$  or if  $M$  does not eventually

halt on input  $\mathbf{a}$ .

**Proof:**

Define the 2-place relation

$$R(n, c) \Leftrightarrow COMP_M(c) \text{ and } Element(c, 1) = n$$

If  $c = 2^{[t_1]}3^{[t_2]} \dots p_r^{[t_r]}$  is the code of a sequence of tape positions as in definition 3.3.3, then  $Element(c, 1) = [t_1]$ , so  $R(n, c)$  holds exactly when  $c$  codes a computation of  $M$  whose first tape position has code  $n$ . Its characteristic function

$$\chi_R(n, c) = \chi_{COMP_M}(c) \cdot \chi_{\{0\}}(AbsDiff(Element(c, 1), n))$$

is primitive recursive, with  $COMP_M$  from proposition 3.3.5(3),  $Element$  from example 3.2.17(11),  $AbsDiff$  from example 3.2.11(8), and  $\chi_{\{0\}}$  from lemma 3.2.14(2). The function  $g(n, c) = \chi_{\{0\}}(\chi_R(n, c))$  is then primitive recursive, and  $g(n, c) = 0$  exactly when  $R(n, c)$  holds. The function  $g$  need not be regular, and by the second part of definition 3.2.28 the unbounded minimalization  $c(n) = \mu m[g(n, m) = 0]$  is a 1-place partial recursive function. Set

$$SIM_M(n) = Element(c(n), Length(c(n)))$$

which is again partial recursive, being a composition with the primitive recursive functions  $Element$  and  $Length$  (example 3.2.17(10)).

Suppose  $n = [(1, 0, \mathbf{a})]$  for an input tape  $\mathbf{a}$  on which  $M$  eventually halts. Then there is a computation  $p_1, \dots, p_r$  with respect to  $M$  with  $p_1 = (1, 0, \mathbf{a})$ , by definition 3.1.5(3), and its code witnesses that some  $c$  satisfies  $R(n, c)$ . Hence  $c(n)$  is defined, and it codes a sequence  $q_1, \dots, q_v$  which by  $R(n, c(n))$  is a computation of  $M$  with  $[q_1] = n = [p_1]$ . Distinct tape positions have distinct codes, as noted after definition 3.3.3, so  $q_1 = p_1$ . Successive entries of a computation advance by the uniquely determined successor position, by definition 3.1.5(2), so  $q_l = p_l$  for all  $l \leq \min(r, v)$ . If  $v < r$ , then  $\mathbf{M}(q_v) = \mathbf{M}(p_v)$  is defined and  $q_1, \dots, q_v$  is not a computation. Symmetrically  $r < v$  is impossible. So  $v = r$  and  $q_l = p_l$  throughout. The exponents  $[p_l] \geq 2$  are positive, so  $Length(c(n)) = r$  and

$$SIM_M(n) = Element(c(n), r) = [p_r] = [(t, j, \mathbf{b})]$$

is the code of the halting position, as required.

If  $n$  is not of the form  $[(1, 0, \mathbf{a})]$ , or  $M$  does not halt on  $\mathbf{a}$ , then no  $c$  satisfies  $R(n, c)$ : any  $c$  with  $COMP_M(c)$  codes a computation, whose first position is of the form  $(1, 0, \mathbf{a}')$  and on whose input tape  $\mathbf{a}'$  the machine  $M$  halts. Hence the minimalization, and with it  $SIM_M(n)$ , is undefined, in agreement with the statement.

Hence, we now see that given a Turing machine  $M$  and an encoded input take  $n$ , we can deduce what the Turing machine will output, given that it halts on the input. The final step we need is simply to insure that encoding and decoding a tape position is indeed recursive:

**Lemma 3.3.7: More Primitive Recursive Functions**

The following functions are primitive recursive

1. For any fixed  $k \geq 1$ ,  $CODE_k(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) = [(1, 0, 01^{n_1+1}0\dots 01^{n_k+1})]$
2.  $DECODE(t) = n$  if  $t = [(s, i, 01^{n+1})]$  (and anything else otherwise)

**Proof:**

1. For  $k = 1$ : the tape  $01^{n+1}$  has  $a_0 = 0$ , then  $a_j = 1$  for  $1 \leq j \leq n + 1$ , and every later cell blank, so by definition 3.3.1

$$CODE_1(n) = [(1, 0, 01^{n+1})] = 2^1 3^0 \prod_{j=1}^{n+1} p_{j+3} = 2 \prod_{i=0}^n Prime(i + 4)$$

where  $Prime(\ell) = p_\ell$  is primitive recursive by example 3.2.17(8). The bounded product is primitive recursive by lemma 3.2.14(1), so  $CODE_1$  is primitive recursive.

Suppose  $CODE_k$  is primitive recursive, and write  $c = CODE_k(n_1, \dots, n_k)$ . The tape coded by  $c$  ends in a marked cell, so its last cell has index  $Length(c) - 3$ : cell  $j$  corresponds to the prime  $p_{j+3}$  in definition 3.3.1, and  $Length(c)$  is the index of the largest prime dividing  $c$  by example 3.2.17(10). The tape of  $CODE_{k+1}(n_1, \dots, n_k, m)$  appends to it one blank cell followed by  $m + 1$  marked cells, whose primes are  $p_{Length(c)+2}, \dots, p_{Length(c)+m+2}$ , the blank cell contributing exponent 0. Hence

$$CODE_{k+1}(n_1, \dots, n_k, m) = c \cdot \prod_{i=0}^m Prime(Length(c) + 2 + i)$$

a composition of primitive recursive functions, primitive recursive by the same two results. As  $k$  is fixed, finitely many steps of this form reach every  $CODE_k$ .

2. If  $t = [(s, i, 01^{n+1})]$ , then by definition 3.3.1 the exponent of the cell prime  $p_{j+3}$  in  $t$  is 1 for the marked cells  $j = 1, \dots, n + 1$  and 0 for every other cell, while the exponents of 2 and 3 are  $s$  and  $i$ . The sum

$$D(t) = \sum_{\ell=0}^{Length(t)} \chi_{\{1\}}(Element(t, \ell + 3))$$

ranges over the cell primes  $p_3, \dots, p_{Length(t)+3}$ , which include every prime dividing  $t$  beyond  $p_2 = 3$ , and counts those cell exponents equal to 1. So  $D(t) = n + 1$ , and setting

$$DECODE(t) = PRED(D(t))$$

gives  $DECODE(t) = n$  on codes of the stated form, with  $\chi_{\{1\}}$  from lemma 3.2.14(2),  $Element$  from example 3.2.17(11), the bounded sum from example 3.2.11(2), and  $PRED$  from example 3.2.11(6). Hence  $DECODE$  is primitive recursive, and on inputs not of the stated form it returns some value, which the statement permits.

**Theorem 3.3.8: Turing Computable, Then Recursive**

Let  $f$  be a total  $k$ -place Turing computable function. Then  $f$  is recursive.

**Proof:**

Let  $M$  compute  $f$  (definition 3.2.1). For  $\vec{n} = (n_1, \dots, n_k) \in \mathbb{N}^k$  write  $\mathbf{a}_{\vec{n}}$  for the input tape  $01^{n_1+1}0 \dots 01^{n_k+1}$ . As  $f$  is total,  $M$  halts on every  $\mathbf{a}_{\vec{n}}$  with output tape  $01^{f(\vec{n})+1}$ , so there is a computation  $p_1, \dots, p_r$  of  $M$  with  $p_1 = (1, 0, \mathbf{a}_{\vec{n}})$  and  $p_r = (t, j, 01^{f(\vec{n})+1})$  for some  $t$  and  $j$  (definition 3.1.5).

Let the  $(k+1)$ -place relation  $R(\vec{n}, c)$  hold when  $COMP_M(c)$  holds and  $Element(c, 1) = CODE_k(\vec{n})$ . Its characteristic function

$$\chi_R(\vec{n}, c) = \chi_{COMP_M}(c) \cdot \chi_{\{0\}}(AbsDiff(Element(c, 1), CODE_k(\vec{n})))$$

is primitive recursive, with  $COMP_M$  from proposition 3.3.5(3),  $Element$  from example 3.2.17(11),  $AbsDiff$  from example 3.2.11(8),  $\chi_{\{0\}}$  from lemma 3.2.14(2) and  $CODE_k$  from lemma 3.3.7(1). Hence  $G = \chi_{\{0\}} \circ \chi_R$  is a primitive recursive  $(k+1)$ -place function that vanishes exactly on  $R$ . It is regular (definition 3.2.24): for each  $\vec{n}$  the code  $c_0 = [p_1, \dots, p_r]$  of the computation above satisfies  $COMP_M(c_0)$  and  $Element(c_0, 1) = [p_1] = CODE_k(\vec{n})$ , so  $G(\vec{n}, c_0) = 0$ . By the first sense of definition 3.2.28, the function  $C(\vec{n}) = \mu c[G(\vec{n}, c) = 0]$  is recursive, and so is the composition

$$F(\vec{n}) = DECODE(Element(C(\vec{n}), Length(C(\vec{n}))))$$

with  $Length$  from example 3.2.17(10) and  $DECODE$  from lemma 3.3.7(2).

It remains to show  $F = f$ . Fix  $\vec{n}$ . By  $R(\vec{n}, C(\vec{n}))$ , the number  $C(\vec{n})$  codes a computation  $q_1, \dots, q_v$  of  $M$  with  $[q_1] = CODE_k(\vec{n}) = [p_1]$ , so  $q_1 = p_1$ , since distinct tape positions have distinct codes (as noted after definition 3.3.3). By definition 3.1.5, each entry of a computation after the first is the successor position of the previous entry, so  $q_l = p_l$  for all  $l \leq \min(r, v)$ . If  $v < r$ , then  $\mathbf{M}(q_v) = \mathbf{M}(p_v)$  is defined and  $q_1, \dots, q_v$  is not a computation, and if  $r < v$ , then  $\mathbf{M}(p_r) = \mathbf{M}(q_r)$  is defined and  $p_1, \dots, p_r$  is not a computation. Hence  $v = r$  and  $C(\vec{n}) = [p_1, \dots, p_r]$ . The exponents  $[p_l]$  are at least 2, so  $Length(C(\vec{n})) = r$  and  $Element(C(\vec{n}), r) = [p_r] = [(t, j, 01^{f(\vec{n})+1})]$ . Therefore  $F(\vec{n}) = f(\vec{n})$  by the defining property of  $DECODE$ , and  $f = F$  is recursive, as we sought to show.

Hence, since recursive implies Turing computable by theorem 3.2.30, we see that for total functions we get

*Turing Computable if and only if recursive*

**3.3.1 Universal Turing Machine and Halting Problem**

We can go a little further than what we did above: we can have a recursive function that can simulate *any* Turing machine. Since every recursive function can be computed by a Turing machine, this essentially gives us a *Universal Turing machine*

**Definition 3.3.9: Universal Turing Machine (UTM)**

A *universal Turing machine*  $U$  is a Turing machine such that when given (an appropriate description of) a Turing machine  $M$  and an input tape  $\mathbf{a}$ , it will simulate the computations of  $M$  with input  $\mathbf{a}$  and gives the output of  $M$  on  $\mathbf{a}$ .

**Definition 3.3.10: Encoding Turing Machine**

Let  $M$  be a Turing machine, hence a partial function as defined in definition 3.1.3. Then if  $M(a, b) = (x_1^{(a,b)}, x_2^{(a,b)}, x_3^{(a,b)})$ , then:

$$[M] = p_1^{\left(2^{x_1^{(1,0)}} 3^{x_2^{(1,0)}} + 1 5^{x_3^{(1,0)}}\right)} p_2^{\left(2^{x_1^{(1,1)}} 3^{x_2^{(1,1)}} + 1 5^{x_3^{(1,1)}}\right)} \cdots p_{2n}^{\left(2^{x_1^{(n,1)}} 3^{x_2^{(n,1)}} + 1 5^{x_3^{(n,1)}}\right)}$$

where each  $p_i$  represents one of the  $2n$  possible inputs in the order of  $(1, 0), (1, 1), (2, 0), (2, 1), \dots$ , the exponent represents the possible output, and is zero.

**Proposition 3.3.11: Generalized STEP And COMP**

The following 2-place function and 2-place relation are primitive recursive:

1.

$$STEP(m, n) = \begin{cases} [M(s, i, \mathbf{a})] & \text{if } m = [M] \text{ for some machine } M, \\ & \text{if } n = [(s, i, \mathbf{a})] \text{ and } M(s, i, \mathbf{a}) \text{ is defined.} \\ 0 & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

2.

$$COMP(m, n) \Leftrightarrow m = [M] \text{ for some Turing machine } M \\ \text{and } n \text{ is the code of a computation of } M$$

**Proof:**

Throughout, *Element*, *Power*, *Length*, *EXP*, *EQUAL* and *CONCAT* are the primitive recursive functions of example 3.2.17 and example 3.2.11,  $n - m$  is *DIFF*( $n, m$ ), the functions  $\chi_{\{a\}}$  are those of lemma 3.2.14(2), and  $\chi_{\mathbb{N}^*} = \chi_{\{0\}} \circ \chi_{\{0\}}$  tests being nonzero as in example 3.2.17(2). A bounded sum starting at index 1,  $\sum_{i=1}^b G(\dots, i)$ , is read as  $\sum_{i=0}^b \chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}(i) \cdot G(\dots, i)$ , and a bounded product  $\prod_{i=1}^b G(\dots, i)$  as  $\prod_{i=0}^b (\chi_{\{0\}}(i) + \chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}(i) \cdot G(\dots, i))$ . Both modified terms are compositions of  $G$  with *SUM*, *Mult* and the characteristic functions, so the sum and product stay primitive recursive when  $G$  is. By example 3.2.17(9) and (10), *Power*( $x, 0$ ) = 0 and *Length*(0) = 0, because the bounds  $k \leq m$  and  $\ell \leq n$  in those definitions leave only the value 0 at the argument 0. Every use of *Power* or *Length* below either applies to a positive argument or sits alongside a guard factor that vanishes on the offending inputs, so these values never matter.

In definition 3.3.10 the instruction of  $M$  at the input  $(s, b)$ , with  $s \geq 1$  and  $b \in \{0, 1\}$ , is stored as the exponent of  $p_{2s+b-1}$ , the position of  $(s, b)$  in the order  $(1, 0), (1, 1), (2, 0), (2, 1), \dots$ , and the exponent is  $2^{x_1} 3^{x_2+1} 5^{x_3}$  if  $M(s, b) = (x_1, x_2, x_3)$  is defined and 0 if not. Since  $x_3 \geq 1$ , a stored instruction is a positive number, indeed one divisible by 5. A number  $e$  is a stored instruction of

some machine exactly when  $e > 0$ ,  $e$  has no prime factors beyond 2, 3, 5, its exponent of 2 is at most 1, its exponent of 3 is 0 or 2, and its exponent of 5 is at least 1:

$$\begin{aligned} \text{valid}(e) = & \chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}(e) \\ & \cdot \text{EQUAL}(e, \text{EXP}(2, \text{Power}(2, e)) \cdot \text{EXP}(3, \text{Power}(3, e)) \cdot \text{EXP}(5, \text{Power}(5, e))) \\ & \cdot \chi_{\{0\}}(\text{Power}(2, e) - 1) \cdot (\chi_{\{0\}}(\text{Power}(3, e)) + \chi_{\{2\}}(\text{Power}(3, e))) \\ & \cdot \chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}(\text{Power}(5, e)) \end{aligned}$$

is primitive recursive, the two summands never being 1 at once. A number  $m$  is  $[M]$  for some Turing machine  $M$  exactly when every exponent in  $m$  is 0 or a stored instruction: given such an  $m$ , define  $M(s, b)$  from the exponent of  $p_{2s+b-1}$  wherever that exponent is positive, and take the number of states large enough to cover every state mentioned. Hence the relation  $TM$ , that  $m$  codes a Turing machine, has the primitive recursive characteristic function

$$\chi_{TM}(m) = \chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}(m) \cdot \prod_{i=1}^{\text{Length}(m)} \left( \chi_{\{0\}}(\text{Element}(m, i)) + \text{valid}(\text{Element}(m, i)) \right)$$

For  $n = [(s, i, \mathbf{a})]$  the state is  $s = \text{Element}(n, 1)$ , the scanned cell is  $i = \text{Element}(n, 2)$ , and the scanned value is  $a_i = \text{Element}(n, i + 3)$ , by definition 3.3.1. So the stored instruction of the machine coded by  $m$  at the current input of the position coded by  $n$  is

$$e(m, n) = \text{Element}(m, 2 \cdot \text{Element}(n, 1) + \text{Element}(n, \text{Element}(n, 2) + 3) - 1)$$

a composition of primitive recursive functions.

1. Abbreviating  $e = e(m, n)$ , define

$$\begin{aligned} \text{STEP}(m, n) = & \chi_{TM}(m) \cdot \chi_{\text{TapePos}}(n) \cdot \chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}(e) \\ & \cdot \text{ENTRY}(\text{Power}(2, e), \text{Power}(3, e), \text{Power}(5, e), n) \end{aligned}$$

with **TapePos** from proposition 3.3.4(1) and **ENTRY** from proposition 3.3.5(1). This is primitive recursive. If  $m = [M]$  and  $n = [(s, i, \mathbf{a})]$  with  $M(s, a_i) = (x_1, x_2, x_3)$  defined, then  $e(m, n) = 2^{x_1} 3^{x_2+1} 5^{x_3} > 0$ , all three guards equal 1, and

$$\text{ENTRY}(x_1, x_2 + 1, x_3, n) = [(x_3, i + x_2, \mathbf{a}')] = [\mathbf{M}(s, i, \mathbf{a})]$$

by comparing the case description of **ENTRY** with definition 3.1.5(1), provided  $i + x_2 \geq 0$ . If  $m$  is not a machine code, or  $n$  is not a position code, or the instruction is undefined, a guard vanishes and  $\text{STEP}(m, n) = 0$ . If the instruction is defined but  $i + x_2 < 0$ , then **ENTRY** returns 0 by its condition  $i + w - 1 \geq 0$ . The successor is then not a tape position and has no code, and returning 0 is the reading of the statement already used for  $\text{STEP}_M$  in proposition 3.3.5(2).

2. Define

$$\begin{aligned} \chi_{COMP}(m, n) = & \chi_{TM}(m) \cdot \chi_{\text{TapePosSeq}}(n) \cdot \chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}(\text{Length}(n)) \\ & \cdot \chi_{\{1\}}(\text{Element}(\text{Element}(n, 1), 1)) \cdot \chi_{\{0\}}(\text{Element}(\text{Element}(n, 1), 2)) \\ & \cdot \prod_{l=1}^{\text{Length}(n)-1} \text{EQUAL}(\text{STEP}(m, \text{Element}(n, l)), \text{Element}(n, l + 1)) \\ & \cdot \chi_{\{0\}}(e(m, \text{Element}(n, \text{Length}(n)))) \end{aligned}$$

with **TapePosSeq** from proposition 3.3.4(2). This is primitive recursive. The first three factors require that  $m$  code a machine  $M$  and that  $n$  code a nonempty sequence of tape positions  $q_1, \dots, q_r$ . The next two require that  $q_1$  have state 1 and scanned cell 0, as definition 3.1.5(3) prescribes for a computation, so  $q_1 = (1, 0, \mathbf{a})$  for its tape  $\mathbf{a}$ . Each factor of the product requires  $STEP(m, [q_l]) = [q_{l+1}]$ . Position codes are at least 2 while  $STEP$  returns 0 on undefined or off-tape steps, so this holds exactly when  $q_{l+1} = \mathbf{M}(q_l)$  is a legal successor position (definition 3.1.5(1) and (2)), making  $q_1, \dots, q_r$  a partial computation that neither halts nor crashes before its last entry. The final factor requires that  $M$  store no instruction at the last position, which is the halting condition of definition 3.1.5(3): the run ends because  $\mathbf{M}(q_r)$  is undefined, not because the scanner would run off the end of the tape. Hence  $\chi_{COMP}(m, n) = 1$  exactly when  $m = [M]$  for a machine  $M$  and  $n$  is the code of a computation of  $M$ , as the statement requires.

### Proposition 3.3.12: Universal Turing Machine Simulation

Define the 2-place partial function  $SIM$  by

$$SIM(m, n) = [(t, j, \mathbf{b})]$$

if  $m = [M]$  for some Turing machine  $M$ ,  $n = [(1, 0, \mathbf{a})]$  for some input tape  $\mathbf{a}$ , and  $M$  eventually halts in position  $(t, j, \mathbf{b})$  on input  $\mathbf{a}$ , with  $SIM(m, n)$  undefined otherwise. Then  $SIM$  is recursive.

#### **Proof:**

Define the 3-place relation

$$R(m, n, c) \Leftrightarrow COMP(m, c) \text{ and } Element(c, 1) = n$$

whose characteristic function

$$\chi_R(m, n, c) = \chi_{COMP}(m, c) \cdot \chi_{\{0\}}(AbsDiff(Element(c, 1), n))$$

is primitive recursive by proposition 3.3.11(2), with  $Element$  from example 3.2.17(11),  $AbsDiff$  from example 3.2.11(8), and  $\chi_{\{0\}}$  from lemma 3.2.14(2). The primitive recursive function  $g = \chi_{\{0\}} \circ \chi_R$  vanishes exactly on  $R$ . It need not be regular, and by the second part of definition 3.2.28 the unbounded minimalization  $c(m, n) = \mu d[g(m, n, d) = 0]$  is a 2-place partial recursive function. Set

$$SIM(m, n) = Element(c(m, n), Length(c(m, n)))$$

a partial recursive function.

Suppose  $m = [M]$ ,  $n = [(1, 0, \mathbf{a})]$ , and  $M$  eventually halts on  $\mathbf{a}$  in position  $(t, j, \mathbf{b})$ . The computation  $p_1, \dots, p_r$  of  $M$  with input tape  $\mathbf{a}$  then exists and its code satisfies  $R(m, n, \cdot)$ , so  $c(m, n)$  is defined and codes a computation  $q_1, \dots, q_v$  of  $M$  with  $[q_1] = n = [p_1]$ . As in the proof of proposition 3.3.6:  $q_1 = p_1$  since position codes are injective,  $q_l = p_l$  for all  $l$  since successor positions are uniquely determined, and  $v = r$  since a computation halts at its last entry, so neither sequence properly extends the other. Hence

$$SIM(m, n) = Element(c(m, n), r) = [p_r] = [(t, j, \mathbf{b})]$$

If instead  $m$  is not a machine code, or  $n$  is not the code of a starting position, or  $M$  does not halt on  $\mathbf{a}$ , then no  $c$  satisfies  $R(m, n, c)$ , so the minimalization and with it  $SIM(m, n)$  is undefined, as the statement requires.

As a consequence, there is a Turing machine  $U$  which can simulate any Turing machine  $M$ . Conversely, there is a recursive function  $f$  which can compute any other recursive functions.

So far, we have been working with the assumption that our machines will halt. Recall that a Turing machine was defined to be a partial function, where a lack of state represents the machine halting. Can we determine when a Turing machine will halt? For example, can we always determine when a Turing machine has an infinite loop? This is called the *Halting Problem*, that is:

Given a Turing machine  $M$  and an input tape  $\mathbf{a}$ , is there a method to determine whether or not  $M$  eventually halts on input  $\mathbf{a}$ ?

With the definition of a universal Turing machine, we can ask this question more formally:

**Definition 3.3.13: The Halting Problem**

Is there a Turing Machine  $T$  which, for any Turing machine  $M$  with alphabet  $\{1\}$  and tape  $\mathbf{a}$ , for  $M$ , halts on input

$$\underline{0}1^{[M]+1}\underline{0}1^{[(1,0,\mathbf{a})]+1}$$

with output  $\underline{0}11$  if  $M$  halts on input  $\mathbf{a}$  and with output  $\underline{0}1$  if  $M$  does not halt on input  $\mathbf{a}$ ?

If you know Church's Thesis, this is equivalent to saying that it is true. We shall not go over in details at the moment, but the answer to the Halting problem as stated above is No.

### 3.3.2 Recursively enumerable sets

We end off this chapter on computable and recursive functions by taking a slightly different approach to looking at recursive sets. We have defined a set  $P$  to be recursive if  $\chi_P$  is recursive, that is the domain of a recursive function (in particular the characteristic function). What if instead we looked at the image of general recursive function? Will it always be recursive? We explore this here:

**Definition 3.3.14: Recursively Enumerable Sets**

A subset (i.e. a 1-place relation)  $P \subseteq \mathbb{N}$  is *recursively enumerable* (or *r.e.* for short) if there is 1-place recursive function  $f$  such that

$$\text{im}(f) = P = \{f(n) \mid n \in \mathbb{N}\}$$

There are many recursively enumerable sets you may come up with: any constant is naturally recursively enumerable, so is the entire  $\mathbb{N}$  ( $\text{Im}(\pi_1^1)$ ), and any finite set is naturally recursively enumerable. proper infinite subsets may also be recursively enumerable, for example all even integers are given by:

$$f(n) = \text{Mult}(S(S(O(n))), n)$$

However, there do exist recursively enumerable sets that are not recursive:

**Proposition 3.3.15: Properties Of Recursively Enumerable Sets**

1. If  $P$  is a 1-place recursive relation, then  $P$  is recursively enumerable (the converse is not always the case)
2.  $P \subseteq \mathbb{N}$  is recursive if and only if both  $P$  and  $\mathbb{N} \setminus P$  are recursively enumerable
3.  $P \subseteq \mathbb{N}$  is recursively enumerable if and only if there is a 1-place partial recursive function  $g$  such that  $P = \text{dom}(g) = \{n \mid g(n) \text{ is defined}\}$

**Proof:**

1. Let  $P$  be a 1-place relation. Then, choosing some  $p \in P$  we can define  $f(n) = n\chi_P(n) + p\chi_{\neg P}(n)$ , where evidently  $\text{im}(f) = P$  showing that it's recursively enumerable
2. If  $P$  is recursive, then we showed in example 3.2.17 that  $\neg P = \mathbb{N} \setminus P$  is recursive, hence they are recursively enumerable. To show the converse, Do the following: If  $f(1) = n$ , stop, if not then if  $g(1) = n$ , stop, otherwise if  $f(2) = n$ , stop, and so on and so forth. Since  $f$  and  $g$  are both recursive, and  $\text{im}(f) \cup \text{im}(g) = \mathbb{N}$ , it is guaranteed that at some point we shall find a  $k$  such that either  $f(k) = n$  or  $g(k) = n$ . Given this, if  $H$  function such that

$$H(t) = \begin{cases} f(t/2) & t = 2l \\ g((t-1)/2) & t = 2l+1 \end{cases}$$

Then

$$\chi_P(n) = \text{div}(2, \mu t[|H(t) - n| = 0])$$

is recursive. Note how it was important to use unbounded minimalization for this, would it be possible to prove this without it?

3. Suppose first that  $P$  is recursively enumerable, so that there is a 1-place recursive function  $f$  with  $\text{im}(f) = P$  as in definition 3.3.14. The 2-place function  $h(n, t) = \text{AbsDiff}(f(t), n)$  is recursive, being a composition of  $f$ , projections, and the primitive recursive function  $\text{AbsDiff}$  of example 3.2.11(8). Define

$$g(n) = \mu t[h(n, t) = 0] = \mu t[\text{AbsDiff}(f(t), n) = 0]$$

The function  $h$  need not be regular, and by the second part of definition 3.2.28 its unbounded minimalization  $g$  is a 1-place partial recursive function. Now  $g(n)$  is defined if and only if there is some  $t$  with  $f(t) = n$ , that is, if and only if  $n \in \text{im}(f) = P$ . Hence  $P = \text{Dom}(g)$ .

Conversely, suppose  $P = \text{Dom}(g)$  for some 1-place partial recursive function  $g$ . Suppose first that  $P \neq \emptyset$  and fix some  $p \in P$ . The build-up of  $g$  in the second part of definition 3.2.28 may apply unbounded minimalization to inner functions that are partial, and for these definition 3.2.23 needs a gloss. That definition is written for a total inner function, and it declares the minimalization defined exactly when a witness exists. For a partial inner function the two readings can diverge, in exactly one case: when the least witness sits above an argument at which the inner function is undefined. For partial inner functions, and only for them, we adopt the search-termination reading:  $\mu m[h(n_1, \dots, n_k, m) = 0]$  is defined, with value  $m$ , exactly when there is an  $m$  such that  $h(n_1, \dots, n_k, i)$  is defined for

every  $i \leq m$  and  $m$  is the least witness. In the first direction above the inner function  $h$  is total, so definition 3.2.23 applies there as written.

We claim there is a Turing machine  $M$  that computes  $g$  and halts on the input tape  $01^{n+1}$  exactly when  $n \in \text{Dom}(g)$ . The halting claim is not part of definition 3.2.1, which constrains a machine only on  $\text{Dom}(g)$ , and it follows by induction on the construction of  $g$  from the initial functions. The machines for the initial functions compute them and always halt. The machines of proposition 3.2.6 and proposition 3.2.12 compute compositions and primitive recursions, and they halt exactly when every subcomputation they run halts. None of the machines assembled here ever moves the scanner off the left end of the tape, so halting is the only way any of their runs can terminate. For an unbounded minimalization we reuse the search machine from the proof of proposition 3.2.27, which tests  $m = 0, 1, 2, \dots$  in order. That proposition proves halting only for regular inner functions, so we take its construction without its halting guarantee and argue directly: by the induction hypothesis each test run halts exactly when the tested value is defined, so the search machine halts exactly when the search reaches a witness, that is, exactly where the minimalization is defined under the reading fixed above, and on halting it outputs that witness. Hence  $n \in P$  exactly when some number codes a computation of  $M$  starting on input  $n$ . Recall that the code of a sequence of tape positions  $t_1, t_2, \dots, t_k$  is  $2^{[t_1]}3^{[t_2]} \dots p_k^{[t_k]}$  by definition 3.3.3, so  $\text{POWER}(2, c)$  recovers  $[t_1]$  from the code  $c$ . Recall also the primitive recursive function  $\text{CODE}_1$  of lemma 3.3.7, where  $\text{CODE}_1(n)$  is the code of the starting position on input  $n$ , and the primitive recursive relation  $\text{COMP}_M$  of proposition 3.3.5. Define the 2-place relation

$$R(n, c) \Leftrightarrow \text{COMP}_M(c) \text{ and } \text{POWER}(2, c) = \text{CODE}_1(n)$$

so that  $R(n, c)$  holds exactly when  $c$  codes a computation of  $M$  whose first tape position is the starting position on input  $n$ . Its characteristic function

$$\chi_R(n, c) = \chi_{\text{COMP}_M}(c) \cdot \chi_{\{0\}}(\text{AbsDiff}(\text{POWER}(2, c), \text{CODE}_1(n)))$$

is primitive recursive, being a product of compositions of primitive recursive functions, where  $\text{POWER}$  is example 3.2.17(9) and  $\chi_{\{0\}}$  is lemma 3.2.14(2). By example 3.2.17(9),  $\text{POWER}(n, 0) = 0$ , since the bound  $k \leq m$  of its definition allows only  $k = 0$  when  $m = 0$ . The value is harmless: for  $c = 0$  the factor  $\chi_{\text{COMP}_M}(0)$  vanishes, since 0 is not the code of any sequence of tape positions, every such code being the positive number  $2^{[t_1]} \dots p_k^{[t_k]}$ , so  $R(n, 0)$  is false. Since a computation halts by definition, some  $c$  with  $R(n, c)$  exists if and only if  $M$  halts on input  $n$ , that is, if and only if  $n \in \text{Dom}(g) = P$ . As in (1), define the total 2-place function

$$F(n, c) = n\chi_R(n, c) + p\chi_{\neg R}(n, c)$$

which is recursive, where  $\chi_{\neg R} = \chi_{\{0\}} \circ \chi_R$  as in example 3.2.17(2). Every value of  $F$  lies in  $P$ : it is either  $p$ , or an  $n$  for which  $R(n, c)$  holds, and then  $n \in \text{Dom}(g) = P$ . Conversely, if  $n \in P$ , then  $M$  halts on input  $n$ , the finitely many tape positions of that computation have a code  $c$ , and  $F(n, c) = n$ . Hence  $\text{im}(F) = P$ . Define the 1-place function

$$f(t) = F(\text{POWER}(2, t), \text{POWER}(3, t))$$

which compresses the two arguments of  $F$  into a single prime-power code, the device of theorem 3.2.32. Since  $\text{POWER}$  and  $F$  are total,  $f$  is a total 1-place recursive function. Every value of  $f$  is a value of  $F$  and so lies in  $P$ . For  $n \in P$ , pick  $c$  with  $R(n, c)$  and take

$t = 2^n 3^c$ , so that  $POWER(2, t) = n$ ,  $POWER(3, t) = c$ , and  $f(t) = F(n, c) = n$ . Hence  $\text{im}(f) = P$ , and  $P$  is recursively enumerable.

For the remaining case  $P = \emptyset$ , note that the 2-place function  $e(n, t) = S(O(t))$  is recursive and never 0, so  $\mu t[e(n, t) = 0]$  is a partial recursive function with empty domain, while definition 3.3.14 asks for a total function with image  $P$  and the image of a total function is nonempty. The empty set is thus the domain of a partial recursive function but is not the image of any total recursive function. We adopt the standard convention that the empty set counts as recursively enumerable, and with that convention both directions of the equivalence hold for  $P = \emptyset$  as well.

### 3.4 Summary

1. **Tape:** an infinite sequence  $\mathbf{a} = a_0 a_1 \dots$  such that  $a_i \in \{0, 1\}$ . If  $a_i = 0$  for all  $i$ , then  $\mathbf{a}$  is blank.
2. **Tape Position:** a triple  $(s, i, a)$  where
  - (a)  $s$  will stand for *state* and we will require  $s > 0$ .
  - (b)  $i$  will be *index*.
  - (c)  $a$  will be the tape

we would visualize a tape position like so:

$$(2, 4, \mathbf{a}) = 2 : 010\underline{1}1001011011$$

3. **Turing Machine:** A partial function:  $M : \text{Dom}(M) \rightarrow \{0, 1\} \times \{-1, 1\} \times \{1, \dots, n\}$  with domain subset of

$$\{1, \dots, n\} \times \{0, 1\}$$

The input represent the current state it's in and what input it's reading on a current tape position, and the output represents what it should override in the current tape position, move either left or right, and go to the next state. Turing machines are usually visualized like so:

| $M$ | 0   | 1   |
|-----|-----|-----|
| 1   | 1R2 | 0R1 |
| 2   | 0L2 |     |

4. **Computation:** A Turing machine  $M$  would, given a tape position, output the information for the successor tape position. Essentially, if  $(s, i, a)$  is a tape position and  $M(s, a_i) = (b, d, t)$  then the successor tape position is  $(t, i + d, a')$  where  $a'_i = b$  and  $a'_j = a_j$  for the rest of the positions. Then a partial computation with respect to  $M$  is a sequence of tape positions  $p_1 \dots$  such that each tape position after  $p_1$  are successor tape positions. A partial computation  $p_1, p_2, \dots, p_k$  is a computation if  $p_1 = (1, 0, a)$  ( $a$  not necessarily blank) and  $M(p_k)$  is undefined (i.e., it halts or terminates)
5. **Computable Function:** Let  $f : \mathbb{N}^k \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$  be a partial function with domain  $\text{Dom}(f)$ . Then  $f$  is *Turing computable* if for each tuple in  $\text{Dom}(f)$ , when in unary representation

$$\underline{0}1^{n_1+1}01^{n_2+1}\dots01^{n_k+1}$$

will halt with output tape

$$\underline{01}^{f(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k)+1}$$

Note that not all functions are computable (like the one deduce in the busy beaver competition). Composition of Turing computable functions is Turing computable.

6. **Initial functions and primitive recursion** We know build up to characterizing all computable functions. They will be something called *recursive* which we know build to define. First, we have our building-block functions:  $O, S, \pi_i^k$ , which are all computable. Next, we have primitive recursion which have a base case, and for the inductive case, through the use of initial functions or previously established primitive recursive functions, it has as input all the inputs of your functions, the step of the induction, and the output of the previous step, and will output the next value. Note that a relation is primitive recursive if the characteristic function on the set is primitive recursive.
7. **Examples** see Example 3.5 for important examples as well as lemma 3.2.1 and example 3.6
8. **k-place to 1-place:** Any  $k$ -place function or relation can be converted to a 1-place function or relation, and vice-versa. Hence, we may without loss of generality work with 1-place functions/relations
9. **Akerman's Function:** This is a function which is computable but grows faster than any primitive-recursive function can grow, and hence is not primitive recursive
10. **unbounded Minimalization:** given a  $k + 1$ -place function, the unbounded minimalization is the function  $f$  where  $f(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) = m$  when  $g(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, m) = 0$ . and  $m$  is the smallest such function. We require the extra condition that this is always defined, so we either make the domain a partial domain or make guarantee it by saying it's a property of the function that unbounded minimalization is well-defined; such a function is called a *regular function*. Note that bounded minimalization (bounded by a primitive recursive function) is primitive recursive. Unbounded minimalization on regular functions is computable
11. **Recursive function:** finite composition of initial functions, use of primitive recursion, and unbounded minimization is recursive function. If recursive, then computable. We know show that if computable then recursive.
12. **Code of position** Any tape position is given a numerical representation:
 
$$[(s, i, \mathbf{a})] = 2^s 3^i 5^{a_0} 7^{a_1} 11^{a_2} \dots p_{n+3}^{a_n}$$
13. **Code of sequence of tape positions**

$$[t_1 t_2 \dots t_n] = 2^{[t_1]} 3^{[t_2]} 5^{[t_3]} \dots p_n^{[t_n]}$$
14. **Code for Turing Machine** see definition 3.3.10
15. **TapePose, TapePosSeq** relations that detect whether a number represents a tape position or a sequence of tape positions. these are both *primitive recursive*
16. **Entry, Step, Comp:** Entry takes in tape position and it's next moves, and gives the corresponding code of the successor tape position. Step takes in a code for a position and output the code of a Turing machine inputting at that position, and  $Comp_M(n)$  is true if  $n$  is the code of a computation for  $M$ .

17. **Sim:** The recursive function  $Sim_M$  takes in a code of position  $(1, 0, \mathbf{a})$  where  $\mathbf{a}$  is blank and gives the result of the computation via Turing Machine  $M$ .
18. **Code, Decode:** Code takes in some finite sequence of natural numbers and represents the code of the unitary representation of it, and decode tasks in a code of a output tape position (i.e. after the computation finished) and gives back the actual number.
19. **Computable, then recursive** If a total function  $f$  is computable, then it is recursive
20. **Universal Turing Machine (UTM)** a Turing machine that simulates a Turing machine and gives the output of the simulated Turing machine. We can show that a recursive function exists that can simulate any Turing machine, hence there is a Universal Turing machine (and similarly, a recursive function that “has” all recursive functions as part of it)
21. **Recursively Enumerable Sets:** The image of a recursive function is a recursively enumerable sets
22. **Prop of recursively enumerable sets** 1-place recursive, then recursively enumerable.  $P$  recursive if and only if  $P$  and  $\mathbb{N} \setminus P$  recursively enumerable. Recursively enumerable if and only if also domain of partial recursive function.

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## *Incompleteness*

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With the notion of computability established, we can ask a couple of important and foundational questions: given a deductive system, is it possible to find all the theorems that the deductive system may provide, and further more prove these theorems? Perhaps even more fundamentally, can we know for sure that given some choice of axioms for our deductive system, can we be sure now axioms contradict themselves? Due to Gödel's work, the answer to both these questions are in general *no*. More particularly, if your system of axioms is strong enough to ask basic logical questions about the natural numbers, then the answer to the above two questions is no! Phrased mathematically, the question becomes:

*Entscheidungs problem:* Given a reasonable set  $\Sigma$  of formula of a first-order language  $\mathcal{L}$  and a formula  $\varphi$  of  $\mathcal{L}$ , is there an effective method for determining whether or not  $\Sigma \vdash \varphi$ ?

In particular, which roughly asserts that given any set of axioms in a first-order language which are computable and also powerful enough to prove certain facts about arithmetic's, it is possible to formulate statements in the language whose truth is not decided by the axioms! That is, no consistent set of axioms can prove its own consistency! Note that if  $\Sigma = \emptyset$ , then by the Completeness theorem for any set where  $\Gamma \vdash \varphi$  if and only if  $\Gamma \models \varphi$ , meaning the “empty theory” will not be equivalent to the theory that is strong enough to prove the natural numbers!

In this chapter, we shall first encode the formulas and proofs of a first-order language as numbers and show that the functions and relations involved are recursive. This will make the notion of “computable set of axioms” precise. Next, we will show that all recursive functions and relations can be defined by first-order formulas in the presence of a fairly minimal set of axioms about elementary number theory, hence linking many axiomatic systems to the axioms of arithmetic's. Finally, by putting recursive functions talking about first-order formulas together with first-order formulas defining recursive functions, we will manufacture a self-referential sentence which asserts its own unprovability, which will lead us to our desired result.

## 4.1 Deductions are Recursive

The goal of this build-up is to show that any deduction can be computable, i.e. recursive, given a set of premises  $\Delta$ . After having defined that, we will want to know if every sentence (i.e. every element in a theory) can be shown to be provable or its negation provable, which in a sense makes a theory “complete”. Recall that completeness states that  $\Gamma \models \sigma$  then  $\Gamma \vdash \sigma$ , that is completeness was based off the logical notion of implication. We shall for our purposes borrow the word and use it as a property of a set of sentences rather than a property of a logic:

### Definition 4.1.1: Completeness For Set of Sentences

A set of sentences  $\Sigma$  of a first-order language  $\mathcal{L}$  is said to be *complete* if for every sentence  $\tau$  either  $\Sigma \vdash \tau$  or  $\Sigma \vdash \neg\tau$ .

That is, a set of sentences (or non-logical axioms) is complete if it is sufficient to prove or disprove every sentence of the language in question. If for some sentence  $\sigma$  of  $\mathcal{L}$  we cannot deduce whether we can prove (or prove the negation) of  $\sigma$ , then  $\Sigma$  is not complete. An easy source of complete sets comes from chapter 2:

### Proposition 4.1.2: Complete iff Maximally Consistent

A consistent set of sentences  $\Sigma$  of a first order-language  $\mathcal{L}$  is complete if and only if the theory

$$\text{Th}(\Sigma) = \{\tau \mid \tau \text{ is a sentence of } \mathcal{L} \text{ and } \Sigma \vdash \tau\}$$

is maximally consistent

Do not confuse  $\text{Th}(\Sigma)$  with  $\text{Th}(\mathfrak{M}) = \{\tau \mid \tau \text{ is a sentence and } \mathfrak{M} \models \tau\}$ .

#### **Proof:**

If  $\Sigma$  is complete, then if any sentence  $\tau \notin \text{Th}(\Sigma)$ , then  $\Sigma \not\vdash \tau$ . Since  $\Sigma$  is complete, it must be that  $\Sigma \vdash \neg\tau$ , and hence  $\neg\tau \in \text{Th}(\Sigma)$ . Then adding  $\tau$  will make  $\text{Th}(\Sigma)$  inconsistent, and so  $\text{Th}(\Sigma)$  must be maximally consistent.

Conversely, if  $\text{Th}(\Sigma)$  is maximally consistent, then if  $\tau \notin \Sigma$ ,  $\Sigma \not\vdash \tau$ . By proposition 2.5.18,  $\neg\tau \in \Sigma$ , hence  $\Sigma \vdash \neg\tau$ , completing the proof.

Hence, given a set  $\Sigma$ , we can “detect” when it is complete if  $\text{Th}(\Sigma)$  is [maximally] consistent. But how do we link this to computability? For this, we need to encode the logic into something a recursive function can process, similarly in how we encoded tape positions and Turing machines. This is called *Gödel coding*.

**Definition 4.1.3: Gödel Code**

The symbols of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  are the parentheses, the connectives  $\neg$ ,  $\vee$  and  $\rightarrow$ , the quantifier  $\forall$ , the equality symbol, the variables  $v_0, v_1, v_2, \dots$  of definition 1.1.1, and the symbols  $0, S, +, \cdot, E, <$  of definition 1.2.1. To each symbol  $s$  of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  we assign the positive integer  $[s]$ , called the *Gödel code* of  $s$ , as follows:

1.  $[()] = 1$  and  $[)] = 2$
2.  $[\neg] = 3$ ,  $[\rightarrow] = 4$  and  $[\vee] = 13$
3.  $[\forall] = 5$
4.  $[=] = 6$
5.  $[v_k] = k + 14$  for every  $k \geq 0$
6.  $[0] = 7$
7.  $[S] = 8$
8.  $[+] = 9$ ,  $[\cdot] = 10$ ,  $[E] = 11$
9.  $[<] = 12$

The connective  $\rightarrow$  receives a code because the official forms in this chapter, among them those of the axioms of arithmetic, write  $\rightarrow$  as a primitive connective, as the remark closing definition 1.1.5 permits. Every positive integer is the code of exactly one symbol, so the coding is a bijection from the symbols of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  onto the positive integers.

**Definition 4.1.4: Gödel Codes Of Sequences**

Let  $s_1 s_2 \cdots s_k$  be a sequence of symbols of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$ . Then the *Gödel code* of this sequence is:

$$[s_1 \cdots s_k] = p_1^{[s_1]} \cdots p_k^{[s_k]}$$

where  $p_i$  is the  $i$ th prime number. If we have a sequence of sequences, we go through them recursively.

**Example 4.1.5: Gödel Coding**

1. Take  $\forall v_1 = \cdot v_1 S 0 v_1$  (which is  $\forall v_1 v_1 \cdot S 0 = v_1$ ). Then:  $[\forall v_1 = \cdot v_1 S 0 v_1]$  would be:

$$2^{[\forall]} 3^{[v_1]} 5^{[=]} 7^{[\cdot]} 11^{[v_1]} 13^{[S]} 17^{[0]} 19^{[v_1]} = 2^5 3^{15} 5^6 7^{10} 11^{15} 13^8 17^7 19^{15}$$

which equals to

$$43018254547359487099421605400617868326967232914335328204865765491965500000$$

2. If we take the sequence of formulas

$$= 00$$

$$(= 00 \rightarrow = S 0 S 0)$$

$$= S 0 S 0$$

which translates to “Given  $0 = 0$ , and  $0 = 0 \rightarrow S0 = S0$ , then  $S0 = S0$ ”, what is the given Gödel code?

Note that an integer  $n$  may simultaneously be the Gödel code of a symbol, a sequence of symbols, and a sequence of a sequences of symbols. It will be up to context to determine which one.

Next, we will need a way of recognizing Gödel codes and verify whether it encodes a sentence or a logical axiom:

**Proposition 4.1.6: Relations To Manipulate Gödel Codes**

The following functions are primitive recursive

1.  $Term(n) \Leftrightarrow n = [t]$  for some term  $t$  of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$
2.  $Formula(n) \Leftrightarrow n = [\varphi]$  for some formula  $\varphi$  of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$
3.  $Sentence(n) \Leftrightarrow n = [\sigma]$  for some sentence  $\sigma$  of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$
4.  $Logical(n) \Leftrightarrow n = [\gamma]$  for some logical axiom  $\gamma$  of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$

**Proof:**

exercise. Be careful on verifying *Sentence* since you need to check there are no free variables.

With these functions, we can develop relation and functions to handle deductions of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$ . We first can make the notion of computable set of formulas precise:

**Definition 4.1.7: Recursive Set**

A set of formulas  $\Delta$  of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  is *recursive* is the set of Gödel codes of the formula

$$[\Delta] = \{[\delta] \mid \delta \in \Delta\}$$

is a recursive subset of  $\mathbb{N}$  (i.e. a recursive 1-place relation). Similarly,  $\Delta$  is said to be *recursively enumerable* if  $[\Delta]$  is recursively enumerable

**Proposition 4.1.8: Relations To Recursive Set**

Let  $\Delta$  be a recursive set of sentences  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$ . Then the following relations are recursive:

1.  $Premise_{\Delta}(n) \Leftrightarrow n = [\beta]$  for some formula  $\beta$  of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  which is either a logical axiom or in  $\Delta$
2.  $Formulas(n) \Leftrightarrow n = [\varphi_1\varphi_2...\varphi_k]$  for some sequence  $\varphi_1, \varphi_2, \dots, \varphi_k$  of formulas of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$
3.  $Inference(n, i, j) \Leftrightarrow n = [\varphi_1\varphi_2...\varphi_k]$  for some sequence  $\varphi_1, \varphi_2, \dots, \varphi_k$  of formulas of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$ ,  $1 \leq i, j \leq k$ , and  $\varphi_k$  follows from  $\varphi_i$  and  $\varphi_j$  by Modus Ponens
4.  $Deduction_{\Delta}(n) \Leftrightarrow n = [\varphi_1\varphi_2...\varphi_k]$  for a deduction  $\varphi_1, \varphi_2, \dots, \varphi_k$  from  $\Delta$  in  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$
5.  $Conclusion_{\Delta}(n, m) \Leftrightarrow n = [\varphi_1\varphi_2...\varphi_k]$  for a deduction  $\varphi_1, \varphi_2, \dots, \varphi_k$  from  $\Delta$  in  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  and  $m = [\varphi_k]$

**Proof:**

Throughout, *Element*, *Length*, *SUBSEQ*, *CONCAT*, *EQUAL* and *DIFF* (written  $n \dot{-} m$ ) are the primitive recursive functions of example 3.2.17 and example 3.2.11,  $\chi_{\{a\}}$  and the bounded products are those of lemma 3.2.14, the bounded sums are example 3.2.11(2),  $\chi_{\mathbb{N}^*} = \chi_{\{0\}} \circ \chi_{\{0\}}$  tests being nonzero, and a bounded sum or product starting at index 1 is read as in the proof of proposition 3.3.11. The bounded sum and product constructions apply verbatim to recursive ingredients, definition 3.2.28 closing recursive functions under primitive recursion and composition.

1. A number  $n$  is the code of a formula which is a logical axiom or a member of  $\Delta$  exactly when  $Logical(n)$  holds or  $n \in [\Delta]$ , so

$$\chi_{Premise_{\Delta}}(n) = \chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}(\chi_{Logical}(n) + \chi_{[\Delta]}(n))$$

Here  $\chi_{Logical}$  is primitive recursive by proposition 4.1.6(4), and  $\chi_{[\Delta]}$  is recursive by definition 4.1.7 since  $\Delta$  is a recursive set. Hence  $Premise_{\Delta}$  is recursive.

2. A number  $n$  codes a nonempty sequence of formulas exactly when  $n \geq 2$  and the exponent of each  $p_i$  with  $1 \leq i \leq Length(n)$  codes a formula. The code of a formula is at least 2, so  $\chi_{Formula}(0) = 0$  and a missing prime is detected through its zero exponent. Hence

$$\chi_{Formulas}(n) = \chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}(n \dot{-} 1) \cdot \prod_{i=1}^{Length(n)} \chi_{Formula}(Element(n, i))$$

with  $\chi_{Formula}$  primitive recursive by proposition 4.1.6(2). So *Formulas* is primitive recursive, hence recursive.

3. By definition 4.1.3 the symbols  $(, \rightarrow$  and  $)$  have codes 1, 4 and 2, so as one symbol sequences they have the codes  $2^1, 2^4$  and  $2^2$ . If  $a = [\alpha]$  and  $c = [\gamma]$  for formulas  $\alpha, \gamma$ , then the formula  $(\alpha \rightarrow \gamma)$  is the concatenation of the five symbol strings  $(, \alpha, \rightarrow, \gamma, )$ , so

$$Imp(a, c) := CONCAT(CONCAT(CONCAT(CONCAT(2, a), 2^4), c), 2^2)$$

satisfies  $\text{Imp}([\alpha], [\gamma]) = [(\alpha \rightarrow \gamma)]$  and is primitive recursive. The formula  $\varphi_k$  follows from  $\varphi_i$  and  $\varphi_j$  by Modus Ponens exactly when one of  $\varphi_i, \varphi_j$  is the implication whose antecedent is the other and whose consequent is  $\varphi_k$ . Hence, writing  $b = \text{Element}(n, \text{Length}(n))$  for the code of  $\varphi_k$ ,

$$\begin{aligned} \chi_{\text{Inference}}(n, i, j) &= \chi_{\text{Formulas}}(n) \cdot \chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}(i) \cdot \chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}(j) \\ &\quad \cdot \chi_{\{0\}}(i \dot{-} \text{Length}(n)) \cdot \chi_{\{0\}}(j \dot{-} \text{Length}(n)) \\ &\quad \cdot \chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}(\text{EQUAL}(\text{Element}(n, j), \text{Imp}(\text{Element}(n, i), b)) \\ &\quad \quad + \text{EQUAL}(\text{Element}(n, i), \text{Imp}(\text{Element}(n, j), b))) \end{aligned}$$

is primitive recursive, hence recursive.

4. By definition 2.6.7, with Modus Ponens as the only rule of inference,  $n$  codes a deduction from  $\Delta$  exactly when  $n$  codes a nonempty sequence of formulas  $\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_k$  in which each  $\varphi_l$  is a logical axiom or a member of  $\Delta$ , or follows from two strictly earlier entries by Modus Ponens. The prefix  $\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_l$  has code  $\text{SUBSEQ}(n, 1, l)$  by example 3.2.17(12), and its last formula is  $\varphi_l$ , so

$$\begin{aligned} \chi_{\text{Deduction}_\Delta}(n) &= \chi_{\text{Formulas}}(n) \\ &\quad \cdot \prod_{l=1}^{\text{Length}(n)} \chi_{\mathbb{N}^*}(\chi_{\text{Premise}_\Delta}(\text{Element}(n, l)) \\ &\quad \quad + \sum_{i=1}^{l-1} \sum_{j=1}^{l-1} \chi_{\text{Inference}}(\text{SUBSEQ}(n, 1, l), i, j)) \end{aligned}$$

The  $l$ th factor equals 1 exactly when  $\varphi_l$  is justified, the inner sums ranging over the strictly earlier indices  $i, j \leq l-1$ . All ingredients are recursive, so  $\text{Deduction}_\Delta$  is recursive.

5. The conclusion of the deduction coded by  $n$  is its last formula. Its code is the value  $\text{Element}(n, \text{Length}(n))$ , so

$$\begin{aligned} \chi_{\text{Conclusion}_\Delta}(n, m) &= \chi_{\text{Deduction}_\Delta}(n) \\ &\quad \cdot \text{EQUAL}(m, \text{Element}(n, \text{Length}(n))) \end{aligned}$$

is recursive.

As an exercise, if  $[\Delta]$  is primitive recursive, which of the above are also primitive recursive? With this setup, we may now make the connection between computability and completeness:

#### Theorem 4.1.9: Computability And Completeness

Let  $\Delta$  be a recursive set of sentences of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$ . Then  $[\text{Th}(\Delta)]$  is

1. recursively enumerable, and
2. recursive if  $\Delta$  is complete

**Proof:**

Here  $Th(\Delta)$  is the set of sentences  $\tau$  with  $\Delta \vdash \tau$ , and *Element*, *Length*, *EQUAL*, *MULT*, *CONCAT* and  $\chi_{\{0\}}$  are the primitive recursive functions of example 3.2.17, example 3.2.11 and lemma 3.2.14(2). Recursive functions are closed under composition by definition 3.2.28.

1. Let  $\sigma_0 := \forall v_1 (v_1 = v_1)$ , a generalization of an instance of **A7** and hence a logical axiom (definition 2.6.4), so  $\sigma_0 \in Th(\Delta)$ . Let

$$K(n) = \chi_{Deduction_{\Delta}}(n) \cdot \chi_{Sentence}(Element(n, Length(n)))$$

with  $Deduction_{\Delta}$  recursive by proposition 4.1.8(4) and *Sentence* primitive recursive by proposition 4.1.6(3), and let

$$F(n) = K(n) \cdot Element(n, Length(n)) + \chi_{\{0\}}(K(n)) \cdot [\sigma_0]$$

a total recursive 1-place function. If  $n$  codes a deduction  $\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_k$  from  $\Delta$ , then its exponents are codes of formulas, which are at least 2, so  $Length(n) = k$  and  $Element(n, k) = [\varphi_k]$ . Hence  $K(n) = 1$  exactly when  $n$  codes a deduction from  $\Delta$  whose last formula is a sentence, and then  $F(n)$  is the code of that sentence, which lies in  $Th(\Delta)$ . Otherwise  $F(n) = [\sigma_0]$ . So every value of  $F$  lies in  $[Th(\Delta)]$ , and conversely, if  $\tau \in Th(\Delta)$ , the code  $n$  of a deduction of  $\tau$  from  $\Delta$  has  $F(n) = [\tau]$ . Thus  $[Th(\Delta)] = \text{im}(F)$  is recursively enumerable (definition 3.3.14).

2. Let  $\Delta$  be complete. If  $\Delta$  is inconsistent, then  $\Delta$  deduces every formula by proposition 2.6.17(3), so  $[Th(\Delta)]$  is the set of codes of sentences, which is recursive by proposition 4.1.6(3). Suppose  $\Delta$  is consistent, and let  $\tau$  be a sentence. At least one of  $\tau, \neg\tau$  lies in  $Th(\Delta)$ , by completeness. At most one does: from  $\{A_0, \neg A_0\} \models \neg(A_0 \rightarrow A_0)$ , lemma 2.6.11 and proposition 2.6.9(4) would give  $\Delta \vdash \neg(\tau \rightarrow \tau)$ . By definition 4.1.3, the symbols  $(, \neg$  and  $)$  have codes 1, 3 and 2, so the primitive recursive function

$$Neg(n) = CONCAT(CONCAT(CONCAT(2^1, 2^3), n), 2^2)$$

satisfies  $Neg([\tau]) = [(\neg\tau)]$ . Let  $F$  be as in (1) and let

$$G(n, t) = MULT\left(\chi_{Sentence}(n), \chi_{\{0\}}(EQUAL(F(t), n) + EQUAL(F(t), Neg(n)))\right)$$

which vanishes exactly when  $n$  is not the code of a sentence or  $F(t) \in \{n, Neg(n)\}$ . It is regular (definition 3.2.24): if  $n$  is not the code of a sentence, then  $G(n, 0) = 0$ , and if  $n = [\tau]$ , then  $[\tau]$  or  $[\neg\tau]$  lies in  $[Th(\Delta)] = \text{im}(F)$ . So  $T(n) = \mu t[G(n, t) = 0]$  is recursive in the first sense of definition 3.2.28, and so is

$$\chi(n) = \chi_{Sentence}(n) \cdot EQUAL(F(T(n)), n)$$

We show  $\chi = \chi_{[Th(\Delta)]}$ . If  $n$  is not the code of a sentence, both are 0. Let  $n = [\tau]$ . If  $\tau \in Th(\Delta)$ , then  $F(T(n))$  is  $n$  or  $[\neg\tau]$ , and it is not  $[\neg\tau]$ , since that code lies in  $\text{im}(F) = [Th(\Delta)]$  only if  $\neg\tau \in Th(\Delta)$ , so  $\chi(n) = 1$ . If  $\tau \notin Th(\Delta)$ , then  $n \notin \text{im}(F)$ , so  $F(T(n)) \neq n$  and  $\chi(n) = 0$ . Hence  $[Th(\Delta)]$  is recursive, completing the proof.

## 4.2 Recursive Functions are Representable in $\mathcal{A}$

Let's now take a particular  $\Sigma$  and study whether it is complete. In particular, we shall make a list of [non-logical] axioms for the natural numbers (labelled  $\mathcal{A}$ ) and verify the completeness of  $\mathcal{A}$ , or slightly broader the completeness of  $\Sigma$  if  $\Sigma \vdash \mathcal{A}$ . The reason for this broadening is because a lot of systems let us deduce the axioms of natural numbers (a lot of mathematics is based of of some property of natural numbers), and so this let's us make an interesting statement about many sets of axioms.

Recall the following

### Definition 4.2.1: Number Theory Language

Let  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  be the language generated by  $\{0, S, +, \cdot, E, <\}$ , where  $0$  is a constant,  $S$  is a unary function (the “successor function”),  $+$ ,  $\cdot$ , and  $E$  are binary function ( $E$  for exponential) and  $<$  is a binary relation. Then we usually call  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  the language of *number theory*

Naturally, the standard structure for the language of number theory is

$$\mathfrak{N} = (\mathbb{N}, 0, S, +, \cdot, E, <)$$

From what we have built up, we can use the natural numbers and recursive functions to code and manipulate formulas of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$ . We now need the complementary results that let us use terms and formulas of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  to represent and manipulate natural numbers and recursive functions. What we will do is create a set of non-logical axioms in  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  which prove enough about the operations of successor, addition, multiplication, and exponentiation to let us define all recursive functions using formula of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$ .

### Definition 4.2.2: Non-Logical Axioms Of Number Theory ( $\mathcal{A}$ )

Let  $\mathcal{A}$  be the following set of sentences of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$ , written out in official form:

1.  $\forall v_0 (\neg = S v_0 0)$
2.  $\forall v_0 ((\neg = v_0 0) \rightarrow (\neg \forall v_1 (\neg = S v_1 v_0)))$
3.  $\forall v_0 \forall v_1 (= S v_0 S v_1 \rightarrow = v_0 v_1)$
4.  $\forall v_0 = + v_0 0 v_0$
5.  $\forall v_0 \forall v_1 = + v_0 S v_1 S + v_0 v_1$
6.  $\forall v_0 = \cdot v_0 0 0$
7.  $\forall v_0 \forall v_1 = \cdot v_0 S v_1 + \cdot v_0 v_1 v_0$
8.  $\forall v_0 = E v_0 0 S 0$
9.  $\forall v_0 \forall v_1 = E v_0 S v_1 \cdot E v_0 v_1 v_0$

In colloquial terms, we can re-think these as follows;

1. For all  $n$ ,  $n + 1 \neq 0$
2. for all  $n$ ,  $n \neq 0$  there is a  $k$  such that  $k + 1 = n$
3. for all  $n$ , and  $k$ ,  $n + 1 = k + 1$  implies  $n = k$
4. for all  $n$ ,  $n + 0 = n$
5. for all  $n$ , and  $k$ ,  $n + (k + 1) = (n + k) + 1$
6. for all  $n$ ,  $n \cdot 0 = 0$
7. for all  $n$ , and  $k$ ,  $n \cdot (k + 1) = (n \cdot k) + n$
8. for all  $n$ ,  $n^0 = 1$
9. for all  $n$ , and  $k$ ,  $n^{k+1} = (n^k) \cdot n$

**Proposition 4.2.3: Natural Number Axioms Are True**

Let  $\mathfrak{N} = (\mathbb{N}, 0, S, +, \cdot, E, <)$  be the structure consisting of the natural numbers and the usual functions. Then

$$\mathfrak{N} \models \mathcal{A}$$

**Proof:**

Each member of  $\mathcal{A}$  is a sentence, so it suffices to fix an arbitrary assignment  $s$  into  $\mathfrak{N}$  and verify  $\mathfrak{N} \models \sigma[s]$  for each of the nine axioms  $\sigma$ . As  $s$  is arbitrary,  $\mathfrak{N} \models \mathcal{A}$  then holds by definition 1.4.10. In each case we unwind definition 1.4.5: the clause for  $\forall$  passes to the modifications  $s[v_0|a]$ , and then  $s[v_0|a][v_1|b]$ , over all  $a, b \in \mathbb{N}$ , the clause for  $\neg$  negates, and the atomic clause compares the values that the term assignment function of definition 1.4.4 gives to the two sides, interpreting  $S, +, \cdot, E$  as the usual successor, sum, product and power on  $\mathbb{N}$ , and  $<$ , which no axiom mentions, as the usual order. The nine axioms so reduce to the following statements, quantified over all  $a, b \in \mathbb{N}$ .

1.  $a + 1 \neq 0$ . True: successors are positive.
2. If  $a \neq 0$ , then it is not the case that every  $b \in \mathbb{N}$  has  $b + 1 \neq a$ . True: a nonzero natural number  $a$  has the predecessor  $b = a - 1$ , and  $b + 1 = a$ .
3. If  $a + 1 = b + 1$ , then  $a = b$ . True: the successor operation on  $\mathbb{N}$  is injective.
4.  $a + 0 = a$ .
5.  $a + (b + 1) = (a + b) + 1$ .
6.  $a \cdot 0 = 0$ .
7.  $a \cdot (b + 1) = a \cdot b + a$ .
8.  $a^0 = 1$  (with  $0^0 = 1$ , the value the usual recursion for exponentiation on  $\mathbb{N}$  assigns).
9.  $a^{b+1} = a^b \cdot a$ .

Items (4) to (9) are the defining recursions of addition, multiplication and exponentiation on  $\mathbb{N}$ , and items (1) to (3) are basic properties of the successor. Hence every axiom is satisfied, and  $\mathfrak{N} \models \mathcal{A}$ .

We might want that from  $\mathcal{A}$  we can prove all sentences of first-order arithmetic are true in  $\mathfrak{N}$ , however this is not the case. For example,  $\mathcal{A}$  is not enough to insure that inductions works, that is for every formula  $\varphi$  with at most one free variables  $x$ , if  $\varphi_0^x$  and  $\forall y(\varphi_y^x \rightarrow \varphi_{Sy}^x)$  holds, then so does  $\forall x\varphi$  (we shall not prove this here). On the other hand, neither  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  nor  $\mathcal{A}$  are quite as minimal as we can make them. For example, with a considerable amount of extra effort, we can eliminate  $E$  and define  $\cdot$  in terms of  $+$ . However, redundancy is chosen since the goal is not to be as minimal as possible, but to find the provability of statements in  $\mathfrak{N}$ , for which it would be better if we can use some stronger axioms to simplify our results.

Now, we can move on to representing functions and relations. To not clog up notations, let  $S^m 0$  represent concatenating  $m$  many  $S$  symbols.

#### Lemma 4.2.4: Repeated Successor Function

For every  $m \in \mathbb{N}$  and every assignment function  $s$  for  $\mathfrak{N}$ ,

$$s(S^m 0) = m$$

#### Proof:

We use induction on  $m$  and definition 1.4.4. The term  $S^0 0$  is 0, and  $\bar{s}(0) = 0^{\mathfrak{N}} = 0$ . The term  $S^{m+1} 0$  is  $S$  followed by  $S^m 0$ , so  $\bar{s}(S^{m+1} 0) = S^{\mathfrak{N}}(\bar{s}(S^m 0)) = S^{\mathfrak{N}}(m) = m + 1$  by the induction hypothesis, as claimed.

The next abbreviation we shall do will be to help represent function input. In particular, if we have  $v_1, v_2, \dots, v_k$  free variables and  $m_1, m_2, \dots, m_k$  natural numbers, then

$$\varphi(S^{m_1} 0, \dots, S^{m_k} 0) := \varphi_{S^{m_1} 0, \dots, S^{m_k} 0}^{v_1, \dots, v_k}$$

Notice that each  $S^{m_i} 0$  have no variables, and hence they are substitutable

#### Definition 4.2.5: Representable Function

Let  $\Sigma$  be a set of sentences of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$ . Then a  $k$ -place function  $f$  is said to be *representable* in  $\text{Th}(\Sigma) = \{\tau \mid \Sigma \vdash \tau\}$  if there is a formula  $\varphi$  of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  with at most  $v_1, v_2, \dots, v_k$  and  $v_{k+1}$  as free variables such that

$$\begin{aligned} f(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) = m &\Leftrightarrow \varphi(S^{n_1} 0, \dots, S^{n_k} 0, S^m 0) \in \text{Th}(\Sigma) \\ &\Leftrightarrow \Sigma \vdash \varphi(S^{n_1} 0, \dots, S^{n_k} 0, S^m 0) \end{aligned}$$

for all  $n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k$  and  $m$  in  $\mathbb{N}$ . The formula  $\varphi$  is said to *represent*  $f$  in  $\text{Th}(\Sigma)$ .

Usually, we will have  $\Sigma = \mathcal{A}$  or  $\Sigma$  where  $\Sigma \vdash \mathcal{A}$ .

**Example 4.2.6: Representable Functions**

1. I claim that the constant function  $c_3^1$ ,  $c_3^1(n) = 3$ , is representable in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$ , namely the formulas  $v_2 = S^3 0$  represents it. We need to show

$$\begin{aligned}
c_3^1(n) &= m \\
&\Leftrightarrow \\
\mathcal{A} \vdash [v_2 = S^3 0](S^m 0, S^m 0) \\
&\Leftrightarrow \\
\mathcal{A} \vdash S^m 0 = S^3 0
\end{aligned}$$

for all  $n, m \in \mathbb{N}$ . To show  $\Rightarrow$ , by definition  $c_3^1(n) = 3 = m$ . Hence, we want to show that  $\mathcal{A} \vdash S^3 0 = S^3 0$ . The deduction is straightforward:

$$\begin{array}{ll}
(1) \forall x \ x = x \rightarrow S^3 0 = S^3 0 & A4 \\
(2) \forall x \ x = x & A8 \\
(3) S^3 0 = S^3 0 & 1, 2 \text{ MP}
\end{array}$$

Hence, if  $c_3^1(n) = m$ , then  $\mathcal{A} \vdash S^m 0 = S^3 0$ . Conversely, suppose  $\mathcal{A} \vdash S^m 0 = S^3 0$ . Since  $\mathfrak{N} \models \mathcal{A}$ ,  $\mathfrak{N} \models S^m 0 = S^3 0$ . Then by lemma 4.2.4  $m = 3$ , so  $c_3^1(n) = m$ , completing the other direction.

2. Show that the zero function,  $O(n)$ , is representable
3. Let  $S(n)$  be the successor function, and let  $\varphi \equiv v_2 = S(v_1)$ . Then we need to show:

$$\begin{aligned}
S(n) &= m \\
&\Leftrightarrow \\
\mathcal{A} \vdash [v_2 = S v_1](S^n 0, S^m 0) \\
&\Leftrightarrow \\
\mathcal{A} \vdash S^m 0 = S^{n+1} 0
\end{aligned}$$

Since  $m = S(n) = n + 1$ , we get  $\mathcal{A} \vdash S^{n+1} 0 = S^{n+1} 0$ , which by our above proof we know is deducible. Conversely, if  $\mathcal{A} \vdash S^m 0 = S^{n+1} 0$ , then since  $\mathfrak{N} \models \mathcal{A}$  we get  $\mathfrak{N} \models S^m 0 = S^{n+1} 0$ , which by lemma 4.2.4 we know implies  $m = n + 1$ , which implies  $S(n) = n + 1$ , as we sought to show.

4. Show that the projection function,  $\pi_i^k$ , is representable

**Definition 4.2.7: Representable Relation**

Let  $P \subseteq \mathbb{N}^k$  be a  $k$ -place relation. Then  $P$  is *representable* in  $\text{Th}(\Sigma)$  if there is a formula  $\psi$  of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  with at most  $v_1, v_2, \dots, v_k$  free variables such that

$$\begin{aligned} P(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) &\Leftrightarrow \varphi(S^{n_1}0, \dots, S^{n_k}0) \in \text{Th}(\Sigma) \\ &\Leftrightarrow \Sigma \vdash \varphi(S^{n_1}0, \dots, S^{n_k}0) \end{aligned}$$

for all  $n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k \in \mathbb{N}$ . The formula  $\psi$  is said to *represent*  $\text{Th}(\Sigma)$ .

**Example 4.2.8: Representable Relation**

1. Take the 1-place relation  $P = \{3\}$ . Show that the formula  $v_1 = S^3 0$  represents this relation (i.e. this set). Note that  $v_2 = S^3 0$  does not represent this set, and  $v_1 = S^3 0$  does not represent the function in example 4.2.6(1)
2. Let  $P = 2\mathbb{N}$ . Show that the representative of this relation is  $\exists v_2, v_1 = (S^2 0 \cdot (v_2 \cdot S 0))$ , which more casually would look like  $\exists k, n = 2k$ .

**Proposition 4.2.9: Relating Representable Functions and Relations**

Let  $f$  be a  $k$ -place function. Then  $f$  is a representable in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$  if and only if the  $k+1$  place relation  $P_f$  defined by

$$P_f(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, n_{k+1}) \Leftrightarrow f(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) = n_{k+1}$$

is representable in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$ . Conversely, a relation  $P \subseteq \mathbb{N}^k$  is representable in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$  if its characteristic function  $\chi_P$  is representable in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$ : if  $\varphi$  represents  $\chi_P$ , then  $\varphi_{S^0}^{v_{k+1}}$  represents  $P$ . Moreover  $\chi_P$  is representable in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$  if and only if both  $P$  and its complement  $\mathbb{N}^k \setminus P$  are representable in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$ .

**Proof:**

(i) For closed terms  $t, u$  and distinct variables  $x, y$ , the formulas  $(\varphi_t^x)_u^y$  and  $(\varphi_u^y)_t^x$  coincide. This is an induction through definition 1.5.1 and definition 1.5.3: a closed term contains neither  $x$  nor  $y$ , which settles terms and atomic formulas, the cases of  $\neg$  and  $\vee$  follow from the induction hypothesis, and for  $\varphi := (\forall z)(\alpha)$  both sides are  $(\forall z)(\alpha_u^y)$  if  $z$  is  $x$ ,  $(\forall z)(\alpha_t^x)$  if  $z$  is  $y$ , and  $(\forall z)((\alpha_t^x)_u^y)$  by the induction hypothesis otherwise. (ii) A substitution for a variable that is not free in a formula leaves the formula unchanged, by induction through definition 1.5.3. (iii) For every sentence  $\sigma$  of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$ ,  $\mathcal{A} \vdash \sigma$  holds exactly when every model of  $\mathcal{A}$  satisfies  $\sigma$ , by proposition 2.6.17(1) in one direction and theorem 2.6.31 in the other.

*Functions.* The relation  $P_f$  holds at  $(n_1, \dots, n_k, m)$  exactly when  $f(n_1, \dots, n_k) = m$ . So for a formula  $\varphi$  with at most  $v_1, \dots, v_{k+1}$  free, the condition of definition 4.2.5 for  $\varphi$  and  $f$  and the condition of definition 4.2.7 for  $\varphi$  and  $P_f$  are the same condition. Hence a formula represents  $f$  exactly when it represents  $P_f$ .

*Relations.* Fix  $n_1, \dots, n_k$ , and write  $\vec{S}$  for the numerals  $S^{n_1}0, \dots, S^{n_k}0$ . Suppose first that  $\varphi$  represents  $\chi_P$ , and let  $\psi := \varphi_{S0}^{v_{k+1}}$  and  $\psi' := \varphi_0^{v_{k+1}}$ , formulas with at most  $v_1, \dots, v_k$  free. By (i),  $\psi(\vec{S})$  is  $\varphi(\vec{S}, S0)$  and  $\psi'(\vec{S})$  is  $\varphi(\vec{S}, S^0 0)$ . So  $\mathcal{A} \vdash \psi(\vec{S})$  exactly when  $\chi_P(n_1, \dots, n_k) = 1$ , that is, when  $P(n_1, \dots, n_k)$ , and  $\mathcal{A} \vdash \psi'(\vec{S})$  exactly when  $\chi_P(n_1, \dots, n_k) = 0$ . Hence  $\psi$  represents  $P$  and  $\psi'$  represents  $\mathbb{N}^k \setminus P$ .

Conversely, suppose that  $\psi$  represents  $P$  and  $\psi'$  represents  $\mathbb{N}^k \setminus P$ , and let

$$\varphi := (\psi \wedge v_{k+1} = S0) \vee (\psi' \wedge v_{k+1} = 0)$$

a formula with at most  $v_1, \dots, v_{k+1}$  free. Substitution passes through the connectives (definition 1.5.3), and  $v_{k+1}$  is not free in  $\psi(\vec{S})$  or  $\psi'(\vec{S})$ , so (ii) gives that  $\varphi(\vec{S}, S^m 0)$  is  $(\psi(\vec{S}) \wedge S^m 0 = S0) \vee (\psi'(\vec{S}) \wedge S^m 0 = 0)$ . In every model  $\mathfrak{M}$  of  $\mathcal{A}$ , the first axiom of definition 4.2.2 gives  $S^{\mathfrak{M}}(a) \neq 0^{\mathfrak{M}}$  for every  $a \in |\mathfrak{M}|$ , so  $\mathfrak{M} \models S0 = 0$  and  $\mathfrak{M} \models 0 = S0$ . Satisfaction of these sentences is computed by proposition 1.4.13(3) and (4).

- If  $P(n_1, \dots, n_k)$ , then  $\mathcal{A} \vdash \psi(\vec{S})$ , so every model of  $\mathcal{A}$  satisfies  $\psi(\vec{S})$  and  $S0 = S0$ , hence  $\varphi(\vec{S}, S0)$ , and (iii) gives  $\mathcal{A} \vdash \varphi(\vec{S}, S0)$ . If not, then  $\mathcal{A} \vdash \psi'(\vec{S})$ , every model of  $\mathcal{A}$  satisfies  $\psi'(\vec{S})$  and  $0 = 0$ , and  $\mathcal{A} \vdash \varphi(\vec{S}, 0)$ . Thus  $\mathcal{A} \vdash \varphi(\vec{S}, S^{\chi_P(n_1, \dots, n_k)} 0)$ .
- Suppose  $\mathcal{A} \vdash \varphi(\vec{S}, S^m 0)$ . Then  $\mathfrak{N} \models \varphi(\vec{S}, S^m 0)$  by proposition 2.6.17(1) and proposition 4.2.3. By lemma 4.2.4,  $\mathfrak{N} \models S^m 0 = S0$  only for  $m = 1$  and  $\mathfrak{N} \models S^m 0 = 0$  only for  $m = 0$ , so  $m \in \{0, 1\}$ . If  $m = 1$ , then every model  $\mathfrak{M}$  of  $\mathcal{A}$  satisfies  $\varphi(\vec{S}, S0)$  but not  $S0 = 0$ , so  $\mathfrak{M} \models \psi(\vec{S})$ . Then (iii) gives  $\mathcal{A} \vdash \psi(\vec{S})$ , so  $P(n_1, \dots, n_k)$  and  $\chi_P(n_1, \dots, n_k) = 1 = m$ . If  $m = 0$ , then every model  $\mathfrak{M}$  of  $\mathcal{A}$  satisfies  $\varphi(\vec{S}, 0)$  but not  $0 = S0$ , so  $\mathfrak{M} \models \psi'(\vec{S})$ ,  $\mathcal{A} \vdash \psi'(\vec{S})$ , and  $\chi_P(n_1, \dots, n_k) = 0 = m$ .

Hence  $\varphi$  represents  $\chi_P$ . Together with the previous paragraph, this shows that  $\chi_P$  is representable exactly when  $P$  and  $\mathbb{N}^k \setminus P$  both are, and in particular that  $P$  is representable when  $\chi_P$  is, completing the proof.

We may ask what functions and relations are representable. Importantly for us, recursive functions (equivalently, total computable functions) are representable. We shall spend the rest of this section showing this inclusion. We already showed the initial functions are representable in example 4.2.6. We need to show finite composition, unbounded minimalization, and primitive recursion are all representable. Starting with finite composition:

#### Proposition 4.2.10: Composition Of Representable Is Representable

Let  $g_1, g_2, \dots, g_m$  be  $k$ -place functions and let  $h$  an  $m$ -place function, where all these functions are representation in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$ . Then  $f = h \circ (g_1, g_2, \dots, g_m)$  is a  $k$ -place representable function in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$ .

#### Proof:

It suffices to show it in the case of  $h = g \circ f$ . Let  $\alpha$  represent  $f$  and  $\beta$  represent  $g$  so that

$$f(n) = m \Leftrightarrow \Sigma \vdash \alpha(S^n 0, S^m 0) \quad g(m) = k \Leftrightarrow \Sigma \vdash \beta(S^m 0, S^k 0)$$

Then consider the formula

$$\exists v_3 \beta^{v_1, v_2}(v_3, S^k) \wedge \alpha^{v_1, v_2}(S^n 0, v_3)$$

it should not be too hard to see that this formula represents  $g \circ f$

#### Proposition 4.2.11: Representable Functions And Unbounded Minimalization

Let  $g$  be a  $k + 1$ -place regular function which is representable in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$ . Then the unbounded minimalization of  $g$  is a  $k$ -place representable function in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$

#### **Proof:**

think about what the formula  $\alpha$  should be given  $\varphi$  represents  $g$ . Remember that  $f(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) = m$  if and only if  $m$  is least so that  $g(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, m) = 0$ .

What's left to show is that primitive recursive functions are representable. The main problem is that it is not immediately obvious how a formula defining a function gets the previous value of the function. We will essentially encode this information by having a “history” function. To define this function, we need to show the functions in lemma 4.2.12 are representable<sup>1</sup>:

#### Lemma 4.2.12: Important Representable Functions and Relations

The following functions and relations are representable in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$ :

1.  $\text{Div}(n, m) \Leftrightarrow n \mid m$
2.  $\text{IsPrime}(n) \Leftrightarrow n$  is prime
3.  $\text{Prime}(k) = p_k$ , where  $p_0 = 1$  and  $p_k$  is the  $k$ th prime if  $k \geq 1$
4.  $\text{Power}(n, m) = k$  where  $k \geq 0$  and is maximal such that  $n^k \mid m$
5.  $\text{Length}(n) = \ell$  where  $\ell$  is maximal such that  $p_\ell \mid n$
6.  $\text{Element}(n, i) = n_i$  where  $n = p_1^{n_1} \dots p_k^{n_k}$  (and  $n_i = 0$  if  $ik$ )

#### **Proof:**

these are good exercises

<sup>1</sup>All of these functions were shown to be primitive recursive using primitive recursion, hence we cannot say they are just a finite composition of initial functions

**Proposition 4.2.13: History Functions**

Let  $f$  be a  $k$ -place function that is representable in  $\text{Th}(f)$ . Then

$$F(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, m) = p_1^{f(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, 0)} \dots p_k^{f(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, m)} = \prod_i^m p_i^{f(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k, i)}$$

is representable in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$

**Proof:**

good exercise

**Proposition 4.2.14: Primitive Recursive, Then Representable**

Let  $g$  be a  $k$ -place function and  $h$  a  $k + 2$  place function where both are representable in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$ . Then the  $k + 1$ -place function  $f$  defined by primitive recursion from  $g$  and  $h$  is also representable in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$ .

**Proof:**

use the above proposition to keep track of the history.

**Definition 4.2.15: Faithful Formula**

For an  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$ -structure  $\mathfrak{M}$  and  $a \in \mathbb{N}$ , write  $\hat{a}$  for the element  $\bar{s}(S^a 0)$  of  $|\mathfrak{M}|$ , which does not depend on the assignment  $s$  because  $S^a 0$  contains no variable. If the free variables of a formula  $\varphi$  are among  $v_1, \dots, v_j$  and  $e_1, \dots, e_j \in |\mathfrak{M}|$ , write  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi[e_1, \dots, e_j]$  for  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi[s(v_1|e_1) \dots (v_j|e_j)]$ , which does not depend on  $s$  by proposition 1.4.8. A formula  $\varphi$  whose free variables are among  $v_1, \dots, v_{k+1}$  is *faithful* for a  $k$ -place function  $g$  if

- (F1) for all  $a_1, \dots, a_k, b \in \mathbb{N}$ ,  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi[a_1, \dots, a_k, b]$  exactly when  $g(a_1, \dots, a_k) = b$ , and
- (F2) for all  $a_1, \dots, a_k \in \mathbb{N}$ , every model  $\mathfrak{M}$  of  $\mathcal{A}$  has  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi[\hat{a}_1, \dots, \hat{a}_k, \hat{b}]$  for  $b = g(a_1, \dots, a_k)$ .

Condition (F1) says that  $\varphi$  defines the graph of  $g$  in  $\mathfrak{M}$ , and (F2) says that the instances of  $\varphi$  at the values of  $g$  hold in every model of  $\mathcal{A}$ .

**Lemma 4.2.16: Recursive Functions Have Faithful Formulas**

Every recursive function has a faithful formula.

**Proof:**

In  $\mathfrak{M}$  we have  $\hat{a} = a$  by lemma 4.2.4. By the clauses of definition 1.4.5, a conjunction holds at an assignment exactly when both conjuncts do, and an implication fails exactly when its antecedent holds and its consequent fails. Existential formulas are evaluated by proposition 1.4.12. A recursive function is recursive in the first sense of definition 3.2.28, so it is the last term of a finite sequence of total functions, each of which is an initial function or arises from earlier

ones by composition, by primitive recursion, or by the unbounded minimalization of a regular function. By induction along this sequence, it suffices to give a faithful formula for each initial function, and for each function obtained by one of the three constructions from functions that have faithful formulas.

*Step 1: models of  $\mathcal{A}$ .* Let  $\mathfrak{M} \models \mathcal{A}$ . Unwinding definition 1.4.5 in the nine axioms of definition 4.2.2, as in the proof of proposition 4.2.3, gives for all  $x, y \in |\mathfrak{M}|$ , with the operations computed in  $\mathfrak{M}$ :

- $S(x) \neq 0$ , every  $x \neq 0$  is  $S(z)$  for some  $z$ , and  $S(x) = S(y)$  implies  $x = y$  (axioms 1 to 3).
- $x + 0 = x$ ,  $x + S(y) = S(x + y)$ ,  $x \cdot 0 = 0$ ,  $x \cdot S(y) = (x \cdot y) + x$ ,  $E(x, 0) = S(0)$  and  $E(x, S(y)) = E(x, y) \cdot x$  (axioms 4 to 9).

Note that  $\hat{0} = 0^{\mathfrak{M}}$  and  $\widehat{b+1} = S(\hat{b})$ .

(a) For all  $a, b \in \mathbb{N}$ , the identities  $\hat{a} + \hat{b} = \widehat{a+b}$ ,  $\hat{a} \cdot \hat{b} = \widehat{ab}$  and  $E(\hat{a}, \hat{b}) = \widehat{a^b}$  hold in  $\mathfrak{M}$ . The first holds for all  $a$  by induction on  $b$ : for  $b = 0$  it is axiom 4, and axiom 5 with the induction hypothesis gives  $\hat{a} + \widehat{b+1} = S(\widehat{a+b}) = \widehat{a+b+1}$ . The second then holds for all  $a$  by induction on  $b$ : for  $b = 0$  it is axiom 6, and axiom 7, the induction hypothesis and the first identity give  $\hat{a} \cdot \widehat{b+1} = \widehat{ab} + \hat{a} = \widehat{ab+a}$ . The third then holds for all  $a$  by induction on  $b$ : for  $b = 0$  it is axiom 8, as  $\hat{1} = S(0^{\mathfrak{M}})$ , and axiom 9, the induction hypothesis and the second identity give  $E(\hat{a}, \widehat{b+1}) = \widehat{a^b} \cdot \hat{a} = \widehat{a^{b+1}}$ . Consequently, if  $s$  and  $s'$  are assignments into  $\mathfrak{M}$  and  $\mathfrak{N}$  with  $s(v) = s'(v)$  for every variable  $v$  occurring in a term  $t$ , then  $\widehat{s(t)} = \widehat{s'(t)}$ . This is an induction on  $t$ : the constant 0 has the value  $\hat{0}$ , the symbol  $S$  sends  $\hat{d}$  to  $\widehat{d+1}$ , and  $+$ ,  $\cdot$ ,  $E$  are handled by the three identities.

(b) For terms  $t, t'$  write  $t < t'$  for  $\exists w'(w' + St = t')$ , with  $w'$  a variable occurring in neither term nor in the surrounding formula. At an assignment  $s$ , it holds exactly when  $e + S(\widehat{s(t)}) = \widehat{s(t')}$  for some  $e \in |\mathfrak{M}|$ . In  $\mathfrak{N}$  this means  $\widehat{s(t)} < \widehat{s(t')}$ . In  $\mathfrak{M}$ , if  $e + S(x) = \hat{b}$  for some  $e$ , then  $x = \hat{i}$  for some  $i < b$ . We show this by induction on  $b$ . By axiom 5,  $e + S(x) = S(e + x)$ , which is not  $\hat{0} = 0$  by axiom 1, so the case  $b = 0$  cannot occur. If  $S(e + x) = \widehat{b+1} = S(\hat{b})$ , then  $e + x = \hat{b}$  by axiom 3. Either  $x = 0 = \hat{0}$ , and  $0 < b + 1$ , or  $x = S(x_0)$  for some  $x_0$  by axiom 2. In the second case  $e + S(x_0) = \hat{b}$  gives  $x_0 = \hat{i}$  with  $i < b$  by the induction hypothesis, so  $x = \widehat{i+1}$  with  $i + 1 < b + 1$ .

*Step 2: initial functions.* The formulas  $v_2 = 0$ ,  $v_2 = Sv_1$  and  $v_{k+1} = v_i$  are faithful for  $O$ ,  $S$  and  $\pi_i^k$ . Condition (F1) is the equality clause of definition 1.4.5 in  $\mathfrak{N}$ . For (F2), let  $\mathfrak{M} \models \mathcal{A}$ . By the equality clause,  $\mathfrak{M} \models (v_2 = 0)[\hat{a}, \hat{0}]$  because  $\hat{0} = 0^{\mathfrak{M}}$ ,  $\mathfrak{M} \models (v_2 = Sv_1)[\hat{a}, \widehat{a+1}]$  because  $\widehat{a+1} = S^{\mathfrak{M}}(\hat{a})$ , and  $\mathfrak{M} \models (v_{k+1} = v_i)[\hat{a}_1, \dots, \hat{a}_k, \hat{a}_i]$ .

*Step 3: composition.* Let  $g = h \circ (g_1, \dots, g_m)$  with  $g_1, \dots, g_m$   $k$ -place and  $h$   $m$ -place, and let  $\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_m, \varphi_h$  be faithful formulas for them. Let  $n_0 = \max(k, m)$ , and choose distinct variables  $u_1, \dots, u_{m+1}$ , other than  $v_1, \dots, v_{n_0+1}$ , that occur in none of these formulas. Let  $\varphi'_j := (\varphi_j)_{u_j}^{v_{k+1}}$ , let  $\varphi'_h$  arise from  $\varphi_h$  by substituting  $u_1, \dots, u_{m+1}$  for  $v_1, \dots, v_{m+1}$  one at a time, which is

possible because these variables do not occur in the formulas, and let

$$\varphi \equiv \exists u_1 \cdots \exists u_{m+1} (\varphi'_1 \wedge \cdots \wedge \varphi'_m \wedge \varphi'_h \wedge u_{m+1} = v_{k+1})$$

whose free variables are among  $v_1, \dots, v_{k+1}$ . As no  $u_i$  is among  $v_1, \dots, v_{m+1}$ , each substitution into  $\varphi_h$  replaces the free occurrences of one  $v_i$  and does not change the variables already substituted. By lemma 2.4.1, at an assignment  $s$  the formula  $\varphi'_j$  holds exactly when  $\varphi_j$  holds at  $s(v_{k+1}|s(u_j))$ , and  $\varphi'_h$  holds exactly when  $\varphi_h$  holds at the assignment that agrees with  $s$  except that it sends each  $v_i$ ,  $i \leq m+1$ , to  $s(u_i)$ . By (F1) for the given formulas,  $\mathfrak{N} \models \varphi[a_1, \dots, a_k, b]$  holds exactly when there are  $c_1, \dots, c_{m+1} \in \mathbb{N}$  with  $c_j = g_j(a_1, \dots, a_k)$  for every  $j \leq m$ ,  $c_{m+1} = h(c_1, \dots, c_m)$  and  $c_{m+1} = b$ , that is, exactly when  $g(a_1, \dots, a_k) = b$ . For (F2), let  $\mathfrak{M} \models \mathcal{A}$ ,  $c_j = g_j(a_1, \dots, a_k)$  for  $j \leq m$ , and  $b = g(a_1, \dots, a_k) = h(c_1, \dots, c_m)$ . At the assignment sending  $v_i$  to  $\hat{a}_i$  and  $v_{k+1}$  to  $\hat{b}$ , the values  $u_j \mapsto \hat{c}_j$  for  $j \leq m$  and  $u_{m+1} \mapsto \hat{b}$  satisfy every conjunct, by (F2) for  $\varphi_1, \dots, \varphi_m$  and for  $\varphi_h$  at  $(c_1, \dots, c_m)$ .

*Step 4: unbounded minimalization.* Let  $g(a_1, \dots, a_k) = \mu y[\gamma(a_1, \dots, a_k, y) = 0]$  for a regular  $(k+1)$ -place function  $\gamma$  with faithful formula  $\varphi_\gamma$ . Choose distinct variables  $z, w$ , other than  $v_1, \dots, v_{k+2}$ , that do not occur in  $\varphi_\gamma$ , and let

$$\varphi \equiv (\varphi_\gamma)_0^{v_{k+2}} \wedge \forall z (z \prec v_{k+1} \rightarrow \exists w ((\varphi_\gamma)_z^{v_{k+1}})_{S^w}^{v_{k+2}})$$

whose free variables are among  $v_1, \dots, v_{k+1}$ . By lemma 2.4.1, (F1) for  $\varphi_\gamma$  and (b),  $\mathfrak{N} \models \varphi[a_1, \dots, a_k, b]$  holds exactly when  $\gamma(a_1, \dots, a_k, b) = 0$  and every  $i < b$  has  $\gamma(a_1, \dots, a_k, i) = e+1$  for some  $e \in \mathbb{N}$ , that is, exactly when  $b$  is the least zero of  $\gamma(a_1, \dots, a_k, \cdot)$ , which exists as  $\gamma$  is regular. For (F2), let  $b = g(a_1, \dots, a_k)$  and  $\mathfrak{M} \models \mathcal{A}$ . The first conjunct holds at  $\hat{a}_1, \dots, \hat{a}_k, \hat{b}$  by (F2) for  $\varphi_\gamma$ , since  $\gamma(a_1, \dots, a_k, b) = 0$  and  $\hat{0} = 0^{\mathfrak{M}}$ . For the second, let  $x \in |\mathfrak{M}|$  with  $e + S(x) = \hat{b}$  for some  $e$ . By (b),  $x = \hat{i}$  for some  $i < b$ , so  $c = \gamma(a_1, \dots, a_k, i) \geq 1$ , and (F2) for  $\varphi_\gamma$  gives  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi_\gamma[\hat{a}_1, \dots, \hat{a}_k, \hat{i}, \hat{c}]$ . As  $\hat{c} = S(\widehat{c-1})$ , the value  $w \mapsto \widehat{c-1}$  witnesses the existential.

*Step 5: primitive recursion.* For  $c, d, i \in \mathbb{N}$  let  $\beta(c, d, i)$  be the remainder of  $c$  on division by  $(i+1)d+1$ . We first show that for all  $a_0, \dots, a_x \in \mathbb{N}$  there are  $c, d \in \mathbb{N}$  with  $\beta(c, d, i) = a_i$  for every  $i \leq x$ . Let  $\ell = \max(x, a_0, \dots, a_x) + 1$ ,  $d = \ell!$  and  $m_i = (i+1)d+1$ . For  $i < j \leq x$  the numbers  $m_i$  and  $m_j$  have no common prime factor: such a prime  $p$  would divide  $m_j - m_i = (j-i)d$  but not  $d$ , since  $p \nmid (i+1)d+1$ . By unique factorization  $p \mid j-i$ , so  $p \leq x < \ell$ , which forces  $p \mid \ell!$ , a contradiction. Let  $N_0 = m_0 m_1 \cdots m_x$ . If  $0 \leq e < e' < N_0$  and  $e, e'$  leave the same remainder on division by every  $m_i$ , then every  $m_i$  divides  $e' - e$ . No prime divides two of the  $m_i$ , so for each prime  $p$  the power of  $p$  in  $N_0$  is its power in a single  $m_i$ , which divides  $e' - e$ . By unique factorization  $N_0$  divides  $e' - e$ , which is impossible as  $0 < e' - e < N_0$ . Thus the map sending  $e$  to its tuple of remainders modulo  $m_0, \dots, m_x$  is injective from  $\{0, \dots, N_0 - 1\}$  to the set of tuples  $(r_0, \dots, r_x)$  with  $0 \leq r_i < m_i$ . Both sets have  $N_0$  elements, so the map is onto. As  $a_i < \ell \leq d < m_i$ , some  $c$  has remainder  $a_i$  modulo  $m_i$  for every  $i \leq x$ , that is,  $\beta(c, d, i) = a_i$ .

For terms  $t_1, t_2, t_3, t_4$  and a variable  $q$  occurring in none of them, let

$$B(t_1, t_2, t_3, t_4) \equiv \exists q (t_1 = q \cdot S(St_3 \cdot t_2) + t_4 \wedge t_4 \prec S(St_3 \cdot t_2))$$

Since  $q$  and the variable of  $\prec$  occur in none of the four terms,  $B(t_1, t_2, t_3, t_4)$  holds at an assignment  $s$  exactly when some elements  $e, e'$  satisfy

$$\bar{s}(t_1) = e \cdot S(S(\bar{s}(t_3)) \cdot \bar{s}(t_2)) + \bar{s}(t_4) \quad e' + S(\bar{s}(t_4)) = S(S(\bar{s}(t_3)) \cdot \bar{s}(t_2))$$

In  $\mathfrak{N}$  the second condition says  $\bar{s}(t_4) < (\bar{s}(t_3) + 1)\bar{s}(t_2) + 1$ , so by the uniqueness of division with remainder  $B$  holds exactly when  $\bar{s}(t_4) = \beta(\bar{s}(t_1), \bar{s}(t_2), \bar{s}(t_3))$ . In a model of  $\mathcal{A}$ , suppose the four values are  $\hat{c}, \hat{d}, \hat{i}, \hat{r}$  with  $r = \beta(c, d, i)$ . Write  $c = q_0m + r$  with  $m = (i + 1)d + 1$  and  $r < m$ , and let  $\rho = m - r - 1$ . Then (a) shows that  $e = \hat{q}_0$  and  $e' = \hat{\rho}$  satisfy both conditions, so  $B$  holds.

Now let  $g$  be obtained by primitive recursion from  $\gamma$  and  $\eta$ , so that

$$g(a_1, \dots, a_k, 0) = \gamma(a_1, \dots, a_k) \quad g(a_1, \dots, a_k, x + 1) = \eta(a_1, \dots, a_k, x, g(a_1, \dots, a_k, x))$$

with faithful formulas  $\varphi_\gamma$  and  $\varphi_\eta$  for  $\gamma$  and  $\eta$ . Choose distinct variables  $u_1, \dots, u_5$ , other than  $v_1, \dots, v_{k+3}$  and the variables used inside  $B$  and  $\prec$ , that occur in neither formula. The variables  $u_1$  and  $u_2$  stand for the parameters of  $\beta$ ,  $u_3$  for an index, and  $u_4, u_5$  for consecutive values. Let  $\varphi'_\gamma := (\varphi_\gamma)_{u_4}^{v_{k+1}}$ , let  $\varphi'_\eta$  arise from  $\varphi_\eta$  by substituting  $u_3, u_4, u_5$  for  $v_{k+1}, v_{k+2}, v_{k+3}$  one at a time, and let

$$\begin{aligned} \varphi := & \exists u_1 \exists u_2 \left( \exists u_4 (B(u_1, u_2, 0, u_4) \wedge \varphi'_\gamma) \wedge B(u_1, u_2, v_{k+1}, v_{k+2}) \right. \\ & \left. \wedge \forall u_3 (u_3 \prec v_{k+1} \rightarrow \exists u_4 \exists u_5 (B(u_1, u_2, u_3, u_4) \wedge B(u_1, u_2, Su_3, u_5) \wedge \varphi'_\eta)) \right) \end{aligned}$$

whose free variables are among  $v_1, \dots, v_{k+2}$ . By lemma 2.4.1, the description of  $B$  in  $\mathfrak{N}$ , (b), and (F1) for  $\varphi_\gamma$  and  $\varphi_\eta$ ,  $\mathfrak{N} \models \varphi[a_1, \dots, a_k, x, y]$  holds exactly when there are  $c, d \in \mathbb{N}$  with  $\beta(c, d, 0) = \gamma(a_1, \dots, a_k)$ , with  $\beta(c, d, x) = y$ , and with  $\beta(c, d, i + 1) = \eta(a_1, \dots, a_k, i, \beta(c, d, i))$  for every  $i < x$ . If such  $c, d$  exist, induction on  $i \leq x$  gives  $\beta(c, d, i) = g(a_1, \dots, a_k, i)$ , so  $y = g(a_1, \dots, a_k, x)$ . Conversely, if  $y = g(a_1, \dots, a_k, x)$ , the first paragraph of this step gives  $c, d$  with  $\beta(c, d, i) = g(a_1, \dots, a_k, i)$  for all  $i \leq x$ , and these satisfy the three conditions. This is (F1).

For (F2), let  $y = g(a_1, \dots, a_k, x)$ , take  $c, d$  as in the first paragraph of this step, write  $r_j = g(a_1, \dots, a_k, j)$  for  $j \leq x$ , and let  $\mathfrak{M} \models \mathcal{A}$ . We use the values  $u_1 \mapsto \hat{c}$  and  $u_2 \mapsto \hat{d}$ . In the first conjunct,  $u_4 \mapsto \hat{r}_0$  satisfies  $B$  by the description of  $B$  in models of  $\mathcal{A}$ , as  $r_0 = \gamma(a_1, \dots, a_k) = \beta(c, d, 0)$ , and it satisfies  $\varphi'_\gamma$  by (F2) for  $\varphi_\gamma$ . The second conjunct holds by the same description, since  $\beta(c, d, x) = y$ . For the third, let  $e \in |\mathfrak{M}|$  with  $e \prec \hat{x}$  in  $\mathfrak{M}$ . By (b),  $e = \hat{i}$  for some  $i < x$ . The values  $u_4 \mapsto \hat{r}_i$  and  $u_5 \mapsto \hat{r}_{i+1}$  satisfy both instances of  $B$ , the term  $Su_3$  having the value  $S(\hat{i}) = \widehat{i + 1}$ , and they satisfy  $\varphi'_\eta$  by (F2) for  $\varphi_\eta$ , since  $\eta(a_1, \dots, a_k, i, r_i) = r_{i+1}$ . Hence  $\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi[\hat{a}_1, \dots, \hat{a}_k, \hat{x}, \hat{y}]$ .

Steps 2 to 5 provide a faithful formula for each function of the sequence, completing the proof.

#### Theorem 4.2.17: Recursive, Then Representable

Let  $f$  be a recursive function. Then every faithful formula for  $f$  (definition 4.2.15) represents  $f$  in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$ . In particular  $f$  is representable in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$

#### Proof:

Let  $f$  be  $k$ -place and let  $\varphi$  be a faithful formula for  $f$ , with the notation of definition 4.2.15. Such a formula exists by lemma 4.2.16, so the second claim follows from the first. A numeral is a closed term, hence substitutable for every variable by lemma 2.6.27(1), so lemma 2.4.1, applied

once for each substituted variable, gives for every  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$ -structure  $\mathfrak{M}$

$$\mathfrak{M} \models \varphi(S^{a_1}0, \dots, S^{a_k}0) \quad \text{exactly when} \quad \mathfrak{M} \models \varphi[\hat{a}_1, \dots, \hat{a}_{k+1}]$$

Write  $\sigma_{\vec{a},b}$  for the sentence  $\varphi(S^{a_1}0, \dots, S^{a_k}0, S^b0)$ . If  $f(a_1, \dots, a_k) = b$ , then by (F2) and this equivalence every model of  $\mathcal{A}$  satisfies  $\sigma_{\vec{a},b}$ , so  $\mathcal{A}$  deduces it by theorem 2.6.31. Conversely, if  $\mathcal{A} \vdash \sigma_{\vec{a},b}$ , then  $\mathfrak{N}$  satisfies  $\sigma_{\vec{a},b}$  by proposition 2.6.17(1) and proposition 4.2.3. As  $\hat{a} = a$  in  $\mathfrak{N}$  by lemma 4.2.4, this gives  $\mathfrak{N} \models \varphi[a_1, \dots, a_k, b]$ , and  $f(a_1, \dots, a_k) = b$  by (F1). This is the condition of definition 4.2.5, so  $\varphi$  represents  $f$  in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$ , as we sought to show.

Hence, there are formulas of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  that represent each of the functions which encode assertions about terms, formulas, deductions, and so forth. This will be crucial in the Incompleteness Theorem, since we will show there is a formula which will code its own unprovability.

We end this section by giving a couple more important results about representability in relation to consistency:

**Proposition 4.2.18: Representability And Consistency**

1. Let  $\Sigma$  be a set of sentences of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  and  $f$  a  $k$ -place representable function in  $\text{Th}(\Sigma)$ . Then  $\Sigma$  is consistent
2. Let  $\Sigma$  and  $\Gamma$  be consistent sets of sentences of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  and  $\Sigma \vdash \Gamma$ . Then every function and relation which is representable in  $\text{Th}(\Gamma)$  is representable in  $\text{Th}(\Sigma)$
3. For any consistent set of sentences  $\Sigma$  such that  $\Sigma \vdash \mathcal{A}$ , any function and relation representable in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$  is also representable in  $\text{Th}(\Sigma)$ .

**Proof:**

1. Proving the contrapositive, recall that if  $\Sigma$  is inconsistent, then  $\Sigma$  can prove anything. Let's say  $f$  is a function where  $f(n) \neq m$ . Then since  $\Sigma$  is inconsistent,  $\Sigma \vdash \varphi(S^n, S^m)$ , however  $f(n) \neq m$ .
2. Let's say  $f$  is representable in  $\text{Th}(\Gamma)$  with representative  $\varphi$ . Since  $\Sigma \vdash \Gamma$  and  $\Gamma \vdash \varphi(S^{n_1}0, \dots, S^{n_k}0, S^m0)$  whenever  $f(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) = m$ , by transitivity so does  $\Sigma$
3. let  $\Gamma = \mathcal{A}$  in the above.

## 4.3 Incompleteness Theorems

We have shown that we can use recursive functions to manipulate coded formulas of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$ , and have showed that we can represent recursive function using formulas in  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$ . This leaves us open to “self-referencing”, in particular we can use formulas of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  to refer and manipulate codes of formulas of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$ .

The two key results we will be proving are Gödel's two incompleteness theorems. It essentially states that if  $\Sigma$  is a consistent and computable (i.e. recursive) set of sentences of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  that is large enough so that  $\Sigma \vdash \mathcal{A}$ , then  $\Sigma$  is *not* complete, that is it cannot be that for any sentence  $\tau$  of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  then either

$\Sigma \vdash \tau$  or  $\Sigma \vdash \neg\tau$ . We then move onto the second incompleteness theorem which further asserts that a consistent computable (i.e. recursive) set of sentences  $\Sigma$  of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  *cannot* prove its own consistency!

To prove the first incompleteness theorem, we first need a couple of lemmas:

**Lemma 4.3.1: Incompleteness Theorem Lemmas I**

1. The function

$$Sub(n, k) = \begin{cases} [\varphi(S^k 0)] & \text{if } n = [\varphi] \text{ for a formula} \\ & \varphi \text{ of } \mathcal{L}_{NT} \text{ with} \\ & \text{at most } v_1 \text{ free} \\ 0 & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

is recursive, and hence representable in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$

2.  $\mathcal{A}$  is a recursive set of sentences in  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$
3. (Fixed-Point lemma) Let  $\varphi$  be a formula of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  with only  $v_1$  as a free variable. Then there is a sentence  $\sigma$  of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  such that

$$\mathcal{A} \vdash \sigma \leftrightarrow \varphi(S^{[\sigma]} 0)$$

Note that for the first lemma,  $\sigma$  must be different from the sentence  $\varphi(S^{[\varphi]} 0)$ , since there is no way to find a formula  $\varphi$  with one free variable and an integer  $k$  such that  $[\varphi(S^k 0)] = k$ . Also, the fixed point lemma is sometimes called the *Diagonalization Lemma* due to parallels between the proof argument and Cantor's Diagonalization theorem proving there are uncountably many real numbers.

**Proof:**

- Recall that the variable  $v_k$  has Gödel code  $k + 14$ . Hence,  $\varphi$  if there exists  $p_i$ 's such that the exponent is greater than 13,  $p_j^{k+14}$  then we must verify that its bounded, that is in an earlier element  $p_{i_1}^5 p_{i_2}^{k+14}$ ,  $i_1, i_2 < j$  and  $i_2 = i_1 + 1$ .
- By definition 4.2.2,  $\mathcal{A}$  consists of exactly nine sentences  $\alpha_1, \alpha_2, \dots, \alpha_9$  of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$ . Each  $\alpha_i$  is a finite sequence of symbols of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$ , so it has a Gödel code  $[\alpha_i]$  by definition 4.1.4, and the nine codes are distinct: each symbol code in definition 4.1.3 is a positive integer, so by unique factorization the sequence code  $p_1^{[s_1]} \dots p_k^{[s_k]}$  determines its length and every exponent, and the nine axioms are distinct sequences of symbols. Hence

$$[\mathcal{A}] = \{[\alpha_i] \mid 1 \leq i \leq 9\}$$

is a finite subset of  $\mathbb{N}$ , with characteristic function

$$\chi_{[\mathcal{A}]}(n) = \sum_{i=1}^9 \chi_{\{[\alpha_i]\}}(n)$$

where the sum takes only the values 0 and 1 because the nine codes are distinct. Each  $\chi_{\{[\alpha_i]\}}$  is primitive recursive by lemma 3.2.14(2), and the nine-fold sum is built from these and *SUM* of example 3.2.11(1) by finitely many compositions, which definition 3.2.13 permits. Hence  $\chi_{[\mathcal{A}]}$  is primitive recursive, and it is recursive, the build-up of definition 3.2.13

being a special case of that in definition 3.2.28. So  $[\mathcal{A}]$  is a recursive subset of  $\mathbb{N}$ , and by definition 4.1.7 the set  $\mathcal{A}$  is a recursive set of sentences of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$ .

3. We first need to find a representation of  $Sub$ . Since  $Sub$  is recursive, it is representable in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$ , say  $\psi$  represents it:

$$Sub(n, k) = [\varphi(S^k 0)] \Leftrightarrow \mathcal{A} \vdash \psi(S^n 0, S^k 0, S^{[\varphi(S^k 0)]})$$

Note that nothing is stopping us from doing  $Sub([\varphi], [\varphi])$ , or equivalently if  $n = [\varphi]$  then  $\psi(S^n, S^n, S^m 0)$  where  $m$  is the output of the above function. Let  $n = [\varphi]$  for the rest of this proof. Now, given  $\varphi$ , we can define the following formula:

$$\alpha := \exists v_2 [\varphi(v_2) \wedge \psi(v_1, v_1, v_2)]$$

Remember that  $\varphi(v_2) := \varphi_{v_2}^{v_1}$  and  $\psi(v_1, v_1, v_2) := \psi_{v_1, v_2, v_2}^{v_1, v_2, v_3}$ . Note that  $\alpha$  only has one free variable, namely  $v_1$ . Let  $k = [\alpha]$ . Then consider

$$\alpha(S^k 0) := \exists v_2 [\varphi(v_2) \wedge \psi(S^k 0, S^k 0, v_2)]$$

If we take  $m = [\alpha(S^k 0)]$ , then

$$Sub(k, k) = m$$

and furthermore:

$$\mathcal{A} \vdash \forall v_2 [\psi(S^k 0, S^k 0, v_2) \leftrightarrow y = m]$$

which, to make more clear what was written we have:

$$\mathcal{A} \vdash \forall v_2 [\psi(S^k 0, S^k 0, v_2) \leftrightarrow y = [\alpha(S^k)]]$$

Now, using the definition of  $\leftrightarrow$  and simplifying notation, we get:

$$\mathcal{A} \vdash \alpha(S^k 0) \leftrightarrow \psi(S^{[\alpha(S^k 0)]})$$

The fixed point lemma can be thought of as the statement “This statement is false”, which is the key paradox we will use to prove the incompleteness theorem<sup>2</sup>

#### Theorem 4.3.2: Gödel's First Incompleteness Theorem I

Let  $\Sigma$  be a consistent recursive set of sentences of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  such that  $\Sigma \vdash \mathcal{A}$ . Then  $\Sigma$  is *not* complete

#### **Proof:**

For the sake of contradiction, assume  $\Sigma$  is complete so that  $\text{Th}(\Sigma)$  is recursive. Then it must be representable in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$ , say  $\varphi$  represents it. Then by the fixed point lemma, we may find a formula  $\sigma$  of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  such that  $\mathcal{A} \vdash \sigma \leftrightarrow \neg \varphi(S^{[\sigma]} 0)$  (note the negation). If  $\sigma \in \text{Th}(\Sigma)$ , then  $\Sigma \vdash \sigma$ , and  $\mathcal{A} \vdash \sigma$ , implying  $\Sigma \vdash \neg \varphi(S^{[\sigma]} 0)$ , which means that  $[\sigma]$  is not in the set of codes for  $\text{Th}(\Sigma)$ , implying  $\sigma \notin \text{Th}(\Sigma)$ . On the other hand, if  $\sigma \notin \text{Th}(\Sigma)$ , then  $\Sigma \vdash \neg \sigma$  since  $\Sigma$  is complete, hence  $\Sigma \vdash \neg \neg \varphi(S^{[\sigma]} 0)$ , which we know lets us deduce  $\Sigma \vdash \varphi(S^{[\sigma]} 0)$  which implies  $\sigma \in \text{Th}(\Sigma)$ .

<sup>2</sup>There are other paradoxes that have similar properties (for example, the barber paradox), and each paradox leads to a different proof of the incompleteness theorem

But it cannot be that both  $\sigma$  is both in and not in  $\text{Th}(\Sigma)$ , a contradiction. Hence  $\Sigma$  cannot be complete, as we sought to show.

This theorem in particular states that any consistent set of sentence which proves at least as much about the natural numbers as  $\mathcal{A}$  does cannot be both complete and recursive (i.e. computable)!

#### Corollary 4.3.3: Consequences Of First Incompleteness Theorem

1. Let  $\Gamma$  be a complete set of sentences of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  such that  $\Gamma \cup \mathcal{A}$  is consistent. Then  $\Gamma$  is *not* recursive
2. Let  $\Delta$  be a recursive set of sentences such that  $\Delta \cup \mathcal{A}$  is consistent. Then  $\Delta$  is *not* complete
3. The theory of  $\mathfrak{N}$

$$\text{Th}(\mathfrak{N}) = \{ \sigma \mid \sigma \text{ is a sentence of } \mathcal{L}_{NT} \text{ and } \mathfrak{N} \models \sigma \}$$

is *not* recursive

#### Proof:

The first two come from the fact that there are no consistent complete recursive set of sentences such that  $\Sigma \vdash \mathcal{A}$ . The third has the same reasoning: we know that  $\text{Th}(\mathfrak{N})$  is maximally consistent by proposition 2.6.18. For completeness, pick any set of generating sentences, that is a subset  $N \subseteq \text{Th}(\mathfrak{N})$  such that  $\text{Th}(N) = \text{Th}(\mathfrak{N})$  (note how the two sets are defined differently, but we use the Completeness theorem from first-order logic to equate the two). Hence, by proposition 4.1.2,  $N$  is complete. Furthermore, we trivially have  $N \vdash \mathcal{A}$  (since  $\text{Th}(\mathfrak{N}) \supseteq \text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$ ), and hence we may apply Gödel's Incompleteness Theorem.

We were working over  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$ , however nothing particular about this particular language was important for the result; it works perfectly well for any first order language and recursive set of axioms where we can encode and prove enough facts about arithmetic. Notably, it can be done whenever the language and axioms are powerful enough to define the natural numbers and prove some simple facts about them (a popular example would be Zermelo-Fraenkel set Theory).

We now move onto the second incompleteness theorem, which as mentioned before asserts that a consistent recursive set of sentences  $\Sigma$  for  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  cannot prove its own consistency. We first require the ability to express a notion of “ $\Sigma$  is consistent” in  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$

#### Lemma 4.3.4: Expressing Consistency

Let  $\Sigma$  be a recursive set of sentences of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$ , let  $C(m, c)$  be the relation that  $c$  is the code of a deduction from  $\Sigma$  whose conclusion has code  $m$ , and let  $m_0 = [\neg(0 = 0 \rightarrow 0 = 0)]$ . Then  $\chi_C$  is recursive, so it has a faithful formula (lemma 4.2.16), and for every faithful formula  $\varphi_C$  for  $\chi_C$  the sentence

$$\text{Con}(\Sigma) := \forall v_2 \neg (((\varphi_C)_{S_0}^{v_3})_{S^{m_0 0}}^{v_1})$$

of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  has the property that  $\Sigma$  is consistent if and only if  $\mathfrak{N} \models \text{Con}(\Sigma)$

**Proof:**

Let  $\theta \equiv (0 = 0)$ , so that  $m_0 = [\neg(\theta \rightarrow \theta)]$ . The set  $\Sigma$  is inconsistent exactly when  $\Sigma \vdash \neg(\theta \rightarrow \theta)$ : an inconsistent set deduces every formula by proposition 2.6.17(3), and a deduction of  $\neg(\theta \rightarrow \theta)$  witnesses inconsistency. As  $\Sigma$  is recursive,  $\text{Conclusion}_\Sigma$  is recursive by proposition 4.1.8(5). The relation  $C(m, c)$  holds exactly when  $\text{Conclusion}_\Sigma(c, m)$  does, so  $\chi_C$  is the composition of  $\chi_{\text{Conclusion}_\Sigma}$  with the projections  $\pi_2^2$  and  $\pi_1^2$ , and it is recursive by definition 3.2.28 and definition 3.2.29. By lemma 4.2.16 it has a faithful formula. Let  $\varphi_C$  be one, with free variables among  $v_1, v_2, v_3$ . Substituting the numerals  $S0$  and  $S^{m_0}0$  for  $v_3$  and  $v_1$  leaves at most  $v_2$  free, so  $\text{Con}(\Sigma)$  is a sentence. Numerals are substitutable for every variable by lemma 2.6.27(1), so by the quantifier and negation clauses of definition 1.4.5, lemma 2.4.1 and lemma 4.2.4,  $\mathfrak{N} \models \text{Con}(\Sigma)$  holds exactly when  $\mathfrak{N} \models \varphi_C[m_0, c, 1]$  for every  $c \in \mathbb{N}$ , that is, by (F1) of definition 4.2.15, exactly when  $\chi_C(m_0, c) \neq 1$  for every  $c$ . This says that no number codes a deduction from  $\Sigma$  whose last formula has the code  $m_0$ , that is,  $\Sigma \not\vdash \neg(\theta \rightarrow \theta)$ , as distinct formulas have distinct codes. Hence  $\mathfrak{N} \models \text{Con}(\Sigma)$  exactly when  $\Sigma$  is consistent, as claimed.

**Theorem 4.3.5: Gödel's Second Incompleteness Theorem II**

Let  $\Sigma$  be a consistent recursive set of sentences of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  such that  $\Sigma \vdash \mathcal{A}$ . Then  $\Sigma \not\vdash \text{Con}(\Sigma)$  for each sentence  $\text{Con}(\Sigma)$  of lemma 4.3.4

**Proof:**

Let  $C, m_0, \varphi_C$  and  $\text{Con}(\Sigma)$  be as in lemma 4.3.4. The function  $\chi_C$  is recursive by that lemma, so its faithful formula  $\varphi_C$  represents it in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$  by theorem 4.2.17. Then  $\chi \equiv (\varphi_C)_{S0}^{v_3}$ , a formula with at most  $v_1$  and  $v_2$  free, represents  $C$  by proposition 4.2.9: for all  $m, c \in \mathbb{N}$ ,

$$C(m, c) \iff \mathcal{A} \vdash \chi(S^m 0, S^c 0)$$

Let  $\varphi \equiv \forall v_2 (\neg \chi)$ , a formula with at most  $v_1$  free. The sentence  $\varphi(S^m 0)$  says that no number codes a deduction from  $\Sigma$  of the formula with code  $m$ . As  $v_1$  is not  $v_2$ , definition 1.5.3 shows that  $\varphi(S^{m_0} 0)$  is  $\forall v_2 \neg (\chi_{S^{m_0} 0}^{v_1})$ , which is the sentence  $\text{Con}(\Sigma)$ .

The propositional apparatus of section 2.5 transfers verbatim to the present deductive system, whose axioms include **A1** to **A3** and whose rule is Modus Ponens. We use lemma 2.5.9 and the examples of that section in this way. In particular, from  $\mathcal{A} \vdash \sigma \leftrightarrow \tau$ , which abbreviates  $\mathcal{A} \vdash (\sigma \rightarrow \tau) \wedge (\tau \rightarrow \sigma)$ , both  $\mathcal{A} \vdash \sigma \rightarrow \tau$  and  $\mathcal{A} \vdash \tau \rightarrow \sigma$  follow, by items (6) and (7) of corollary 2.5.10 together with proposition 2.6.9(4).

By the Fixed-Point lemma, lemma 4.3.1(3), there is a sentence  $\sigma$  with

$$\mathcal{A} \vdash \sigma \leftrightarrow \varphi(S^{[\sigma]} 0)$$

We claim that if  $\Sigma \vdash \sigma$ , then  $\Sigma$  is inconsistent. Suppose  $\Sigma \vdash \sigma$ , and fix a deduction of  $\sigma$  from  $\Sigma$ , with code  $c$ , so that  $C([\sigma], c)$  holds and  $\mathcal{A} \vdash \chi(S^{[\sigma]} 0, S^c 0)$ . The term  $S^c 0$  contains no variables and is substitutable for  $v_2$  by lemma 2.6.27(1), so **A4** gives

$$\mathcal{A} \vdash \varphi(S^{[\sigma]} 0) \rightarrow \neg \chi(S^{[\sigma]} 0, S^c 0)$$

By lemma 2.5.9,  $\mathcal{A} \vdash \neg \neg \chi(S^{[\sigma]} 0, S^c 0) \rightarrow \neg \varphi(S^{[\sigma]} 0)$ . Since  $\mathcal{A} \vdash \chi(S^{[\sigma]} 0, S^c 0)$  gives  $\mathcal{A} \vdash \neg \neg \chi(S^{[\sigma]} 0, S^c 0)$  by example 2.5.8(2) with proposition 2.6.9(4), Modus Ponens yields

$$\mathcal{A} \vdash \neg \varphi(S^{[\sigma]} 0)$$

Since  $\Sigma \vdash \mathcal{A}$ , transitivity (proposition 2.6.9(4)) turns each deduction from  $\mathcal{A}$  above into one from  $\Sigma$ . From  $\Sigma \vdash \sigma$  and  $\Sigma \vdash \sigma \rightarrow \varphi(S^{[\sigma]}0)$  we get  $\Sigma \vdash \varphi(S^{[\sigma]}0)$  by proposition 2.6.9(2), while the previous display gives  $\Sigma \vdash \neg\varphi(S^{[\sigma]}0)$ . By theorem 2.5.6 with proposition 2.6.9(2)(4),  $\Sigma \vdash \neg(= 00 \rightarrow = 00)$ , so  $\Sigma$  is inconsistent. As  $\Sigma$  is consistent by hypothesis,  $\Sigma \not\vdash \sigma$ .

What the theorem still needs is the arithmetized form of the claim just proved,

$$\Sigma \vdash \text{Con}(\Sigma) \rightarrow \varphi(S^{[\sigma]}0) \quad (4.1)$$

whose content is that the argument of the previous paragraph, from a deduction of  $\sigma$  to a deduction of  $\neg(= 00 \rightarrow = 00)$ , can itself be reproduced as a formal deduction from  $\Sigma$ , uniformly in the code  $c$ . Carrying this out requires verifying inside the formal system the representability computations behind  $\chi$  and the closure of  $\Sigma$ -provability under Modus Ponens. These are the Hilbert-Bernays derivability conditions for the provability formula  $\neg\varphi$ , and this book does not develop them. We take (4.1) as given, and record it as exactly what is deferred in this proof.

Granting (4.1), suppose toward a contradiction that  $\Sigma \vdash \text{Con}(\Sigma)$ . By proposition 2.6.9(2),  $\Sigma \vdash \varphi(S^{[\sigma]}0)$ . The other half of the fixed point biconditional gives  $\Sigma \vdash \varphi(S^{[\sigma]}0) \rightarrow \sigma$ , so  $\Sigma \vdash \sigma$ . By the claim above,  $\Sigma$  is then inconsistent, contrary to hypothesis. Hence  $\Sigma \not\vdash \text{Con}(\Sigma)$ .

Just like for the first incompleteness theorem, the second one works for any recursive set of sentences in a first order language which allows one to encode and prove enough facts about arithmetic. One “pathological” consequence of the Second Incompleteness Theorem is that only an inconsistent set of axioms can prove its own consistency!!

We end off this section with a couple of implications of incompleteness. First, recall that a sentence  $\sigma$  is true in  $\mathfrak{N}$  if  $\mathfrak{N} \models \sigma$ . We shall show that a true sentence in  $\mathfrak{N}$  is not “definable” in  $\mathfrak{N}$ . We first require to define our term:

#### Definition 4.3.6: Definable

Let  $P$  be a  $k$ -place relation in  $\mathfrak{N}$ . Then  $P$  is said to be *definable* if there is a formula  $\varphi$  of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  with at most  $v_1, v_2, \dots, v_k$  as free variables such that

$$P(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) \Leftrightarrow \mathfrak{N} \models \varphi[s(v_1|n_1)\dots(v_k|n_k)]$$

for every assignment  $s$  of  $\mathfrak{N}$ . The formula  $\varphi$  will be said to *define*  $P$  in  $\mathfrak{N}$ .

A similar definition can be made for functions. Notice too how similar being definable is to being representable. The following proposition makes the relation more precise

#### Proposition 4.3.7: Representable And Definable

Let  $P$  be a  $k$ -place relation which is representable in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$ . Then  $P$  is *definable* in  $\mathfrak{N}$

#### Proof:

Let  $\psi$ , with at most  $v_1, \dots, v_k$  free, represent  $P$  in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$  as in definition 4.2.7. Write  $\psi$  as a string of symbols  $s_1 \cdots s_L$ , and for  $\vec{n} = (n_1, \dots, n_k) \in \mathbb{N}^k$  write  $\psi(\vec{n})$  for the sentence  $\psi(S^{n_1}0, \dots, S^{n_k}0)$ .

*Step 1: the code of  $\psi(\vec{n})$  is a primitive recursive function of  $\vec{n}$ .* Substituting the numeral  $S^{n_i}0$  for  $v_i$  replaces the occurrences of  $v_i$  that definition 1.5.3 reaches, those not within the scope of a quantifier  $(\forall v_i)$ , by the string  $S^{n_i}0$ . Numerals contain no variables, so the successive substitutions for  $v_1, \dots, v_k$  do not interact, and the replaced positions  $j$ , with the index  $i$  of the variable at each, depend only on  $\psi$ . By definition 4.1.3 and definition 4.1.4, the numeral  $S^n0$  has the code

$$N(n) = \left( \prod_{t=1}^n EXP(Prime(t), 8) \right) \cdot EXP(Prime(n+1), 7)$$

a primitive recursive function of  $n$  by example 3.2.11(4), example 3.2.17(8) and the conventions on bounded products there. For  $j \leq L$  let  $b_j(\vec{n})$  be  $N(n_i)$  if position  $j$  is replaced and holds  $v_i$ , and the code  $2^{[s_j]}$  of the one-symbol string  $s_j$  otherwise. All exponents of these codes are positive, so by example 3.2.17(13) the code  $[\psi(\vec{n})]$  is

$$g(\vec{n}) = CONCAT(\dots CONCAT(CONCAT(b_1(\vec{n}), b_2(\vec{n})), b_3(\vec{n})) \dots, b_L(\vec{n}))$$

a composition of finitely many primitive recursive functions.

*Step 2: the defining formula.* By lemma 4.3.1(2),  $\mathcal{A}$  is a recursive set of sentences, so  $Conclusion_{\mathcal{A}}$  is recursive by proposition 4.1.8(5). The  $(k+1)$ -place function  $\chi(\vec{n}, c) = \chi_{Conclusion_{\mathcal{A}}}(c, g(\vec{n}))$  is then recursive, and by lemma 4.2.16 it has a faithful formula  $\varphi$  (definition 4.2.15), whose free variables are among  $v_1, \dots, v_{k+2}$ . Choose a variable  $u$ , other than  $v_1, \dots, v_{k+2}$ , not occurring in  $\varphi$ , and let

$$\delta := \exists u ((\varphi)_u^{v_{k+1}})_{S0}^{v_{k+2}}$$

whose free variables are among  $v_1, \dots, v_k$ . Let  $s$  be an assignment for  $\mathfrak{N}$ . By proposition 1.4.12 and lemma 2.4.1, with  $\bar{s}(S0) = 1$  by lemma 4.2.4,  $\mathfrak{N} \models \delta[s(v_1|n_1) \dots (v_k|n_k)]$  holds exactly when  $\mathfrak{N} \models \varphi[n_1, \dots, n_k, c, 1]$  for some  $c \in \mathbb{N}$ , that is, by (F1), exactly when  $\chi(\vec{n}, c) = 1$  for some  $c$ . This says that some  $c$  codes a deduction from  $\mathcal{A}$  whose last formula has the code  $g(\vec{n}) = [\psi(\vec{n})]$ , that is, that  $\mathcal{A} \vdash \psi(\vec{n})$ , as distinct formulas have distinct codes by unique factorization and definition 4.1.3. As  $\psi$  represents  $P$ , this holds exactly when  $P(n_1, \dots, n_k)$ . Hence  $\delta$  defines  $P$  in  $\mathfrak{N}$  (definition 4.3.6), as we sought to show.

The defining formula  $\delta$  cannot in general be taken to be the representing formula  $\psi$ . By theorem 4.3.2 applied to  $\Sigma = \mathcal{A}$ , which is recursive by lemma 4.3.1(2), consistent by proposition 2.6.17(2) since  $\mathfrak{N} \models \mathcal{A}$ , and satisfies  $\mathcal{A} \vdash \mathcal{A}$  through one line deductions, there is a sentence  $\tau$  with  $\mathcal{A} \not\vdash \tau$  and  $\mathcal{A} \not\vdash \neg\tau$ . By corollary 1.4.9 with definition 1.4.10(4) and the negation clause of definition 1.4.5, one of  $\tau$ ,  $\neg\tau$  is true in  $\mathfrak{N}$ . Call it  $\theta$ . As  $v_1$  is not free in  $\theta$ , the sentence  $\theta(S^n0)$  is  $\theta$  for every  $n$ , so  $\theta$  represents the empty 1-place relation in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$ , while  $\mathfrak{N} \models \theta[s(v_1|n)]$  for every  $n$ .

The converse is false. A relation representable in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$  is recursively enumerable (with the empty relation counted as recursively enumerable, the convention adopted in the proof of proposition 3.3.15): for a 1-place relation represented by  $\psi$ , the function  $Sub([\psi], n)$  of lemma 4.3.1(1) is recursive, the set  $[\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})]$  is the image of a recursive function  $F$  by theorem 4.1.9(1) with lemma 4.3.1(2), and  $\{n \mid \mathcal{A} \vdash \psi(S^n0)\}$  is the domain of the partial recursive function  $\mu t[AbsDiff(F(t), Sub([\psi], n)) = 0]$ , hence recursively enumerable by proposition 3.3.15(3). Definable relations are closed under complement, the formula  $\neg\varphi$  defining the complement of what  $\varphi$  defines. A converse to proposition 4.3.7 would therefore make every definable relation and its complement recursively enumerable, hence every definable relation recursive by proposition 3.3.15(2). Exhibiting a definable relation that is not

recursive needs an undecidability result that this book does not prove, such as the unsolvability of the halting problem of definition 3.3.13, so we record the failure of the converse without a full proof.

From this, we see that the question of whether truth is definable in  $\mathfrak{N}$  comes down to whether the set of Gödel codes of sentences  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  which are true in  $\mathfrak{N}$ ,

$$[\text{Th}(\mathfrak{N})] = \{[\sigma] \mid \sigma \text{ is a sentence of } \mathcal{L}_{NT} \text{ and } \mathfrak{N} \models \sigma\}$$

are definable. The following shows this is not the case

**Theorem 4.3.8: Tarski's Undefinability Theorem**

The set  $[\text{Th}(\mathfrak{N})]$  is *not* definable in  $\mathfrak{N}$

**Proof:**

Suppose, for a contradiction, that a formula  $\varphi$  with at most  $v_1$  free defines  $[\text{Th}(\mathfrak{N})]$  in  $\mathfrak{N}$  (definition 4.3.6). Let  $\varphi_0 := (\varphi \wedge v_1 = v_1)$ . Its only free variable is  $v_1$ , and it defines the same set, because  $\mathfrak{N} \models (v_1 = v_1)[s]$  for every assignment  $s$  and, by the clauses of definition 1.4.5, a conjunction holds at an assignment exactly when both conjuncts do. The formula  $\neg\varphi_0$  also has  $v_1$  as its only free variable, so the Fixed-Point lemma, lemma 4.3.1(3), gives a sentence  $\sigma$  with

$$\mathcal{A} \vdash \sigma \leftrightarrow \neg\varphi_0(S^{[\sigma]}0)$$

By proposition 2.6.17(1) and proposition 4.2.3,  $\mathfrak{N}$  satisfies this sentence, so by proposition 1.4.13(5) and (1),  $\mathfrak{N} \models \sigma$  exactly when  $\mathfrak{N} \not\models \varphi_0(S^{[\sigma]}0)$ .

The numeral  $S^{[\sigma]}0$  contains no variable and is substitutable for  $v_1$ . For any assignment  $s$ , lemma 2.4.1 and lemma 4.2.4 give that  $\mathfrak{N} \models \varphi_0(S^{[\sigma]}0)[s]$  exactly when  $\mathfrak{N} \models \varphi_0[s(v_1|[\sigma])]$ , and as  $\varphi_0(S^{[\sigma]}0)$  is a sentence, this says that  $\mathfrak{N} \models \varphi_0(S^{[\sigma]}0)$  exactly when  $[\sigma] \in [\text{Th}(\mathfrak{N})]$ . By unique factorization, the code  $p_1^{[s_1]} \cdots p_k^{[s_k]}$  of definition 4.1.4 determines  $k$  and every  $[s_i]$ , and definition 4.1.3 gives distinct symbols distinct codes, so  $[\sigma] \in [\text{Th}(\mathfrak{N})]$  exactly when  $\mathfrak{N} \models \sigma$ . Combining the two paragraphs,  $\mathfrak{N} \models \sigma$  exactly when  $\mathfrak{N} \not\models \sigma$ , a contradiction. Hence  $[\text{Th}(\mathfrak{N})]$  is not definable in  $\mathfrak{N}$ , as claimed.

## 4.4 Summary

Overall, the first incompleteness theorems showed there is no real procedure that will find and prove all theorems. The second incompleteness theorem shows that we can never be certain that any reasonable set of axioms (i.e. encode at least the arithmetic of the natural numbers) is consistent, unless we take a larger set of axioms on faith. Hence, besides simply having faith, we can never be completely sure the theorems proved in mathematics are really true.

1. **Language of Number Theory** We will be sticking with the particular  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  model of  $\mathfrak{N} = (\mathbb{N}, 0, S, +, \cdot, E, <)$  with the usual definitions of these functions.
2. **Completeness with respect to set of sentences** Let  $\Sigma$  be a set of sentences. Then  $\Sigma$  is

complete if *every* sentence  $\tau$  of  $\mathcal{L}$  is either provable or its negation is provable, that is:

$$\Sigma \vdash \tau \quad \Sigma \vdash \neg\tau$$

The set  $\Sigma$  is complete if and only if  $\text{Th}(\Sigma)$  is maximally consistent.

3. **Gödel Codes and Sequences** Each symbol of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  is given a unique number, see definition 4.1.3. Then any sequence of symbols of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  (including terms and formulas as well as arbitrary sequences) is uniquely incoded as :

$$[s_1, s_2, \dots, s_k] = p_1^{[s_1]} \cdots p_k^{[s_k]}$$

4. **Verifying Gödel Codes:** We have the primitive recursive functions *Term*, *Formula*, *Sentence*, and *Logical* to check whether a Gödel code (or in particular any natural number) represents a term, formula, sentence, or logical axiom.

5. **Recursive Set** If  $\Sigma$  is a set of formulas of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$ , Then:

$$[\Delta] = \{[\delta] \mid \delta \in \Delta\}$$

Then  $\Delta$  is called recursive if  $[\Delta]$  is a recursive relation, and  $\Delta$  is recursively enumerable if  $[\Delta]$  is recursively enumerable.

6. **Deductions are Recursive** The following functions are recursive relations that show that the process of deducing is a recursive:

- (a) *Premise $_{\Delta}(n)$* : detects whether  $n = [\delta]$  is either a logical axiom or in  $\Delta$
- (b) *Formulas $(n)$* : detects if  $n = [\varphi_1\varphi_2\dots\varphi_k]$  is a sequence of formulas of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$
- (c) *Inference $(n, i, j)$* : Given  $n = [\varphi_1\varphi_2\dots\varphi_k]$ , detects when  $\varphi_k$  follows from  $\varphi_i$  and  $\varphi_j$  using Modus ponens and  $1 \leq i, j \leq k$
- (d) *Deduction $_{\Delta}(n)$* : Given  $n = [\varphi_1\varphi_2\dots\varphi_k]$  detects when this is a valid deduction
- (e) *Conclusion $_{\Delta}(n, m)$* : Given  $n = [\varphi_1\varphi_2\dots\varphi_k]$  and  $m = [\varphi_k]$ , detects when  $\Delta \vdash \varphi_k$

7. **Detecting Completeness** If  $\Delta$  is recursive, then:

- (a)  $[\text{Th}(\Delta)]$  is recursively enumerable
- (b)  $[\text{Th}(\Delta)]$  is recursive if and only if  $\Delta$  is complete

8. **Non-logical axioms of NT:** set of axioms we shall use to represent recursive functions, see definition 4.2.2. If this set is labeled  $\mathcal{A}$ , then  $\mathfrak{N} \models \mathcal{A}$  Furthermore, for any assignment function  $s$ ,  $s(S^m 0) = m$

9. **Representable Function and Relation** Given  $\Sigma$  a set of formulas and a  $k$ -place function  $f$ , Then  $f$  is *representable* in  $\text{Th}(\Sigma)$  if

$$f(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) = m \quad \Leftrightarrow \quad \Sigma \vdash \varphi(S^{n_1}0, \dots, S^{n_k}0, S^m0)$$

In other words, the output of  $f$  given  $n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k$  can be deduced from a formula  $\varphi$  with variables  $v_1, v_2, \dots, v_k$  replaced with the input of  $f$ . This is slightly different for a relation since a relation has no output, we'd instead have:

$$P(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) = m \quad \Leftrightarrow \quad \Sigma \vdash \varphi(S^{n_1}0, \dots, S^{n_k}0)$$

A relation is representable when its characteristic function is, and the characteristic function is representable exactly when both the relation and its complement are.

10. **Recursive, then Representable:** Every recursive function has a formula that defines its graph in  $\mathfrak{N}$  and whose true instances  $\mathcal{A}$  deduces, built by induction along the construction of the function, with Gödel's  $\beta$ -function coding the history of a primitive recursion. Such a formula represents the function, so all recursive functions are representable
11. **Representability and Consistency:**
- (a) If a function  $f$  is representable in  $\text{Th}(\Sigma)$ , then  $\Sigma$  is consistent(!)
  - (b) if  $\Sigma, \Gamma$  consistent and  $\Sigma \vdash \Gamma$ , then every function and relation representable in  $\text{Th}(\Gamma)$  is representable in  $\text{Th}(\Sigma)$
  - (c) If  $\Sigma$  is consistent and  $\Sigma \vdash \mathcal{A}$ , then representable function and relations in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$  are representable in  $\text{Th}(\Sigma)$ .
12. **Incompleteness Lemma:**  $\text{Sub}(n, k)$  takes in  $n = [\varphi]$  where  $\varphi$  has at most  $v_1$  free and outputs  $[\varphi(S^k 0)]$  is recursive, and hence representable in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$ . Next,  $\mathcal{A}$  is recursive in  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$ . Finally, if  $\varphi$  has only one free variable, then there is a sentence such that

$$\mathcal{A} \vdash \sigma \leftrightarrow \varphi(S^{[\sigma]} 0)$$

13. **Gödel's Incompleteness Theorem I:** Let  $\Sigma$  be a consistent recursive set of sentences of  $\mathcal{L}_{NT}$  such that  $\Sigma \vdash \mathcal{A}$ . Then  $\Sigma$  is *not* complete
14. **Consequence of Thm I:**
- (a)  $\Gamma$  is complete and  $\Gamma \cup \mathcal{A}$  is consistent, then  $\Gamma$  is *not* recursive
  - (b)  $\Delta$  recursive and  $\Delta \cup \mathcal{A}$  consistent, then  $\Delta$  *not* complete
  - (c) the set  $\text{Th}(\mathfrak{N})$  consisting of all sentence where  $\mathfrak{N} \models \sigma$  is *not* recursive
15. **Consistency:**  $\Sigma$  recursive, then the sentence  $\text{Con}(\Sigma)$ , built from a faithful formula for the characteristic function of the relation “ $c$  codes a deduction from  $\Sigma$  of the formula with code  $m$ ”, satisfies:  $\Sigma$  is consistent if and only if  $\mathfrak{N} \models \text{Con}(\Sigma)$
16. **Gödel's Incompleteness Theorem II:**  $\Sigma$  is consistent and recursive such that  $\Sigma \vdash \mathcal{A}$ , then  $\Sigma \not\vdash \text{Con}(\Sigma)$
17. **Definable:** Let  $P$  be a  $k$ -place relation. Then  $P$  is definable if

$$P(n_1, n_2, \dots, n_k) \Leftrightarrow \mathfrak{N} \models \varphi[s(v_1|n_1) \dots (v_k|n_k)]$$

notice we have an implications  $\models$  instead of  $\vdash$  and overrides instead of substitutions.

18. **Represent ability and Definability:** If  $P$  is representable in  $\text{Th}(\mathcal{A})$ , then  $P$  is definable in  $\mathfrak{N}$ .
19. **Tarski's Undefinable Theorem:** The set  $[\text{Th}(\mathfrak{N})]$  is *not* definable in  $\mathfrak{N}$

# *A*

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## *Algebrization*

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I really want to add some about this: [algebrization](#). Quines name shows up!!!!  
Also, this: [duality between logic and geometry](#).

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## *Bibliography*

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